

FROM COMMUNE

TO CAPITALISM

How China's Peasants Lost Collective
Farming and Gained Urban Poverty

ZHUN XU



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从公社到资本主义

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*How China's Peasants Lost Collective
Farming and Gained Urban Poverty*

by ZHUN XU



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从公社到资本主义

中国农民如何失去集体
农业并获得城市贫困

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Contents

Preface | 7

1—Socialism and Capitalism in the Chinese Countryside | 11

2— Chinese Agrarian Change in World-Historical
Context | 19

3— Agricultural Productivity and Decollectivization | 39

4—The Political Economy of Decollectivization | 57

5— The Achievement, Contradictions, and Demise of
Rural Collectives | 79

Epilogue | 109

Appendix 1 | 115

Appendix 2 | 119

Bibliography | 121

Notes | 133

Index | 149

目录

前言 | 7

1— 中国农村的社会主义和资本主义 | 11

2— 世界历史背景下的中国农业变革 | 19

3— Agricultural Productivity and Decollectivization | 39

4— 非集体化的政治经济学 | 57

5— The Achievement, Contradictions, and Demise of
农村集体 | 79

尾声 | 109

附录 1 | 115

附录 2 | 119 参考

文献 | 121 注释

| 133 索引 | 149

Preface

I first came across the history of collectives and decollectivization in high school. My history textbook criticized the collectives and communes and praised decollectivization without any reservation. The illustrated post-collective peasants were dancing happily on the book. As I recall, I found the narrative and illustration in the textbook very persuasive. After all, thanks to decollectivization, we have all got enough rice to eat, right? My college major in economics later reinforced this view by providing a few jargon phrases. I believed that the Maoist period was an unfortunate disaster and, due to insufficient individual incentives under the collectives or other publicly owned enterprises, people at that time were lazy. So decollectivization and all the subsequent privatization reforms in China must have done great service to the working people.

It wasn't until later, when I had a chance to talk to relatives and friends who had spent their lives on a farm, that I began to doubt this view. None of them seemed enthusiastic about decollectivization. When I asked them, "Did you shirk under the collectives?" they would always say, "No, we worked day and night." I also noticed that in my very agricultural hometown, all the major infrastructure was built in the Maoist period, including a huge dam and big bridges. By

序言

我

first came across the history of collectives and decollectivization

在

高中时。我的历史教科书批评了集体和公社，并且毫无保留地赞扬了解散集体。书上画的解散集体后的农民们高兴地跳舞。我记得，我觉得教科书中的叙述和插图很有说服力。毕竟，多亏了解散集体，我们现在都能吃饱饭了，不是吗？后来，我在大学里主修经济学，这更加强了我的这种观点，并提供了一些专业术语。我认为毛泽东时代是一场不幸的灾难，由于集体或其他公有制企业下的个人激励不足，当时的人们都很懒惰。因此，中国的解散集体以及随后的所有私有化改革，一定为劳动人民做了很大的贡献。

直到后来，我有机会与一生都在农场度过的亲戚朋友交谈时，我才开始怀疑这种观点。他们似乎都不热衷于解散集体。当我问他们，“你们在集体里偷懒吗？”他们总是说，“不，我们日夜工作。”我还注意到，在我这个非常农业化的家乡，所有主要的 инфраструктура 都是在毛泽东时代建造的，包括一个巨大的水坝和大桥。通过

contrast, no such projects were ever undertaken in the post-Mao era. It is clear to me that the gap between urban and rural and rich and poor is increasing. The villages are losing their vigor and the peasants are obviously not doing that well. My optimism about decollectivization and other neoliberal reforms has gradually shattered.

After college I came to the United States to pursue a PhD in economics at the University of Massachusetts Amherst. At the same time, I started reading many writings of Mao Zedong, as well as many other radical works on China. I was not alone. Quite a few graduate students at UMass Amherst were very interested in studying China's past and present from a revolutionary point of view. We had intense weekly discussions based on a wide range of Marxist writings. Zhaochang Peng, another graduate student, introduced me to several books by William Hinton, including *Fanshen*, *Shenfan*, and *The Great Reversal*. These books provided invaluable insights and inspired me to study the dramatic history of agrarian change in China.

During those discussions, I decided to write a dissertation on China's agrarian change, believing that it would be useful in the struggle for a better society. In China, the story of decollectivization is being employed as a strong ideological weapon to defend privatization and the free market. As soon as the issue of socialism and collective agriculture is raised, some people simply say, "We've done that and it failed. That is why we had decollectivization." For Marxists and socialists in China, it has become necessary to debunk the myth around collectives and decollectivization before they can convey their radical visions of a new society. I hope this book will contribute to those debates and struggles.

Many people provided immense help when I was working on this book, which is largely based on my PhD dissertation. David Kotz, Mwangi wa Githinji, Deepankar Basu, and Sigrid Schmalzer were on my dissertation committee and gave me numerous comments and suggestions. Over the past decade, I have also benefited from my many discussions with Ying Chen, Zhongjin Li, Shuang Wu, Kai Yu, Zixu Liu, Li Gu, Zhaochang Peng, Minqi Li, Hao Qi, An Li, Zoe Sherman, Chen Zhang, Rod Green, and my parents. I would also like

相比之下, 后毛泽东时代从未开展过此类项目。我清楚地看到, 城乡之间、贫富之间的差距正在扩大。乡村正在失去活力, 农民显然过得不好。我对解散集体化和其他新自由主义改革的乐观情绪逐渐破灭。

大学毕业后, 我来到美国, 在马萨诸塞大学阿默斯特分校攻读经济学博士学位。与此同时, 我开始阅读大量毛泽东的著作, 以及许多其他关于中国的激进作品。我并不孤单。马萨诸塞大学阿默斯特分校的不少研究生都对从革命的角度研究中国的过去和现在非常感兴趣。我们每周都会根据广泛的马克思主义著作进行深入的讨论。另一位研究生彭兆昌向我介绍了威廉·辛顿的几本书, 包括《翻身》, 《深翻》, 和《大逆转》。这些书提供了宝贵的见解, 并激励我去研究中国农业变革的戏剧性历史。

在那些讨论中, 我决定写一篇关于中国农业变革的论文, 相信它将有助于为建设一个更美好的社会而奋斗。在中国, 解散集体化的故事正被用作捍卫私有化和自由市场的强大意识形态武器。只要提出社会主义和集体农业的问题, 有些人就会简单地说: “我们已经做过了, 而且失败了。这就是我们解散集体化的原因。” 对于中国的马克思主义者和社会主义者来说, 有必要揭穿围绕集体和解散集体化的神话, 才能传达他们对新社会的激进愿景。我希望这本书能为这些辩论和斗争做出贡献。

在创作本书的过程中, 许多人提供了巨大的帮助, 本书主要基于我的博士论文。David Kotz、Mwangi wa Githinji、Deepankar Basu 和 Sigrid Schmalzer 是我的论文委员会成员, 并给了我许多评论和建议。在过去的十年里, 我也从与陈颖、李忠金、吴爽、于凯、刘子旭、顾力、彭兆昌、李民骥、齐昊、李安、Zoe Sherman、张琛、Rod Green 和我的父母的多次讨论中受益。我也想

to thank all my students and colleagues in China and the United States who have provided much feedback over the years. Many friends and relatives in my hometown have generously helped with my fieldwork. Last but not least, I would like to thank Michael Yates and Martha Cameron for their careful editing.

Much of this book has appeared in article form in several journals. Chapter 2 is based on “Chinese Agrarian Change in World-Historical Context,” *Science & Society* 78, no. 2 (2014): 181. Chapter 3 is based on “The Chinese Agriculture Miracle Revisited,” *Economic & Political Weekly* 47, no. 14 (2012): 51–58. Chapter 4 is based on “The Political Economy of Decollectivization in China,” *Monthly Review* 65, no. 1 (2013): 17. Chapter 5 is based on “The Achievements, Contradictions and Demise of the Rural Collectives in Songzi County, China,” *Development and Change* 46, no. 2 (2015): 339–365. I would like to thank the editors and publishers of these journals for their permission to publish slightly revised versions of the papers here.

感谢我在中国和美国的学生和同事多年来提供的诸多反馈。我家乡的许多亲朋好友也慷慨地帮助我进行实地调查。最后但同样重要的是，我要感谢迈克尔·耶茨和玛莎·卡梅隆的认真编辑。

本书的大部分内容以文章的形式发表在几家期刊上。第2章基于“世界历史背景下的中国农业变革”，*Science & Society* 78, no. 2 (2014): 181。第3章基于“对中国农业奇迹的再思考”，*Economic & Political Weekly* 47, no. 14 (2012): 51–58。第4章基于“中国的去集体化政治经济学”，*Monthly Review* 65, no. 1 (2013): 17。第5章基于“中国松滋县农村集体的成就、矛盾与消亡”，*Development and Change* 46, no. 2 (2015): 339–365。我要感谢这些期刊的编辑和出版商允许我在此处发表略有修改的版本。

Socialism and Capitalism in the Chinese Countryside

The nearly seventy-year history of the People's Republic of China can be roughly divided into two periods: during the first thirty years the PRC mainly followed the socialist path, but in the last four decades China has gradually become a champion of capitalism. As the Chinese maxim says, "Thirty years east and then thirty years west," meaning there is no eternity of ideas, powers, and social relations. The differences between the two eras are more than clear to the Chinese people. In 1949, Mao Zedong, the founder of the republic, proudly announced, "The Chinese people have stood up!" But nowadays, folk wisdom laments, "Work hard for decades, go back to the time before liberation in one night!" Every single aspect of social relations in China is marked by the retrogression from state socialism to capitalism. Everything has seen a great reversal. Red becomes black, noble becomes vulgar—and revolutionary becomes reactionary.

This book investigates some of these changes as they have affected land use and agriculture. In the 1950s, the PRC implemented a program of massive land reform and redistribution. The resulting collectives and people's communes worked for more than twenty years

中国农村的社会主义和资本主义

The nearly seventy-year history of the People's Republic of

中国大致可以分为两个时期：在前三十年，中华人民共和国主要遵循社会主义道路，但在过去的四十年里，中国逐渐成为资本主义的拥护者。正如中国的一句格言所说，“三十年河东，三十年河西”，意思是思想、权力和社会关系都不是永恒的。这两个时代之间的差异对中国人民来说再清楚不过了。1949年，共和国的创始人毛泽东自豪地宣布，“中国人民站起来了！”但如今，民间智慧感叹道，“辛辛苦苦几十年，一夜回到解放前！”中国社会关系的方方面面都体现了从国家社会主义向资本主义的倒退。一切都发生了巨大的逆转。红色变成了黑色，高尚变成了庸俗——革命变成了反动。

本书调查了这些变化对土地利用和农业产生的一些影响。在20世纪50年代，中华人民共和国实施了一项大规模的土地改革和重新分配计划。由此产生的集体和人民公社工作了二十多年

and made significant contributions to the country's economic development and to the education and health care of hundreds of millions of people.

In the early 1980s, however, the Chinese Communist Party (CCP) undid much of the previous reform and dismantled the rural collectives, turning them into atomized peasant households while maintaining collective ownership of the land on paper. At the same time, academia and the mainstream media started condemning collective agriculture and praising the post-collective small-producer agriculture—formally called the house responsibility system, or HRS—as an alternative to collectives and capitalist farms. The actual performance of HRS, however, has been mediocre at best. Rural health care and education have clearly deteriorated as a consequence of decollectivization. Gains in agricultural production since the 1980s have been rather limited, and the gap between the urban and rural economies has become much larger than it was thirty years ago. Recent evidence also suggests that land consolidation and capitalist farms have developed rapidly in recent years, with the open endorsement of the CCP itself.¹

Agrarian relations in China seem to have come full circle in just a few decades. The obvious question is, why? What historical forces led to a rapid decollectivization and a gradual path to capitalist agriculture after twenty years of collectives?

A simple but not uncommon explanation is the power struggles of the CCP leaders: the organization of agriculture in China is largely the result of the personal beliefs and triumphs of Mao Zedong and Deng Xiaoping and their respective allies.² These studies correctly point to the close link between CCP politics and agrarian change. However, they tend to focus entirely on individual political figures and their pursuit of power, which often leads to no more than detailed descriptions of palace intrigues.

Most existing studies look at the systemic changes in Chinese agriculture only through the lens of Chinese history, implicitly assuming a kind of Chinese exceptionalism. Such a narrow focus weakens our understanding of the significance of these changes. This book provides

并为国家的经济发展以及数亿人民的教育和医疗保健做出了重要贡献。

然而，在 20 世纪 80 年代初，中国共产党（CCP）取消了之前的许多改革，并解散了农村集体，将其转变为原子化的农民家庭，同时在纸面上维持了土地的集体所有制。与此同时，学术界和主流媒体开始谴责集体农业，并赞扬后集体的小生产者农业——正式称为家庭联产承包责任制，简称 HRS——作为集体和资本主义农场的替代方案。然而，HRS 的实际表现充其量只能说是平庸。由于去集体化，农村医疗保健和教育明显恶化。自 20 世纪 80 年代以来，农业生产的增长相当有限，城乡经济差距比 30 年前大得多。最近的证据还表明，近年来，土地整合和资本主义农场发展迅速，并得到了中国共产党本身的公开认可。¹

中国的土地关系似乎在短短几十年内就走了一个轮回。显而易见的问题是，为什么？在集体化二十年后，是什么历史力量导致了迅速的去集体化和向资本主义农业的渐进道路？

一个简单但并非不常见的解释是中共领导人的权力斗争：中国农业的组织在很大程度上是毛泽东和邓小平及其各自盟友的个人信仰和胜利的结果。² 研究正确地指出了中共政治与农业变革之间的密切联系。然而，它们往往完全关注个别政治人物及其对权力的追求，这往往导致对宫廷阴谋的详细描述。

大多数现有研究仅通过中国历史的视角来看待中国农业的系统性变革，隐含地假设了一种中国例外论。这种狭隘的关注削弱了我们对这些变化重要性的理解。本书提供了

an alternative approach: placing the power struggles of the leadership and the consequent agrarian changes in China within the context of systemic changes that were happening concurrently throughout the globe. Analyzing the historical context does not necessarily imply a causal relationship; rather it shows that when countries face the same agrarian questions and constraints, they choose solutions that suggest certain general patterns.

As chapter 2 argues, recent trends in China have been more or less the same as in the rest of the world. The first three quarters of the twentieth century were marked by revolutionary changes in social relations. The driving forces were twofold: the worldwide socialist movement, beginning with the Mexican Revolution of 1910 and the Russian Revolution of 1917, and the national independence movement that followed the Second World War. The last quarter, however, was characterized by worldwide waves of privatization and deregulation, which are sometimes referred to as neoliberalism. Agrarian relations reflected these changes globally: in the first phase they tended to be more peasant-oriented, but in the second phase the peasant-capitalist compromise that existed in many nations came to an end. All the countries that had previously adopted progressive agrarian reforms stepped back and undid small or large portions of those reforms.

During the twentieth century, several different solutions to the organization of agrarian social relations existed. The capitalist and socialist paths are the obvious ones, but the populist small-producer path was also important.

Many developing countries started to address the agrarian question by choosing noncapitalist paths in the first phase. Most of them at least tried to guarantee peasants' access to the land, and many enacted redistributive land reforms or even encouraged collectivization to build socialism. However, these countries started to move to the capitalist path in the second phase.

How does this framework help us understand the Chinese situation? Actually, there were very different answers to the agrarian question within the CCP. Three major debates on the agrarian question took place during the 1950s and 1960s. The first debate was between

另一种方法：将领导层的权力斗争以及由此产生的中国农业变革置于全球同时发生的系统性变革的背景下。分析历史背景不一定意味着因果关系；而是表明，当各国面临相同的农业问题和制约因素时，他们选择的解决方案表明存在某些普遍模式。

As chapter 2 argues, recent trends in China have been more or less the same as in the rest of the world. The first three quarters of the twentieth century were marked by revolutionary changes in social relations. The driving forces were twofold: the worldwide socialist movement, beginning with the Mexican Revolution of 1910 and the Russian Revolution of 1917, and the national independence movement that followed the Second World War. The last quarter, however, was characterized by worldwide waves of privatization and deregulation, which are sometimes referred to as neoliberalism. Agrarian relations reflected these changes globally: in the first phase they tended to be more peasant-oriented, but in the second phase the peasant-capitalist compromise that existed in many nations came to an end. All the countries that had previously adopted progressive agrarian reforms stepped back and undid small or large portions of those reforms.

在二十世纪，存在几种不同的农业社会关系组织方式。资本主义和社会主义道路是显而易见的，但民粹主义的小生产者道路也很重要。

许多发展中国家开始通过在第一阶段选择非资本主义道路来解决农业问题。他们中的大多数至少试图保证农民获得土地，许多国家颁布了重新分配土地的改革，甚至鼓励集体化以建设社会主义。然而，这些国家在第二阶段开始转向资本主义道路。

这个框架如何帮助我们理解中国的局势？实际上，中共内部对农业问题的看法非常不同。在 20 世纪 50 年代和 60 年代，就农业问题进行了三次重大辩论。第一次辩论是在

the socialist solution and the capitalist one, while the second debate was between the socialist and the populist small-producer paths. In the end, and third, the factions in favor of the capitalist and populist paths joined forces against the socialist faction in the CCP. What we can observe is that the anti-socialist coalition always had significant political power, so Mao's intervention and his personal charisma and authority played a crucial role in the pursuit of the socialist path in China. But after Mao's death, the anti-socialist coalition faced no more political obstacles. They soon took power and abandoned the socialist agrarian policies. In recent decades, the political and academic mainstream in China and in many third-world countries has managed to take socialism off the agenda. Now the neoliberal capitalist program (the right) and an essentialist populist program (the left) occupy the political stage.

Gone is a class-based analysis. Instead, the mainstream has provided a sophisticated and highly influential theoretical framework for understanding the historical changes in the countryside, built around two key concepts: efficiency and spontaneity. First, the literature argues, the Chinese rural collectives suffered from inefficiency, and decollectivization greatly improved agricultural productivity.³ The 1959–1961 famine is sometimes cited as an important factor to explain the need for decollectivization.⁴ And second, because of their dissatisfaction with the rural regime, the peasants spontaneously organized and collectively dismantled the old system.⁵ This narrative fits nicely in the hegemonic neoliberal ideology, which emphasizes the holy connection between individual “free choice” and spontaneous order and economic efficiency. And it has become part of the cornerstone of mainstream ideology in China.

My own research, however, shows that these stories are often unreliable and misleading. On the efficiency question, let us take grain production as an example. The grain yield grew at 2.79 percent annually between 1956 and 1980, which was the collective period; but it only grew 1.09 percent between 1984 and 2008, in the post-collective period.⁶ There was indeed a famine in the late 1950s and early 1960s; however, this did not necessarily mean the collectives

社会主义的解决方案和资本主义的解决方案，而第二次辩论是社会主义和民粹主义小生产者道路之间的辩论。最后，第三，支持资本主义和民粹主义道路的派别联合起来反对中共的社会主义派别。我们可以观察到，反社会主义联盟一直拥有重要的政治权力，因此毛的干预以及他个人的魅力和权威在中国追求社会主义道路方面发挥了关键作用。但在毛去世后，反社会主义联盟不再面临政治障碍。他们很快夺取了政权，放弃了社会主义的农业政策。近几十年来，中国和许多第三世界国家的政治和学术主流已经设法将社会主义从议程中剔除。现在，新自由主义资本主义纲领（右派）和本质主义的民粹主义纲领（左派）占据了政治舞台。

基于阶级的分析已经消失。取而代之的是，主流为理解农村地区的历史变迁提供了一个复杂且极具影响力的理论框架，该框架围绕着两个关键概念：效率和自发性。首先，文献认为，中国农村集体遭受了效率低下的困扰，而解散集体大大提高了农业生产力。³1959–1961年的饥荒有时被认为是解释解散集体必要性的一个重要因素。⁴其次，由于对农村政权的不满，农民自发地组织起来并集体解散了旧制度。⁵这种叙述与霸权的新自由主义意识形态非常吻合，后者强调个人“自由选择”与自发秩序和经济效率之间的神圣联系。它已成为中国主流意识形态的基石。

然而，我自己的研究表明，这些说法往往不可靠且具有误导性。关于效率问题，让我们以粮食生产为例。1956年至1980年集体化时期，粮食产量年均增长2.79%；但在1984年至2008年非集体化时期，粮食产量年均仅增长1.09%。⁶20世纪50年代末和60年代初确实发生过饥荒；然而，这并不意味着集体化

were inefficient. In fact, annual grain production grew at 3.44 percent per annum during the pre-famine collectivization years of 1953 to 1958.⁷ After the famine, grain production regained pre-famine levels by 1965. The annual grain production growth rate between 1965 and 1978 was 3.51 percent.⁸ The famine, occurring twenty years before the period of decollectivization, hardly served as a cause for the end of a well-functioning system.

A more nuanced and often technical version of the efficiency story emphasizes that the transition from collective to household itself produced great efficiency gains. That is, there is a cause and effect relationship at work. One of the most widely cited sources for this version comes from Justin Lin, a leading proponent of market-oriented reform who later became chief economist at the World Bank. Lin's research, employing long-term panel data at the province level, argued that almost half of the increase in output during the transition period was due to decollectivization. In chapter 3, I critically review the literature and in particular replicate Lin's research model. After adjusting for some simple data errors, Lin's main results totally disappear; the new results suggest that the impacts from decollectivization are negligible. I then argue that the legacy from socialist agriculture accounts for the most important part of the success of the transition period and has had a long-term positive impact on agricultural development even after decollectivization.⁹

On the spontaneity question, a widespread belief is that the collectives were inefficient, so the peasants themselves dissolved their own collectives. Even leaving the question of efficiency aside, this view is in immediate conflict with the very logic of decollectivization. As Bramall argued, if the peasants could organize their decollectivization in the way they are said to have done, then collective agriculture would have been a huge success and there would be no need for decollectivization.¹⁰ To be fair, this is not to deny that there were singular cases of decollectivization in small groups; nevertheless, it is simply ahistorical to explain the majority of cases in this way.

My research in chapter 4 shows that the CCP was enthusiastic rather than passive in promoting the household model. The cadres

效率低下。事实上，在大饥荒前的集体化时期，即1953年至1958年，粮食年产量以每年3.44%的速度增长。⁷大饥荒过后，粮食产量在1965年恢复到大饥荒前的水平。1965年至1978年间的粮食年产量增长率为3.51%。⁸大饥荒发生在非集体化时期前二十年，很难作为结束一个运作良好的制度的原因。

效率故事中一个更为细致和经常是技术性的版本强调，从集体向家庭的转变本身产生了巨大的效率提升。也就是说，存在着因果关系。这一版本最广泛引用的来源之一来自林毅夫，他是一位市场导向改革的主要倡导者，后来成为世界银行的首席经济学家。林毅夫的研究采用省级长期面板数据，认为转型时期产量增长的近一半是由于非集体化。在第三章中，我批判性地回顾了相关文献，并特别复制了林毅夫的研究模型。在调整了一些简单的数据错误后，林毅夫的主要结果完全消失；新的结果表明，非集体化的影响可以忽略不计。然后我认为，社会主义农业的遗产构成了转型时期成功的最重要部分，并且即使在非集体化之后，也对农业发展产生了长期的积极影响。⁹

关于自发性问题，一种普遍的看法是，集体效率低下，因此农民自己解散了集体。即使撇开效率问题不谈，这种观点也与非集体化的逻辑直接冲突。正如布拉莫尔所说，如果农民能够以他们被认为的方式组织他们的非集体化，那么集体农业将会取得巨大的成功，并且没有必要进行非集体化。¹⁰公平地说，这并不是否认在小群体中存在个别的非集体化案例；然而，用这种方式来解释大多数案例是完全不符合历史事实的。

我在第四章的研究表明，中国共产党在推广家庭模式时是积极主动的，而不是被动的。各级干部

faced immense political pressure to follow the guidelines of the central leadership. The mainstream view holds that those people who opposed decollectivization were local cadres who were afraid of losing control. But my research suggests that the cadres and a small section of the peasantry implemented and benefited from decollectivization, while most of the peasants were not enthusiastic, and even opposed decollectivization in some cases.

Based on the evidence, I argue that decollectivization served as the political basis for the capitalist transition in China, in that it not only disempowered the peasantry but also broke the peasant-worker alliance and greatly reduced the potential resistance to the reform. The political significance of rural reform for the CCP cannot be overstated, and this was exactly why the mainstream interpreted decollectivization as spontaneous.

But if decollectivization was not driven by efficiency and spontaneity, why did it eventually succeed without major resistance? What were the internal contradictions of the rural collective regime that facilitated (if not “led to”) its demise?

My fieldwork in Songzi County, documented in chapter 5, offers insights on this question. I find that rural collectives had remarkable achievements. Many of them did experience shirking (work avoidance) and inefficiency, not because of egalitarianism but because of stratification—because of a cadre-peasant, manager-worker divide. The actual demise of rural collectives was mostly due to political pressure from the Communist Party. But the stratification contributed to peasants’ passiveness in resisting the institutional change.

Stratification was at the root of unsatisfactory performance and was the focus of peasants’ complaints during the collective era. Decollectivization, on the contrary, seemed to be able to destroy stratification by destroying the whole collective, which, in turn, sometimes generated better performance in what had been dysfunctional collectives. That was probably one of the most important reasons why most peasants accepted the new policy without serious opposition. The rising income due to the procurement price adjustment probably also contributed to peasants’ faith in the new policies. Certainly,

面临着巨大的政治压力，要遵循中央领导的指导方针。主流观点认为，那些反对解散集体化的人是害怕失去控制的地方干部。但我的研究表明，干部和一小部分农民实施了解散集体化并从中受益，而大多数农民并不热心，甚至在某些情况下反对解散集体化。

基于这些证据，我认为解散集体化是中国资本主义转型的政治基础，因为它不仅削弱了农民的权力，而且打破了工农联盟，大大降低了对改革的潜在抵制。农村改革对中国共产党具有重大的政治意义，这正是主流观点将解散集体化解读为自发行为的原因。

但是，如果解散集体化不是由效率和自发性驱动的，那么为什么它最终在没有重大阻力的情况下取得成功？农村集体体制的内部矛盾是什么，促进了（如果不是“导致”）它的消亡？

我在松滋县的田野调查，在第5章中有所记录，为这个问题提供了见解。我发现农村集体取得了显著成就。许多集体确实存在偷懒（逃避工作）和效率低下的问题，但这并非由于平均主义，而是由于分层——由于干部-农民、管理者-工人之间的分歧。农村集体经济的实际消亡主要是由于共产党的政治压力。但这种分层导致农民在抵制制度变革方面表现出消极态度。

分层是集体时期表现不佳的根源，也是农民抱怨的焦点。相反，解散集体化似乎能够通过摧毁整个集体来消除分层，这反过来有时会在那些功能失调的集体中产生更好的表现。这可能也是大多数农民在没有 serious 反对的情况下接受新政策的最重要原因之一。由于采购价格调整而增加的收入可能也促成了农民对新政策的信任。当然，

other factors, like propaganda efforts from the cadres, should not be overlooked.

But was decollectivization a genuine solution to the stratification? Logically, stratification is not an integral aspect of collectives per se. In fact, the socialist element of the collectives put some constraint on stratification, at least on income distribution, but there were no such restrictions once it was dismantled: decollectivization disempowered the peasantry and allowed even greater and more explicit stratification and eventually class division.

Taking all these factors together, this book provides an alternative framework for analyzing the dramatic transition from communes to capitalism in the Chinese countryside. I hope this discussion will be useful to anyone who is willing to learn from the great history of socialism, humanity's efforts to end what we might call our prehistory.

其他因素，如干部的宣传努力也不应被忽视。

但是，解散集体化是解决分层的真正方案吗？从逻辑上讲，分层本身并不是集体的固有组成部分。事实上，集体的社会主义因素对分层，至少是对收入分配，起到了一定的限制作用，但是一旦解散集体化，就没有这样的限制了：解散集体化削弱了农民的力量，甚至允许更大、更明确的分层，并最终导致阶级分化。

综合考虑所有这些因素，本书提供了一个分析中国农村从公社到资本主义的巨大转变的替代框架。我希望这次讨论对任何愿意从社会主义的伟大历史中学习，以及人类为结束我们可能称之为史前时期所做的努力的人都有用。

Chinese Agrarian Change in World-Historical Context

INTRODUCTION

The twentieth century was an age of both revolution and counterrevolution. The first three quarters of the century saw revolutionary changes in social relations, mainly driven by the worldwide socialist movement that spread after the founding of the Soviet Union in 1917 and by the national independence movement that erupted after the Second World War. The last quarter was characterized by worldwide waves of privatization and deregulation, sometimes referred to as neoliberalism. This dramatic cycle shaped many crucial aspects of social relations in the contemporary world, in particular the trajectories of agrarian change.

After the Second World War, many countries implemented agrarian reforms that sought to protect peasants to varying degrees from landlords and usurers. One key element of these policies was redistributive land reform. In some places—for example, South Korea and Taiwan—“land to the tiller” was implemented. Land redistribution was relatively well enforced, and most peasants became small commodity producers. In other countries, like Peru and Chile, agriculture

世界历史背景下的中国农业变革

INTRODUCTION

The twentieth century was an age of both revolution and counter-

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革命。本世纪的前四分之三见证了社会关系的革命性变化，这主要是由 1917 年苏联成立后蔓延的全球社会主义运动以及二战后爆发的民族独立运动所推动的。最后四分之一的特点是全球性的私有化和放松管制浪潮，有时被称为新自由主义。这一戏剧性的周期塑造了当代世界社会关系的许多关键方面，特别是农业变革的轨迹。

二战后，许多国家实施了农业改革，旨在不同程度地保护农民免受地主和高利贷者的侵害。这些政策的一个关键要素是重新分配土地的土地改革。在一些地方——例如韩国和台湾——实施了“耕者有其田”。土地再分配得到较好的执行，大多数农民成为小商品生产者。在秘鲁和智利等其他国家，农业

was even partly collectivized. Countries like Egypt, with no significant land reform, at least tried to put a cap on land rent and place restrictions on the size of individual landholdings. In socialist states like China and Cuba, the agrarian reforms included collectivization—collective ownership of the land by the peasants—partly to prevent potential class differentiation in the new peasantry.

This period has been called “the Golden Age of land reform.”¹ These agrarian reforms were unprecedented in human history, both in scale and in content. One of the crucial features of agrarian reforms of this period was the reformers’ goal of attacking pre-capitalist, mostly feudal or colonial, relations; this was often called “modernization.” In most countries, the peasants were seen as allies of reform in varying degrees, depending on each country’s internal conditions, while feudal lords or other traditionally privileged groups were the targets. In other words, for the first time in history, factions of the capitalist class compromised with peasants on a world scale.

Keep in mind that the compromise was not static. On the contrary, it was as riddled with contradictions as any social formation and was constantly changing. For example, the capitalist class encouraged compromise with the peasants at the expense of landlords in East Asian countries, while at the same time it quickly crushed the progressive reforms enacted by Jacobo Arbenz in Guatemala. Internationally coordinated capitalists overthrew the Chilean government of Salvador Allende in the 1970s and quickly undid a large portion of the previous land reform. At the same time, they launched the Alliance for Progress, which encouraged Latin American states to institute land reforms. Capitalists retreated from the compromise only when they sensed that they needed to do so, but in general they kept it and peasants saw improvements in their lives, and peasants benefited from it.

At the same time, agrarian reform in many countries was often constrained, in part because of the bourgeois character of the reform, and peasant proprietors often turned against revolution. For example, in Peru during the early 1960s, rich tenants became reactionary after land reform; similar events happened in a number of other countries

甚至部分实现了集体化。像埃及这样没有明显土地改革的国家，至少试图限制土地租金，并限制个人土地持有规模。在中国和古巴等社会主义国家，土地改革包括集体化——农民集体拥有土地——部分是为了防止新农民中潜在的阶级分化。

这段时期被称为“土地改革的黄金时代”。这些土地改革在人类历史上是前所未有的，无论是在规模上还是在内容上。这一时期土地改革的一个关键特征是改革者们的目标是攻击前资本主义的、主要是封建的或殖民的关系；这通常被称为“现代化”。在大多数国家，农民被视为不同程度上改革的盟友，这取决于每个国家的内部条件，而封建领主或其他传统特权群体则是目标。换句话说，历史上第一次，资本主义阶级的各个派别在世界范围内与农民达成了妥协。

请记住，这种妥协不是静态的。相反，它像任何社会形态一样充满了矛盾，并且在不断变化。例如，在东亚国家，资本主义阶级鼓励与农民妥协，以牺牲地主为代价，但与此同时，它迅速粉碎了雅各布·阿本斯在危地马拉颁布的进步改革。国际协调的资本家在1970年代推翻了萨尔瓦多·阿连德的智利政府，并迅速取消了之前的大部分土地改革。与此同时，他们发起了“争取进步联盟”，鼓励拉丁美洲国家实行土地改革。只有当资本家意识到需要这样做时，他们才会从妥协中退缩，但总的来说，他们保持了妥协，农民的生活得到了改善，农民也从中受益。

与此同时，许多国家的土地改革常常受到限制，部分原因是改革的资产阶级性质，农民所有者常常反对革命。例如，在1960年代初期，秘鲁的富裕佃户在土地改革后变得反动；在其他一些国家也发生了类似事件

as well.² Specific factors, like the form of the state, also matter. In India, for example, although the state has tried to create conditions for capitalist development, the democratic form of the state and class alignment in the society limits the effectiveness of land reforms.³

Both political and economic factors created the capitalist-peasant compromise in the first place. The political forces came from both internal and external class dynamics. Internally, the peasantry usually served as an important force in the revolutions, and the demand for agrarian reforms was a major part of the mobilization campaign for independence or revolution. This was the case for the newly independent states and socialist countries. External pressure was also crucial, especially in capitalist countries where the agrarian reforms came mainly from above.

Given the strong global communist movement and the example of the Soviet Union, peasants became inspired or even mobilized by domestic communists. If the national bourgeoisie was not able to carry out reforms to appease peasants, then capitalists in the rich capitalist countries would intervene. This is what happened in the case of Taiwan, where, in the face of the appealing example of socialist China, land reform was carried out jointly by the U.S. and Taiwanese governments.

Economic factors also played a role in the peasant-capitalist compromise. First, prereform agriculture was inefficient, so changes in agrarian relations were likely to bring a higher growth rate and national self-sufficiency. Latin America's hacienda system was a typical example. However, in places like India, where some landlords had already adopted capitalist methods of production, the efficiency factor was not so important.⁴ Second, it was argued that a more egalitarian distribution of land would increase domestic demand; this obviously fit in with the industrialization objectives of most national governments. In socialist countries, the economic argument for collectivization followed a similar vein: collectivization would generate a higher growth rate, which would facilitate industrialization; and better industrial support would benefit agriculture in the long run.

The political and economic factors did not work in fixed ways across countries, but for the bourgeoisie and bureaucrats in

也一样。² 具体因素，如国家的形式，也很重要。例如，在印度，尽管国家试图为资本主义发展创造条件，但国家的民主形式和社会中的阶级联盟限制了土地改革的有效性。³

政治和经济因素首先共同促成了资本主义与农民之间的妥协。政治力量来自内部和外部的阶级动态。在内部，农民通常是革命中的一支重要力量，而对农业改革的需求是独立或革命动员运动的主要组成部分。对于新独立的国家和社会主义国家来说，情况就是如此。外部压力也至关重要，尤其是在农业改革主要来自上层的资本主义国家。

鉴于强大的全球共产主义运动和苏联的榜样，农民受到鼓舞，甚至被国内共产党人动员起来。如果民族资产阶级不能进行改革以安抚农民，那么富裕资本主义国家的资本家就会进行干预。台湾的情况就是如此，面对社会主义中国有吸引力的榜样，美国和台湾政府共同进行了土地改革。

经济因素也在农民与资本家的妥协中发挥了作用。首先，改革前的农业效率低下，因此农业关系的改变可能会带来更高的增长率和国家自给自足。拉丁美洲的大庄园制度就是一个典型的例子。然而，在印度等地，一些地主已经采用了资本主义生产方法，效率因素并不那么重要。⁴ 其次，有人认为，更平均主义的土地分配将增加国内需求；这显然符合大多数国家政府的工业化目标。在社会主义国家，集体化的经济论点也遵循类似的思路：集体化将产生更高的增长率，这将促进工业化；而更好的工业支持将长期使农业受益。

政治和经济因素在不同国家的作用方式并不固定，但对于资产阶级和官僚来说，情况并非如此。

developing countries, progressive agrarian reform was a matter of necessity, not choice. Ironically, TINA—there is no alternative, the slogan promoted later by former British prime minister Margaret Thatcher to justify neoliberalism—was included then as an organic part of the development packages that were accepted by most national governments. However, the capitalist-peasant compromise came to an end during the 1970s. As Table 2.1 shows, all the countries that adopted progressive agrarian reforms stepped back and undid small or large portions of the previous reforms. In 1992, Mexico, the pioneer in agrarian reform, changed its 1917 constitution to allow land sales.⁵ In 1994, Cuba, as the residual socialist state, introduced private agricultural markets and divided state farms into smaller cooperative units.⁶ In 1983, Tanzania, which had instituted the radical collectivization known as Ujamaa in 1974, published a new National Agricultural Policy to encourage commercial farming and land consolidation.⁷ The demise of the Soviet Union in the early 1990s and the rapid privatization that followed in Russia and eastern Europe needs no elaboration.

It is worthwhile to analyze the global political and economic forces at work during this period. Political factors can be divided into two groups, internal and external. Internally, as the independence revolution faded away and bourgeoisie dictatorship strengthened worldwide, the overall capitalist order survived and more or less stabilized. Such was the case in both Taiwan and South Korea, which both enjoyed rapid growth. In socialist countries the ruling elites gradually became more pro-capitalist.⁸ Peasants as a revolutionary force were no longer needed. Instead, in both capitalist and socialist countries, the ruling class preferred a depoliticized peasantry. This set the ground for breaking down the previous compromise.

Externally, the once strong communist threat was not there anymore; the Sino-Soviet debate, the collaboration between China and the United States in the post-Mao era, and the eventual demise of the Soviet Union greatly undermined the socialist movement. The capitalist class was largely relieved of the necessity of keeping the previous compromise and soon began to fight back. This was manifested

在发展中国家, 渐进式的土地改革是一种必然, 而不是选择。具有讽刺意味的是, “别无选择” (TINA) ——这是后来英国前首相玛格丽特·撒切尔为 justify 新自由主义而提出的口号——当时被作为发展方案的有机组成部分而被大多数国家政府所接受。然而, 资本主义与农民的妥协在 20 世纪 70 年代结束。如表 2.1 所示, 所有采取渐进式土地改革的国家都退缩了, 并撤销了先前改革的一小部分或大部分。1992 年, 土地改革的先驱墨西哥修改了 1917 年的宪法, 允许土地买卖。⁵ 1994 年, 作为残余的社会主义国家古巴引入了私人农业市场, 并将国有农场划分为较小的合作单位。⁶ 1983 年, 坦桑尼亚在 1974 年实行了激进的集体化, 称为乌贾马, 并发布了一项新的国家农业政策, 以鼓励商业农业和土地整合。⁷ 20 世纪 90 年代初苏联的解体以及随之而来的俄罗斯和东欧的迅速私有化无需赘述。

值得分析这一时期全球政治和经济力量的运作。政治因素可分为两类: 内部和外部。在内部, 随着独立革命的消退和资产阶级专政在全球范围内的加强, 整个资本主义秩序得以幸存, 并在某种程度上趋于稳定。台湾和韩国的情况就是如此, 两国都实现了快速增长。在社会主义国家, 统治精英逐渐变得更加亲资本主义。⁸ 不再需要农民作为革命力量。相反, 在资本主义和社会主义国家, 统治阶级都倾向于非政治化的农民。这为打破之前的妥协奠定了基础。

从外部来看, 曾经强大的共产主义威胁已经不复存在; 中苏辩论、后毛泽东时代中国与合作, 以及最终苏联的解体, 极大地削弱了社会主义运动。资本家阶级在很大程度上解除了维持先前妥协的必要性, 并很快开始反击。这体现在

TABLE 2.1: Agrarian Changes: Selected Countries

Country	Phase 1	Phase 2	Notes
Algeria	1962	1981	The state sold all its estates inherited from French colonizers; state farms were privatized in 1987.
Chile	1967	1973	Pinochet's military government returned 30% of expropriated land to former owners; 20% was sold.
Cuba	1959	1994	Introduced private agricultural markets; state farms were divided into smaller units.
E. Central Europe	1940s, 1950s	1989	Massive privatization.
Egypt	1952	1992	Secured tenure revoked.
El Salvador	1980	1992	Land titling and parcelization of cooperatives.
Ethiopia	1975	1991	Secured private investors' rights to the use of land.
Iraq	1958	1987	Privatization by leasing or selling state farms to the private sector.
Mexico	1915	1992	Individual titling and freedom to sell land.
Nicaragua	1979	1990	Land titling and privatization of state farms; restitution of lands that had been illegally expropriated.
Peru	1969	1980	Parcelization of cooperatives.
Soviet Union	1920s	1989	Massive privatization.
Syria	1958	1990s	De facto privatization by provisioning tracts of state-owned land to agricultural companies.
Tanzania	1975	1983	Encourage commercial farming and land consolidation.
Vietnam	1940s	1980s	Decollectivization and free market.

Sources: El-Ghonemy, 1999; Kay, 1998; Mathijs and Swinnen, 1998; Metz, 1988; Daley, 2005; Barraclough, 1991; de Janvry, Sadoulet, and Wolford, 1998; Bush, 2007; Akram-Lodhi and Haroon, 2007; wa Githinji and Mersha, 2007; Hinnebusch, 1995.

表 2.1: 农业变革: 选定国家

国家	阶段 1	阶段 2	注释
阿尔及利亚	1962	1981	国家出售了其继承的所有财产来自法国殖民者; 国营农场于 1987 年私有化。
智利	1967	1973	皮诺切特的军政府将 30% 的被征用土地归还给前所有者; 20% 被出售。
Cuba	1959	1994	引入了私人农业市场; 国营农场被分割成更小的单位。
东欧	20 世纪 40 年代, 20 世纪 50 年代	1989	大规模私有化。
埃及	1952	1992	有保障的保有权被取消。
萨尔瓦多	1980	1992	土地所有权和合作社的分割合作社。
埃塞俄比亚	1975	1991	保障私人投资者的权利土地的使用权。
Iraq	1958	1987	通过租赁或出售将国有农场私有化给私营部门。
墨西哥	1915	1992	个人所有权和出售土地的自由土地。
尼加拉瓜	1979	1990	土地所有权授予和国有企业私有化农场; 归还被非法征用的土地已被非法征用。
Peru	1969	1980	合作社的分割。
苏联	20 世纪 20 年代	1989	大规模私有化。
叙利亚	1958	1990 年代	通过供应进行事实上的私有化将国有土地划拨给农业公司。
坦桑尼亚	1975	1983	鼓励商业化农业和土地整合。
Vietnam	1940s	1980s	Decollectivization and free market.

资料来源: El-Ghonemy, 1999 年; Kay, 1998 年; Mathijs 和 Swinnen, 1998 年; Metz, 1988 年; Daley, 2005 年; Barraclough, 1991 年; de Janvry、Sadoulet 和 Wolford, 1998 年; Bush, 2007 年; Akram-Lodhi 和 Haroon, 2007 年; wa Githinji 和 Mersha, 2007 年; Hinnebusch, 1995 年。

ideologically both in academia—the decline of the Keynesians and the rise of the Milton Friedmanites, for example—and in the policies of such entities as the World Bank and the IMF. It was also enforced militarily if need be, as, for example, in the coup in Chile.

The economic forces were also significant. First and foremost, for a variety of reasons many agrarian reforms failed to deliver the high growth rate the reformers once expected. Governments in Latin America failed to provide financial, technical, and other support to agriculture.⁹ Instead industrial accumulation often had a negative impact on internal terms of trade (price of agricultural goods relative to industrial output). In collectivization, it was common to have inexperienced leadership and poorly developed plans. In extreme cases, like the Soviet Union, grain production did not reliably exceed pre-revolution level until the 1950s.¹⁰ It did not take too long for the ruling classes to conclude that the reforms were not productive enough. Second, the debt crisis broke out in many developing countries after the American interest rate hike in the early 1980s, which left indebted national governments unable to finance agrarian reforms.¹¹ Third, with the so-called green revolution starting in the 1960s marked by usage of high-yield varieties and chemical fertilizers, there seemed to be a technological alternative to the institutional reforms. Finally, global agribusiness also played a significant role. In some cases agribusiness directly demanded the reversal of the agrarian policies (as in Guatemala). On the other hand, after the 1970s, the unprecedented development of agribusiness and globalized food markets meant national capitalists could circumvent through trade and foreign investment the problem of food sufficiency and national industrialization, which marginalized peasants even further, both politically and economically.¹²

The gradual change in conditions led to a heightening of the inherent contradictions between the capitalist class and the peasantry. The peasantry remained silent and depoliticized, while the capitalist class became aggressive. The capitalist-peasant compromise became unsustainable, and this led to counterrevolution in the latter part of the twentieth century.

在意识形态上，学术界（例如，凯恩斯主义的衰落和米尔顿·弗里德曼主义的兴起）以及世界银行和国际货币基金组织等机构的政策都体现了这一点。如有必要，它也会以军事手段强制执行，例如智利政变。

经济力量也很重要。首先，由于多种原因，许多土地改革未能实现改革者曾经期望的高增长率。拉丁美洲各国政府未能向农业提供财政、技术和其他支持。相反，工业积累往往对内部贸易条件（相对于工业产出，农产品价格）产生负面影响。在集体化中，常见的情况是领导经验不足和计划制定不完善。在极端情况下，如苏联，粮食产量直到 20 世纪 50 年代才可靠地超过革命前的水平。¹⁰ 统治阶级很快得出结论，认为改革的生产力不够高。其次，在 20 世纪 80 年代初美国提高利率后，许多发展中国家爆发了债务危机，导致负债累累的民族政府无法为土地改革提供资金。¹¹ 第三，从 20 世纪 60 年代开始，以高产品种和化肥的使用为标志的所谓绿色革命，似乎提供了一种替代制度改革的技术方案。最后，全球农业综合企业也发挥了重要作用。在某些情况下，农业综合企业直接要求逆转农业政策（如在危地马拉）。另一方面，在 20 世纪 70 年代之后，农业综合企业和全球化食品市场空前发展，意味着国家资本家可以通过贸易和外国投资来规避粮食自给自足和国家工业化的问题，这使得农民在政治和经济上更加边缘化。

条件的逐渐变化导致资本家阶级和农民之间内在矛盾的加剧。农民保持沉默和非政治化，而资本家阶级变得咄咄逼人。资本家与农民之间的妥协变得难以为继，这导致了二十世纪后期的反革命。

The Agrarian Question and China

The agrarian question refers to the transformation of the pre-capitalist countryside into a productive “modern” one: the development of capitalist or socialist relations of production in the countryside; the creation of surplus for national industrialization; and the role of the peasantry in political movements. Historically, this transformation has been accomplished in different ways. For the countries where small producers are prevalent in the countryside, there are three possible directions. The capitalist-oriented model tries to develop capitalism through differentiated peasant households. The socialist-oriented model develops collective production through organizing small peasants. The populist model tries to protect the small subsistence peasant households against commodity relations and capitalism, but without developing collectives. All these solutions agree on the need to abolish pre-capitalist agrarian relations, but they diverge after this very historical conjunction. While the capitalist path implies the development of the capitalist farmer and wage labor in the countryside, the socialist path means a significant degree of public ownership of land and other means of production; the populists in the classical sense reject both capitalist and socialist visions.

Many developing countries started to tackle the agrarian question by choosing noncapitalist paths in the revolutionary phase. Most of them at least tried to guarantee peasants’ access to land, and many had redistributive land reforms or even encouraged collectivization to build socialism. However, these countries started to move to the capitalist path in the second phase. Former small-producer states like Egypt removed their protection of peasants; former socialist states like Soviet Union saw massive privatization and the emergence of capitalist agriculture.

How does this shed light on the agrarian changes in China? It is clear that the change in agrarian relations that we observed in China mirrored the general history of other developing countries. China had land reform and collectivization in the first phase and dismantled the collectives in the second phase. Although collective ownership

农业问题与中国

农业问题指的是将前资本主义的乡村转变为具有生产力的“现代”乡村：在乡村发展资本主义或社会主义的生产关系；为国家工业化创造剩余价值；以及农民在政治运动中的作用。从历史上看，这种转变是以不同的方式实现的。对于小生产者在乡村普遍存在的国家来说，有三种可能的方向。以资本主义为导向的模式试图通过分化的农户发展资本主义。以社会主义为导向的模式通过组织小农发展集体生产。民粹主义模式试图保护小规模自给自足的农户免受商品关系和资本主义的侵害，但不发展集体。所有这些解决方案都同意需要废除前资本主义的农业关系，但在此历史性结合之后，它们出现了分歧。资本主义道路意味着资本主义农民和乡村工资劳动的发展，而社会主义道路意味着对土地和其他生产资料的很大程度的公共所有制；古典意义上的民粹主义者拒绝资本主义和社会主义的愿景。

许多发展中国家开始通过在革命阶段选择非资本主义道路来解决农业问题。他们中的大多数至少试图保证农民获得土地，许多国家进行了重新分配土地的改革，甚至鼓励集体化以建设社会主义。然而，这些国家在第二阶段开始转向资本主义道路。像埃及这样的前小生产者国家取消了对农民的保护；像苏联这样的前社会主义国家出现了大规模的私有化和资本主义农业的出现。

这如何阐明中国的农业变化？显然，我们在中国观察到的农业关系的变化反映了其他发展中国家的一般历史。中国在第一阶段进行了土地改革和集体化，并在第二阶段解散了集体。虽然集体所有制

of land is still preserved in legal terms, China has recreated small-producer agriculture through decollectivization. The rural economy is gradually becoming more oriented toward the market, and there is a clear tendency of further movement along the capitalist path.¹³ Let us now look at how this change took place.

When the CCP first started the revolution in the 1920s, China was an extremely backward country marked by low productivity and a highly unequal distribution of land. It was widely accepted that 20 percent of the population owned more than 60 percent of the land. Between 50 percent and 70 percent of peasants' annual output went to the landlord as rent.¹⁴ Unlike his peers, Mao did not see the peasants as passive—he saw in them the possibility of a dramatic revolutionary tide. He convinced his comrades of the importance of the peasant question, and the CCP finally took power because of the peasants' support. After the revolution, the CCP carried out extensive land reform nationwide and peasants became small landowners. However, the small plots and still existing pre-capitalist social relationships, not only just barely provided for peasants and their families but resulted in many farmers losing their land or ending up deep in debt because of illness, natural disaster, and other shocks inherent in the general backwardness of Chinese agriculture.

The CCP leaders agreed on the need to eliminate pre-capitalist relations, but they disagreed on the best solution going forward. Liu Shaoqi, then the second most powerful figure in the CCP, advocated for a capitalist-oriented solution. Liu once made the comment that small cooperatives cannot develop into socialist collectives and that the decline of cooperatives was good because it implied peasants were now better-off and could rely on themselves. Liu even quoted the example of Saint-Simon to argue that one can still be a socialist while being a capitalist.¹⁵

In the early 1950s, collectivization was not yet on the agenda, but in some places peasants spontaneously organized themselves into small cooperatives. Provincial leaders in Shanxi Province reported to Liu, suggesting that peasants should be further mobilized to build collectives; otherwise the rich peasants and exploitation would revive.

尽管在法律层面土地的所有权仍然保留，但中国通过解散集体经济重新建立了小生产者农业。农村经济逐渐变得更加市场化，并且沿着资本主义道路进一步发展的趋势非常明显。¹³ 现在让我们看看这种变化是如何发生的。

当中国共产党在 20 世纪 20 年代首次发动革命时，中国是一个极度落后的国家，其特点是生产力低下和土地分配高度不平等。人们普遍认为，20% 的人口拥有超过 60% 的土地。农民年产量的 50% 到 70% 作为租金交给地主。¹⁴ 与他的同伴不同，毛泽东并没有将农民视为被动的——他看到了他们身上爆发革命浪潮的可能性。他说服了他的同志们农民问题的重要性，最终中国共产党因为农民的支持而夺取了政权。革命后，中国共产党在全国范围内进行了广泛的土地改革，农民成为了小土地所有者。然而，小块土地和仍然存在的资本主义前社会关系，不仅勉强维持了农民及其家人的生计，而且导致许多农民因为疾病、自然灾害以及中国农业普遍落后带来的其他冲击而失去土地或负债累累。

中国共产党领导人一致认为需要消除资本主义前的关系，但他们对未来的最佳解决方案存在分歧。当时中国共产党内第二有权势的人物刘少奇主张采取以资本主义为导向的解决方案。刘少奇曾发表评论说，小型合作社不能发展成社会主义集体，合作社的衰落是好事，因为它意味着农民现在生活得更好，可以依靠自己。刘甚至引用圣西门的例子来论证一个人即使是资本家也可以成为社会主义者。¹⁵

在 20 世纪 50 年代初，集体化尚未提上议事日程，但在一些地方，农民自发地组织成小型合作社。山西省的省级领导人向刘报告，建议进一步动员农民建立集体，否则富农和剥削将会复苏。

However, Liu was very much opposed to the idea of collectivization without a strong national industrial base and mechanization, calling such an idea “dangerous and utopian.”¹⁶ He even explained his vision of rural development: “now the countryside has class division, that is the basis of future revolution; in the future we can directly appropriate it [the new rich part of the peasantry].”¹⁷

At the same time, some other leaders preferred a more populist solution.¹⁸ Deng Zihui, then the head of the rural work department of the CCP, was one of the outspoken members of this faction. Deng had a pessimistic view of peasants’ “socialist consciousness” and argued that peasants preferred family farming to collective labor. He clearly disagreed with the capitalist solution, but he was skeptical about the socialist solution because of the lack of an industrial base and experience.¹⁹

In spring 1955, the relationship between the CCP and the peasants grew intense. Some peasants even commented that “the communists were worse than the nationalists.”²⁰ At least two reasons were behind this attitude. First, new collectives were rapidly organized without sufficient mobilization and the middle peasants were afraid that their precious means of production would become publicly owned. Second, the state’s grain procurement quota was so high that peasants did not have much left for their own consumption.

Deng Zihui believed that although the problem with grain procurement was significant, the fundamental problem was collectivization. He then pushed forward a policy of “contraction” in Zhejiang Province that aimed to dramatically reduce the number of collectives and the level of grain procurement. Within less than two months, the number of collectives had dropped sharply, by 30 percent.²¹

Unlike the previous two factions, Mao and his allies aimed to transform the agrarian relations by developing rural collectives. In an influential report, Mao laid out his arguments for collectivization.²² First, as a response to Liu Shaoqi, he argued that agricultural collectivization served as the basis of mechanization, not the other way around. His rationale was that the mobilized and collectivized peasants could better resist natural disasters and manage

然而，刘少奇非常反对在没有强大的国家工业基础和机械化的情况下实行集体化的想法，称这种想法 “危险且乌托邦”。¹⁶ 他甚至解释了他对农村发展的设想：“现在农村有阶级划分，这就是未来革命的基础；未来我们可以直接没收它 [新富裕的农民阶层]。”¹⁷

与此同时，其他一些领导人更倾向于民粹主义的解决方案。¹⁸ 当时担任中共中央农村工作部部长的邓子恢就是这个派系中直言不讳的成员之一。邓子恢对农民的 “社会主义觉悟” 持悲观态度，认为农民更喜欢家庭耕作而不是集体劳动。他明确反对资本主义解决方案，但由于缺乏工业基础和经验，他对社会主义解决方案持怀疑态度。¹⁹

1955 年春天，中国共产党和农民之间的关系变得紧张。一些农民甚至评论说 “共产党比国民党更糟糕”。²⁰ 这种态度背后至少有两个原因。首先，新的集体组织迅速成立，没有充分的动员，中农担心他们宝贵的生产资料会成为公有。其次，国家的粮食征购配额太高，农民自己消费的粮食不多了。

邓子恢认为，虽然粮食征购问题很重要，但根本问题是集体化。然后，他推动了浙江省的 “收缩” 政策，旨在大幅减少集体数量和粮食征购量。不到两个月，集体数量急剧下降，下降了 30%。²¹

与前两个派别不同，毛泽东及其盟友旨在通过发展农村集体来改变农业关系。在一份具有影响力的报告中，毛泽东阐述了他关于集体化的论点。²² 首先，作为对刘少奇的回应，他认为农业集体化是机械化的基础，而不是相反。他的理由是，动员和集体化的农民能够更好地抵抗自然灾害和管理。

their labor power and establish better conditions for the adoption of new technology and crop varieties. Collectivization would also increase peasants' purchasing power and thus increase demand for national industrial products. Mao also pointed out that the CCP would lose its political base among the poor peasants if they again suffered from the development of capitalism. He criticized Deng Zihui for overlooking the strong incentives of the poor peasants to work collectively owing to their lack of means of production. No single peasant family could afford or economically use a tractor, but a collective might be able to do both. Moreover, Mao critically examined the issue of "lack of experience," arguing that the peasants could only gain experience in building collectives by doing it themselves. Finally, the Soviet Union, the socialist state role model at that time, also gave important support to Mao's claim. Drawing on the Soviet Union's achievements after collectivization, Mao argued that collectivization was crucial for socialist industrialization and the development of agriculture itself. Mao further argued that the CCP could do a better job than the Soviet leadership by learning the lessons of its mistakes.

On the surface, these were merely different views on the sequence and pace of rural development, but they had profound political economy implications. Like Liu, many CCP leaders thought socialism and collectivization would come in the distant future, and they did not want to develop it until they felt its historical necessity. Implicitly, they were assuming the countryside had to go through a capitalist transformation before it became socialist.²³ Other people, like Deng Zihui, wanted neither capitalism nor socialism and preferred to stabilize the petty-producer economy.

These pro-capitalist and populist views actually gained significant support from the new Chinese elites. In the early 1960s, after the failure of the Great Leap Forward, most of the central leaders supported decollectivization.²⁴ It was estimated that 20 percent of the rural population adopted varieties of private household farming.²⁵

This time, the pro-capitalist and pro-populist factions seemed to march hand-in-hand. Liu Shaoqi was very pessimistic and predicted

他们的劳动力，并为采用新技术和作物品种创造更好的条件。集体化还将提高农民的购买力，从而增加对国家工业产品的需求。毛还指出，如果农民再次遭受资本主义发展之苦，中国共产党将失去其在贫农中的政治基础。他批评邓子恢忽视了贫农因缺乏生产资料而集体劳动的强烈动机。单个农民家庭无法负担或经济地使用拖拉机，但集体可能能够做到。此外，毛泽东批判性地考察了“缺乏经验”的问题，认为农民只有通过自己动手才能获得集体建设的经验。最后，当时的社会主义国家典范苏联也对毛泽东的主张给予了重要支持。毛泽东借鉴了苏联集体化后的成就，认为集体化对于社会主义工业化和农业自身的发展至关重要。毛泽东进一步认为，中国共产党可以通过吸取苏联领导人的错误教训来做得更好。

表面上看，这些仅仅是对农村发展顺序和步伐的不同看法，但它们具有深刻的政治经济学意义。像刘一样，许多中共领导人认为社会主义和集体化将在遥远的未来实现，他们不想在感到其历史必然性之前就发展它。含蓄地说，他们假设农村必须经历资本主义转型才能变成社会主义。²³ 像邓子恢这样的人，既不要资本主义，也不要社会主义，而是希望稳定小生产者经济。

这些亲资本主义和民粹主义的观点实际上获得了新的中国精英的 *значительные* 支持。在 20 世纪 60 年代初期，大跃进失败后，大多数中央领导人支持解散集体化。据估计，20% 的农村人口采用了各种家庭私人农业。²⁵

这一次，亲资本主义和亲民粹主义的派别似乎携手并进。刘少奇非常悲观，并预测

that grain output under collectives would decrease for a long time.²⁶ Deng Xiaoping, who became national leader after Mao's death, was also in favor of decollectivization; he claimed that it should be officially encouraged nationwide, while collective agriculture must be "pushed back enough."²⁷ Deng also made the famous claim that "It doesn't matter whether a cat is black or yellow [usually "white" in English quotations of Deng], as long as it catches mice." In other words, it did not matter what method is used as long as it works.²⁸ The whole reform package implemented by these leaders was later called *sanziyibao*, which promoted private household farming.²⁹

Mao defended the rural collectives. First, he argued, grain production under the collectives began to recover in 1962, which was much sooner than the pessimistic expectations. Second, Mao pointed out the growing polarization in several poor provinces that had adopted decollectivization, with some peasants becoming landless and others becoming usurers. It was in this context that Mao later commented: "Why do I regard *baochandaohu* [decollectivization] as a serious threat? China is an agricultural state. Once agrarian relations change, our socialist industrial base will shake. Urban production relations will change inevitably and polarization will grow rapidly. How could we communists defend workers and peasants?"³⁰

In the end, China pursued the socialist path like many other countries, despite the strong support of the nonsocialist path among the leadership. This was due to socialist politics and ideology (plus direct influence from the socialist bloc), the need for industrialization, and, finally, Mao's unquestionable authority. At one point, it seemed that "only socialism could save China." However, as in other countries, the nonsocialist path eventually ruled, and the Chinese proverb was ironically twisted to read "only China could save socialism."

FURTHER CONSIDERATIONS

As China pursued the socialist path, the three alternative solutions to the agrarian question were translated into two major factions in the CCP: those who wanted to continue developing the collectives (socialist

集体化时期的粮食产量将会长期下降。²⁶ 毛泽东去世后成为国家领导人的邓小平也赞成解散集体化；他声称应该在全国范围内正式鼓励这样做，而集体农业必须“充分后退”。²⁷ 邓小平还发表了著名的言论：“不管黑猫白猫，[在英语引用邓小平的话时通常是“白色”]，能捉老鼠就是好猫。”换句话说，只要方法有效，用什么方法并不重要。²⁸ 这些领导人实施的整个改革方案后来被称为三自一包，该方案提倡家庭联产承包责任制。²⁹

毛泽东为农村集体辩护。首先，他认为，集体化下的粮食生产从1962年开始恢复，这比悲观的预期要早得多。其次，毛泽东指出，在一些采取解散集体化政策的贫困省份，两极分化日益严重，一些农民变得一无所有，另一些农民则变成了高利贷者。正是在这种背景下，毛泽东后来评论道：“我为什么认为包产到户[解散集体化]是一个严重的威胁？中国是一个农业大国。一旦农业关系发生变化，我们的社会主义工业基础就会动摇。城市生产关系将不可避免地发生变化，两极分化将迅速加剧。我们共产党人如何捍卫工人和农民？”³⁰

最终，尽管领导层中对非社会主义道路有强烈的支持，但中国还是像许多其他国家一样走上了社会主义道路。这是由于社会主义政治和意识形态（加上来自社会主义阵营的直接影响）、工业化的需要，以及最终毛泽东毋庸置疑的权威。曾经有一段时间，似乎“只有社会主义才能救中国”。然而，与其他国家一样，非社会主义道路最终占据了主导地位，中国谚语被讽刺地扭曲为“只有中国才能拯救社会主义”。

进一步的思考

随着中国走上社会主义道路，解决农业问题的三种替代方案被转化为中共内部的两个主要派别：一方希望继续发展集体（社会主义

path) and those who wanted to go back to the pre-collectivization stage (the historical intersection of capitalist and populist paths).

These solutions did not “fall from the sky”: they appealed to different classes in Chinese rural society. In general, poor peasants and ordinary workers (the majority) were likely to benefit more from the socialist path, while the middle and rich peasants (potential capitalist farmers) and bureaucrats (potential capitalists) might gain more from the other models, as the later reforms partly illustrated.

As a matter of fact, the socialist model had remarkable achievements. Due to the introduction of technologies such as new crop varieties and better fertilizer as well as their rapid diffusion via collective-based networks in the countryside, agricultural production improved significantly.³¹ Massive social welfare programs were set up in the collectives that greatly improved overall public health and literacy in the Chinese countryside.³² Many peasants still had faith in collective production despite various problems with the existing models. In a widely read book on the history of Chen Village in China, the authors interviewed the people in the 1970s who fled to Hong Kong from the mainland illegally. Many of these people, despite their flight, remained convinced that socialist agriculture was better than the private model and few of them felt hostile to the CCP.³³

However, neither the achievements nor the potential support of the majority meant the state would necessarily pursue the socialist path. In Lenin's vision, under socialism, “there remains for a time not only bourgeois right, but even the bourgeois state, without the bourgeoisie!”³⁴ Mao's analysis confirmed Lenin's vision: “China now still has an unequal eight-grade wage schedule, equal exchange, allocation to one's labor, etc. It would be easy to launch capitalism.”³⁵ Mao was correct. In Lenin's mind, the bourgeois state machine will be small and democratically controlled by armed proletarians; however, this was not the case in China (and most other socialist countries). Partly due to the influence of the Soviet model, China developed a large state machine with a strong, powerful, and conservative bureaucracy, which meant that there would be no democratic control of the state by workers and peasants.

道路) 以及那些想要回到集体化之前阶段的人 (资本主义和民粹主义道路的历史交汇点)。

这些解决方案并非 “从天而降”：它们吸引了中国农村社会的不同阶层。一般来说，贫农和普通工人（大多数）可能从社会主义道路中获益更多，而中农和富农（潜在的资本主义农民）和官僚（潜在的资本家）可能会从其他模式中获得更多，后来的改革部分地说明了这一点。

事实上，社会主义模式取得了显著成就。由于引进了新作物品种和更好的化肥等技术，以及它们通过农村集体网络迅速传播，农业生产显著提高。³¹ 集体中建立了大规模的社会福利项目，大大改善了中国农村的整体公共卫生和文化水平。³² 尽管现有模式存在各种问题，但许多农民仍然对集体生产抱有信心。在一本广为流传的关于中国陈村历史的书中，作者采访了 20 世纪 70 年代从大陆非法逃往香港的人们。尽管他们逃离，但这些人中的许多人仍然坚信社会主义农业比私有模式更好，而且很少有人对中国共产党抱有敌意。³³

然而，多数人的成就或潜在支持并不意味着国家必然会走社会主义道路。在列宁的构想中，在社会主义制度下，“不仅资产阶级法权还会保持一个时期，甚至还会保持没有资产阶级的资产阶级国家！”³⁴ 毛泽东的分析证实了列宁的构想：“中国现在仍然存在不平等的八级工资制、等价交换、按劳分配等等。很容易发动资本主义。”³⁵ 毛泽东是对的。在列宁看来，资产阶级国家机器将是小型的，并由武装的无产阶级进行民主控制；然而，在中国（以及大多数其他社会主义国家）情况并非如此。部分由于苏联模式的影响，中国发展了一个庞大的国家机器，拥有强大、有力和保守的官僚机构，这意味着工人和农民无法对国家进行民主控制。

Thus, the bourgeois state machine in China was able to develop its own interests and political power and reproduce itself by decreasing the power of workers and peasants. But within the state socialist regime, the party-state elites still faced various constraints on their personal wealth and power. Their income was much lower compared to their counterparts in the Western world, and they could lose their privilege anytime in consequence of the mass movements and intense political struggles that occurred.³⁶ Although there was no real bourgeoisie, the group that controlled the state machine had more than enough incentive to become one. The separation of the workers and peasants from the state also implied that the decision of development paths would largely be determined within the state machine, which tended to be pro-capitalist. That was why Mao used “capitalist roaders” to describe a significant portion of the upper-level cadres.

In the first seventeen years of the PRC, 1949 to 1966, these cadre, along with a portion of the elite workers and intellectuals, gradually established their control of the state. Although Mao and his allies resisted this tendency, which was parallel to that observed in the Soviet Union, they were not very successful. This constituted the major reason why Mao initiated the Cultural Revolution. It was only during the radical era (1966–1976) that the old state machine was partly smashed and Lenin’s vision of democratic control of the state machine was partly realized. However, the Cultural Revolution did not successfully establish peasant and worker control of the state, and the old state apparatus was restored gradually in the 1970s.³⁷

Since the anti-socialist coalition had significant political muscle during most of the time Mao was in power, his intervention and personal charisma and authority played a crucial role in the pursuit of a socialist path in China. Sometimes it even seemed that Mao just by himself overturned the bureaucratic state machine.

Partly as a prophecy, the famous 1975 movie *Breaking with Old Ideas* (Juelie) told a story about collective versus private farming. The socialists had the popular support of the rank-and-file CCP members and most of the peasants, but they lacked political power. The capitalist roaders had the support of rich peasants, but most importantly, they

我们认为，在中国的资产阶级国家机器能够发展自己的利益和政治权力，并通过削弱工人和农民的权力来复制自身。但在国家社会主义政权内，党国精英仍然面临着对其个人财富和权力的各种限制。与西方世界的同行相比，他们的收入要低得多，而且他们可能会因为发生的大规模运动和激烈的政治斗争而随时失去特权。³⁸虽然没有真正的资产阶级，但控制国家机器的群体有足够的动机成为资产阶级。工人和农民与国家的分离也意味着发展道路的决定将在很大程度上由国家机器内部决定，而国家机器往往是亲资本主义的。这就是为什么毛泽东用“走资派”来形容很大一部分高层干部。

在中华人民共和国的最初十七年，即1949年至1966年，这些干部与一部分精英工人和知识分子一起，逐渐确立了他们对国家的控制。虽然毛泽东和他的盟友抵制了这种趋势，这种趋势与在苏联观察到的相似，但他们并没有取得很大的成功。这构成了毛泽东发起文化大革命的主要原因。只有在激进时代（1966–1976），旧的国家机器才被部分粉碎，列宁关于民主控制国家机器的设想才部分实现。然而，文化大革命并没有成功地建立起农民和工人对国家的控制，旧的国家机构在20世纪70年代逐渐恢复。³⁷

由于反社会主义联盟在毛泽东执政的大部分时间里都拥有重要的政治力量，因此他的干预和个人魅力及权威在中国追求社会主义道路方面发挥了至关重要的作用。有时甚至看起来毛泽东仅凭一己之力就推翻了官僚国家机器。

在某种程度上，著名的1975年电影《与旧思想决裂》（朱莉）讲述了一个关于集体农业与私人农业的故事。社会主义者得到了普通党员和大多数农民的普遍支持，但他们缺乏政治权力。走资本主义道路的人得到了富农的支持，但最重要的是，他们...

were supported by the majority of the local CCP cadres, who received underground instruction from top central leaders. The socialists lost the political battle. They were forced to leave their positions and were even jailed. It looked as though decollectivization was going to happen when Chairman Mao directly intervened, writing a letter to show his full support for the socialists. In the end, the capitalist roaders were defeated and sunshine came back to the countryside. However, if we follow the movie's logic, without Mao's intervention, decollectivization would have been inevitable, given the political structure.

And this was exactly what happened after Chairman Mao died in 1976. There were no major obstacles for the anti-socialist coalition, and the palace coup just added some novel flavor, although it still took some years for them to figure out how to destroy Mao's legacy.³⁸ Interestingly, *Breaking with Old Ideas* was banned three years after Mao's death and was condemned as "poisonous weeds."³⁹ Starting from the early 1980s, the CCP implemented nationwide decollectivization despite considerable resistance from the peasants and local cadres (for more details see chapter 4). The Chinese peasants, now forced away from the socialist tradition, returned to the status of small producers.

Most working people did not immediately see the implications of all these change for themselves. But artists often did. Only seven years later, in another highly influential film, *The Herdsman (Mu Ma Ren)*, a poor herder is talking with an intellectual who had been a herder in Mao's era and became a teacher in the post-Mao era: "You were once among us; now we folks are all done."⁴⁰

THE STORY CONTINUES IN THE NEOLIBERAL AGE

The triumph of the anti-socialist camp has marked the start of a new era, with socialism semiofficially taken off the political agenda. Nowadays the post-Mao leaders repeatedly claim that China will "never go back to the old road."⁴¹ Yet what will the "new" road be?

With the socialist solution now considered politically incorrect, all that remains is populism and capitalism. An abrupt transformation

受到大多数地方中共干部的支持，他们接受了中央高层领导的地下指示。社会主义者在政治斗争中失败了。他们被迫离开自己的岗位，甚至被监禁。眼看解散集体化就要发生，毛主席直接介入，写信表达了他对社会主义者的全力支持。最终，走资本主义道路的人被打败了，阳光又回到了农村。然而，如果我们按照电影的逻辑，如果没有毛主席的干预，鉴于当时的政治结构，解散集体化将是不可避免的。

而这正是 1976 年毛主席去世后发生的事情。反社会主义联盟没有任何重大障碍，而宫廷政变只是增加了一些新奇的味道，尽管他们仍然花了几年的时间才弄清楚如何摧毁毛泽东的遗产。有趣的是，《决裂》在毛主席去世三年后被禁，并被谴责为“毒草”。从 20 世纪 80 年代初开始，尽管农民和地方干部有相当大的抵制（更多细节见第 4 章），但中国共产党在全国范围内实施了解散集体化。现在被迫脱离社会主义传统的中国农民，又回到了小生产者的地位。

大多数劳动人民并没有立即看到所有这些变化对他们自身的影响。但艺术家们往往看到了。仅仅七年后，在另一部极具影响力的电影《牧马人》中，一位贫穷的牧民正在与一位曾在毛泽东时代当牧民，在后毛泽东时代当老师的知识分子交谈：“你曾经是我们中的一员；现在我们这些人都不行了。”

新自由主义时代的故事仍在继续

反社会主义阵营的胜利标志着一个新时代的开始，社会主义几乎被排除在政治议程之外。如今，后毛泽东时代的领导人一再声称，中国“永远不会回到老路”。⁴¹然而，“新”道路将是什么？

随着社会主义解决方案现在被认为在政治上不正确，剩下的只有民粹主义和资本主义。一场突然的转变

from socialist collectives to capitalist farms would have been risky in the 1980s, since it might have stirred serious doubts from the masses, created landless peasants, and nurtured political unrest. Therefore, at that moment, a populist solution, with stable small landownership and family farms, seemed more feasible. The decollectivization campaign began in the late 1970s, although it was camouflaged under the guise of “socialist development.” But it actually took the Chinese countryside back to the pre-collectivization historical compromise between populist and capitalist factions that existed in the early 1950s.

If the populist camp in the Mao era was only arguing for a relatively gradual transition to socialist collectives, their contemporary counterparts were looking to something different. Given the changes in the overall political economy, the populist solution was now more aligned with capitalism. In essence, this type of neo-populism or pro-market populism portrays a homogenous peasantry with a strong preference for family business and the market.

The ambiguous dividing line between the two factions found its best example in Du Runsheng, the architect of the new agrarian relations and then-head of the National Agricultural Committee.⁴² Du argued that given the uniqueness of Chinese agriculture—which was “sensitive,” “vulnerable,” and “undermechanized,” in his words—small producers would take better care of the crops than collectives could. In a report published in the *People's Daily*, Du claimed that “the contemporary world” has proved that family farming is perfectly compatible with modernization.⁴³ Clearly, this “world” only referred to the United States and Western European countries. In his later years, Du admitted that his ideas came partly from his positive impression of the United States, Japan, France, and other developed countries that he visited after 1979, in particular the widespread presence of family farming and modern technology.⁴⁴

Despite the seeming superiority of small family farms over all other forms of agricultural production, in Du's argument, the populist solution did not preclude a gradual transition to large-scale capitalist agriculture. As Du himself emphasized in the same report, “we do not

从社会主义集体农庄到资本主义农场的转变在 20 世纪 80 年代是具有风险的，因为它可能会引起民众的严重怀疑，制造无地农民，并滋生政治动荡。因此，在当时，一种民粹主义的解决方案，即稳定的小土地所有制和家庭农场，似乎更可行。“去集体化”运动始于 20 世纪 70 年代末，尽管它被伪装成“社会主义发展”。但实际上，它将中国农村带回到了集体化之前，即 20 世纪 50 年代初存在的民粹主义和资本主义派别之间的历史妥协。

如果毛时代的民粹主义阵营只是主张相对渐进地向社会主义集体经济过渡，那么他们当代的同行们则在寻求不同的东西。鉴于整体政治经济的变化，民粹主义的解决方案现在更符合资本主义。本质上，这种新民粹主义或亲市场民粹主义将农民描绘成同质的，并且强烈偏好家庭企业和市场。

这两个派别之间模糊的分界线在杜润生身上得到了最好的体现，他是新的农业关系的架构师，时任国家农业委员会主任。⁴² 杜润生认为，鉴于中国农业的独特性——用他的话说，它是“敏感的”、“脆弱的”和“机械化程度不足的”——小生产者会比集体农庄更好地照料农作物。在《人民日报》上发表的一篇报道中，杜润生声称“当代世界”已经证明家庭农场与现代化完全相容。⁴³ 显然，这个“世界”仅指美国和西欧国家。晚年，杜润生承认，他的想法部分来自于他对美国、日本、法国和其他他在 1979 年后访问的发达国家的积极印象，特别是家庭农业和现代技术的广泛存在。⁴⁴

尽管在杜的论证中，小家庭农场似乎优于所有其他形式的农业生产，但民粹主义的解决方案并不排除逐步过渡到大规模资本主义农业。正如杜本人在同一份报告中强调的那样，“我们不”

want to maintain petty production forever; we will move on to big modern production.”

Only a few years later, Du revisited the question of agrarian change, adopting an even more pro-capitalist stance. In his speech at the CCP's Central Party School, Du openly criticized family farms for their inefficiency and claimed that Chinese agriculture should develop economies of scale.⁴⁵ However, Du denied the advantage of developing collectives, claiming that “the peasants would not support collectives.” Du's argument implies only one choice: capitalist farms. In line with his idea, Du later made several policy suggestions, including transferring rural labor to urban industries and encouraging gradual land concentration to the advantage of fledgling capitalist farmers.

Soon after the decollectivization campaign, the honeymoon between the populist and capitalist factions came to an end. The scholars and policy makers in the capitalist faction mainly focused on the development of capitalist relations of production in the rural areas (that is, “efficient scale farming”), and they often tended to overlook the suffering and dispossession of the small peasant families during the process. The national policy became more urban and industry-oriented after the mid-1980s; the rural-urban income gap increased dramatically; and public investment in rural areas dropped significantly from the level of the Maoist period.⁴⁶ In 1999, a local cadre, Li Changping, wrote a famous letter to Premier Zhu Rongji, stating that “the life of the peasants is extremely hard, the rural areas extremely poverty-stricken, and the prospect of agriculture extremely precarious.”

Those on the populist side do not oppose capitalism in principle, but they are more cautious about its disastrous impacts and, to some extent, represent its humane side: equal rights for urban and rural residents, tax cuts for peasants, price protection for agricultural products, and other welfare policies for the countryside. In the view of Wen Tiejun, a leading scholar in the populist camp, the Chinese intellectual should “deconstruct” the concept of modernization in order to protect the “unavoidable” petty peasant rural economy.⁴⁷

想要永远维持小生产；我们将转向大规模的现代生产。”

仅仅几年后，杜再次审视了农业变革的问题，采取了更加亲资本主义的立场。在中共中央党校的讲话中，杜公开批评家庭农场的低效率，并声称中国农业应该发展规模经济。⁴⁵ 然而，杜否认了发展集体化的优势，声称“农民不会支持集体化”。杜的论点暗示了唯一的选择：资本主义农场。与他的想法一致，杜后来提出了一些政策建议，包括将农村劳动力转移到城市工业，并鼓励逐步的土地集中，以利于新兴的资本主义农民。

在解散集体化运动后不久，民粹主义和资本主义派别之间的蜜月期就结束了。资本主义派别的学者和政策制定者主要关注农村地区资本主义生产关系的发展（即“高效规模农业”），他们常常忽视小农家庭在此过程中的苦难和被剥夺。20世纪80年代中期以后，国家政策变得更加以城市和工业为导向；城乡收入差距急剧扩大；对农村地区的公共投资从毛泽东时代的水平大幅下降。⁴⁶ 1999年，一位名叫李昌平的当地干部给总理朱镕基写了一封著名的信，称“农民生活极其艰难，农村地区极其贫困，农业前景极其岌岌可危”。

那些站在民粹主义立场的人原则上并不反对资本主义，但他们对灾难性影响更为谨慎，并在一定程度上代表了其人道主义的一面：城乡居民享有平等的权利，农民减税，农产品价格保护，以及其他针对农村的福利政策。在民粹主义阵营的领军学者温铁军看来，中国知识分子应该“解构”现代化的概念，以保护“不可避免的”小农农村经济。⁴⁷

The split redefined the mainstream political spectrum from the 1980s onward. On rural issues, the supporters of the capitalist solution became the right wing, while the populist opposition—however mild—formed the left wing. Sometimes, the populists and socialists have even found common ground in opposing policies of the capitalists. For example, on the issue of land privatization, those supporting socialism strongly defend the last remaining legacy of collectivization; the capitalist faction favors complete rural land privatization to facilitate land concentration; and the populist faction favors a more gradual approach and also supports maintaining a *de jure* collective ownership of land to protect the *de facto* small ownership.⁴⁸

The contemporary historical process of agrarian change could be understood as a dynamic compromise between the populist and capitalist factions but with heavier weight on the latter. Since the beginning of this century, the populists, claiming that they represent the voices from below, have succeeded in persuading the central government to provide certain welfare supports and tax reductions for rural residents.⁴⁹ Yet the capitalist faction, representing “efficiency” and “advanced forces of production,” has also won the upper hand on crucial issues. For example, the Third Plenary of the CCP’s 17th Central Committee in 2008 passed a resolution on rural development that explicitly encouraged peasants to trade land use rights to concentrate land for more large-scale efficient agricultural production.

Despite any possible differences, the two factions share in common the denial of any socialist rural project. After all, the populist faction does not really oppose the market and capitalism, and the capitalist faction is not arguing for the immediate abolition of small producers.

Again, the political subtlety in China in the second phase has found its counterparts and connections in other countries, although often in a twisted way. According to Brass, the rhetoric of the latter half of the twentieth century held that the new rural movements in Latin America and other developing countries abandoned the means of mass mobilization and the goal of socialism.⁵⁰ As for the actual ongoing highly political and anti-neoliberal peasant movements in Mexico, Brazil, and other countries, Petras and Veltmeyer note that

从 20 世纪 80 年代开始，e 分裂重新定义了主流政治光谱。在农村问题上，资本主义解决方案的支持者成为右翼，而民粹主义反对派——无论多么温和——构成了左翼。有时，民粹主义者和社会主义者甚至在反对资本家的政策方面找到了共同点。例如，在土地私有化问题上，支持社会主义的人强烈捍卫集体化的最后遗产；资本主义派别赞成彻底的农村土地私有化，以促进土地集中；而民粹主义派别则赞成采取更渐进的方式，并支持维持法律上的土地集体所有制，以保护事实上的小所有制。⁴⁸

e 当代农业变革的历史进程可以理解为民粹主义和资本主义派别之间动态的妥协，但后者占有更大的比重。自本世纪初以来，民粹主义者声称他们代表了来自底层的声音，他们成功地说服中央政府为农村居民提供一定的福利支持和减税。⁴⁹ 然而，代表“效率”和“先进生产力”的资本主义派别也在关键问题上占据了上风。例如，中共十七届三中全会于 2008 年通过了一项关于农村发展的决议，明确鼓励农民交易土地使用权，以集中土地，实现更大规模、更高效的农业生产。

尽管存在任何可能的差异，但这两个派别都共同否认任何社会主义农村项目。毕竟，民粹主义派别并没有真正反对市场和资本主义，而资本主义派别也没有主张立即废除小生产者。

同样，中国第二阶段的政治微妙之处在其他国家也找到了对应之处和联系，尽管通常是以一种扭曲的方式。根据布拉斯的说法，20 世纪后半叶的言论认为，拉丁美洲和其他发展中国家的新农村运动放弃了群众动员的手段和社会主义的目标。⁵⁰ 至于墨西哥、巴西和其他国家实际正在进行的具有高度政治性和反新自由主义的农民运动，彼得拉斯和维尔特迈耶指出

the mainstream either perceives the movements in recent decades as premodern, arguing that the homogenous peasantry was fighting a losing battle; or treat the struggles as postmodern, seeking cultural and ethnic identities.⁵¹ In fact, Chinese intellectuals like Wen Tiejun also explicitly refer to these movements as evidence of support for the populist notion of a homogenous above-class peasantry. As in China, the political and academic mainstream in other third world countries has managed to take socialism off the agenda, leaving the neoliberal capitalist program (the right) and a populist program (the left) to occupy the political center stage. Keep in mind that the two visions are not mutually exclusive. To paraphrase Brass, neoliberalism accepts small peasants as long as agricultural goods are produced efficiently for the market.

If we consider the overall effect of agrarian change, we can find its entanglement within the larger global context of neoliberalism. Decollectivization and the changes that followed led to the largest migration in human history, creating a new working class for the urban industries (the number of migrant workers was more than 280 million in 2016).⁵² This huge reserve army further disempowered the old urban working class and facilitated the massive privatization of the last two decades. Globally, the world labor force saw a significant expansion in the last few decades, owing to the radical reversal in agrarian relations: depeasantization in the peripheral countries by means of agribusiness as well as integration of the labor force in former socialist states into the world economy.⁵³ Obviously, the increase in the global reserve army greatly contributes to the power of the world capitalist class and plays a crucial role in the neoliberal order. And Chinese agrarian change has been an integral part of the entire process.

CONCLUDING REMARKS

China's changing agrarian relations have always been an important part of the world-historical process. In the Maoist era, the struggle was primarily between the pro-collective (socialist-oriented) faction

主流观点要么认为近几十年的运动是前现代的，认为同质的农民正在进行一场失败的斗争；要么将这些斗争视为后现代的，寻求文化和民族认同。⁵¹事实上，像温铁军这样的中国知识分子也明确地将这些运动视为支持同质的超阶级农民的民粹主义观念的证据。与中国一样，其他第三世界国家的政治和学术主流已经设法将社会主义从议程中移除，让新自由主义资本主义纲领（右派）和民粹主义纲领（左派）占据政治舞台的中心。请记住，这两种观点并非相互排斥。套用布拉斯的话说，新自由主义接受小农，只要农业产品能够高效地为市场生产。

如果我们考虑农业变革的总体影响，我们可以发现它与新自由主义的更大全球背景交织在一起。集体化解体以及随之而来的变革导致了人类历史上最大规模的移民，为城市工业创造了一个新的工人阶级（2016年，农民工人数超过2.8亿）。⁵²庞大的后备军进一步削弱了旧的城市工人阶级的力量，并促进了过去二十年大规模的私有化。在全球范围内，由于农业关系的根本性逆转，世界劳动力在过去几十年中出现了显著扩张：外围国家的农业综合企业导致的小农流失，以及前社会主义国家劳动力融入世界经济。⁵³显然，全球后备军的增加极大地增强了世界资本家阶级的力量，并在新自由主义秩序中发挥着关键作用。而中国的农业变革是整个过程中不可或缺的一部分。

结论性意见

中国不断变化的土地关系一直是世界历史进程的重要组成部分。在毛泽东时代，斗争主要发生在亲集体（社会主义导向）派别之间

and the anti-collective (both capitalist and populist-oriented) faction. In the post-Mao era, the tensions within the anti-collective camp have taken center stage, with their resolution largely in favor of capital. The pattern in China shares similarities with other countries, but it has its particularities, mainly owing to Maoist radical policies.

As we can see, since the end of the Maoist era, China has been gradually integrating itself into the contemporary capitalist world, not only in economic terms but also politically and in terms of scholarly work. In other words, contrary to mainstream claims of “Chinese exceptionalism,” China has, in fact, become more and more “normal” compared to other developing countries in terms of agrarian relations (and overall social relations) as it has digressed from Maoist radicalism.

With decollectivization and further neoliberal reforms, the current Chinese state faces a dilemma in representing capitalist class interests and simultaneously maintaining legitimacy among peasants and workers. On the one hand, the dominant interests of the urban capitalist class and the multinational businesses require a consistent supply of workers and land, thus implying the further consolidation of rural land and development of capitalist relations. On the other hand, the government needs to appease the peasants and workers by protecting them from dispossession and sweatshops. Another aspect of the state’s legitimacy concerns is the need to guarantee a high level of food sufficiency. China’s increasing food demand is so large that it cannot be met by international food market, which contributes to the state’s hesitancy in pursuing any dramatic changes in the countryside. The result of this dilemma remains to be seen, but the chance of a peaceful solution is slim. China could find itself in both political and economic crisis if the labor supply begins to decrease and labor’s bargaining power begins to increase, or if the state cannot address the concerns of the working class.

Future socialist projects can draw at least two lessons from Chinese agrarian history. First, without democratic control of the state by the workers and peasants, the already challenged socialist project (or any progressive project) will be even more fragile. This has been the case

以及反集体主义派别（包括资本主义和民粹主义导向）。后毛泽东时代，反集体主义阵营内部的紧张关系占据了中心舞台，其解决方案在很大程度上倾向于资本。中国的模式与其他国家有相似之处，但也有其特殊性，这主要是由于毛泽东的激进政策。

正如我们所看到的，自毛泽东时代结束以来，中国逐渐融入了当代资本主义世界，不仅在经济方面，而且在政治和学术工作方面也是如此。换句话说，与主流宣称的“中国例外论”相反，与其他发展中国家相比，中国在农业关系（和整体社会关系）方面变得越来越“正常”，因为它已经偏离了毛泽东的激进主义。

随着解体 and 进一步的新自由主义改革，当前的中国国家面临着代表资本主义阶级利益，同时维持农民和工人之间合法性的困境。一方面，城市资本家阶级和跨国公司的主要利益需要持续的工人和土地供应，因此意味着进一步巩固农村土地和发展资本主义关系。另一方面，政府需要通过保护农民和工人免受剥夺和血汗工厂的侵害来安抚他们。国家合法性的另一个方面是需要保证高度的粮食自给自足。中国不断增长的粮食需求非常大，以至于国际粮食市场无法满足，这导致国家在推行农村任何重大变革方面犹豫不决。这种困境的结果还有待观察，但和平解决的机会渺茫。如果劳动力供应开始减少，劳工的议价能力开始提高，或者国家无法解决工人阶级的担忧，中国可能会发现自己陷入政治和经济危机。

未来的社会主义项目至少可以从中国农业历史中吸取两个教训。首先，如果没有工人和农民对国家的民主控制，本已面临挑战的社会主义项目（或任何进步项目）将更加脆弱。情况一直是这样

with China and many other countries that have gone the full circle in their agrarian relations. Second, the struggle for socialism is a long-term project, with contradictions and opposition along the way. When the Chinese Revolution succeeded in 1949, Chairman Mao declared that we had only finished one step in the Long March. This is indeed so. To paraphrase an ancient Chinese saying, building socialism is like rowing against the current, and no advance means retreat.

中国和许多其他国家在农业关系上已经走过了一个完整的轮回。其次，争取社会主义是一项长期的事业，其间充满了矛盾和对立。1949 年中国革命成功时，毛主席宣布我们只是在长征中完成了一步。的确如此。用一句中国古话来说，建设社会主义如逆水行舟，不进则退。

Agricultural Productivity and Decollectivization

INTRODUCTION

The dismantling of the rural collectives in China began in 1979 and took five years to complete. By 1984, the transition to the household production system was firmly established, and it has remained stable since then. Although different studies have presented varying results, there is a general consensus that decollectivization is the most important reason for China's impressive agricultural performance in the early 1980s.

However, Chinese agricultural productivity slowed down significantly after the completion of decollectivization. Table 3.1 lists the growth rate of the yields of the three most important crops (grain, cotton, and oil crops), which constituted more than 80 percent of total sown area in both the transition period and the era of stable household production. For all three crops, the average yield growth rate decreased dramatically after 1984. It is thus fair to conclude that agricultural performance in the stabilized household production era was inferior compared to that of the transition period.

Since performance in the era of stabilized household production has not been impressive, what is the real source of the Chinese

农业生产力和非集体化

The dismantling of the rural collectives in China began in 1979, and

花费了五年的时间才完成。到 1984 年，家庭生产制度的转型已经牢固确立，并自那时以来一直保持稳定。尽管不同的研究提出了不同的结果，但普遍的共识是，非集体化是中国 20 世纪 80 年代初令人印象深刻的农业表现的最重要原因。

然而，在中国完成非集体化之后，农业生产力显著放缓。表 3.1 列出了三种最重要的作物（粮食、棉花和油料作物）的产量增长率，这三种作物在转型时期和家庭生产稳定时期都占总播种面积的 80% 以上。对于所有三种作物，1984 年后平均产量增长率急剧下降。因此，可以公平地得出结论，与转型时期相比，家庭生产稳定时期的农业表现较差。

既然家庭生产稳定时期的表现并不令人印象深刻，那么中国经济的真正来源是什么？

TABLE 3.1: Household Agriculture before and after 1984

	% of total sown area			YIELD GROWTH RATE (%)		
				Transition period	Stable household	First year 1984 level achieved
	1970	1980	2008			
Grain	83.12	80.09	68.34	7.17	1.33	1987
Cotton	3.48	3.36	3.68	9.07	1.53	1997
Oil crops	3.15	5.42	8.21	13.20	2.18	1990
Total	89.75	88.87	80.23			

Source: Ministry of Agriculture, 2009, 17, 23, 25; State Statistical Bureau, 2005, section 39.

agriculture miracle during the transition period? To answer this question, it is necessary to reconsider the causes of the remarkable growth in the early 1980s. A critical review of the historical process and previous studies of this period indicates that decollectivization did not have a significant impact on output, while more intensive application of modern inputs and other exogenous factors, such as weather, accounted for most of the growth in output.

HISTORICAL OVERVIEW OF THE TRANSITION PERIOD

The transition period was complex, with very different forces in operation at the same time. While it is not possible to cover all the facets of change during this period, this overview offers an analysis of a variety of factors, from weather conditions to institutions.

Decollectivization: The Household Responsibility System

Before the reform, Chinese rural production and distribution were all managed by production teams, which were the basic units under the people's communes. During the early stage of reform, some management adjustments in the collectives were permitted, but the collective framework was maintained, and work management and income

表 3.1: 1984 年前后家庭农业

	占总播种面积的百分比			产量增长率 (%)		
				转型时期	稳定家庭	第一年 1984 达到的水平
	1970	1980	2008			
谷物	83.12	80.09	68.34	7.17	1.33	1987
棉花	3.48	3.36	3.68	9.07	1.53	1997
油料作物	3.15	5.42	8.21	13.20	2.18	1990
总计	89.75	88.87	80.23			

Source: Ministry of Agriculture, 2009, 17, 23, 25; State Statistical Bureau, 2005, section 39.

转型时期的农业奇迹？为了回答这个问题，有必要重新审视 20 世纪 80 年代初显著增长的原因。对历史进程和以往研究的批判性回顾表明，解散集体化对产量没有显著影响，而更密集地应用现代投入品和其他外生因素，如天气，是产量增长的主要原因。

转型时期的历史概况

转型时期是复杂的，同时存在着非常不同的力量。虽然不可能涵盖这一时期所有方面的变化，但本概述分析了从天气条件到体制等多种因素。

非集体化：家庭联产承包责任制

改革前，中国农村的生产和分配都由生产队管理，生产队是人民公社下的基本单位。在改革的早期阶段，允许对集体进行一些管理调整，但保留了集体框架，并对工作管理和收入进行了调整

allocation were still determined by the collectives. One of the popular forms of this early transitional policy was that small jobs were contracted to workgroups or individuals with specific skills. But in fact, small-job contracting was not new at all: it had been practiced during the collective era. However, under the new regimen, more economic incentives were used. That was why this policy was called the “responsibility system” (*zerenzhi*), or more accurately, the “performance-based compensation and responsibility system” (*lianchanzerenzhi*).

The early reforms of the collective system proved to be minor compared to the decollectivization reforms of 1980–1981, when collectively owned land was divided up among rural households, and production, distribution, and related business came under the full control of individual families.¹ This new policy basically dissolved the collectives and, from 1984 on, made the individual household the basis of the new system of production. This decollectivization reform was vividly named “divide-all-up” (*da baogan*), but it was later renamed the “household contract and performance-based compensation and responsibility system” (*jiating lianchan chengbao zerenzhi*), or simply, the household responsibility system (HRS) for short. As column 1 of Table 3.2 shows (see page 43), HRS expanded very rapidly: in 1980, only 14 percent of production teams had adopted HRS; two years later, 80 percent had adopted HRS.

Technology Diffusion and Conditions of Production

One of the remarkable features of the transition period was the intense use of chemical inputs. The application of chemical fertilizers had risen steadily from 1970 on, including during the last few years of the collective system as production capacity improved. This trend continued into the transition period, during which fertilizer application almost doubled in five years (Table 3.2, col. 2). Moreover, it has been noted that the Chinese agricultural system was severely nitrogen-constrained during the 1960s and 1970s. There was a significant improvement in the quality of the fertilizer during the transition period because the large synthetic ammonia-urea complexes imported

分配仍然由集体决定。这种早期过渡政策的一种流行形式是将小工作分包给具有特定技能的工作组或个人。但事实上，小工作分包一点也不新鲜：它在集体时代就已经实行了。然而，在新制度下，使用了更多的经济激励。这就是为什么这项政策被称为“责任制” (*zerenzhi*)，或者更准确地说，“按绩效支付报酬的责任制” (*lianchanzerenzhi*)。

与 1980-1981 年的非集体化改革相比，集体制度的早期改革显得微不足道，当时集体所有的土地被分配给农村家庭，生产、分配和相关业务完全由个体家庭控制。¹ 这项新政策基本上解散了集体，并从 1984 年开始，使个体家庭成为新生产体系的基础。这项非集体化改革被生动地命名为“大包干” (*da baogan*)，但后来更名为“家庭联产承包责任制” (*jiating lianchan chengbao zerenzhi*)，或简称家庭责任制 (HRS)。正如表 3.2 的第 1 列所示 (参见第 43 页)，家庭责任制扩展非常迅速：1980 年，只有 14% 的生产队采用了家庭责任制；两年后，80% 采用了家庭责任制。

技术传播与生产条件

转型期的一个显著特点是化学投入品的密集使用。从 1970 年开始，包括在集体制度的最后几年，化学肥料的使用量稳步上升，因为生产能力得到了提高。这一趋势一直延续到转型期，在此期间，化肥施用量在五年内几乎翻了一番 (表 3.2，第 2 列)。此外，有人指出，中国的农业系统在 20 世纪 60 年代和 70 年代受到严重的氮限制。转型时期肥料的质量有了显著提高，因为进口了大型合成氨 - 尿素联合装置。

by the central government in 1973–1974 (during the collective era) went into production in the late 1970s.²

The green revolution started in China during the collective era, and within a short time a nationwide agricultural research system was established that was “highly developed, broadly based, and sophisticated.”³ The spread of improved seeds (high-yield varieties) was particularly important for Chinese agricultural growth; as early as 1959, 80 percent of China’s sown area was planted with improved varieties, but seeds were continuously improved throughout the collective era.⁴ For example, hybrid rice was developed in the mid-1970s, but nationwide dissemination really coincided with decollectivization (Table 3.2, col. 3). Moreover, given the fact that the collectives had been building numerous water reservoirs and other rural infrastructure starting from the late 1950s, the dramatic increase in chemical fertilizer availability and quality in the transition period compounded the advantage of the hybrid varieties.⁵

Between 1970 and 1978 the use of agricultural machinery increased by more than 400 percent, thanks to a national goal of mechanization during the collective period (see Table 3.2, col. 4). This trend continued between 1978 and 1987, but at a more moderate growth rate of 8 percent per year. The relative decline during and after the transition period was not only due to the lack of state support for agriculture mechanization. It was also a natural outcome of HRS: individual households had little incentive to use big tractors and combines on their extremely small, scattered plots.

A significant determinant of agricultural output is weather. During the collective era, rural communities were able to construct numerous water reservoirs and dams to minimize the impacts of bad weather. Nevertheless, weather changes did matter for agriculture performance, particularly in the short run. An index measuring weather fluctuation from 1970 to 1987 is presented in column 5 of Table 3.2. The index was computed as a deviation from a long-term average; thus, higher numbers represent worse weather than average and lower numbers represent better weather. The calculations suggest that weather conditions were generally more favorable from 1970 to

中央政府在 1973–1974 年（集体时代）进行的生产在 20 世纪 70 年代末投入生产。²

绿色革命在中国集体时代开始，并在短时间内建立了一个“高度发达、基础广泛和复杂”的全国农业研究体系。³ 改良种子（高产品种）的推广对中国农业增长尤为重要；早在 1959 年，中国 80% 的播种面积都种植了改良品种，但在整个集体时代，种子不断得到改良。⁴ 例如，杂交水稻是在 20 世纪 70 年代中期开发的，但全国范围内的推广实际上与非集体化同时发生（表 3.2，第 3 列）。此外，鉴于集体从 20 世纪 50 年代末开始建造了大量水库和其他农村基础设施，转型时期化肥供应和质量的显著提高，更加巩固了杂交品种的优势。⁵

1970 年至 1978 年间，由于集体时期国家机械化目标，农业机械的使用增加了 400% 以上（见表 3.2，第 4 列）。1978 年至 1987 年间，这一趋势仍在继续，但增长速度较为温和，为每年 8%。转型时期及其后的相对下降，不仅是由于国家对农业机械化缺乏支持，也是家庭联产承包责任制的自然结果：个体户没有动力在极其分散的小块土地上使用大型拖拉机和联合收割机。

天气是农业产量的一个重要决定因素。在集体化时代，农村社区能够修建大量的水库和大坝，以尽量减少恶劣天气的影响。然而，天气变化确实对农业生产有影响，尤其是在短期内。表 3.2 的第 5 列显示了 1970 年至 1987 年期间衡量天气波动的指数。该指数是根据长期平均值的偏差计算得出的；因此，较高的数字表示天气比平均水平差，较低的数字表示天气较好。计算结果表明，从 1970 年到

Production, 1970–1987					
Use of Fertilizer [2]	Hybrid Rice Diffusion [3]	Machine Power [4]	Weather [5]	MCI [6]	
3,512		21,653	−73.72	141.9	
3,647		n.a.	−29.41	144.7	
4,207		n.a.	21.67	147	
5,111		47,829	−21.53	148.2	
4,858		59,303	−23.01	148.7	
5,369		74,786	−12.62	150	
5,828	0.4	86,296	1.55	150.6	
6,480	6.2	102,617	28.89	150.5	
8,840	12.6	117,499	53.61	151	
10,863	15.4	133,795	12.02	149.2	
12,694	14.2	147,457	47.4	147.4	
13,349	15.4	156,801	26.91	146.6	
15,134	16.8	166,142	7.74	146.7	
16,598	20.3	180,219	10.17	146.4	
17,398	26.7	194,972	2.69	146.9	
17,758	26.4	209,125	47.18	148.4	
19,306	28.3	229,500	54.346	150	
19,993	33.0	248,360	34.63	151.3	

Year-end percentage of production teams that adopted the HRS. Chemical fertilizer is in thousand tonnes. Percentage of total rice fields planted with hybrid seeds. Machine power is in thousand kilowatts. The weather at Shouzai and Chengzai areas. The weather variable presented here is the yearly percentage deviation of each year; more details can be found in Kueh's book.

Source: Stone, 1988, Col. 3; State Statistical Bureau, 2005, section 38. Col. 4: State Statistical Bureau, 2005, section 38. Col. 5: Kueh, 1995; the 1985–1987 method.

表 3.2: 生产条件, 1970–1987 年

Year	HRS 采用 [1]	化肥使用 [2]	杂交水稻推广 [3]	机器动力 [4]	天气 [5]
1970	0	3,512		21,653	−73.72
1971	0	3,647		n.a.	−29.41
1972	0	4,207		n.a.	21.67
1973	0	5,111		47,829	−21.53
1974	0	4,858		59,303	−23.01
1975	0	5,369		74,786	−12.62
1976	0	5,828	0.4	86,296	1.55
1977	0	6,480	6.2	102,617	28.89
1978	0	8,840	12.6	117,499	53.61
1979	0.01	10,863	15.4	133,795	12.02
1980	0.14	12,694	14.2	147,457	47.4
1981	0.45	13,349	15.4	156,801	26.91
1982	0.22	15,134			7.74
1983	0.22	16,598			10.17
1984	0.22	17,398			2.69
1985	0.22	17,758			47.18
1986	0.22	19,306			54.346
1987	0.22	19,993			34.63

1975; this period was followed by five years of bad weather. During 1980–1984, natural disasters became relatively smaller and less frequent; after 1985 the weather again worsened on a national level.

Finally, Table 3.2, column 6, lists a commonly used measure of relative labor intensity known as the “multiple cropping index” (MCI). This index, which is calculated as total sown area divided by total cultivated land, captures the change in relative labor spent on a unit of farmland. It kept increasing in the collective era because increased irrigation and mechanization allowed collectives to cultivate more intensively.⁶ According to many defenders of HRS, peasants did not work as hard under the collective structure because it was difficult to monitor their effort. The multiple cropping index suggests just the opposite, however: the intensity of labor decreased in the transition period, although it seems to have been restored to previous levels after 1985.⁷

Procurement Adjustments

From the mid-1950s, China adopted a policy called “unified procurement and marketing” (*tong gou tong xiao*), which meant that the government had a certain monopoly power in terms of the purchase and pricing of agricultural output. All farm products were classified into three categories. The first category included strategic goods like grain, oil crops, and cotton. Goods in this category were subject to compulsory purchase by the government at a given procurement price. In 1972, a price premium of 20 to 30 percent was introduced for above-quota output; surplus product could be sold at a negotiated price, which was mostly higher than the above-quota price.⁸

Starting in 1979, there was a significant increase in procurement price for the first category, as well as for tobacco, live hogs, and sugar crops. For instance, the procurement price of grain was increased by 20 percent, and the price premium for above-quota output increased from 30 percent to 50 percent.⁹ There were further price increases for certain crops. At the same time, the compulsory quota was gradually reduced; this continuously increased the average prices and profit margins (see Table 3.3, col. 1).

1975 年；在此期间之后是五年的恶劣天气。1980-1984 年间，自然灾害相对较小且不频繁；1985 年后，全国范围内的天气再次恶化。

最后，表 3.2 第 6 列列出了一种常用的相对劳动强度衡量标准，称为“复种指数”（MCI）。该指数通过总播种面积除以总耕地面积计算得出，反映了单位农田劳动投入的变化。在集体化时代，由于灌溉和机械化的增加，集体可以更加集约地耕作，因此该指数持续上升。⁶ 根据许多家庭责任制捍卫者的说法，农民在集体结构下工作不够努力，因为很难监督他们的努力。然而，复种指数表明情况恰恰相反：在转型时期，劳动强度有所下降，尽管在 1985 年后似乎已恢复到以前的水平。

⁷

采购调整

从 20 世纪 50 年代中期开始，中国采取了一项名为“统一采购和营销”（统购统销）的政策，这意味着政府在农产品采购和定价方面拥有一定的垄断权力。所有农产品分为三类。第一类包括粮食、油料作物和棉花等战略物资。此类商品必须由政府按规定的采购价格强制采购。1972 年，对超额完成的产量实行 20% 至 30% 的溢价；剩余产品可以按议价出售，议价通常高于超额完成的价格。⁸

从 1979 年开始，第一类商品以及烟草、生猪和糖料作物的采购价格大幅上涨。例如，粮食的采购价格提高了 20%，超额完成产量的价格溢价从 30% 提高到 50%。⁹ 某些作物的价格进一步上涨。与此同时，强制配额逐渐减少；这不断提高了平均价格和利润率（见表 3.3，第 1 列）。

Two points need to be kept in mind regarding these procurement adjustments. First, if one does not consider the impact of the quota decrease on weighted price, it would appear that prices stagnated during the good harvest of 1983 and 1984; in fact, the profit margin *increased* until 1984. (Table 3.3, column 3, lists the average profit margins of the three main grain crops.) Second, the industrial input price also increased; hence, Table 3.3, column 3, the ratio of above-quota price to industrial input price, provides a more balanced view of the situation.

Some researchers also emphasized the function of reestablished rural markets during the transition period; however, the overall impact of marketization on agriculture during this period was arguably small, as can be seen from the percentage of grains sold on the market (Table 3.3, col. 4). Therefore, the impact of rural marketization is not considered in this research.

It is not hard to understand the impact of price increases on peasants' incentives; however, the exact degree of the price increase is hard

TABLE 3.3: Procurement Adjustment: 1978–1987

Year	Grain in Quota Sales (%) [1]	Main Grain Crops, Net Revenue [2]	Ratio of Above-Quota Price to Industrial Input Price Index [3]	Grain Sold on Market (%) [4]
1978	75	0.25	100.0	0
1979	58	2.81	140.4	7
1980	56	2.77	139.2	7
1981	44	3.05	142.3	7
1982	38	3.74	139.3	8
1983	29	4.35	138.6	5
1984	26	7.11	132.1	9
1985	73	7.19	116.2	16
1986	55	8.97	113.3	17
1987	44	7.92	108.1	21

Note: The main grain crops include cereal, wheat, and corn; this net revenue measures the after-tax profits from 50 kilograms of grain output on average. Sources: Cols. 1 and 4: Aubert, 1990. Col. 2: State Development and Reform Committee, 2003. Col. 3: Lin, 1992

关于这些采购调整, 需要记住两点。首先, 如果不考虑配额减少对加权价格的影响, 那么在 1983 年和 1984 年的丰收期间, 价格似乎停滞不前; 事实上, 到 1984 年, 利润率增加。

(表 3.3 第 3 列列出了三种主要粮食作物的平均利润率。)其次, 工业投入品价格也有所上涨; 因此, 表 3.3 第 3 列, 即超额价格与工业投入品价格之比, 更平衡地反映了这种情况。

一些研究人员还强调了转型时期重建的农村市场的功能; 然而, 从市场上销售的粮食百分比(表 3.3, 第 4 列)可以看出, 在此期间, 市场化对农业的总体影响很小。因此, 本研究不考虑农村市场化的影响。

不难理解价格上涨对农民积极性的影响; 然而, 价格上涨的确切程度很难

表 3.3: 采购调整: 1978-1987 年

Year	粮食 配额销售 (%) [1]	主要粮食 农作物净值 收入 [2]	超额比率 工业品价格 投入价格指数 [3]	出售的谷物 在市场上 (%) [4]
1978	75	0.25	100.0	0
1979	58	2.81	140.4	7
1980	56	2.77	139.2	7
1981	44	3.05	142.3	7
1982	38	3.74	139.3	8
1983	29	4.35	138.6	5
1984	26	7.11	132.1	9
1985	73	7.19	116.2	16
1986	55	8.97	113.3	17
1987	44	7.92	108.1	21

注: 主要粮食作物包括谷物、小麦和玉米; 此净收入衡量的是平均每 50 公斤粮食产量的税后利润。资料来源: 第 1 栏和第 4 栏: Aubert, 1990。第 2 栏: 国家发展和改革委员会, 2003 年。第 3 栏: 林, 1992 年

to measure because there were nationwide sales programs throughout this period to give extra grains or fertilizer for above-quota deliveries, not to mention various local programs of similar kinds.¹⁰

This is a brief illustration of the complicated conditions that pertained during the transition period. Some factors were counter-productive, while most seemed to be favorable for growth. Now we turn to an examination of the household responsibility system.

A CRITICAL ASSESSMENT OF THE IMPACT OF HRS

Most of the literature shares an unfailing faith in decollectivization and HRS (the two terms will be used interchangeably in this study). However, some more detailed and pragmatically objective studies have cast serious doubts on the acclaimed advantages of HRS. Among the pro-decollectivization studies, Justin Lin's work has been most widely cited, especially in government documents, although it is occasionally referred to anonymously as "some research." It is therefore necessary to provide a critical assessment of Lin's main findings.

Pro-HRS Studies

In this category, there are two main types of studies. The first focuses on total-factor productivity (TFP) in China's agricultural sector. Most of the studies suggest that TFP increased during the transition period, although some acknowledge that TFP decreased once HRS was fully established and stable, that is, after 1985.¹¹

There are many ways to construct TFP (or its growth rate). For instance, a TFP growth rate may be calculated using a simple growth accounting exercise that extracts the weighted sum of the growth rate of certain key inputs from the output growth rate. A TFP index may also be generated simply by dividing the output by a weighted sum of input. In some studies, the TFP index has been calculated using more sophisticated methods, like the Divisia index and the Törnqvist-Theil index. In essence, TFP index construction tries to eliminate

之所以要衡量，是因为在此期间，全国范围内都有销售计划，为超额交付提供额外的粮食或肥料，更不用说各种类似的当地计划了。¹⁰

这简要说明了转型时期存在的复杂情况。一些因素适得其反，而大多数因素似乎有利于增长。现在我们来考察家庭联产承包责任制。

对家庭联产承包责任制影响的批判性评估

大多数文献都对解集体化和家庭联产承包责任制（在本研究中，这两个术语将互换使用）抱有坚定不移的信念。然而，一些更详细和更具务实客观性的研究对家庭联产承包责任制所宣称的优势提出了严重的质疑。在支持解集体化的研究中，林毅夫的著作被引用最广泛，尤其是在政府文件中，尽管有时它会被匿名地称为“一些研究”。因此，有必要对林毅夫的主要发现进行批判性评估。

支持家庭联产承包责任制的研究

在这一类别中，主要有两种类型的研究。第一种侧重于中国农业部门的全要素生产率 (TFP)。大多数研究表明，在转型时期，全要素生产率有所提高，尽管一些研究承认，一旦家庭联产承包责任制完全建立并稳定下来，即 1985 年之后，全要素生产率有所下降。¹¹

有很多方法可以构建全要素生产率（或其增长率）。例如，可以使用简单的增长核算方法来计算全要素生产率增长率，该方法从产出增长率中提取某些关键投入的增长率的加权总和。还可以通过将产出除以投入的加权总和来简单地生成全要素生产率指数。在一些研究中，全要素生产率指数是使用更复杂的方法计算的，如 Divisia 指数和 Törnqvist-Theil 指数。本质上，全要素生产率指数构建试图消除

the contribution of inputs from output growth to get the portion that cannot be directly explained by all traditional inputs.

Leaving aside the problematic usage of TFP in the underemployed agriculture context (no precise labor input data), none of these studies provided convincing arguments regarding the role of HRS. First, their results show that TFP (or TFP growth rate) was generally higher in the transition period compared to the collective era. Without analyzing the existence of a causal relationship between HRS adoption and production, they explicitly or implicitly—and hastily—arrived at the conclusion that HRS was superior, not even asking whether HRS was an important factor at all. But as the last section showed, there were many different forces in operation during the transition; therefore, these studies failed to provide a convincing argument for the superiority of HRS. Second, in all of these studies, TFP figures tended to decrease in the post-1984 stable HRS period, yet the studies failed to develop a consistent framework to explain this decline. For example, some scholars tried to argue that the real procurement price decrease after 1984 partly explained the production decline, but they never mention the role of price increase in the transition period, which by their logic would account for the higher TFP then and not necessarily the HRS system.¹²

The second type of pro-decollectivization study directly tackles the issue of the role of HRS adoption in the transition period.¹³ These studies try to differentiate the effects of HRS from other possible factors; nevertheless, they also suffer from a number of serious defects. The study by McMillan, Whalley, and Zhu is typical. These authors maintain that 22 percent of the increase in productivity in Chinese agriculture between 1978 and 1984 was due to higher prices and 78 percent to changes in the incentive scheme (HRS).¹⁴ There are two major problems in this analysis. First, the authors assumed that HRS reform happened uniformly and instantly after 1978, when in reality it took a while for the political struggle to finish the reform (as Table 3.2 shows) and the adoption of HRS varied across localities (the authors do acknowledge this in the paper), so the increase in productivity after 1978 cannot be attributed simply to HRS. Second, the authors assume

投入对产出增长的贡献，从而得到不能被所有传统投入直接解释的部分。

暂且不提全要素生产率在就业不足的农业背景下的问题性用法（没有精确的劳动力投入数据），这些研究都没有提供关于家庭联产承包责任制（HRS）作用的令人信服的论据。首先，他们的结果表明，与集体化时代相比，转型时期的全要素生产率（或全要素生产率增长率）普遍较高。在没有分析家庭联产承包责任制采用与生产之间是否存在因果关系的情况下，他们明确或隐含地——并且匆忙地——得出了家庭联产承包责任制更优越的结论，甚至没有询问家庭联产承包责任制是否是一个重要因素。但正如上一节所表明的那样，转型期间存在许多不同的力量在运作；因此，这些研究未能为家庭联产承包责任制的优越性提供令人信服的论据。其次，在所有这些研究中，全要素生产率的数字在1984年后稳定的家庭联产承包责任制时期趋于下降，但这些研究未能建立一个一致的框架来解释这种下降。例如，一些学者试图辩称，1984年后实际采购价格的下降部分解释了生产的下降，但他们从未提及转型时期价格上涨的作用，按照他们的逻辑，这将解释当时较高的全要素生产率，而不一定是家庭联产承包责任制。

第二种支持非集体化的研究直接处理了家庭联产承包责任制在转型时期所扮演的角色。¹⁵ 这些研究试图区分家庭联产承包责任制与其他可能因素的影响；然而，它们也存在一些严重的缺陷。麦克米兰、沃利和朱的研究是典型的。这些作者认为，1978年至1984年中国农业生产力的增长中，22%归因于更高的价格，78%归因于激励机制的变化（家庭联产承包责任制）。¹⁶ 这个分析存在两个主要问题。首先，作者假设家庭联产承包责任制改革在1978年后统一且立即发生，而实际上政治斗争需要一段时间才能完成改革（如表3.2所示），并且家庭联产承包责任制的采用在不同地区有所不同（作者在论文中承认了这一点），因此1978年后的生产力增长不能简单地归因于家庭联产承包责任制。其次，作者假设

that no technical progress occurred during the reform period, which is not true.¹⁵ As discussed above, there were several important technical changes (use of hybrids, better fertilizer) during this period as a result of efforts made during the collective era. Needless to say, the results also depended on their model setup, which adds another level of uncertainty to their results. Again, as a general comment, these studies fail to provide evidence for the superiority of HRS.

Pragmatic Studies

There have been pragmatic studies that tried to debunk the belief that HRS outperformed collective agriculture. Some researchers studied the general impact of HRS. Carolus concluded in her 1992 dissertation that the adoption of HRS was responsible for no more than 20 percent of the increase in total crop value if the most plausible set of input, crop mix, and year-specific factors is accepted. She also pointed out that the impacts of HRS varied with different preexisting conditions. But Carolus's work covered a very wide range of HRS impacts, so it was not able to give a clear overall assessment of HRS.¹⁶ On the other hand, Riskin suggested that some of the increase in reported production represented production that had already existed but had been concealed before decollectivization.¹⁷ Bramall doubted the fundamental validity of TFP calculation owing to lack of knowledge on the exact amount of labor time expended, organic fertilizer, and draft animals.¹⁸

Other researchers offered interesting case studies of HRS. Han showed that Jimo County in Shandong Province achieved remarkable development in the collective era, but after the implementation of decollectivization, mechanization decreased immediately (in some cases, peasants dismantled the tractors and divided the metal), and irrigation became a big problem as well.¹⁹ Moreover, several other works showed that HRS had little impact on agricultural development. Bramall did a careful examination of county-level data in Sichuan Province, which was the model province of agrarian reform for quite some time. He found that those counties that were not

改革时期没有发生技术进步, 这是不正确的。¹⁵ 如上所述, 在此期间, 由于集体时代的努力, 出现了一些重要的技术变革 (杂交种的使用、更好的肥料)。毋庸置疑, 结果也取决于他们的模型设置, 这给他们的结果增加了另一层不确定性。同样, 作为一般评论, 这些研究未能提供家庭承包责任制优越性的证据。

实用主义研究

已经有一些实用主义研究试图揭穿家庭承包责任制优于集体农业的观点。一些研究人员研究了家庭承包责任制的一般影响。卡罗卢斯在她 1992 年的论文中得出结论, 如果接受最合理的投入、作物组合和年度特定因素, 采用家庭承包责任制对作物总价值增长的贡献不超过 20%。她还指出, 家庭承包责任制的影响因不同的先前条件而异。但卡罗卢斯的研究涵盖了非常广泛的家庭承包责任制影响, 因此无法对家庭承包责任制进行清晰的总体评估。¹⁶ 另一方面, 里斯金认为, 报告产量的增加部分是代表已经存在但在解散集体化之前被隐瞒的产量。¹⁷ 布拉莫尔由于缺乏关于确切的劳动时间、有机肥料和役畜的知识, 而怀疑全要素生产率计算的根本有效性。¹⁸

其他研究人员提出了关于家庭承包责任制的有趣的案例研究。韩表明, 山东省即墨县在集体时代取得了显著的发展, 但在实施解散集体化后, 机械化立即下降 (在某些情况下, 农民拆除了拖拉机并分割了金属), 灌溉也成为了一个大问题。¹⁹ 此外, 其他一些作品表明, 家庭承包责任制对农业发展几乎没有影响。布拉莫尔对四川省的县级数据进行了仔细的检查, 四川省是农业改革的典范省份很长一段时间。他发现那些没有

decollectivized had no worse performance in agricultural production than those already decollectivized.²⁰ Moreover, after final implementation of HRS, those counties that adopted HRS did not have a surge in production; on the contrary, most of them experienced declines in production. Putterman also found that in Dahe County in Hebei Province, grain yields rose during the 1970s but stagnated during the transition period.²¹ A detailed historical study of the Yangzi Delta highlighted the fact that decollectivization did not lead to productivity increase.²²

As many empirical studies showed, the transition to HRS in certain localities did not necessarily lead to productivity growth; this evidence strengthens the suspicion about the role of decollectivization. But most of them did not provide a comprehensive examination of the nationwide transition, which is what this chapter tries to do below.

Replicating Justin Lin's Research

Lin is one of the most sophisticated researchers on the impact of HRS; his findings, published in the *American Economic Review*, show that almost half of the increase in output was due to HRS reform.²³ Lin was able to get detailed data for twenty-eight provinces and districts for the years 1970-1987, enabling him to form a panel data (repeated provincial observations over time), which is a much more fruitful approach than simply looking at the aggregated national production growth rate.²⁴ Using Lin's original dataset, we have replicated Lin's models in Appendix 1 and presented the main results in Table 3.4 (see page 50).

The most significant finding from Lin's models was the positive impact of HRS on the value of crop output. He went on to argue that from a growth accounting perspective, HRS could account for more than 40 percent of the productivity increase in agriculture.

However, it appeared that Lin's methodology was problematic in several ways. As Carolus argued, it might be overly simplistic to use a single theory and model to apply to nationwide data, given wide differences in institutions before decollectivization in each locality.

那些已经非集体化的地区，在农业生产方面的表现并不比那些尚未非集体化的地区差。²⁰此外，在家庭联产承包责任制的初期实施阶段，采用家庭联产承包责任制的县并没有出现产量激增的现象；相反，其中大多数县的产量都出现了下降。普特曼还发现，在河北省的大河县，20世纪70年代粮食产量有所增长，但在转型时期却停滞不前。²¹一项对扬子江三角洲的详细历史研究强调，非集体化并没有导致生产力提高。²²

正如许多实证研究表明的那样，某些地区的家庭联产承包责任制转型并不一定导致生产力增长；这一证据加强了对非集体化作用的怀疑。但他们中的大多数人没有对全国范围内的转型进行全面的考察，而这正是本章试图在下文中做的事情。

复制林毅夫的研究

林毅夫是对家庭联产承包责任制影响进行研究的最有造诣的研究者之一；他在《美国经济评论》上发表的研究结果表明，近一半的产量增长归功于家庭联产承包责任制改革。²³林毅夫能够获得1970-1987年间28个省和地区的详细数据，使他能够形成一个面板数据（重复的省级时间观测数据），这比简单地观察汇总的全国生产增长率更有成效。²⁴使用林毅夫的原始数据集，我们在附录1中复制了林毅夫的模型，并在表3.4中展示了主要结果（见第50页）。

林的模型中最重要的发现是家庭责任制对农作物产值具有积极影响。他接着认为，从增长核算的角度来看，家庭责任制可以解释农业生产力提高的40%以上。

然而，林的研究所使用的方法似乎在几个方面存在问题。正如卡罗拉斯所说，鉴于每个地方在非集体化之前制度上的巨大差异，使用单一的理论和模型来应用于全国范围的数据可能过于简单。

TABLE 3.4: Estimated Impacts of HRS

	Lin (1992) Replicated		Adjusted Models	
	[1]	[2]	[3]	[4]
HRS adoption (%)	.19	.15	.06	.06
(HRS)	(.03)	(.05)	(.05)	(.05)
Land	.65	.58	.69	.69
(Land)	(.06)	(.07)	(.07)	(.07)
Machine & animal power	.04	.10	.13	.13
(Power)	(.04)	(.04)	(.05)	(.05)
Labor	.14	.15	.13	.13
(Labor)	(.02)	(.03)	(.03)	(.03)
Fertilizer	.18	.17	.15	.15
(Fert)	(.02)	(.02)	(.02)	(.02)
Nongrain crops (%)	.67	.78	.85	.85
(Ngca)	(.23)	(.22)	(.23)	(.23)
Multiple cropping index	.20	.20	.25	.24
(MCI)	(.08)	(.08)	(.09)	(.09)
Market price/ input price at time t-1	.02			
(MPt-1)	(.05)			
Procurement price at time t	-.03			
(GPt)	(.02)			
Weather				.001
(W)				(.001)
Time trend (T)	Yes	No	No	No
Province dummies	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Year dummies	No	Yes	Yes	Yes
Observations	476	476	420	420
R squared	87%	89%	89%	89%

Notes: Numbers in parentheses are standard errors; the coefficients of province dummies and year dummies are not reported. In all columns the dependent variables are log (value of output per team).

表 3.4: HRS 的估计影响

	林 (1992) 的研究被复制		调整后的模型	
	[1]	[2]	[3]	[4]
HRS 采用率 (%)	.19	.15	.06	.06
(HRS)	(.03)	(.05)	(.05)	(.05)
Land	.65	.58	.69	.69
(土地)	(.06)	(.07)	(.07)	(.07)
机器与动物 权力 (动力)	.04	.10	.13	.13
(动力)	(.04)	(.04)	(.05)	(.05)
劳动力	.14	.15	.13	.13
(劳动力)	(.02)	(.03)	(.03)	(.03)
肥料	.18	.17	.15	.15
(肥料)	(.02)	(.02)	(.02)	(.02)
非粮作物 (%)	.67	.78	.85	.85
(Ngca)	(.23)	(.22)	(.23)	(.23)
复种指数	.20	.20	.25	.24
(MCI)	(.08)	(.08)	(.09)	(.09)
市场价格 / t-1 时的投入品价格	.02			
(MPt-1)	(.05)			
Procurement price at 时间 t	-.03			
(GPt)	(.02)			
天气				.001
(W)				(.001)
时间趋势 (T)	Yes	No	No	No
省份虚拟变量	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
年度虚拟变量	No	Yes	Yes	Yes
Observations	476	476		420
R squared	87%	89%	89%	89%

注释：括号中的数字是标准误差；未报告省份虚拟变量和年份虚拟变量的系数。在所有列中，因变量均为 log（每队产值）。

Carolus also criticized the data on the labor force used in Lin's study: since the exact labor input in a crop sector is not available, treating the crop sector labor share in total rural labor and the output share in total agriculture output as the same might cause serious biases.

While acknowledging the problematic methodology involved in similar applied econometric work, we still try to focus on problems with Lin's approach. There are several key issues in Lin's empirical analysis. The first and most important is the incorrect use of the HRS adaption rate. As Lin explained, the HRS variable is the ratio of HRS adaption at the end of a given year. It is well known that agricultural production normally takes place intensively in certain seasons. So, if HRS adoption occurred after these seasons—for example, in late fall and winter—it was not likely to have any impact on productivity in that given year; it would only affect next year's production. Fortunately, there is some scattered evidence about the pace of decollectivization in China, which allows for some preliminary observations to be made. Table 3.5 (see below) presents some estimates from other scholars. It is clear that a big shift to HRS happened during the second half of 1981—from 11.3 percent in June to 38 percent in October. Another big jump in the HRS adaption rate took place between October 1981 and June 1982, but it is highly likely that a large portion of those changes happened at the end of 1981. A good case might be Heilongjiang Province, which was one of the most important grain-producing areas in China. The percentage of HRS in Heilongjiang was only 8.7 percent at May 1982; however, it quickly rose to 73 percent at February 1983.²⁵ Therefore, the usage of

TABLE 3.5: Pace of HRS Nationally

1980/01	1980/12	1981/06	1981/10	1982/06	1982/12	1983/12
0.02	5	11.3	38	67	70	94

Note: The numbers refer to the percentage of production teams that adopted HRS model.

Source: Wang and Zhou, 1985, 46; Bramall, 2000, 328.

Carolus 还批评了林的研究中使用的人力数据：由于一个作物部门的确切劳动力投入不可用，将作物部门的劳动力份额在农村劳动力总额中的比例与产出份额在农业总产出中的比例视为相同，可能会导致严重的偏差。

虽然承认类似的应用计量经济学工作中存在问题的方法论，但我们仍然试图关注林的方法的问题。林的实证分析中存在几个关键问题。第一个也是最重要的是对家庭责任制（HRS）适应率的错误使用。正如林所解释的那样，家庭责任制变量是指定年份年底家庭责任制适应率的比率。众所周知，农业生产通常在某些季节集中进行。因此，如果家庭责任制在这些季节之后（例如，在深秋和冬季）被采用，它不太可能对当年的生产力产生任何影响；它只会影响下一年的生产。幸运的是，有一些关于中国非集体化步伐的零星证据，可以进行一些初步观察。表 3.5（见下文）显示了其他学者的一些估计。很明显，家庭责任制的大转变发生在 1981 年下半年——从 6 月的 11.3% 增加到 10 月的 38%。家庭责任制适应率的另一次大幅跃升发生在 1981 年 10 月至 1982 年 6 月之间，但很可能这些变化中的很大一部分发生在 1981 年底。黑龙江省可能就是一个很好的例子，黑龙江省是中国最重要的粮食产区之一。1982 年 5 月，黑龙江省的家庭责任制比例仅为 8.7%；然而，到 1983 年 2 月，这一比例迅速上升至 73%。²⁵ 因此，使用

表 3.5：全国家庭责任制的速度

1980/01	1980/12	1981/06	1981/10	1982/06	1982/12	1983/12
0.02	5	11.3	38	67	70	94

Note: The numbers refer to the percentage of production teams that adopted HRS model.

Source: Wang and Zhou, 1985, 46; Bramall, 2000, 328.

end-of-year HRS will attribute a large part of production gains to HRS, while the credit actually belonged to other factors.

The second problem is that the construction of the price index does not fully capture the change in peasants' actual profitability and incentive change (as Table 3.3 shows). From 1981 to 1984 the index of above-quota prices relative to industrial input prices goes down, while in fact the profit margin went up. This could explain part of the reason why prices only had negligible roles in Lin's results, which is contrary to theory as well as common sense.

The third problem is that some important information—for example, weather changes—is not included. As previously discussed, the weather conditions were better during the transition period. It could be possible that this favorable weather change contributed to production. No such experiments were explicitly carried out in Lin's paper, although the two-way fixed-effect (controlling for province and time-specific factors) model might be able to capture the weather changes.

In light of these critiques, we have tested the role of HRS after adjusting for the timing of HRS as well as other problems. The main results are presented in columns 3 and 4 of Table 3.4. Appendix 1 presents some details of the methodology and models. The replications suggest that after using a one-year-lagged value of HRS, the strong impact of HRS completely disappears. The models also generate highly consistent estimates of other important coefficients compared to Lin's results.

According to the replications, the output changes seem to be determined mainly by the input usage changes along with changes in the cropping patterns, cropping intensity, and other year-specific factors like price adjustment and weather changes. The most important finding is that the HRS reform does not have any statistically significant impact on the output.

FURTHER DISCUSSION ON THE EMPIRICAL RESULTS

Although HRS did not have any significant impact on productivity directly, it could possibly have some unobservable influences on

年终的家庭联产承包责任制 (HRS) 会将大部分生产收益归功于家庭联产承包责任制, 而实际上, 这应该归功于其他因素。

第二个问题是, 价格指数的构建并没有完全捕捉到农民实际盈利能力和激励变化的程度 (如表 3.3 所示)。从 1981 年到 1984 年, 相对于工业投入品价格而言, 超额定价的指数有所下降, 而实际上利润率却有所上升。这可以解释为什么价格在林毅夫的研究结果中作用微乎其微, 这与理论和常识相悖。

第三个问题是, 一些重要的信息——例如, 天气变化——没有包括在内。正如之前讨论的那样, 过渡时期的天气条件更好。这种有利的天气变化可能促进了生产。在林毅夫的论文中没有明确地进行过这样的实验, 尽管双向固定效应 (控制省份和特定时间因素) 模型可能能够捕捉到天气变化。

鉴于这些批评, 我们已经测试了在调整家庭责任制的时间和其他问题后, 家庭责任制的作用。主要结果见表 3.4 的第 3 列和第 4 列。附录 1 介绍了方法和模型的一些细节。复制结果表明, 在使用家庭责任制滞后一年的值后, 家庭责任制的强烈影响完全消失。与林的研究结果相比, 这些模型也产生了高度一致的其他重要系数估计。

根据复制结果, 产出变化似乎主要由投入使用变化以及种植模式、种植强度和其他年份特定因素 (如价格调整和天气变化) 的变化决定。最重要的发现是, 家庭责任制改革对产出没有任何统计上的显著影响。

关于实证结果的进一步讨论

虽然家庭责任制并没有直接对生产力产生任何显著影响, 但它可能对生产力产生一些不可观察的影响

the usage of major inputs and therefore indirectly contributed to the output. Some discussions are presented below to address the concern.

Besides the input changes, other factors in the model were also likely to have contributed to the change in output. But these changed minimally during the transition period. For example, MCI decreased 0.3 percent during 1980–1984 (see Table 3.2). In addition, it is hard to single out their impacts; for example, the impacts of favorable weather are captured by the year dummies together with other possible year-specific factors like price changes. However, there are good reasons not to worry about these. First, weather and price changes were not due to HRS. Second, factors like declining MCI would not likely suggest any positive impact of HRS that we are trying to identify.

Therefore, what remains to be seen is whether the changes in the major four inputs—namely land, labor, power, and chemical fertilizer—were partly affected by the HRS reform.

First, the size of cultivated land began to decrease after the 1970s; it decreased by only 0.2 percent during 1975–1979, but then shrank by 1.5 percent during 1980–1984.²⁶ This occurred at the same time the MCI was declining, which means the size of total sown area decreased even more during the early 1980s.²⁷ Therefore, the changing land usage did not contribute to the dramatic output growth in the transition period. It is hard to find any positive role of HRS reform in the land input changes. However, it might be argued that HRS reform, which started nationwide in 1980, actually contributed to the accelerated decline of the cultivated land size—in other words, it dampened agricultural production.

Second, the total labor input in agriculture, as we discussed, is hard to measure given the fact that no specific data on labor force in the crop sector is available as well as the prevailing underemployment in the countryside. The coefficient of labor variable in the regression only gives us some crude evidence of the impact of the labor usage changes. If we adopt Lin's methodology of calculating the crop labor force as the total labor force in the agriculture sector times the value share of crop sector in the total agriculture output, the change in the

主要投入品的使用，从而间接促进了产出。下面提出一些讨论来解决这个问题。

除了投入的变化，模型中的其他因素也可能对产出变化做出了贡献。但这些因素在转型时期变化甚微。例如，1980-1984 年间，MCI 下降了 0.3%（见表 3.2）。此外，很难单独找出它们的影响；例如，有利天气的影响被年度虚拟变量以及其他可能的年度特定因素（如价格变化）所捕捉。然而，我们有充分的理由不必担心这些。首先，天气和价格变化并非由家庭承包责任制（HRS）引起。其次，像 MCI 下降这样的因素不太可能表明我们试图识别的家庭承包责任制（HRS）的任何积极影响。

因此，有待观察的是，土地、劳动力、电力和化肥这四大主要投入品的变化是否受到家庭承包责任制改革的影响。

首先，耕地面积在 20 世纪 70 年代后开始减少；1975-1979 年间仅减少了 0.2%，但在 1980-1984 年间减少了 1.5%。²⁶ 这种情况发生在 MCI 下降的同时，这意味着 20 世纪 80 年代初总播种面积下降得更多。²⁷ 因此，土地利用的变化并没有促进转型时期产量的显著增长。很难找到家庭承包责任制改革在土地投入变化中的任何积极作用。然而，可能有人认为是，1980 年在全国范围内开始的家庭承包责任制改革实际上加速了耕地面积的下降——换句话说，它抑制了农业生产。

其次，正如我们所讨论的，鉴于没有关于作物部门劳动力的具体数据，以及农村地区普遍存在的就业不足，农业劳动力的总投入难以衡量。回归中劳动力变量的系数只能为我们提供劳动力使用变化影响的一些粗略证据。如果我们采用林毅夫计算作物劳动力的办法，即用农业部门的总劳动力乘以作物部门在农业总产值中的价值份额，那么变化是

crop sector labor force would be negligible, with the annual growth rate 0.5 percent between 1978 and 1980, and 0.9 percent between 1980 and 1984. If we look at the total labor force in agriculture as a proxy for the crop sector labor force, then the annual growth rate became 2.3 percent between 1978 and 1980, and 1.5 percent between 1980 and 1984.²⁸ Given the fact that the MCI was declining during the period, we might guess the actual labor input more or less stayed the same. Again, there is no clear link between the HRS reform in the early 1980s and the labor input changes.

Third, both machine power input and chemical fertilizer input changed considerably during the transition period and contributed greatly to the changes in output. But a closer look would reveal that both of them started to take off long before the HRS reform. As Table 3.2 shows, during the five-year period prior to HRS (1976–1980), machine power usage increased by 71 percent and chemical fertilizer usage increased by 118 percent. This dramatic increase continued in the 1980s; during the five-year period of HRS reform (1980–1984), machine power usage increased by 32 percent and chemical fertilizer usage increased by 37 percent. It is more than clear that China was experiencing rapid industrialization and the green revolution all through the 1970s and early 1980s, and the dramatic increase in machine power and fertilizer showed nothing more than the great achievements of the socialist period.

Finally, some special attention must be paid to the fertilizer factor, as it was also considered by Lin as the single most important input factor in output growth. There is literature pointing out that there are two main unobservable benefits with chemical fertilizer in China. First, the quality and quantity of fertilizer improved dramatically in the late 1970s because of large investments in the previous collective era. Second, the high-yield hybrid crops began to be introduced in the late 1970s (these had also been developed under the collective regime), which compounded the effects of fertilizer and the previously established water conservation.²⁹ Therefore, the huge impact of fertilizer from the regression exercise actually reflects the two important factors above.

作物部门的劳动力可以忽略不计, 1978 年至 1980 年间的年增长率为 0.5%, 1980 年至 1984 年间的年增长率为 0.9%。如果我们以农业总劳动力作为作物部门劳动力的代表, 那么 1978 年至 1980 年间的年增长率为 2.3%, 1980 年至 1984 年间为 1.5%。²⁸ 考虑到在此期间 MCI 呈下降趋势, 我们可能会猜测实际的劳动力投入或多或少保持不变。同样, 在 1980 年代初的家庭联产承包责任制改革与劳动力投入变化之间没有明确的联系。

而且, 在转型时期, 机器动力投入和化肥投入都发生了相当大的变化, 并为产量的变化做出了巨大贡献。但仔细观察就会发现, 这两者早在家庭联产承包责任制改革之前就开始了。如表 3.2 所示, 在家庭联产承包责任制之前的五年

(1976–1980 年), 机器动力使用量增加了 71%, 化肥使用量增加了 118%。这种显著的增长在 1980 年代持续存在; 在家庭联产承包责任制改革的五年期间 (1980–1984 年), 机器动力使用量增加了 32%, 化肥使用量增加了 37%。很明显, 中国在整个 1970 年代和 1980 年代初经历了快速的工业化和绿色革命, 而机器动力和化肥的显著增长仅仅表明了社会主义时期的伟大成就。

最后, 必须特别关注化肥因素, 因为林也将化肥视为产出增长中最重要的单一投入因素。有文献指出, 中国的化肥存在两个主要的不可观察的益处。首先, 由于之前集体时代的大量投资, 化肥的质量和数量在 20 世纪 70 年代末得到了显著提高。其次, 高产杂交作物开始于 20 世纪 70 年代末引进 (这些作物也是在集体制度下开发的), 这加剧了化肥和先前建立的水利设施的效果。²⁹ 因此, 回归分析中化肥的巨大影响实际上反映了上述两个重要因素。

As previously noted, China's agriculture had always been severely fertilizer-constrained until the late 1970s when the prior chemical investments started to run properly.³⁰ It would be hard to argue that people increased their incentive to use fertilizer because of decollectivization; it simply became more available. From the demand side, the state made adjustments to the quota procurements in 1979, which increased the profit margins of the peasants, which might have contributed to their ability to purchase fertilizer.

It is hard to connect the HRS reform to any of these important input changes. Moreover, it is more than clear that the dramatic input changes in the transition period were indeed an endogenous result of the preexisting institutions: the remarkable development of the socialist economy in the former period built the conditions for the dramatic output growth. To sum up, there are very good reasons to conclude that the legacy from socialist agriculture, rather than the HRS reform, accounted for the most important part of the success is of the transition period.

如前所述,直到20世纪70年代末,此前的化学投资开始正常运作时,中国的农业一直受到化肥的严重限制。³⁰很难说人们因为非集体化而增加了使用化肥的意愿;只是化肥变得更容易获得了。从需求方面来看,国家在1979年对配额采购进行了调整,这增加了农民的利润率,这可能有助于他们购买化肥。

很难将家庭联产承包责任制改革与任何这些重要的投入变化联系起来。此外,非常清楚的是,转型时期投入的巨大变化实际上是先前制度的内生结果:前一时期的社会主义经济的显著发展为产出的显著增长创造了条件。总而言之,我们有充分的理由得出结论,社会主义农业的遗产,而不是家庭联产承包责任制改革,是转型时期成功的最重要原因。

The Political Economy of Decollectivization

INTRODUCTION

Decollectivization of China's rural economy in the early 1980s was one of the most significant aspects of the country's transition to a capitalist economy. Deng Xiaoping praised it as an "innovation," and its significance to the overall capitalist-oriented "reform" process surely cannot be overstated.¹ The Chinese government has repeatedly referred to the supposed economic benefits of decollectivization, claiming that it has "greatly increased the incentives to millions of peasants."² Nevertheless, the political-economic implications of decollectivization have always been highly ambiguous, and questionable at best. Individuals or small groups of peasants were frequently portrayed in mainstream accounts as political stars for initiating the process, but this served to obscure the substantial resistance to decollectivization in many locales. Moreover, the deeper causes and consequences of the agrarian reform are downplayed in most writings, leaving the impression that the rural reform was in the main politically neutral.

A few works did address the political economy of decollectivization, but even those often dealt in stereotypes and were highly consonant with the official history. One of the popular arguments was that peasants wanted freedom from collective controls, so they

去集体化的政治经济学

INTRODUCTION

Decollectivization of China's rural economy in the early 1980s

是中国向资本主义经济转型最重要的方面之一。邓小平称其为“创新”，其对整体以资本主义为导向的“改革”进程的重要性无疑是不可低估的。¹ 中国政府多次提到去集体化的所谓经济效益，声称它“极大地提高了数百万农民的积极性”。² 然而，去集体化的政治经济影响一直高度模糊，并且充其量是值得怀疑的。在主流叙述中，个人或小群体农民经常被描绘成发起这一过程的政治明星，但这掩盖了许多地方对去集体化的强烈抵制。此外，大多数著作淡化了农业改革的更深层原因和后果，给人的印象是农村改革在很大程度上是政治中立的。

少数作品确实涉及了去集体化的政治经济学，但即使是那些作品也经常使用刻板印象，并且与官方历史高度一致。一种流行的观点是，农民希望摆脱集体控制，所以他们

creatively and collectively dissolved their own collectives.³ A typical analysis tended to follow this story line: collective farming caused years of poverty and laziness, so brave and wise peasants signed secret contracts to perform household farming. Due to the powerful incentive effects of decollectivization, agricultural production increased dramatically. Once decollectivization spread nationwide, with impressive results, the Chinese Communist Party had to accept this institutional innovation reflecting the will of the peasants.

However, as we have demonstrated in chapter 3, decollectivization did not have the acclaimed impacts on efficiency. This suggests that there were perhaps more important factors beyond the efficiency and incentive aspects offered by the conventional wisdom. In particular, a class analysis is missing from the mainstream stories.

This chapter explores the process of decollectivization from the perspective of political economy. I argue that decollectivization served as the political basis for the capitalist transition in China in that it not only disempowered the peasantry but also broke the peasant-worker alliance and thus greatly reduced potential resistance to the reform. The political significance of the rural reform for the CCP cannot be overstated, and this is exactly why the CCP interpreted decollectivization as spontaneous and purely economic.

DEBUNKING THE MYTHS AROUND DECOLLECTIVIZATION POLITICS

The two most prominent myths created regarding the history of decollectivization are these: (1) the whole movement was largely spontaneous and apolitical, and (2) the only people who opposed decollectivization were the cadre, not the peasants. Since these myths are the pillars of the mainstream interpretation, they are worth critical examination.

Spontaneous Movement?

Decollectivization in the 1980s has been labeled a spontaneous,

创造性地集体解散了他们自己的集体。³ 一个典型的分析倾向于遵循这条故事线：集体农业导致多年的贫困和懒惰，因此勇敢而聪明的农民签署了秘密合同来进行家庭农业。由于权力强大的去集体化激励效应，农业生产大幅增加。一旦去集体化在全国范围内蔓延，并取得令人印象深刻的成果，中国共产党不得不接受这种反映农民意愿的制度创新。

然而，正如我们在第三章中所展示的那样，去集体化并没有对效率产生广受赞誉的影响。这表明，除了传统观点所提供的效率和激励因素之外，可能还有更重要的因素。特别是，主流故事中缺少阶级分析。

本章从政治经济学的角度探讨了去集体化的过程。我认为，去集体化是中国向资本主义过渡的政治基础，因为它不仅削弱了农民的权力，而且打破了工农联盟，从而大大减少了对改革的潜在抵制。农村改革对中国共产党具有重要的政治意义，这一点怎么强调都不为过，而这正是中国共产党将去集体化解释为自发的、纯粹的经济行为的原因。

揭穿围绕解体集体化政治的神话

关于解体集体化历史，最突出的两个神话是：（1）整个运动在很大程度上是自发的和非政治的，以及（2）唯一反对解体集体化的是干部，而不是农民。由于这些神话是主流解释的支柱，因此值得批判性地考察。

自发运动？

20 世纪 80 年代的解体集体化被贴上了“自发”的标签。

grassroots collective action against the previous collectives. In this version of events, most peasants wanted decollectivization, and the CCP was passive in the reform. But a closer reading of the actual history reveals that the opposite is true.

All the anecdotes about peasants collectively dismantling their own collectives seem to be in conflict with the basic logic of decollectivization. The mainstream explanation for decollectivization was that peasants did not agree with collective production. But as Bramall argued, if the peasants could organize their decollectivization in the way they are said to have done, then collective agriculture would have been a huge success and there would be no need for decollectivization.⁴ That is, there would have had to have been a history of collective organization for this to be possible. To be fair, this is not to deny there were singular cases of decollectivization in small groups; nevertheless it is simply ahistorical to explain the majority of cases in this way.

In fact, in the early days the CCP's own flagship journal, *Hongqi* (Red Flag) proudly claimed that decollectivization was carried out by local authorities following instructions from above.⁵ We find more solid evidence of the coercive nature of the agrarian reform in the official provincial records. In 1980, the district of Shanghai, one of the most developed regions under socialist China, declared that it would not implement decollectivization. However, in 1982 it decided to follow the national policy and quickly decollectivized its rural economy.⁶

The district of Beijing also tried to maintain the collectives in the early 1980s. However, Hu Yaobang, then the national secretary of the CCP, criticized Beijing cadre for resisting decollectivization in 1982. After this the Beijing Communist Party Committee quickly made an announcement claiming that although some cadre had not freed their minds and still had reservations about decollectivization, the reform should nevertheless be implemented, and quickly.⁷

In Yunnan Province, only 3.5 percent of teams had been decollectivized as of March 1981. The provincial leadership held a meeting to “unify thoughts on decollectivization” in May and advocated a decollectivization model in November. By the end of the year, more than half the teams were decollectivized.⁸

基层集体行动反对先前的集体。在这种说法中，大多数农民都希望解散集体，而中国共产党在改革中是被动的。但仔细阅读实际历史会发现，事实恰恰相反。

所有关于农民集体拆除自己集体的轶事似乎与解散集体的基本逻辑相冲突。对解散集体的主流解释是农民不同意集体生产。但正如布拉莫尔所说，如果农民能够以他们所说的方式组织他们的解散集体，那么集体农业将会取得巨大的成功，并且没有必要进行解散集体。⁴也就是说，要做到这一点，必须要有集体组织的历史。公平地说，这并不是否认在小群体中存在个别的解散集体的情况；然而，以这种方式解释大多数情况是完全不符合历史的。

事实上，早在早期，中共自己的旗舰期刊《红旗》就自豪地宣称，解散集体是由地方当局按照上级指示进行的。⁵我们在官方省级记录中发现了更多关于农业改革的强制性质的有力证据。1980年，上海市（中国社会主义制度下最发达的地区之一）宣布不实行解散集体。然而，1982年，它决定遵循国家政策，迅速解散了农村经济。⁶

北京市也试图在1980年代初期维持集体。然而，时任中共中央书记的胡耀邦批评北京干部抵制1982年的解散集体。此后，北京市委迅速发布公告，声称虽然一些干部没有解放思想，对解散集体仍有保留，但改革仍应实施，而且要迅速实施。

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在云南省，截至1981年3月，只有3.5%的生产队解散了集体化。省领导在5月份召开会议，以“统一对解散集体化的思想”，并在11月份提倡一种解散集体化的模式。到年底，超过一半的生产队解散了集体化。⁸

In Zhejiang Province, the official record noted that local leaders were not enthusiastic about decollectivization and attributed that to “lack of awareness.” Talk by provincial leaders on maintaining the collective economy was regarded as “inappropriate.” These unusual tones suggest that there was fierce political struggle between the local leaders and the pro-decollectivization central leaders. In August and September, Zhejiang had several cadre meetings to correct “the leftist errors in the agrarian reform” and to advocate household farming. The result was clear: decollectivization rose from less than 40 percent in June 1982 to more than 90 percent by April 1983.⁹

Hunan Province had a similar story. Hunan leaders were initially supportive of the collectives. However, in the spring of 1981, several central leaders went to Hunan to push for decollectivization. After that the provincial party secretary had to officially apologize for his lack of understanding of the central policy and the slow pace of decollectivization. The local leaders then started the decollectivization campaign, and within one year nearly 80 percent of the teams were decollectivized.¹⁰

Du Runsheng, the architect of nationwide decollectivization, revealed more inside information in his recent memoirs. Du claimed that some provinces accepted household agriculture only after replacing their leadership; the list includes several important provinces: Fujian, Jilin, Hunan, Guangxi, and Heilongjiang.¹¹ Moreover, Du also documented how the central leaders used their authority to push the decollectivization campaign. For example, Hu Yaobang, the national leader of CCP, went to Hebei Province and criticized their slow adoption of the household agriculture system; the household model was rapidly implemented after that.¹² Hu also publicly declared that those cadres who opposed decollectivization should be removed.¹³ Pressure from above was also well documented in the literature.¹⁴ For example, one of the defenders of decollectivization admitted that “although family farming began as a peasant innovation, that did not mean all peasant communities wanted it.” But he still claimed that after decollectivization most peasants appeared to accept their share of the land with pleasure.¹⁵ Some authors are clearly

在浙江省，官方记录显示，当地领导人对解散集体化并不热心，并将其归因于“缺乏意识”。省级领导人关于维持集体经济的讲话被认为是“不恰当的”。这些不同寻常的论调表明，当地领导人与支持解散集体化的中央领导人之间存在着激烈的政治斗争。8月和9月，浙江召开了多次干部会议，纠正“农业改革中的左倾错误”，提倡家庭联产承包责任制。结果很明显：解散集体化的比例从1982年6月的不到40%上升到1983年4月的90%以上。⁹

湖南省也有类似的故事。湖南省的领导人最初支持集体。然而，1981年春天，几位中央领导人前往湖南推动解散集体化。之后，省委书记不得不正式为自己对中央政策缺乏理解以及解散集体化的步伐缓慢而道歉。当地领导人随后开始了解散集体化的运动，并在一年内解散了近80%的生产队。¹⁰

全国解散集体化的设计师杜润生在他最近的回忆录中透露了更多的内幕信息。杜声称，一些省份只有在更换领导人后才接受家庭农业；名单包括几个重要的省份：福建、吉林、湖南、广西和黑龙江。¹¹此外，杜还记录了中央领导人如何利用他们的权力来推动解散集体化的运动。例如，中共中央领导人胡耀邦前往河北省，批评他们采用家庭联产承包责任制的速度缓慢；此后，家庭模式迅速得以实施。¹²胡还公开宣称，那些反对解散集体化的干部应该被撤职。¹³来自上级的压力在文献中也有充分的记载。¹⁴例如，一位解散集体化的捍卫者承认，“虽然家庭联产承包责任制最初是农民的创新，但这并不意味着所有农民社区都希望如此。”但他仍然声称，解散集体化后，大多数农民似乎愉快地接受了他们所分到的土地。¹⁵一些作者显然

selective in presenting evidence. Kate Xiao Zhou, for example, quotes from Shumin Huang's book *The Spiral Road* to show that collectivization was spontaneous; however, she ignores the story in the same book that suggests decollectivization was enforced by the CCP.¹⁶

It is difficult to say how many peasants actually favored family farming, but according to He Xuefeng, an expert on rural issues in China, at least a third of peasants in his national survey had considerable reservations about decollectivization.¹⁷ It was clear that the CCP played a crucial role in the early 1980s as the whole reform was rapidly implemented nationwide.

Zhou claimed that no work team was ever sent down to the villages to carry out decollectivization. She regarded this as important evidence of the absence of state coercion in the decollectivization campaign.¹⁸ But several provincial records mentioned large-scale work teams; for example, more than ten thousand people were sent down to implement decollectivization in Fujian Province.¹⁹ Moreover, work teams may not have been necessary when the existing political machine was on board with decollectivization and politically capable. An interview about a team in Jiangxi Province vividly illustrates the passive role of the peasants.

The Communist Party cadre had held a meeting at the commune. Then the team head returned and held a team cadre meeting. Cadre called the system “divide the land to the households” (*fen tian dao hu*). The cadre didn't propagandize the system; they just held a meeting [of team members] and said this was the way it was going to be done.²⁰

Even researchers who were not necessarily supportive of the collectives claimed that the decollectivization campaign was far from spontaneous. Anita Chan, Richard Madsen, and Jonathan Unger document that, as with many previous campaigns, when Beijing indicated a decided enthusiasm to see decollectivization adopted, some local cadre who appeared reluctant to implement the reform found themselves publicly chastised for leftist thinking.²¹ Thomas Bernstein

在呈现证据时具有选择性。例如，凯特·肖·周引用了舒敏·黄的著作《螺旋之路》来表明集体化是自发的；然而，她忽略了同一本书中表明非集体化是由中国共产党强制执行的故事。

很难说有多少农民实际上赞成家庭耕作，但据中国农村问题专家贺雪峰称，在他所做的全国性调查中，至少有三分之一的农民对非集体化持相当大的保留意见。¹⁷ 显然，在 20 世纪 80 年代初期，中国共产党发挥了关键作用，因为整个改革在全国范围内迅速实施。

周声称，从未向下乡派遣工作队来开展非集体化工作。她认为这是国家在非集体化运动中没有采取强制手段的重要证据。¹⁸ 但一些省级记录提到了大规模的工作队；例如，福建省派出了超过一万人来实施非集体化。¹⁹ 此外，当现有政治机器赞成非集体化并具有政治能力时，可能不需要工作队。一篇关于江西省一个工作队的采访生动地说明了农民的被动角色。

e 共产党员在公社举行了一次会议。然后，队长回来召开了队干部会议。干部们称该制度为“分田到户”（*fen tian dao hu*）。干部们没有宣传这个制度；他们只是召开了一次队员会议，说事情就这样定了。

即使那些不一定支持集体化的研究人员也声称，解散集体化运动远非自发。陈佩华、理查德·马德森和乔纳森·昂格记录到，与之前的许多运动一样，当北京明确表示热衷于看到解散集体化被采纳时，一些起初不愿实施改革的当地干部发现自己因“左”倾思想而受到公开斥责。²¹ 托马斯·伯恩斯坦

admits that by 1982, adoption of the household model became a matter of compliance with the current party line and was pushed through regardless of local preferences.²²

This evidence challenges the view that decollectivization was a spontaneous collective action and shows that the agrarian reform was highly political and led by the CCP from the beginning. This naturally leads to the question, what was the nature of the resistance to decollectivization in the early 1980s?

Opposition to Decollectivization

Let us turn to the second myth. There was significant opposition to decollectivization, and the mainstream concluded that this opposition must have come from some cadre who were simply afraid of losing control of peasants.²³ This is also summarized in a concise phrase often quoted in the mainstream media: “the top (leaders) agreed, the bottom (peasants) desired, the middle (cadre) blocked.”²⁴

Some cadre might not have wanted decollectivization because “management would become difficult,” but it is hard to believe that a majority of cadre would simply oppose the policy from the central leaders because of fear of “losing control.”²⁵ As we discussed in the previous section, opposing decollectivization was close to committing political suicide; on the other hand, following the central policy could be quite rewarding. David Zweig documents that the provincial party committee in Shaanxi Province changed the leadership in Zhidan County in 1978 because of its continued support for a radical agrarian policy (that is, collectivization).²⁶ In the winter of 1979 the new county leadership allocated land to groups and households in 90 percent of the teams in the county. This was not an isolated case. Dongping Han also noted that Jimo County in Shandong Province was forced to accept decollectivization and local leaders who opposed were removed from their office.²⁷ In an extreme case in Hebei Province, a rank-and-file pro-decollectivization researcher was directly promoted to the provincial standing committee of the CCP.²⁸ Provincial-level cadre resisted decollectivization for a short

承认到 1982 年，采用家庭模式已成为遵守当前党的路线的问题，并且不顾当地偏好而被强行推行。²²

有证据表明，非集体化并非自发的集体行动，而是从一开始就由中国共产党领导的高度政治化的土地改革。自然而然地引出了一个问题：20 世纪 80 年代初，对非集体化的抵制是什么性质？

反对非集体化

让我们来看看第二个神话。有人对解散集体化表示了明显的反对，而主流观点认为，这种反对一定来自一些害怕失去对农民控制的干部。²³ 这一点也被简洁地概括为主流媒体经常引用的一句话：“上面（领导）同意，下面（农民）渴望，中间（干部）阻挠。”

一些干部可能不希望解散集体化，因为“管理会变得困难”，但很难相信大多数干部仅仅因为害怕“失去控制”而反对中央领导的政策。²⁵ 正如我们在前一节讨论的那样，反对解散集体化几乎等于政治自杀；另一方面，遵循中央政策可能会得到相当大的回报。David Zweig 记录说，陕西省委在 1978 年更换了志丹县的领导班子，因为该县继续支持激进的农业政策（即集体化）。1979 年冬天，新的县领导将土地分配给县里 90% 的队的小组和家庭。这不是一个孤立的案例。董平汉还指出，山东省的即墨县被迫接受解散集体化，而反对的地方领导人被免职。²⁷ 在河北省的一个极端案例中，一位支持解散集体化的普通研究人员被直接提升为中共省委常委。²⁸ 省级干部在短期内抵制了解散集体化

time, but as soon as they realized the intention of the central leaders, their attitudes “swung full circle” to secure their political positions.²⁹ There were still some pro-collective provincial leaders who were able to resist, but they could not continue supporting the collectives for very long.³⁰

Roderick MacFarquhar observes that rural cadres were initially unhappy about their new tasks, but they soon realized that they could benefit from the reform by using political skills and connections to preserve their status and increase their incomes.³¹ Interestingly, Shumin Huang also suggests that although ordinary peasants and workers in the collectives were very worried about their future and protested vigorously, many local cadre were enthusiastically promoting decollectivization because they could then take over the collective enterprises and make a profit.³² The experience and connections they had gained as leaders of the collectives now allowed them to run what would now, in effect, be enterprises of their own. Dongping Han describes similar political changes.³³ With decollectivization, collective enterprises were left under the control of the village party leaders and managers, who often rented the enterprises or simply bought them outright despite strong resistance from villagers. Decollectivization disempowered peasants: the loss of collective economic interests fragmented their political power. Village leaders, in contrast, were able to concentrate political power in their own hands and thus gained the most from decollectivization.

Although we know anecdotally some high-level cadre also opposed the reform, their voices were never significant in the public arena.³⁴ Some authors tried to find some anti-decollectivization central leaders but their arguments were unconvincing. Take Kate Xiao Zhou for example: she identifies Prime Minister Zhao Ziyang as a central leader who opposed decollectivization in 1980, but on the same page she counts Zhao as one of the pro-decollectivization leaders on another occasion in the same year!³⁵ In fact, the CCP's dominant figure, Deng Xiaoping, highly praised decollectivization as early as 1980, so it was very unlikely that any central leader would oppose it, a fact observed by MacFarquhar and confirmed by Zhao Ziyang himself.³⁶

时间，但他们一旦意识到中央领导人的意图，他们的态度就会“完全转变”，以确保他们的政治地位。²⁹ 仍然有一些支持集体的省级领导人能够抵制，但他们无法继续长期支持集体。³⁰

罗德里克·麦克法夸尔观察到，农村干部最初对他们的新任务感到不满，但他们很快意识到，他们可以通过利用政治技能和关系来维护自己的地位并增加收入，从而从改革中受益。³¹ 有趣的是，黄树民还认为，尽管集体中的普通农民和工人非常担心自己的未来并强烈抗议，但许多地方干部却热情地推动去集体化，因为他们可以接管集体企业并从中获利。³² 他们作为集体领导人所获得的经验和关系现在使他们能够经营实际上属于他们自己的企业。韩东屏描述了类似的政治变化。³³ 随着去集体化，集体企业被置于村党支部书记和经理的控制之下，他们经常出租企业或干脆买断企业，尽管村民强烈反对。去集体化削弱了农民的权力：集体经济利益的丧失削弱了他们的政治权力。相比之下，村干部能够将政治权力集中在自己手中，从而从去集体化中获益最多。

虽然我们从传闻中得知一些高级干部也反对改革，但他们的声音在公共领域从未占据重要地位。³⁴ 一些作者试图找到一些反对去集体化的中央领导人，但他们的论点没有说服力。以凯特·肖·周为例：她认为国务院总理赵紫阳是1980年反对去集体化的中央领导人，但在同一页上，她又将赵紫阳列为同年另一场合支持去集体化的领导人之一！³⁵ 事实上，中共的 dominant 人物邓小平早在1980年就高度赞扬去集体化，因此任何中央领导人都不太可能反对它，麦克法夸尔观察到这一事实，并得到赵紫阳本人的证实。³⁶

Huang documents a story in southeast China where the higher authorities and some villagers pressured the local leader to dismantle the collective, but the leader was able to resist until 1984.³⁷ He resisted not because he was afraid of losing control, since he would remain in a position of unchallenged power before or after decollectivization. He simply felt that a system that was working well should not be destroyed.

The official provincial records mention reactions from some peasants and cadres. For example, in Jilin Province, some old Communist Party members publicly claimed that there would not be any socialism without collectives, not to mention communism and a communist party. Some cadres burst into tears when they divided farmland and draft animals. They were sincerely afraid that the merits of collectives such as economies of scale, mechanization, and diversified production might get lost after decollectivization.³⁸

Another report from Lu'an District in Anhui Province is also illuminating.³⁹ The author, Wang Yanhai, carefully documented two debates on decollectivization in 1979 among the cadre. The pro-collective cadre raised several major critiques of decollectivization. First, they observed that leadership, rather than decollectivization, explained the growth in agriculture. Second, only 30 percent of all the peasants who had more labor and human capital wanted decollectivization. Third, agriculture naturally required collective decision making in irrigation and farming. These were strong arguments, and not at all related to concerns about “losing control.” So the pro-collective faction actually won the first debate. However, in the second debate, they were clearly under pressure from anti-collective leaders. As a result, they had to make significant compromises and their critiques were in fact dismissed.

The overall change to decollectivization was potentially beneficial to the cadre but not so much for ordinary peasants.⁴⁰ An award-winning novel, *Shan yue bu zhi xin li shi* (the innocent country moon) that was published in 1981 showed different attitudes on the reform in a very subtle way. A young, educated member of the cadre started decollectivization reform and other “leaders” opposed him while the “peasants” welcomed it; some anti-decollectivization women first opposed him but later agreed to his reform ideas.⁴¹ In

黄记录了中国东南部的一个故事，当地的上级部门和一些村民向当地领导人施压，要求解散集体，但这位领导人一直坚持到 1984 年。³⁷ 他之所以抵制，并不是因为他害怕失去控制，因为无论是在解散集体之前还是之后，他都将保持无人能及的权力地位。他只是觉得一个运转良好的系统不应该被摧毁。

官方的省级记录提到了来自一些农民和干部的反应。例如，在吉林省，一些老共产党员公开声称，没有集体就没有社会主义，更不用说共产主义和共产党了。一些干部在分配农田和役畜时失声痛哭。他们真诚地担心，集体化经营的优点，如规模经济、机械化和多样化的生产，在解散集体后可能会丧失。³⁸

另一份来自安徽省六安地区的报告也很有启发性。³⁹ 作者王延海仔细记录了 1979 年干部中关于解散集体的两次辩论。支持集体化的干部提出了对解散集体的几项主要批评。首先，他们认为农业的增长是由领导力，而不是解散集体造成的。其次，只有 30% 的拥有更多劳动力和人力资本的农民想要解散集体。第三，农业自然需要在灌溉和耕作方面做出集体决策。这些都是强有力的论据，与担心“失去控制”毫无关系。因此，支持集体化的派别实际上赢得了第一次辩论。然而，在第二次辩论中，他们显然受到了来自反集体领导人的压力。结果，他们不得不做出重大妥协，他们的批评实际上被驳回了。

从总体上看，解散集体化对干部可能有利，但对普通农民来说则不然。⁴⁰ 1981 年出版的获奖小说《山月不知心底事》以非常微妙的方式展现了对改革的不同态度。一位年轻、受过教育的干部成员开始了解散集体化的改革，而其他“领导”反对他，而“农民”则欢迎它；一些反对解散集体化的妇女最初反对他，但后来同意了他的改革想法。⁴¹ 在

this novel, the contradictions previously mentioned were solved by the leader's superman spirit: he deliberately allocated inferior land to himself rather than take advantage of the land division. Moreover he worked day and night for free for those families with insufficient labor. However, the logical problem comes up again: if this leader was so charismatic and self-sacrificing, it is hard to imagine why he could not lead peasants in collective production.

The interpretation that depicts agrarian reform as a bottom-up movement originating with the peasants and opposed by local cadre is fatally flawed. The cadre and a small segment of the peasantry implemented and benefited from the reform. The average peasants were not enthusiastic about the proposed changes, and even opposed them in some cases. But if decollectivization was actually led by the CCP cadre and other advantaged groups, what was their primary goal? A brief review of CCP party lines on agrarian relations over the last three decades may shed some light on this question.

CHANGING POLITICAL WINDS

Mao's death in September 1976 marked a new era for China. Not long after, Deng Xiaoping became the most powerful person in the CCP Central Committee. Although he and his allies were longtime supporters of household production, it was not clear at the beginning that he wanted to dismantle the collective economy so rapidly. In his famous political speech in 1978, which outlined his plan for widespread market reforms, he only briefly mentioned agriculture.⁴²

Now the most important task is to increase the autonomy of factories and production teams. . . . How much wealth can be produced out of that! . . . The more wealth individuals create for the state, the more income they should receive and the collective welfare could be better.⁴³

It was clear that he did not appreciate the Maoist collectives, with egalitarian income distribution. However, his critique of collective

在这部小说中，之前提到的矛盾通过领导者的超人精神得到了解决：他故意将劣质土地分配给自己，而不是利用土地分割。此外，他还日夜免费为那些劳动力不足的家庭工作。然而，逻辑问题再次出现：如果这位领导者如此有魅力和自我牺牲精神，很难想象他为什么不能带领农民进行集体生产。

将土地改革描述为由农民发起并受到地方干部反对的自下而上的运动的解释存在致命缺陷。干部和一小部分农民实施了改革并从中受益。普通农民对拟议的改革并不热情，甚至在某些情况下还反对。但是，如果去集体化实际上是由中共干部和其他优势群体领导的，那么他们的主要目标是什么？简要回顾过去三十年来中共关于农业关系的方针，可能会对这个问题有所启发。

变化中的政治风向

毛泽东于 1976 年 9 月去世，标志着中国进入了一个新时代。不久之后，邓小平成为中共中央最有权势的人。尽管他和他的盟友长期以来一直是家庭生产的支持者，但一开始并不清楚他是否想如此迅速地解散集体经济。在他 1978 年著名的政治演讲中，他概述了广泛的市场改革计划，但他只是简要地提到了农业。

现在最重要的任务是增加工厂和生产队的自主权……那样可以创造多少财富啊！……个人为国家创造的财富越多，他们应该得到的收入就越多，集体福利也会更好。⁴³

很明显，他不欣赏毛泽东时代的集体，以及平均主义的收入分配。然而，他对集体的批判

agriculture was very general. Around this time, the CCP also passed a new resolution on agricultural development, which encouraged collectives to rely on economic incentives and raised procurement prices to increase peasants' incomes.⁴⁴ Interestingly, the official CCP documents concluded that the main problem with collective agriculture was a legacy from "extreme leftists" in the Cultural Revolution. Nevertheless, all the new policies clearly retained the collective model.

In 1981, in an extremely important political resolution, the CCP finally reached a general consensus on the party's own history.⁴⁵ This report basically settled the debates within the party and provided a formal evaluation of Mao and his policies. It is interesting to note that although the report criticized many aspects of the Cultural Revolution and claimed it caused huge waste and unnecessary cost to the economy, it praised agriculture, with its increased grain production, as one of very few fields that had made "steady growth." Along this line, some history books also considered that agriculture was steadily growing in spite of the Cultural Revolution.⁴⁶

But after the period of rapid decollectivization, the collective economy began to be seen as "stagnant." Hu Yaobang made this claim at the CCP's 12th National Congress in 1982: "[As we] corrected the previous 'left' error in the direction . . . agricultural performance was immediately changed significantly, from stagnant to prosperous."⁴⁷

This became the standard description of collective agriculture from then on. The problem with collective agriculture was now not only identified with the extreme left, but with the normal left. At the same national congress, Du Runsheng, the head of the agricultural committee in the state council, explained clearly what the left error was: "The left error in agriculture had been there for more than twenty years until the responsibility system and especially *bao gan dao hu* [decollectivization] gave a strong fightback; long-suppressed incentives were released and long-lasting stagnation in agriculture was changed."⁴⁸

So we see that the CCP began demonizing collectives at the 12th National Congress, only one year after the CCP praised collective agriculture for its "steady growth." However, the evaluation of

农业非常普遍。大约在这个时候，中共还通过了一项关于农业发展的新决议，鼓励集体依赖经济激励，并提高采购价格以增加农民的收入。⁴⁴ 有趣的是，官方的中共文件得出结论，集体农业的主要问题是文化大革命中“极左分子”的遗留问题。然而，所有的新政策都明确保留了集体模式。

1981年，在一项极其重要的政治决议中，中共最终就党的自身历史达成了普遍共识。⁴⁵ 这份报告基本上解决了党内的辩论，并对毛泽东及其政策进行了正式评估。值得注意的是，虽然该报告批评了文化大革命的许多方面，并声称它给经济造成了巨大的浪费和不必要的成本，但它赞扬了农业，认为其粮食产量增加，是为数不多的取得“稳步增长”的领域之一。沿着这条思路，一些历史书籍也认为，尽管发生了文化大革命，农业仍在稳步增长。⁴⁶

但是，在经历了快速的非集体化时期之后，集体经济开始被视为“停滞”。胡耀邦在1982年中共十二大上提出了这一说法：“[当我们]纠正了先前方向上的‘左’的错误之后……农业的表现立即发生了显著变化，从停滞变为繁荣。”⁴⁷

从那时起，它成为集体农业的标准描述。集体农业的问题现在不仅与“极左”联系在一起，而且与“正常的左派”联系在一起。在同一次全国代表大会上，国务院农业委员会主任杜润生清楚地解释了“左”的错误是什么：“农业中的‘左’的错误已经存在了二十多年，直到责任制，特别是包干到户[非集体化]给予了强有力的反击；长期被压抑的激励措施得到释放，农业长期停滞的局面得到改变。”⁴⁸

因此，我们看到，中国共产党在十二大上开始妖魔化集体，而仅仅在一年前，中国共产党还赞扬集体农业的“稳步增长”。然而，对……的评价

decollectivization was also subject to change. After 1984, grain production stagnated for quite a while, and the CCP leaders changed their tune once again. Zhao Ziyang claimed agriculture needed policy support beyond decollectivization if it was to move forward.⁴⁹ Du Runsheng also downplayed decollectivization and said that agriculture ultimately depended on more technological progress.⁵⁰

Interestingly, collective agriculture was not always demonized; in fact, the evaluation varied according to the political atmosphere. As D.Y. Hsu and P.Y. Ching discovered, Vice Premier Tian Jiyun once “acknowledged that the development of the agriculture infrastructure in the thirty years before the reform was the main reason for increases in agricultural production since the reform.”⁵¹ After the events in Tiananmen Square in 1989, political figures had to pretend to be a bit more “left” than they were in the 1980s. As Hsu and Ching observe, the leaders began repeatedly praising the achievements of the past forty years.⁵² And in his speech at the 40th National Day celebration in 1989, Jiang Zemin, the new CCP national leader, deliberately changed the name of the agrarian reform from “household responsibility system” to “responsibility system.”⁵³ This change, though subtle, implicitly understated the substance of decollectivization in the reform.⁵⁴ However, as the political pressure let up in the early 1990s, the name “household responsibility system” was restored and has remained since then. This was further confirmed by the report of the CCP’s 15th Central Committee 3rd Plenary, in which the decollectivization of the rural economy was considered to have led, and greatly contributed to, the whole market reform.⁵⁵

But since the new century began, the party line on household production has once again changed. Where the leaders once insisted that only individual or family farming could provide effective incentives, they now think incentives will be effective if farmworkers work together, as long as they are wage laborers working for a capitalist owner. The new political argument maintains the superiority of household over collective farming, but at the same time points out the limits of small household farming. As an alternative, it calls for land consolidation to reach a sufficient scale to launch agricultural

去集体化也 подверглось 变化。1984 年之后，粮食产量停滞了很长一段时间，中国共产党领导人再次改变了他们的论调。赵紫阳声称，如果农业要向前发展，就需要去集体化之外的政策支持。⁴⁹ 杜润生也淡化了去集体化，并表示农业最终依赖于更多的技术进步。⁵⁰

有趣的是，集体农业并不总是被妖魔化；事实上，评价会随着政治氛围的变化而变化。正如 D.Y. Hsu 和 P.Y. Ching 所发现的，国务院副总理田纪云曾“承认改革前三十年农业基础设施的发展是改革以来农业增产的主要原因”。⁵¹ 1989 年天安门广场事件后，政治人物不得不假装比 20 世纪 80 年代“更左”一些。正如 Hsu 和 Ching 观察到的，领导人开始反复赞扬过去四十年的成就。⁵² 并且在 1989 年国庆 40 周年庆典上的讲话中，新的中共国家领导人江泽民故意将农业改革的名称从“家庭责任制”改为“责任制”。⁵³ 这种改变虽然微妙，但隐含地低估了改革中去集体化的实质。⁵⁴ 然而，随着 20 世纪 90 年代初政治压力的减缓，“家庭责任制”的名称得到了恢复，并一直沿用至今。中共十五届三中全会的报告进一步证实了这一点，报告认为农村经济的去集体化已经并将极大地促进了整个市场改革。⁵⁵

但自从新世纪开始以来，党对家庭生产的方针再次发生了变化。领导人一度坚持只有个体或家庭农业才能提供有效的激励，但现在他们认为，只要农场工人一起为资本家打工，激励就会有效。新的政治论点坚持家庭农业优于集体农业，但同时也指出了小规模家庭农业的局限性。作为一种替代方案，它呼吁土地整合，以达到足够的规模来启动农业

investment and more efficient management. So household production is now considered inefficient. Of course, this assessment was never mentioned in the arguments against collective farming in the 1980s, when small peasants were declared the basis of agriculture modernization.⁵⁶

The new line was clear in the resolutions passed at the CCP's 16th and 17th Central Committee in 2002 and 2008, respectively.⁵⁷ In particular, the Third Plenary resolution passed by the 17th Central Committee focused on rural development and encouraged peasants to transfer land use rights to concentrate land for more efficient, large-scale agricultural production.

The mainstream media has, for the most part, parroted the party line. At first, collective agriculture was good, but then the household model was applauded as the best. Now HRS is not productive enough and land consolidation is the answer. The ideal size of the agricultural unit has swung from large to small and then back to large. The ownership structure, however, has changed monotonically, with a continuous erosion of collective ownership. Perhaps these changes in party line can point us toward a causal explanation of the whole agrarian change. At least they make us more curious about the political motivation behind the push for decollectivization.

CAUSES AND CONDITIONS OF DECOLLECTIVIZATION IN THE POST-MAO CONTEXT

Although many members of the central leadership, including Deng Xiaoping, were favorably disposed toward household agriculture, this fact alone would not be sufficient to explain decollectivization of the whole rural economy. It is possible that the reform could have been enforced, but it would not have proceeded as smoothly as it did. It is also unlikely that Deng and other pragmatic bureaucrats would have supported something if the conditions were not right. This section analyzes the political causes of and, equally importantly, the conditions for decollectivization.

投资和更有效的管理。因此，现在家庭生产被认为效率低下。当然，在 20 世纪 80 年代反对集体农业的论点中，从未提及这一评估，当时小农被宣布为农业现代化的基础。⁵⁶

中共十六届和十七届中央委员会分别于 2002 年和 2008 年通过的决议清楚地表明了新的路线。⁵⁷特别是，十七届三中全会通过的决议侧重于农村发展，并鼓励农民转让土地使用权，以集中土地，实现更高效、规模化的农业生产。

在很大程度上，主流媒体都在鹦鹉学舌般地重复党的路线。起初，集体农业很好，但后来家庭模式被誉为最好的。现在，家庭联产承包责任制（HRS）的生产力不够高，土地整合才是答案。农业单位的理想规模已经大到小，然后再回到大。然而，所有权结构却在单调地变化，集体所有制不断受到侵蚀。也许这些党路线的变化可以为我们指出整个农业变革的因果解释。至少，它们让我们对去集体化背后的政治动机更加好奇。

后毛泽东时代背景下非集体化的原因和条件

尽管包括邓小平在内的中央领导层中的许多成员都赞成家庭农业，但仅凭这一点不足以解释整个农村经济的非集体化。改革有可能被强制执行，但不会像现在这样顺利进行。如果条件不合适，邓小平等其他务实的官僚也不太可能支持某些事情。本节分析非集体化的政治原因，以及同样重要的非集体化的条件。

The “End” of Class Struggle

A short time after Mao's death, everything that sustained the Maoist society seemed to change. Indeed, the endless condemnation of the Cultural Revolution activists, the rapid restoration of the old cadre who had lost power during the Cultural Revolution and the previous political campaigns, and the emergence of so-called “scar literature” (*shanghen wenxue*) that described the destructive impacts of the previous era all marked Mao and his allies as political failures.⁵⁸ The bureaucrats reached out to form alliances with upper-level intellectuals who had lost their privileges during Mao's time. The new intellectual policies, such as reestablishing the national college entrance exam, were ways of gaining support from them. As Maurice Meisner argued, Deng Xiaoping succeeded in taking over power from Mao's immediate successor, Hua Guofeng, because of his wide support among the cadre, the military, and the intellectuals.⁵⁹ Although these political sectors may have differed in the past, and would differ again in the future, at the end of the 1970s they united under Deng on the need for a stable bureaucratic order and an end to Maoist mass movements such as the Cultural Revolution.

This change was reflected in the CCP's political and economic policies. The Third Plenary of the 11th Central Committee adopted a resolution stating that the central principle of the CCP was no longer “class struggle,” but “modernization.” The resolution also claimed that since the errors of the Cultural Revolution had been corrected, the main political enemy of workers and peasants was gone. This point was further developed in 1981, at the Sixth Plenary of the 11th Central Committee, where it was officially announced that class struggle was not the major contradiction in China anymore.⁶⁰ Of course, this assertion was true only in the sense that the bureaucrats and their allies now enjoyed overwhelming power over the country because their main political opponents inside the CCP had been defeated. However, the workers and peasants were yet to be tamed and remained potential enemies of the bureaucrats.

e 阶级斗争的“终结”

毛泽东去世后不久，维持毛主义社会的一切似乎都发生了变化。事实上，对文化大革命积极分子的无休止的谴责，在文化大革命和之前的政治运动中失去权力的老干部的迅速恢复，以及描述了前一个时代的破坏性影响的所谓“伤痕文学”（*shanghen wenxue*）都标志着毛泽东和他的盟友在政治上是失败的。⁵⁸ e 官僚们开始与在毛泽东时代失去特权的上层知识分子结盟。新的知识分子政策，如恢复全国大学入学考试，是获得他们支持的方式。正如莫里斯·梅斯纳所说，邓小平之所以能够从毛泽东的直接继任者华国锋手中夺取权力，是因为他得到了干部、军队和知识分子的广泛支持。⁵⁹ 尽管这些政治部门过去可能存在差异，将来也会再次出现差异，但在 20 世纪 70 年代末，他们团结在邓小平的领导下，认为需要一个稳定的官僚秩序，结束像文化大革命这样的毛主义群众运动。

这种变化反映在中共的政治和经济政策中。十一届三中全会通过了一项决议，声明中共的中心原则不再是“阶级斗争”，而是“现代化”。该决议还声称，由于文化大革命的错误已经得到纠正，工人和农民的主要政治敌人已经消失。这一观点在 1981 年举行的十一届六中全会上得到进一步发展，会上正式宣布阶级斗争不再是中国的主要矛盾。⁶⁰ 当然，这种说法只有在官僚及其盟友现在对国家享有压倒性权力的情况下才是正确的，因为他们在党内的主要政治对手已经被击败。然而，工人和农民尚未被驯服，仍然是官僚的潜在敌人。

The strong push for modernization, plus the admiration of developed countries' wealth, created an ideology that China must catch up with advanced capitalism using their scientific and advanced technology and management. What was "scientific and advanced"? In fact, Deng already gave the answer back in 1978: the responsibility system. Specifically, this vague term meant more power to management, more power to technicians and intellectuals, and stricter labor discipline based on bonuses and punishments.⁶¹

In fact, starting in the late 1970s, capitalist-oriented reform was already being implemented in the urban industries.⁶² And although the modernization that the CCP leaders meant was clearly different from socialism, and not likely to be welcomed by the workers, these tendencies and trends had not caused immediate social conflicts. This was largely because instead of trying to extract more from workers and peasants, the government pretended to compromise with them. In rural areas agricultural procurement prices were raised dramatically, and in urban areas workers got more dividends and awards.⁶³ These incentives were supposed to enhance the productivity of workers and peasants, and indeed agriculture and light industry enjoyed fast growth afterward. But the honeymoon between the capitalist-minded cadre and the workers and peasants soon came to an end.

Frustrating Urban Reform

The modernization program in industry was in fact a war on the workers in publicly owned enterprises. Jiang Zilong, then a worker writer, published a novel in 1979 that illustrates the conflicts between reformer cadres and workers.⁶⁴ In the novel, a newly appointed factory director and his wife—both very smart, both having recently studied management techniques in an advanced country, the Soviet Union—observe that, due to a loss of ideals after the Cultural Revolution, workers were lazy and shirking. Following the standard "scientific management" techniques, they used very harsh methods toward the workers, including firing more than a thousand non-tenured workers, in order to increase productivity. Many workers hated the new

对现代化的强烈推动，加上对发达国家财富的羡慕，形成了一种意识形态，即中国必须利用他们的科学和先进技术和先进管理赶上先进的资本主义。什么是“科学和先进”？事实上，邓在1978年就已经给出了答案：责任制。具体来说，这个模糊的术语意味着管理层拥有更大的权力，技术人员和知识分子拥有更大的权力，以及基于奖金和惩罚的更严格的劳动纪律。

⁶¹

事实上，从20世纪70年代末开始，以资本主义为导向的改革已经在城市工业中实施。⁶² 尽管中共领导人所说的现代化显然不同于社会主义，而且不太可能受到工人的欢迎，但这些趋势和趋势并没有立即引起社会冲突。这主要是因为政府并没有试图从工人和农民那里榨取更多，而是假装与他们妥协。在农村地区，农产品收购价格大幅提高，在城市地区，工人获得了更多的红利和奖励。⁶³ 这些激励措施本应提高工人和农民的生产力，事实上，农业和轻工业随后实现了快速增长。但是，以资本主义为导向的干部与工人和农民之间的蜜月很快就结束了。

令人沮丧的城市改革

工业现代化计划实际上是一场针对国有企业工人的战争。时任工人作家的蒋子龙在1979年发表了一部小说，讲述了改革干部和工人之间的冲突。⁶⁴ 在小说中，一位新上任的工厂厂长和他的妻子——两人都很聪明，两人最近都在一个发达国家（苏联）学习了管理技术——他们观察到，由于文化大革命后理想的丧失，工人变得懒惰和偷懒。按照标准的“科学管理”技术，他们对工人采取了非常严厉的手段，包括解雇一千多名没有终身职位的工人，以提高生产力。许多工人讨厌新的

director and wrote complaints to the party secretary in the factory, hoping the CCP would save them. However, the party secretary was of the same mind as the director. In the end, leaders at a higher level encouraged the director to feel free to experiment, and the management in the factory decided to go to some advanced country to learn more about new management techniques.

What this novel described was exactly the direction of urban reform. Instead of increasing worker participation and political power, leaders became commanders and workers were merely disciplined to serve production. In this novel, the goal of the leadership was modernization, but that goal could easily change to profits for the leaders in the future because workers would have no power at all. Nevertheless, at the end of the 1970s, workers still had considerable power in most cases, and even many workers who supported reform did not accept capitalism. The author of this novel is typical: although he advocated for reform in the beginning, Jiang has rethought reform in recent years and publicly opposed the privatization and suppression of workers.⁶⁵

According to MacFarquhar, urban reform posed great problems for the CCP since the opposition was very strong from the 1980s on.⁶⁶ Although it did not cause immediate social tension, the failure of urban reform was evident in the huge deficit of 1979–1980, which was caused not only by the increased pay for workers and peasants but also by large-scale imports from foreign countries under the ambitious modernization program.⁶⁷ The Chinese people were shocked by the resulting inflation, as there had been no inflation in Maoist China.⁶⁸ In order to balance the budget, the CCP had to close many factories and that caused massive unemployment.⁶⁹ As Wu Jinglian notes: “In the late 1980s, due to some negative effects of the New Great Leap Forward on state-owned enterprises, there were fiscal deficits, accelerating inflation, and chaotic economic order.”⁷⁰

Thus, it was clear that the compromise between cadre and worker was not going to continue. First, the basic idea of the reform was to discipline workers to make more profits, so sooner or later the conflict of interest would come to the surface. Second, even if the cadre

主任并向工厂的党委书记投诉，希望中国共产党能够拯救他们。然而，党委书记和主任的想法是一致的。最终，更高级别的领导鼓励主任放手进行实验，工厂的管理层决定去一些发达国家学习更多关于新的管理技术。

这部小说所描述的正是城市改革的方向。领导不是增加工人的参与和政治权力，而是变成了指挥官，而工人仅仅是被训练为生产服务。在这部小说中，领导的目标是现代化，但这个目标很容易在未来变成领导的利润，因为工人将没有任何权力。然而，在 20 世纪 70 年代末，工人在大多数情况下仍然拥有相当大的权力，甚至许多支持改革的工人也不接受资本主义。这部小说的作者是典型的：虽然他最初提倡改革，但近年来姜重新思考了改革，并公开反对私有化和压制工人。⁶⁵

根据麦克法夸尔的说法，自 20 世纪 80 年代以来，城市改革给中国共产党带来了巨大的问题，因为反对声音非常强烈。⁶⁶虽然这没有立即引起社会紧张，但城市改革的失败在 1979–1980 年的巨额赤字中显而易见，这不仅是由于工人和农民的工资增加，而且还由于雄心勃勃的现代化计划下从国外大规模进口。⁶⁷由此造成的通货膨胀震惊了中国人民，因为在毛泽东时代的中国没有通货膨胀。⁶⁸为了平衡预算，中国共产党不得不关闭许多工厂，这造成了大规模的失业。⁶⁹正如吴敬琏所指出的那样：“在 20 世纪 80 年代末，由于新大跃进对国有企业的一些负面影响，出现了财政赤字、通货膨胀加速和混乱的经济秩序。”⁷⁰

在我们看来，干部和工人之间的妥协显然不会继续下去。首先，改革的基本思想是约束工人以获取更多利润，因此利益冲突迟早会浮出水面。其次，即使干部

planned to buy support for the reform from workers, they were not able to do so anymore, given the severe conditions in the cities.

The problems in the urban areas led to the first political and economic crisis of the post-Mao CCP. It became politically risky to proceed with the capitalist line since that would lead to direct confrontation with workers in bad economic conditions. So it was natural that the cadre turned to the rural economy in 1980.⁷¹

The Weak Link

The rural economy was indeed the Achilles' heel of the socialist economy. Not only were one-third of the collectives not in good shape, but also the more successful ones suffered from a number of problems.⁷²

Collective agriculture had made impressive achievements. However, population growth due to better health care and other improvements in the quality of life canceled out much of the improvement. For example, in the commune that Sulamith and Jack Potter studied, per capita distribution (income from work points per person) fell from a high of about 180 yuan in 1962 to a level just over 100 yuan throughout most of the 1960s and 1970s, even though gross output kept increasing.⁷³ Although population growth began to slow down in the 1970s, it was not sufficient to overturn the trend. On the national level, grain production increased annually by 2.68 percent from 1956 to 1978; at the same time population grew annually by 1.95 percent, so there was limited improvement in per capita product despite the growth in agriculture.⁷⁴

Second, there was a lack of mechanization in agriculture. Without sufficient mechanization and infrastructure, collective farming is not necessarily more productive than individual farming. In Mao's time, a lot of infrastructure was built by the communes; however, mechanization only started to increase rapidly in the mid-1970s.

Third, different historical paths led to different performances in collective farming. As William Hinton pointed out, the successful collectives he observed had a long history of land reform and military struggle against reactionaries. Many strong peasant political

他们原本计划从工人那里获得对改革的支持，但鉴于城市中严峻的形势，他们再也无法做到这一点。

城市地区的问题导致了后毛时代中国共产党第一次政治和经济危机。由于推进资本主义路线会导致与经济状况不佳的工人直接对抗，因此在政治上变得有风险。因此，干部们在1980年转向农村经济是很自然的。⁷¹

薄弱环节

农村经济确实是社会主义经济的薄弱环节。不仅有三分之一的集体状况不佳，而且更成功的集体也遭受了许多问题。⁷²

集体农业取得了令人瞩目的成就。然而，由于更好的医疗保健和生活质量的其他改善导致的人口增长抵消了大部分改善。例如，在苏拉米斯和杰克·波特研究的公社中，人均分配（每人工作分的收入）从1962年的大约180元的高位下降到整个1960年代和1970年代的略高于100元的水平，即使总产量一直在增加。⁷³ 尽管人口增长在1970年代开始放缓，但不足以扭转这一趋势。在国家层面，从1956年到1978年，粮食产量每年增长2.68%；与此同时，人口每年增长1.95%，因此尽管农业增长，但人均产品增长有限。⁷⁴

其次，农业缺乏机械化。如果没有足够的机械化和基础设施，集体耕作不一定比个体耕作更有效率。在毛泽东时代，公社建造了大量基础设施；然而，机械化只是在1970年代中期才开始迅速增加。

第三，不同的历史路径导致了集体耕作的不同表现。正如威廉·辛顿指出的那样，他观察到的成功的集体有着长期的土地改革和反对反动派的军事斗争的历史。许多强大的农民政治

leaders developed through that process and led the collective production well.⁷⁵ In other places, such as Anhui Province, land reform and collectivization were quickly instituted by outsiders rather than by local political leaders. In those places, collective farming was never as widely accepted by the peasants.

Last but not least, the prevailing political stratification dampened the mobilization and organizational capacity of the collectives, which led to underperformance of collective farming. In other words, the lack of socialist superstructure (such as politics and power structure) reduced the peasants' potential support for maintaining the collectives in some cases. Chapter 5 will elaborate more on this point.

The underperformance of collective farming in many places made it an easier case for the central authority to stress the inefficiency of the collective regime and thus enforce the decollectivization reform. The political power of the peasants was never as strong as that of the urban proletariat, who had been through decades of experience with industrialization and political organizing. Therefore, the relative weakness of peasants both economically and politically made them the first major target after the failure of urban reform.

Selling Decollectivization

Even with a relatively less powerful peasantry, decollectivization was not easy. It faced opposition on all levels. The strong resistance was largely due to the benefits the peasants received from the collectives and longtime emphasis on collective farming during Mao's time. But the CCP was indeed able to convince many peasants that decollectivization would be both efficient and socialist. This campaign was so successful that it deserves a separate discussion. As a strange blend of bourgeois propaganda and old revolutionary slogans, the ideological campaign proved to be effective.

First, the leaders always tried to make it appear that the new policies were in line with the socialist tradition. From the very beginning, the cadres were very careful with their language. Take the term "responsibility system." It was deliberately vague—no one could

领导者通过该过程发展起来，并很好地领导了集体生产。⁷⁵ 在其他地方，如安徽省，土地改革和集体化是由外来者而非当地政治领导人迅速推行的。在这些地方，集体耕作从未被农民广泛接受。

最后但并非最不重要的是，普遍存在的政治分层削弱了集体的动员和组织能力，导致集体耕作表现不佳。换句话说，社会主义上层建筑（如政治和权力结构）的缺乏降低了农民在某些情况下维持集体的潜在支持。第5章将详细阐述这一点。

许多地方集体耕作的糟糕表现使得中央政府更容易强调集体制度的低效，从而推行解散集体化改革。农民的政治力量从未像城市无产阶级那样强大，后者经历了数十年的工业化和政治组织经验。因此，农民在经济和政治上的相对弱势使他们成为城市改革失败后的第一个主要目标。

出售解散集体化

即使农民的力量相对较弱，非集体化也并非易事。它面临着各个层面的反对。强大的阻力很大程度上是由于农民从集体中获得的利益以及毛泽东时代长期以来对集体耕作的强调。但中国共产党确实能够说服许多农民，非集体化既有效率又是社会主义的。这场运动非常成功，值得单独讨论。作为资产阶级宣传和旧革命口号的奇怪混合体，意识形态运动被证明是有效的。

首先，领导人总是试图让人们觉得新政策符合社会主义传统。从一开始，干部们就非常注意他们的语言。以“责任制”一词为例。它被故意模糊——没有人能够

reject the need for people to take responsibility for their work. In fact, during the Maoist period the collectives widely contracted out small jobs to either groups or individuals, but these measures did not change the nature of the collective.⁷⁶ However, radical decollectivization reforms were hidden under the name of “responsibility system” as if they were the same as the already existing small-job contracting under the collectives. The CCP also tried very hard to differentiate decollectivization from complete privatization by keeping nominal ownership of the land collective. This vagueness of propaganda helped peasants and cadres to interpret the reform as still socialist and progressive.⁷⁷

An interesting anecdote illustrates the propaganda effect of the “responsibility” name tag. During the decollectivization campaign, Romanian government representatives visited China and asked whether the household responsibility system could be simply renamed “responsibility system” since the previous one looked too similar to privatization. This suggestion was quickly refused by the policy makers because they believed “household” (i.e., decollectivization) more than anything was the key to the reform package.⁷⁸

We can observe the deliberate vagueness in two of the most popular terms of the decollectivization campaign. The first term, *da bao gan*, actually means “divide the land and work on your own.” However, it has another possible meaning: “guarantee to work.” Many people thought the term referred to the second meaning, which clearly does not have any political implication. The second term, *lian chan*, means “linking revenue to production,” which means the collectives are not responsible for allocating income. But in Chinese, the term could also imply some sort of “cooperative production.” Again, many people wrongly believed that it referred to the second meaning.

While the leadership failed to get workers’ support for the reform, they succeeded with peasants. Through the transition period (1979–1984) peasants’ income increased greatly mainly due to increased procurement prices. Propaganda attributed this achievement to decollectivization. Therefore, most peasants had a positive view of the rural reforms, at least at the beginning.

拒绝人们为自己的工作承担责任。事实上，在毛泽东时代，集体广泛地将小工作分包给团体或个人，但这些措施并没有改变集体的性质。⁷⁶然而，激进的解散集体化改革被隐藏在“责任制”的名义下，就好像它们与集体下已经存在的小工作分包相同。中国共产党也努力将解散集体化与完全私有化区分开来，保留土地集体的名义所有权。这种宣传的模糊性帮助农民和干部将改革解读为仍然是社会主义和进步的。⁷⁷

一个有趣的轶事说明了“责任制”标签的宣传效果。在解散集体化运动期间，罗马尼亚政府代表访问中国，询问户主责任制是否可以简单地更名为“责任制”，因为之前的名称看起来与私有化太相似。决策者很快拒绝了这个建议，因为他们认为“户主”（即解散集体化）比任何东西都更像是改革方案的关键。⁷⁸

我们可以观察到解散集体化运动中最流行的两个术语中的刻意模糊性。第一个术语，大包干，实际上意味着“分地单干”。然而，它还有另一种可能的含义：“保证工作”。许多人认为这个术语指的是第二种含义，这显然没有任何政治含义。第二个术语，联产，意思是“将收入与生产联系起来”，这意味着集体不负责分配收入。但在中文中，该术语也可能暗示某种“合作生产”。同样，许多人错误地认为它指的是第二种含义。

虽然领导层未能获得工人对改革的支持，但他们成功地获得了农民的支持。在转型时期（1979-1984年），农民的收入大幅增加，这主要是由于采购价格的上涨。宣传将这一成就归功于非集体化。因此，大多数农民对农村改革持积极态度，至少在最初是这样。

Finally, in face of challenges from the pro-collective camp, the reformers always avoided direct confrontation and used sophisticated diplomatic skills. For example, many pro-decollectivization reports in the early 1980s admitted that the rural reform could eventually lead to the dismantling of the collectives and the restoration of small peasant production.⁷⁹ However, they only acknowledged these problems at an abstract level; on a concrete level they would only present pro-decollectivization cases. They also argued that a small degree of decollectivization would not really hurt socialist agriculture. After all, they would conclude optimistically, with definitive support of further decollectivization as the “inevitable trend.”

In summary, strong workers' opposition directly caused the failure of urban reform, which pushed the CCP to refocus its attention on rural reform. For all the factors considered above, rural collectives were vulnerable to attacks from the CCP. At the same time, we should never underestimate the importance of ideology in the nationwide agrarian reform.

POLITICAL CONSEQUENCES

With the success of decollectivization in rural areas, the CCP could restart their urban programs. This was clearly stated in 1984 at the Third Plenary of the 12th Central Committee.⁸⁰ Why was leadership so confident about dealing with workers now?

First, the peasants ceased to be an important political force in China. Decollectivization, which transformed the organized and collective peasantry into independent and competing petty producers, greatly disempowered the peasantry as a body.

The potential threat of peasant revolts was always immense to the CCP leaders, who had led the peasant revolution themselves. Even a decade after rural decollectivization, a Chinese vice premier reportedly claimed that no one in the present regime can hold onto power if there are problems in the countryside.⁸¹ The leaders in the early 1990s knew that if the farms were recollectivized, it would inevitably lead to a severe deterioration in the relations between the peasantry and the

最后, 面对来自亲集体阵营的挑战, 改革者总是避免直接对抗, 而是运用精明的外交技巧。例如, 20 世纪 80 年代初的许多支持非集体化的报告承认, 农村改革最终可能导致集体解体 and 恢复小农生产。⁷⁹ 然而, 他们只在抽象层面上承认这些问题; 在具体层面上, 他们只会提出支持非集体化的案例。他们还辩称, 小程度的非集体化不会真正损害社会主义农业。毕竟, 他们会乐观地总结说, 明确支持进一步的非集体化是 “不可避免的趋势”。

总而言之, 工人强烈的反对直接导致了城市改革的失败, 这促使中国共产党将注意力重新集中在农村改革上。考虑到上述所有因素, 农村集体很容易受到中国共产党的攻击。与此同时, 我们绝不应低估意识形态在全国农业改革中的重要性。

政治后果

随着农村地区非集体化的成功, 中国共产党可以重新启动他们的城市计划。这在 1984 年党的十二届三中全会上明确指出。⁸⁰ 为什么领导层现在对处理工人问题如此有信心?

首先, 农民不再是中国重要的政治力量。非集体化将有组织的集体农民转变为独立的、相互竞争的小生产者, 极大地削弱了农民作为一个整体的力量。

农民起义的潜在威胁对于曾经领导农民革命的中共领导人来说始终是巨大的。即使在农村非集体化十年后, 据报道, 一位中国国务院副总理声称, 如果农村出现问题, 那么现政权的任何人都无法保住权力。⁸¹ 20 世纪 90 年代初的领导人知道, 如果农场重新集体化, 必然会导致农民与农民之间关系的严重恶化。

party and government. The fear of an aroused peasantry also partly explained the leaders' unwillingness to set up a farmers' association despite numerous proposals.⁸²

By disempowering the peasantry, the CCP successfully eliminated one big threat to the further transition to capitalism. For example, the peasants kept silent when political unrest caused by privatization and market reform accumulated in the late 1980s. When students in Tiananmen Square were asked where the peasants were, the answer was "They are all asleep."⁸³ At the same time, Deng Xiaoping assured other leaders that there was no problem with the peasants.⁸⁴ Even in riots that occurred in subsequent years, they were not as threatening as they could be if they were organized.

Second, the traditional peasant-worker alliance was broken. The temporary income increase in the countryside persuaded most peasants to support further reforms. There was also a long-run outcome: after agrarian reform the CCP encouraged individual peasants to sell their labor power in the city, providing an almost infinite labor supply to private industry in the urban areas. The urban labor glut greatly undermined the power of the old working class in publicly owned enterprises. It was under these conditions, including mass unemployment, that further capitalist-oriented urban reform was made possible.

The peasants were not any better off than urban workers, as their own political position declined and the need for the CCP to appease them decreased. Table 4.1 shows the changes of the ratio of urban-to-rural per capita income from 1980 to 2010. Although the peasants' passiveness in the late 1980s might be explained by their satisfaction that the urban-rural gap was dramatically reduced, the same logic cannot be applied to the later period, when the gap widened again after 1990. The decline of the peasants' political power also indirectly led to the relative decrease of state investment in agriculture. Clearly, the policy makers seemed to have forgotten the countryside. The share of rural expenditure in the whole fiscal budget declined from its high level in the collective era, even after adjusting for the declining rural population (Table 4.1, col. 2). Moreover, the rural

党和政府。对农民觉醒的恐惧也在一定程度上解释了领导人為何不愿成立农民协会，尽管有许多提议。⁸²

通过剥夺农民的权力，中国共产党成功地消除了进一步向资本主义过渡的一大威胁。例如，在 20 世纪 80 年代末，由于私有化和市场改革引发的政治动荡积累时，农民保持沉默。当在天安门广场的学生被问及农民在哪里时，答案是“他们都睡着了”。⁸³与此同时，邓小平向其他领导人保证农民没有问题。⁸⁴即使在随后的几年里发生的骚乱中，如果他们有组织，也不会那么具有威胁性。

其次，传统的工农联盟破裂了。农村地区暂时的收入增加说服了大多数农民支持进一步的改革。还有一个长期的结果：在农业改革之后，中国共产党鼓励个体农民在城市出售他们的劳动力，为城市地区的私营企业提供了几乎无限的劳动力供应。城市劳动力过剩极大地削弱了公有制企业中旧工人阶级的力量。正是在这些条件下，包括大规模失业，进一步以资本主义为导向的城市改革才成为可能。

农民的生活并不比城市工人好，因为他们的政治地位下降，中共安抚他们的需求也随之减少。表 4.1 显示了 1980 年至 2010 年城乡人均收入比的变化。虽然农民在 1980 年代后期的消极性可以用城乡差距大幅缩小来解释，但同样的逻辑不能应用于后期，即 1990 年后差距再次扩大。农民政治权力的下降也间接导致了国家对农业投资的相对减少。显然，政策制定者似乎已经忘记了农村。农村支出在整个财政预算中的份额从集体化时代的高水平下降，即使在调整了农村人口下降的情况下也是如此（表 4.1，第 2 列）。此外，农村

TABLE 4.1: Decline of the Countryside

Urban-Rural Income Ratio		Adjusted Share of Fiscal Expenditure on Rural Areas (%)		Share of Infrastructure Building in Total Rural Expenditure (%)
1980	2.5	1971–1980	13.7	39.6
1990	2.2	1981–1990	11.8	22.7
2000	2.8	1991–2000	13.2	25.3
2010	3.1	2001–2006	12.8	25.0

Notes: Urban-rural income ratio is defined as the urban per capita disposable income divided by the counterpart in rural areas. The share of fiscal expenditure in rural areas is calculated as the share of per capita rural fiscal spending in national per capita fiscal spending to adjust for the changing population composition over time. The fiscal expenditure data after 2006 are not available owing to adjustments in the measurement.

Sources: Calculated based on Ministry of Agriculture, 2009; State Statistical Bureau, 2005, section 19, 30; State Statistical Bureau, 2012, sections 3.1, 9.2.

infrastructure expenditure share within the already small rural fiscal budget also went down dramatically compared to the collective era (Table 4.1, col. 3).

The workers and peasants were potential opponents of capitalism, and the CCP would have been unwise to face both at the same time. However, after dissolving the power of the peasantry, the CCP could now confront the workers alone. Even if the peasants began to experience hardship in later years, they did not have the solidarity and organization that they had enjoyed in the collective era.

The propaganda efforts of the CCP tried to make the rural reform look spontaneous and politically neutral. Yet it is also clear from the changing party lines that the reform was always a matter of politics. The rural reform served as the political basis for the later transition to capitalism, although the CCP always tried to hide this fact.

In fact, Mao made the politics of decollectivization clear as early as 1962: “Do we want socialism or capitalism? Do we want collectivization or decollectivization?”⁸⁵ In particular, he reminded everyone to “never forget class struggle.” Although not many peasants and workers understood Mao’s reminders at the time, they definitely understand them now.

表 4.1: 乡村衰落

城乡 城乡收入比		调整后的份额 财政支出 在农村地区的比例 (%)		基础设施的份额 在农村总额中的建设 支出 (%)
1980	2.5	1971–1980	13.7	39.6
1990	2.2	1981–1990	11.8	22.7
2000	2.8	1991–2000 年	13.2	25.3
2010	3.1	2001–2006 年	12.8	25.0

注释：城乡收入比定义为城镇居民人均可支配收入除以农村地区相应收入。农村地区财政支出份额的计算方法为：农村人均财政支出占全国人均财政支出的份额，以调整随时间变化的人口构成。由于计量方法的调整，2006 年以后的财政支出数据不可用。

Sources: Calculated based on Ministry of Agriculture, 2009; State Statistical Bureau, 2005, section 19, 30; State Statistical Bureau, 2012, sections 3.1, 9.2.

与集体化时代相比，本来就很小的农村财政预算中，基础设施支出所占的比例也急剧下降（表 4.1，第 3 列）。

e 工人和农民是资本主义潜在的反对者，中共同时面对这两者是不明智的。然而，在瓦解了农民的力量之后，中共现在可以单独面对工人。即使农民在后来的几年里开始经历困苦，他们也没有在集体化时代所享有的团结和组织。

e 中国共产党的宣传工作试图使农村改革看起来是自发的和政治中立的。然而，从不断变化的党的路线中也可以清楚地看到，改革始终是一个政治问题。农村改革为后来向资本主义的过渡奠定了政治基础，尽管中国共产党总是试图掩盖这一事实。

事实上，早在 1962 年，毛就明确指出了非集体化的政治意义：“我们要社会主义还是资本主义？我们要集体化还是非集体化？”⁸⁶ 特别是，他提醒大家“永远不要忘记阶级斗争”。虽然当时没有多少农民和工人理解毛的提醒，但他们现在肯定理解了。

The Achievement, Contradictions, and Demise of Rural Collectives

INTRODUCTION

Scholars critical of rural collectives often claim that because of flawed incentive structures or lack of supervision, the collectives suffered from inefficiency and work avoidance. These internal problems finally led to a bottom-up decollectivization movement in the early 1980s, which greatly increased agricultural productivity. But, as we have demonstrated, decollectivization was largely a top-down policy, and it did not significantly contribute to productivity improvement.

Those against collectives rightly point out that it was internal contradictions that led to the demise of the collectives, but they tend to overestimate the inefficiency issue. As a result, they exaggerate the positive aspects of decollectivization while downplaying its coercive nature. Their attempts to explain the problems of the collectives are not based on concrete empirics but are, rather, metaphysical, assuming certain features of human nature, like “laziness.” At the same time, while many of those in the opposite camp are right to recognize the remarkable achievements of the collectives and the political economy

农村集体经济的成就、矛盾与衰落

INTRODUCTION

由于激励机制存在缺陷或缺乏监督，集体遭受了效率低下和逃避工作的困扰。这些内部问题最终导致了 20 世纪 80 年代初自下而上的解体运动，大大提高了农业生产力。但是，正如我们所证明的那样，解体在很大程度上是一项自上而下的政策，并没有显着促进生产力的提高。

反对集体化的人士正确地指出，正是内部矛盾导致了集体的衰落，但他们往往高估了效率低下的问题。因此，他们夸大了非集体化的积极方面，同时淡化了其强制性。他们试图解释集体化问题并非基于具体的经验，而是形而上学的，假定人性的某些特征，比如“懒惰”。与此同时，虽然许多对立阵营的人士正确地认识到集体的卓越成就和政治经济

of the decollectivization campaign, this strand of the literature still needs to explain the fact that decollectivization was instituted relatively peacefully and with little resistance from the peasantry.

This chapter contributes to the discussion by offering a case study of Songzi County, illustrating the arguments and evidence with both qualitative and quantitative data. Located in southwest Hubei Province, Songzi is close to the southern bank of the Yangtze River. Songzi has shared many of the key experiences of rural China: it was occupied by the People's Liberation Army in 1949, underwent land reform immediately afterward, and collectivization (as the whole country did) in the 1950s. Songzi also experienced the Great Leap Forward in 1958 and the "difficult" years after. The Cultural Revolution, which began in 1966, also shook Songzi for a while. In 1982, its local government followed the central policy and peacefully dismantled the rural collectives.

During the winter of 2010 and the spring of 2011, I conducted interviews with local peasants and cadres active in the collective era. I initially selected a few interviewees from recommendations from my local friends in the villages. I then talked to more people based on the first round of interviews. Appendix 2 provides some brief information about the interviewees. I consulted local official records such as *Xianzhi* (the county record) and *Shuilizhi* (the water conservation record). In addition, I also examined the collective accounting books, which contained information on the revenues, costs, and debts of the collectives.

In this chapter, I will show both sides of the rural collectives in Songzi: their remarkable achievements, as well as their problems with work avoidance and inefficiency, and the struggles during and after decollectivization. I argue that socialist economic organization naturally requires a socialist political process featuring democracy and participation. If the collectives are governed by stratification, it is likely that the peasants will carry resentment and demonstrate work avoidance. While the demise of the rural collectives was mostly due to political pressure from the Communist Party, the stratification contributed to peasants' passiveness and failure to resist the institutional change.

关于非集体化运动，这一部分的文献仍然需要解释这样一个事实：非集体化的实施相对和平，并且农民的抵制很小。

本章通过提供松滋县的案例研究来参与讨论，用定性和定量数据来说明论点和证据。松滋县位于湖北省西南部，靠近长江南岸。松滋经历了中国农村的许多重要经验：1949 年被中国人民解放军占领，随后立即进行了土地改革，并在 20 世纪 50 年代进行了集体化（全国都是如此）。松滋还经历了 1958 年的大跃进和随后的“困难”时期。始于 1966 年的文化大革命也一度震动了松滋。1982 年，当地政府遵循中央政策，和平解散了农村集体。

在 2010 年冬季和 2011 年春季，我采访了活跃在集体时代的当地农民和干部。我最初从我在村里的当地朋友的推荐中选择了一些受访者。然后，我根据第一轮采访与更多人进行了交谈。附录 2 提供了一些关于受访者的简要信息。我查阅了当地的官方记录，如县志和水利志（水利工程记录）。此外，我还查阅了集体会计账簿，其中包含有关集体的收入、成本和债务的信息。

在本章中，我将展示松滋农村集体经济的两面性：它们取得的显著成就，以及它们在逃避工作和效率低下方面的问题，以及在非集体化期间和之后发生的斗争。我认为，社会主义经济组织自然需要以民主和参与为特征的社会主义政治进程。如果集体由分层管理，农民很可能会产生怨恨并表现出逃避工作的行为。虽然农村集体经济的解体主要是由于共产党的政治压力，但分层现象也导致了农民的消极性和未能抵制制度变革。

THE RURAL COLLECTIVES: INSTITUTIONS
AND ACHIEVEMENTS

Beginning in the mid-1950s, peasants in Songzi were organized by the Communist Party cadres into collectives. Not all the peasants supported collectivization, but, unlike in some other parts of China, there was no major resistance recorded in the official history in this area.

In principle, the process of collectivization involved a series of steps: First, mutual aid teams were established in which peasants operated on their own. Then came elementary cooperatives, in which land and draft animals became collectively owned but peasants received income based on their labor efforts and dividends based on their land or draft animal contributions. Finally, advanced cooperatives were set up, dividends were discontinued, and members received income proportionate to their labor contributions only. The cadres also established people's communes to manage multiple advanced cooperatives. In practice, however, the process was very fast in some places, with some steps skipped, under the direction of the central and local leadership, particularly during the "socialist high tide" of 1955–1956 and the rush for communes in 1958.

In the early 1960s, the structure of rural society stabilized as a three-layer system: production team, brigade, and commune. The production team was the basic level of governance. Multiple production teams made up a brigade, and several brigades made up a commune. Although subject to orders from above, production teams were largely autonomous in production and distribution decision making, as described by the policy of "three-level ownership, team comes first" (*sanji suoyou, dui wei jichu*).

As the basic unit, a production team controlled most of its products and had an independent account separate from those of the brigade and commune. Normally, a team had some core cadres, including team head, production organizer, accountant, cashier, recorder (who recorded the work points), and women's organizer, as well as several other possible positions depending on specific conditions.¹ In theory,

农村集体：制度
AND ACHIEVEMENTS

从 20 世纪 50 年代中期开始，松滋的农民被共产党干部组织成集体。并非所有农民都支持集体化，但与中国其他一些地方不同，该地区的官方历史中没有记录到重大的抵制活动。

原则上，集体化进程涉及一系列步骤：首先，建立互助组，农民各自经营。然后是初级合作社，土地和役畜集体所有，但农民根据他们的劳动付出获得收入，并根据他们的土地或役畜贡献获得红利。最后，建立高级合作社，停止发放红利，成员仅根据其劳动贡献获得收入。干部们还成立了人民公社来管理多个高级合作社。然而，在实践中，在中央和地方领导的指示下，特别是在 1955 年至 1956 年的“社会主义高潮”和 1958 年的公社热潮中，这一过程在一些地方非常迅速，跳过了一些步骤。

20 世纪 60 年代初，农村社会的结构稳定为一个三层体系：生产队、大队和公社。生产队是基本的治理单位。多个生产队组成一个大队，几个大队组成一个公社。虽然受到上级命令的约束，但生产队在生产和分配决策方面很大程度上是自主的，正如“三级所有，队为基础”（*sanji suoyou, dui wei jichu*）的政策所描述的那样。

生产队作为基本单位，控制着大部分产品，并拥有独立于生产大队和公社的账户。通常情况下，一个生产队有一些核心干部，包括队长、生产组织员、会计、出纳、记工员（记录工分）和妇女组织员，以及根据具体情况可能设立的其他几个职位。¹理论上，

these positions were assigned in regular elections in which all members could vote. In practice, as my interviews showed, some teams did not hold a single election for more than twenty years, not because the peasants were not allowed to vote, but because they felt it unnecessary to vote again if the current leaders were doing a fine job or if they simply felt indifferent.² Brigades had a similar leadership structure, with the addition of a Communist Party secretary. However, instead of direct election by the members, the brigade's officials were elected by team-level cadres. At the level of the communes, which were approximately the size of towns, leaders were typically appointed by upper-level Communist Party officials.

The recorder of the production team recorded everyone's daily labor using a system of work points. Members of the collectives received their compensation based on their total work points during a production cycle (normally one year). In essence, an individual's work points indicated his or her share of the collective net revenue after subtracting taxes, fees, public reserves, and reproduction expenses. The work-point system varied across different areas, but in general it was a hybrid of both piece rates (based on work amount) and time rates (based on work time).³ The collectives also assigned work points according to predefined labor grades or inherent capacity. For example, the work points for the best male laborer was set at 10 points per day and other people's work points were adjusted accordingly. The team leaders were also paid as a result of earning work points, but their tasks—such as attending political meetings—were hard to quantify in the work-point system. They were often assigned a higher number of work points than the average.⁴

This description merely offers a general picture; the actual institutions and norms differed significantly from one collective to another. More important for the purpose of this chapter is the question of how the collectives fared over the whole period. Based on historical data, the collectives contributed greatly to production and to the quality of peasant life. I will examine the achievements attained in four categories: agriculture, infrastructure, education, and health.

这些职位是在定期选举中分配的，所有成员都可以投票。但在实践中，正如我的访谈所显示的那样，有些团队在二十多年里没有举行过一次选举，不是因为农民不被允许投票，而是因为他们觉得如果现任领导人做得很好，或者他们只是感到漠不关心，就没有必要再次投票。²大队也有类似的领导结构，但增加了一名党支部书记。然而，大队的官员不是由成员直接选举产生，而是由队级干部选举产生。在大约城镇大小的公社一级，领导人通常由上级共产党官员任命。

生产队的记录员使用工分制度记录每个人的日常劳动。集体成员根据他们在生产周期（通常为一年）内的总工分获得报酬。本质上，个人的工分表明了他或她在扣除税收、费用、公共储备和再生产费用后的集体净收入中所占的份额。工分制度在不同地区有所不同，但总的来说，它是计件工资（基于工作量）和计时工资（基于工作时间）的混合体。³集体还根据预先确定的劳动等级或内在能力分配工分。例如，最好的男性劳动力的工分设定为每天 10 分，其他人的工分也相应调整。生产队长的报酬也是通过赚取工分获得的，但他们的任务（例如参加政治会议）很难在工分制度中量化。他们通常被分配到比平均水平更高的工分。⁴

这种描述仅仅提供了一个大致的图景；实际的制度和规范在不同的集体之间差异很大。对于本章的目的来说，更重要的是集体在整个时期的表现如何。基于历史数据，集体对生产和农民生活质量做出了巨大贡献。我将考察在以下四个方面取得的成就：农业、基础设施、教育和卫生。

Agriculture

The major crops in Songzi include rice, cotton, and rapeseed (canola oil). During the collective era, there were frequent improvements in seeds and farming techniques. Songzi has a long history of rice farming, but it was not until 1955 that double-cropping rice was first tried. It took several years for the peasants to learn how to do double cropping, but by 1975 it was in use in 98 percent of all rice farms. In 1976, collectives started experimenting with hybrid rice and gradually adopted the technique.⁵ Cotton growing in Songzi dates back more than six hundred years, and it was famous for its quality on the national market in the early twentieth century. The highest average yield recorded before 1949 was 247.5 kilograms per hectare in 1946. Only twenty years later, in 1966, the average yield exceeded 800 kilograms per hectare, and in the 1967–1979 period, there were five years when even this yield was exceeded.⁶ Rapeseed saw two major seed improvements during the collective era, and the timing for sowing gradually shifted to enable multiple cropping.⁷

Table 5.1 (see page 85) presents the annual yields of the three major crops in Songzi from 1949 to 2005. Due to the lack of data in some earlier years, the yields are only reported for selected years. It may be misleading to directly compare the average annual growth rates between collective era and post-collective era because agricultural outputs in general fluctuate significantly across years and the yields in many years are not available. Nevertheless, we can still make some tentative observations based on the data.

Rice yields grew rapidly during the 1950s and then dropped dramatically following the Great Leap Forward period in the early 1960s. Yields recovered in the mid-1960s and the data show significant improvement in 1979. After decollectivization, rice yields continued to increase, albeit with several major drops in the late 1980s and 1990s. The growth of rice yields under collectives could be described as good rather than very impressive.⁸

For canola (rapeseed), the yield during collectivization was 517.5 kilograms per hectare. During the transition period, yields increased

农业

松滋的主要农作物包括水稻、棉花和油菜籽（菜籽油）。在集体时代，种子和耕作技术频繁改进。松滋有着悠久的水稻种植历史，但直到 1955 年才首次尝试双季稻。农民们花了几年时间学习如何进行双季稻种植，但到 1975 年，98% 的稻田都采用了这种技术。1976 年，集体开始试验杂交水稻，并逐渐采用了这项技术。⁵ 松滋的棉花种植历史可以追溯到六百多年前，并在 20 世纪初以其质量在全国市场上闻名。1949 年之前记录的最高平均产量是 1946 年的每公顷 247.5 公斤。仅仅 20 年后，即 1966 年，平均产量超过了每公顷 800 公斤，并且在 1967-1979 年期间，有五年甚至超过了这个产量。⁶ 油菜籽在集体时代经历了两次主要的种子改良，并且播种时间逐渐转移，以便进行多种种植。⁷

表 5.1（见第 85 页）展示了 1949 年至 2005 年松滋三种主要作物的年产量。由于早期某些年份缺乏数据，因此仅报告了选定年份的产量。直接比较集体时代和后集体时代的年平均增长率可能会产生误导，因为农产品总产量在不同年份之间波动很大，并且许多年份的产量都不可用。尽管如此，我们仍然可以根据这些数据进行一些初步的观察。

在 20 世纪 50 年代，水稻产量迅速增长，然后在 20 世纪 60 年代初的大跃进时期急剧下降。20 世纪 60 年代中期产量恢复，数据显示 1979 年产量显着提高。解散集体化后，水稻产量继续增加，尽管在 20 世纪 80 年代末和 90 年代出现了几次大幅下降。集体经济下的水稻产量增长可以被描述为良好，而不是非常令人印象深刻。⁸

对于油菜籽来说，集体化期间的产量为每公顷 517.5 公斤。在过渡时期，产量增加

to 1,215 kilograms per hectare by 1982, but then stagnated for several years in the post-collective era. There was significant improvement in the early 1990s, but this was followed again by stagnation after the mid-1990s and a serious decline in the early 2000s.

For cotton, the story is more striking. Under the collectives the yields were clearly increasing, although it is hard to quantify the improvement owing to the poor quality of the data. On the other hand, cotton production clearly dropped after decollectivization and did not grow again until the 1990s. After reaching a peak in the mid-1990s, yields started to fall and stayed below 1,000 kilograms per hectare for several years. Yields started to recover in the 2000s, but the yield of 2005 (1,095 kg per ha) was still lower than that of 1984 (1,140 kg per ha).

As a whole, collective agriculture had impressive records. Yields grew significantly for all three crops, and two of them (cotton and canola) had better performance under the collective regime than in the later period. Thus it is fair to conclude that the collectives in Songzi achieved a good and sustained performance in agricultural production, although there was certainly room for improvement.

Infrastructure

Water management is perhaps the most important aspect of infrastructure for agricultural production and human welfare. Songzi is situated close to the Yangtze River and it has experienced numerous water-related disasters over the centuries. Between 1275 and 1911, sixty-one major disasters were recorded, most of which were floods and droughts. During the Republican era (1911–1949), there were twenty-two recorded disasters, including fourteen floods and eight droughts. Millions of people were affected; a single drought in 1941 affected more than 300,000 out of a total population of approximately 450,000.⁹

Although Songzi continued to suffer from natural disasters after 1949, the situation changed dramatically during the collective era. The collectives organized all available labor to participate in water

到 1982 年，每公顷产量达到 1215 公斤，但在后集体时代停滞了几年。20 世纪 90 年代初出现了显著改善，但此后在 90 年代中期后再次停滞，并在 21 世纪初严重下降。

对于棉花来说，情况更加引人注目。在集体所有制下，产量明显增加，尽管由于数据质量差，很难量化这种改善。另一方面，棉花产量在解散集体所有制后明显下降，直到 20 世纪 90 年代才再次增长。在 20 世纪 90 年代中期达到顶峰后，产量开始下降，并多年保持在每公顷 1000 公斤以下。产量在 2000 年代开始恢复，但 2005 年的产量（每公顷 1095 公斤）仍低于 1984 年的产量（每公顷 1140 公斤）。

总的来说，集体农业取得了令人瞩目的成就。三种作物的产量都显著增长，其中两种（棉花和油菜籽）在集体制度下的表现优于后期。因此，可以公平地得出结论，松滋的集体所有制在农业生产方面取得了良好且持续的成绩，尽管肯定还有改进的空间。

基础设施

水资源管理可能是农业生产和人类福祉基础设施中最重要的一个方面。松滋靠近长江，几个世纪以来经历了无数与水有关的灾害。1275 年至 1911 年间，共记录了 61 起重大灾害，其中大部分是洪水和干旱。在民国时期（1911–1949 年），共记录了 22 起灾害，其中包括 14 起洪水和 8 起干旱。数百万人受到影响；1941 年的一次干旱影响了约 45 万总人口中的 30 多万人。⁹

尽管 1949 年后松滋继续遭受自然灾害的困扰，但在集体化时代，情况发生了巨大的变化。集体组织了所有可用的劳动力来参与水利建设。

TABLE 5.1: Crop Yields in Songzi County, 1949–2005 (kg per ha)

Year	Rice	Year	Canola	Year	Cotton
1949	2,685	1949	465	1949	210
1957	3,742.5	1955	517.5	1950–1957	285
1958	4,087.5	1960	652.5	1958–1962	450
1961	2,265	1971	817.5	1963–1979	675
1965	3,735	1978	735	1979–1983	495
1975	3,652.5	1982	1,215	1984–1985	1,140
1979	4,695				
1984	5,190				
1985	5,025	1985	1,275		
1986	5,475	1986	1,125	1986	1,110
1987	4,620	1987	1,155	1987	990
1988	5,547	1988	1,200	1988	930
1989	5,465	1989	1,275	1989	705
1990	5,760	1990	1,395	1990	1,245.00
1991	5,608	1991	1,605	1991	1,200.00
1992	5,971	1992	1,545	1992	1,560.00
1993	6,027	1993	1,755	1993	1,230.00
1994	6,519	1994	1,815	1994	1,230.00
1995	6,390	1995	1,800	1995	1,515.00
1996	5,760	1996	1,740	1996	1,155.00
1997	6,645	1997	1,800	1997	1,455.00
1998	6,600	1998	1,725	1998	600
1999	6,765	1999	1,650	1999	780
2000	6,780	2000	1,740	2000	870
2001	6,780	2001	1,635	2001	1,245
2002	7,005	2002	1,320	2002	1,200
2003	6,585	2003	1,440	2003	1,050
2004	6,735	2004	1,830	2004	1,037
2005	6,757	2005	1,756	2005	1,095

Sources: Songzi Shizhi Committee, 2011, Tables 9.1.68, 9.2.69, 9.3.70; Songzi Xianzhi Committee, 1986, 288, 292, 294.

表 5.1: 松滋县 1949-2005 年作物产量 (公斤 / 公顷)

Year	Rice	Year	卡诺拉油菜	Year	棉花
1949	2,685	1949	465	1949	210
1957	3,742.5	1955	517.5	1950–1957	285
1958	4,087.5	1960	652.5	1958–1962	450
1961	2,265	1971	817.5	1963–1979	675
1965	3,735	1978	735	1979–1983	495
1975	3,652.5	1982	1,215	1984–1985	1,140
1979	4,695				
1984	5,190				
1985	5,025	1985	1,275		
1986	5,475	1986	1,125	1986	1,110
1987	4,620	1987	1,155	1987	990
1988	5,547	1988	1,200	1988	930
1989	5,465	1989	1,275	1989	705
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1991	5,608	1991	1,605	1991	1,200.00
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1996	5,760	1996	1,740	1996	1,155.00
1997	6,645	1997	1,800	1997	1,455.00
1998	6,600	1998	1,725	1998	600
1999	6,765	1999	1,650	1999	780
2000	6,780	2000	1,740	2000	870
2001	6,780	2001	1,635	2001	1,245
2002	7,005	2002	1,320	2002	1,200
2003	6,585	2003	1,440	2003	1,050
2004	6,735	2004	1,830	2004	1,037
2005	6,757	2005	1,756	2005	1,095

Sources: Songzi Shizhi Committee, 2011, Tables 9.1.68, 9.2.69, 9.3.70; Songzi Xianzhi Committee, 1986, 288, 292, 294.

management construction. In a relatively short time, a system of drainage, dams, and reservoirs was established. Among these, Weishui Reservoir deserves special mention. Like many reservoirs, the project started in 1958 during the Great Leap Forward. Tens of thousands of peasants contributed to the project, which took twelve years of manual labor to finish. The dam itself is nearly 10 kilometers long—one of the longest man-made earth dams in Asia. One can get a sense of the power of the rural collectives from this huge project.

Table 5.2 (see below) provides some statistics on infrastructure building in Songzi from 1956 to 2010, focusing on reservoirs and culverts. It is clear that most of the infrastructure was built in the collective era. One reservoir was built in the 1981–1990 period, but even that project started in 1974. Similarly, the two culvert constructions after 1991 were actually projects to rebuild old culverts that had been constructed before 1980. Infrastructure construction basically stopped after decollectivization. It is therefore justified to claim that the rural collective provided the crucial agricultural infrastructure that has remained important.

Education

Education was, and is, largely a privilege in Songzi. By the spring of 1949, only 20 percent of school-age children were enrolled in primary

TABLE 5.2: Water Conservancy Projects in Songzi, 1956–2010

	Reservoir		Culvert	
	Number	Irrigation	Number	Irrigation
1956–1970	7	24,727	3	7,733
1971–1980	6	2,167	5	3,500
1981–1990	1	333	2	266
1991–2010	0	0	2	6,466

Note: The years in the table refers to the completion date of the projects. The actual starting dates were often five to ten years before completion. Irrigation (in hectares) refers to the total effective irrigation size under the projects during that decade.

Source: Songzi Water Bureau, 2008, 91, 121.

管理建设。在相对较短的时间内，建立了一个排水、水坝和水库系统。其中，卫水水库值得特别一提。像许多水库一样，该项目于 1958 年大跃进期间启动。成千上万的农民为该项目做出了贡献，该项目花费了 12 年的人工劳动才完成。大坝本身近 10 公里长，是亚洲最长的人造土坝之一。从这个庞大的项目中，人们可以感受到农村集体力量。

表 5.2（见下文）提供了一些关于 1956 年至 2010 年松滋基础设施建设的统计数据，重点是水库和涵洞。很明显，大部分基础设施都是在集体时代建造的。1981–1990 年期间修建了一座水库，但该项目甚至于 1974 年开始。同样，1991 年后的两座涵洞建设实际上是重建 1980 年之前建造的旧涵洞的项目。基础设施建设在解散集体化后基本停止。因此，有理由声称，农村集体提供了至关重要的农业基础设施，这些基础设施仍然非常重要。

教育

在松滋，教育过去是，现在也很大程度上是一种特权。到 1949 年春天，只有 20% 的学龄儿童入学小学

表 5.2: 1956–2010 年松滋市水利工程

	水库		涵洞	
	数量	灌溉	数量	灌溉
1956–1970	7	24,727	3	7,733
1971–1980	6	2,167	5	3,500
1981–1990	1	333	2	266
1991–2010	0	0	2	6,466

注：表中年份指工程竣工日期。实际开始日期通常比竣工日期提前五到十年。灌溉（公顷）指该十年间工程下的总有效灌溉面积。来源：松滋市水利局，2008，91，121。

schools.¹⁰ For peasants and other working families, middle school and high school were luxuries. By 1949, there were only three middle and high schools, in the urban areas of Songzi, with a total of approximately 1,400 students.¹¹

The rural collectives achieved a fundamental change in the accessibility of education. In 1956, there were nineteen rural primary schools, with 1,822 students, and a further seventy-seven urban primary schools. In 1960, the collectives had established 389 rural primary schools, with 31,599 students.¹² Nearly every brigade had a primary school. The collectives also started to build part-time primary schools and work-study primary schools in order to give busy peasants some basic education. The total number of primary schools (full-time and other types) increased to 1,327 in 1965; with a rate of enrollment for school-age children of more than 90 percent.¹³ In the 1970s, most communes set up their own high schools; every brigade had a middle school and a primary school, and some of the rich brigades even had high schools.¹⁴ The teachers and staff members were considered workers under the communes, and they got work points like any other peasant in order to receive a share of their collective's net revenues.

Table 5.3 (see page 88) gives a glimpse of the achievements mentioned above; school enrollment at all levels increased dramatically during the collective era. It is interesting to note that school enrollment reached its height in the late 1970s but then started to decrease significantly, especially for high school. During the Cultural Revolution, rural collectives began to set up their own schools to offer education to the children. This trend continued until 1978, when the government deemed the rural middle and high schools to be of low quality and shut them down.¹⁵ After decollectivization, rural collectives simply ceased to exist and were thus no longer able to support local education.

It is, of course, true that most of the education offered in the rural schools was not as good as in the resource-rich urban key schools. For example, it was simply impossible to find enough experienced high school teachers when enrollment increased tenfold. It was standard

学校。¹⁰ 对于农民和其他劳动家庭来说，中学和高中是奢侈品。到 1949 年，松滋市区只有三所中学和高中，学生总数约为 1400 人。¹¹

e 农村集体在教育可及性方面取得了根本性的改变。1956 年，有 19 所农村小学，学生 1822 人，另有 77 所城市小学。1960 年，集体共创办农村小学 389 所，学生 31599 人。¹² 几乎每个大队都有一所小学。集体还开始建立半工半读的小学，以便让忙碌的农民接受一些基础教育。1965 年，小学（全日制和其他类型）总数增加到 1327 所；学龄儿童入学率超过 90%。¹³ 20 世纪 70 年代，大多数公社都成立了自己的高中；每个大队都有一所中学和一所小学，一些富裕的大队甚至有高中。¹⁴ 教师和职工被认为是公社下的工人，他们像其他农民一样获得工分，以便分享集体的净收入。

表 5.3（见第 88 页）简要介绍了上述成就；在集体化时代，各级学校的入学率都大幅提高。值得注意的是，20 世纪 70 年代末学校入学率达到顶峰，但随后开始显著下降，尤其是高中。在文化大革命期间，农村集体开始建立自己的学校，为儿童提供教育。这一趋势一直持续到 1978 年，当时政府认为农村中学质量低下，并将其关闭。¹⁵ 解散集体化后，农村集体不复存在，因此无法再支持当地教育。

当然，农村学校提供的大部分教育不如资源丰富的城市重点学校，这是事实。例如，当入学人数增加十倍时，根本不可能找到足够有经验的高中教师。这是标准。

TABLE 5.3: Formal Education in Songzi

	Enrollment			Staff	
	Primary	Middle	High	Primary	Other
1949–1955	18,829	854		709	41
1956–1960	63,262	3,678	482	1,804	104
1961–1965	74,627	3,003	461	2,269	154
1966–1970	88,918	6,052	442	2,881	534
1971–1975	119,941	22,883	5,313	4,469	1,694
1976–1978	134,489	47,363	16,195	4,923	3,743
1979–1982	121,732	39,566	8,059	4,643	3,326
1983–1985	117,859	41,436	4,930	4,944	2,315

Notes: Enrollment refers to the annual average enrollment in primary, middle, and high schools during the given period. Staff refers to the number of teachers and staff in primary and middle or high schools,

Source: Songzi Xianzhi Committee, 1986, 557, 565.

practice for the collectives to ask newly graduated high school students to teach middle school—the best they could offer, given their level of development. Nevertheless, the rural collectives did provide the institutional foundation for basic education for every school-age child. Concerns about quality should have led to rural schools being improved over time, not shut down. Closing rural schools restricted access to education to just a small portion of the population, mostly urban.¹⁶

Health

Progress in public health during the collective era was impressive. In 1947, life expectancy in Songzi was 28.3 years; by 1979, life expectancy had reached 59.73 years.¹⁷ The mortality rate dropped from 1.04 percent to 0.71 percent between 1957 and 1985; and by the 1979–1982 period, the mortality rate for children under the age of fifteen had dropped to as low as 0.34 percent.¹⁸ Behind these changes was the establishment of a rural health care system during the collective era.

Beginning in 1958, every commune got its own small hospital, and starting in 1959, every brigade established its own health station.

表 5.3：松滋的学历教育

	注册			员工	
	小学	中学	High	小学	其他
1949–1955 年	18,829	854		709	41
1956–1960 年	63,262	3,678	482	1,804	104
1961–1965 年	74,627	3,003	461	2,269	154
1966–1970 年	88,918	6,052	442	2,881	534
1971–1975	119,941	22,883	5,313	4,469	1,694
1976–1978	134,489	47,363	16,195	4,923	3,743
1979–1982	121,732	39,566	8,059	4,643	3,326
1983–1985	117,859	41,436	4,930	4,944	2,315

注释：入学人数指给定期限内小学、初中和高中每年的平均入学人数。教职工人数指小学和初中或高中的教师和职工人数，

来源：松滋县志编纂委员会，1986 年，557, 565。

集体经济的做法是要求新毕业的高中生教中学——考虑到他们的发展水平，这是他们能提供的最好的。然而，农村集体确实为每个学龄儿童的基础教育提供了制度基础。对质量的担忧应该导致农村学校随着时间的推移而得到改善，而不是关闭。关闭农村学校将受教育的机会限制在人口中的一小部分，主要是城市人口。¹⁶

健康

集体化时期公共卫生方面的进步令人印象深刻。1947 年，松滋的预期寿命为 28.3 岁；到 1979 年，预期寿命已达到 59.73 岁。1957 年至 1985 年间，死亡率从 1.04% 下降到 0.71%；到 1979–1982 年期间，17 岁以下儿童的死亡率已降至 0.34%。这些变化背后是集体化时期农村卫生保健系统的建立。

从 1958 年开始，每个公社都拥有自己的小型医院，从 1959 年开始，每个生产队都建立了卫生站。

TABLE 5.4 Medical Institutions in Songzi, 1950–1985

Year	Institution	Staff	Bed
1950	1	232	8
1956	28	765	272
1966	148	1,058	280
1970	128	1,481	417
1978	82	2,222	1,616
1980	81	2,419	1,772
1982	86	2,518	1,708
1985	127	2,761	2,110

Source: Songzi Xianzhi Committee, 1986, 668.

Moreover, the rural collectives developed their own cooperative medical care. In this system, each peasant in the collective (commune or brigade level) contributed a fixed fee per year, and the accumulated funds covered all kinds of the local health stations' expenses, including equipment, medicines, and payroll. If the expenses exceeded the deposited fees, the collectives would cover the deficits from their surpluses. It was this cooperative system that made health care accessible and affordable to peasants; without the rural collectives these improvements would have been unimaginable.

The rapid development in health care can also be seen in the number of beds and the number of staff in the medical care system. Table 5.4 (see above) presents figures for the number of medical institutions, staff members, and beds in selected years during the collective era. Although the data do not include the village level health stations, they do include the commune hospitals and give us a broad sense of the expansion of health care in this period.

THE CONTRADICTIONS WITHIN THE RURAL COLLECTIVES

Having sketched some of the achievements of the rural collectives, we will now focus on their internal contradictions. We do this by

表 5.4 松滋市医疗机构, 1950-1985 年

Year	机构	员工	Bed
1950	1	232	8
1956	28	765	272
1966	148	1,058	280
1970	128	1,481	417
1978	82	2,222	1,616
1980	81	2,419	1,772
1982	86	2,518	1,708
1985	127	2,761	2,110

Source: Songzi Xianzhi Committee, 1986, 668.

此外, 农村集体经济发展了自己的合作医疗保健。在这个系统中, 集体(公社或大队一级)的每个农民每年缴纳固定的费用, 积累的资金用于支付当地卫生站的各种费用, 包括设备、药品和工资。如果支出超过了存入的费用, 集体将从盈余中弥补赤字。正是这种合作制度使农民能够获得负担得起的医疗保健; 如果没有农村集体, 这些改善将是不可想象的。

医疗保健的快速发展也可以从床位数和医疗保健系统中的员工人数中看出。表 5.4 (见上文) 列出了集体经济时代选定年份的医疗机构数量、员工人数和床位数的数字。虽然数据不包括村级卫生站, 但包括公社医院, 这让我们对这一时期医疗保健的扩展有了大致的了解。

农村集体内部的矛盾

在概述了农村集体的一些成就之后, 我们将重点关注其内部矛盾。我们通过以下方式做到这一点

examining two persistent issues: the absence of a socialist political process, which led to widespread social and political stratification (and work avoidance) within the collectives; and the relatively low quality of life in the collectives. Both aspects presented serious challenges to the collectives and contributed to their eventual peaceful demise.

One of the greatest historical tragedies in the People's Republic of China was the severe famine during the late 1950s and early 1960s. Songzi did not escape: the crude mortality rate increased from about 10 percent in 1957 to nearly 37 percent in 1960, dropping back to the 10 percent level in 1961.¹⁹ The great famine represents a crucial historical lesson for rural development. The collective regime at the time was at least partly responsible for it, but many of the famine-related problems of the collectives were short-lived.²⁰ This book therefore views the great famine as a shock to the collectives but not as one of the persistent problems that we are trying to identify. For instance, the fact that the production teams lost their autonomy to the communes and counties during the famine definitely contributed to the excessive grain procurement and other destructive practices in the countryside at the time. But this structural distortion was later corrected as production teams largely regained their autonomy in 1961. Collective food production dropped significantly during the 1959–1961 period, but it then increased again, and no further systemic food shortages occurred.

Stratification, Work Avoidance, and Efficiency

One of the most misleading discussions on the rural collectives is the issue of work avoidance. In the conventional wisdom, work avoidance was caused by egalitarianism. Deng Xiaoping once famously said that egalitarianism actually led to general poverty.²¹ Some writers considered the rural collectives to have been too egalitarian, which caused inefficiency and brought about the demise of the system.²² Some studies claimed that due to the high monitoring costs, the peasants shirked as much as possible, and this led to inefficiency.²³ This

考察了两个长期存在的问题：缺乏社会主义政治进程，导致集体内部普遍存在社会和政治分层（以及逃避工作）；以及集体生活质量相对较低。这两个方面都给集体带来了严峻的挑战，并最终导致了它们的和平消亡。

中华人民共和国最伟大的历史悲剧之一是 20 世纪 50 年代末和 60 年代初的严重饥荒。松滋未能幸免：粗死亡率从 1957 年的约 10% 增加到 1960 年的近 37%，1961 年回落到 10% 的水平。¹⁹ 大饥荒是农村发展的重要历史教训。当时的集体制度至少对此负有部分责任，但集体中许多与饥荒相关的问题都是短暂的。²⁰ 因此，本书将大饥荒视为对集体的冲击，而不是我们试图识别的长期存在的问题之一。例如，在饥荒期间，生产队失去了对公社和县的自主权，这无疑导致了当时农村地区过度的粮食征购和其他破坏性做法。但这种结构性扭曲后来得到了纠正，因为生产队在 1961 年基本恢复了自主权。1959 年至 1961 年期间，集体粮食产量显著下降，但随后再次增加，并且没有发生进一步的系统性粮食短缺。

分层、逃避工作和效率

关于农村集体化，最具误导性的讨论之一是逃避工作的问题。在传统观念中，逃避工作是由平均主义造成的。邓小平曾有一句名言，平均主义实际上导致了普遍贫困。²¹ 一些作者认为，农村集体化过于平均主义，导致效率低下，并导致了该制度的消亡。²² 一些研究声称，由于高昂的监督成本，农民尽可能地偷懒，从而导致效率低下。²³ 是

view is consistent with the assumption that human nature is indolent, self-centered, gullible, and responsibility-averse.²⁴ I would argue that we need to keep in mind the impressive records of the collectives, especially compared to the post-collective era. There was certainly work avoidance in the collectives, but I will argue that this was not the result of egalitarianism or the collective regime per se, but rather the by-product of nonsocialist superstructure (such as politics and power structure), including stratification.

The major material incentive structure in the collectives was the work-point system, which functioned fairly well. Every team had a recorder who assigned different work points according to labor undertaken, and the work points would finally translate into income distribution. Unlike the homogeneous and rigid institution that exists in the popular imagination, peasants in the rural collectives developed differing rules according to local conditions.²⁵

Peasants were very resourceful in establishing the collective institutions. In general, the principle of “allocation to labor” was maintained. Two common incentive structures ensured intense effort and a fair distribution of rewards. In agriculture, the toughest and most important jobs are sowing and harvesting. Every team kept a complete and detailed record of the team land, in which the characteristics and the size of each plot were clearly measured. Every plot in the village had a nickname that was known to everyone, such as First-Hill Plot, Second-Ditch Plot, Knife-Handle Plot, etc. On the eve of harvesting, the peasants would evaluate the output from each plot and draft a work-point assignment guideline. If the crops grew high in the plot, which meant that manual labor would be somewhat easier, the proposed work-point assignment would be relatively lower; if the crops grew very dense, the proposed work-point assignment would be higher. This seemingly subtle task can be handled very well by any experienced peasant, just as college professors are capable of grading students and writing papers. The process was open to criticism and bargaining: if no one agreed to harvest a plot for the proposed number of work points, for instance, the cadres would have to change the work-point assignment until people were willing to take on the

这种观点与人性是懒惰、自我中心、容易受骗和逃避责任的假设相符。²⁴ 我认为，我们需要牢记集体的令人印象深刻的记录，特别是与后集体时代相比。集体中肯定存在逃避工作的情况，但我认为这并不是平均主义或集体制度本身的结果，而是非社会主义上层建筑（如政治和权力结构），包括分层的副产品。

集体中的主要物质激励结构是工分制度，该制度运作良好。每个团队都有一个记录员，根据所从事的劳动分配不同的工分，工分最终会转化为收入分配。与大众想象中存在的同质化和僵化的制度不同，农村集体中的农民根据当地条件制定了不同的规则。²⁵

农民在建立集体制度方面非常有创造力。总的来说，“按劳分配”的原则得到了维护。两种常见的激励结构确保了紧张的努力和公平的奖励分配。在农业中，最艰难和最重要的工作是播种和收割。每个团队都保存着一份完整而详细的团队土地记录，其中清楚地测量了每个地块的特征和大小。村里的每个地块都有一个每个人都知道的昵称，例如一号坡地、二号沟地、刀柄地等。在收割前夕，农民会评估每个地块的产量，并起草一份工分分配指南。如果地块中的作物长得很高，这意味着人工劳动会更容易一些，那么建议的工分分配会相对较低；如果作物长得很茂密，那么建议的工分分配会更高。任何有经验的农民都可以很好地处理这项看似微妙的任务，就像大学教授能够给学生评分和撰写论文一样。这个过程是开放的，可以接受批评和讨价还价：例如，如果没有人同意以建议的工分数量收割某个地块，干部就必须改变工分分配，直到人们愿意承担这项任务。

job. After this process, every specific plot was assigned to a laborer. Monitoring was not necessary. Everyone simply came to the recorder, reported which plots he or she had finished, and got the proposed work points. It was not possible to get a free ride, since everyone knew who was working on which plot and how hard he or she had worked.²⁶

In other circumstances, like construction projects, the peasants also developed ways to make sure the work was done properly. One common method was to form work pairs, meaning that two people had to agree to work together. In a team where everyone knew each other through the collective labor process, people would only choose to work with the hardworking, honest people. Those with bad reputations would have a very hard time finding partners other than from among other workers who also had bad reputations. Under this type of system, the free-rider problem was minimized.

The work-point system per se was well developed and in general it allocated income properly. Many peasants would claim that they worked day and night during the collective era; indeed, most villages only had five days of vacation per year during the spring festival, whereas nowadays they have much more leisure time.²⁷ So where and when did work avoidance happen? In order to answer this question, two kinds of work avoidance need to be distinguished. First, in any collective there could be people who did not like working and tried to minimize their efforts: such shirkers were not a majority, but they weren't altogether uncommon. Huaiyin Li comments that "covert and minor slacking occurred, but flagrant shirking was unlikely to prevail where the villagers were subject to informal and formal constraints."²⁸ Second, there were cases, usually in the poor collectives, in which the whole team simply did not function well as a unit and everything seemed to be in a mess. This second form of work avoidance took place where the "informal and formal constraints" did not work.

The first form of work avoidance describes a personal characteristic—like laziness—and it was not a major concern of the peasants as long as it did not cause unfair income distribution in the collectives. As mentioned above, the work-point system worked well in most cases, and it was hard for people to take advantage of the system.

工作。在这个过程之后，每个特定的地块都被分配给一个劳动者。没有必要进行监督。每个人只需来到记录员那里，报告他或她完成了哪些地块，并获得建议的工作积分。不可能搭便车，因为每个人都知道谁在哪个地块上工作，以及他或她工作有多努力。²⁶

在其他情况下，比如建筑工程，农民们也开发了一些方法来确保工作能正确完成。一种常见的方法是组成工作对，这意味着两个人必须同意一起工作。在一个每个人都通过集体劳动过程相互了解的团队中，人们只会选择与勤劳、诚实的人一起工作。那些名声不好的人很难找到合作伙伴，只能在其他同样名声不好的工人中寻找。在这种类型的制度下，搭便车问题被最小化了。

工作积分制度本身发展良好，总体上能合理分配收入。许多农民会说，在集体化时代，他们日夜工作；事实上，大多数村庄在春节期间每年只有五天假期，而现在他们有更多的休闲时间。²⁷ 那么，逃避工作发生在何时何地？为了回答这个问题，需要区分两种逃避工作的情况。首先，在任何集体中，都可能有人不喜欢工作，并试图尽量减少他们的努力：这种偷懒的人不是大多数，但也不是完全不常见。李怀印评论说，“隐蔽的和轻微的偷懒是存在的，但在村民受到非正式和正式约束的地方，公然的偷懒不太可能盛行。”²⁸ 其次，在一些情况下，通常在贫困的集体中，整个团队根本无法作为一个整体良好地运作，一切似乎都乱七八糟。这种第二种形式的逃避工作发生在“非正式和正式约束”不起作用的地方。

第一种逃避工作的方式描述了一种个人特征——比如懒惰——只要它没有导致集体内部不公平的收入分配，农民们就不太关心这个问题。如上所述，在大多数情况下，工分制度运作良好，人们很难利用这个制度。

Sometimes people got paid more than they deserved; these cases were normally the result of cadres abusing their authority: the overpaid workers were either cadres or closely connected to them. In short, this was a result of the political stratification within the system.²⁹

The second form of work avoidance was severe and deserves more attention. Productivity could vary widely across brigades within the same commune or across teams within the same brigade. Those low-performing, usually poor collectives were often described as “lazy,” but the more accurate label might be “dysfunctional.”

Similar phenomena have been documented elsewhere. The Communist Party of the Soviet Union made this observation in the 1930s: “It often happened that slackers received higher return than conscientious hard-working collective farmers. These defects in the management of collective farms lowered the incentive of their members.”³⁰ Mao also said that if there was a clear difference between cadres and workers, “workers will not consider the factory as their own. The bureaucratic attitude of cadres will make workers unwilling to stick to the labor disciplines and the bureaucrat lords are always the first to break the rules.”³¹

A local cadre told of his experiences working in such a situation. In 1979, he was sent by the county government to an extremely poor team. The peasants there had one meal per day in the low season, two meals per day in the busy time; the whole brigade could be characterized as depressed and dysfunctional. The leaders were particularly bad: the party secretary of the brigade had improper sexual relationships with several women, and the team head also tried to take advantage of a newly “sent-down” female student by commanding her to stay in his house. The cadre’s story continued:

I decided to take over the political leadership of the team and started to do everything as a team head. I held organizing meetings to plan the whole year’s production, and on the next day, I was the first one to go to the fields to work, and I continued doing that thereafter. Besides working, I lived the same life as everyone did; it was called “same food, same house, and same

有时，人们获得的报酬超过了他们应得的；这些情况通常是干部滥用职权的结果：获得超额报酬的工人要么是干部，要么与他们关系密切。简而言之，这是系统内政治分层的结果。²⁹

第二种形式的逃避工作行为非常严重，值得更多关注。同一公社内各生产队之间，或同一生产队内各小组之间的生产力可能差异很大。那些表现不佳、通常很贫困的集体经常被描述为“懒惰”，但更准确的标签可能是“功能失调”。

类似的现象在其他地方也有记录。苏联共产党在 20 世纪 30 年代观察到：“经常发生懒汉比勤劳的集体农庄庄员获得更高的回报。集体农庄管理上的这些缺陷降低了其成员的积极性。”³⁰ 毛泽东还说，如果干部和工人之间存在明显的差异，“工人就不会把工厂当成自己的。干部的官僚主义态度会使工人不愿遵守劳动纪律，而官僚老爷总是第一个违反规则。”³¹

一位当地干部讲述了他在这种情况下工作的经历。1979 年，他被县政府派到一个极其贫困的生产队。那里的农民在淡季每天吃一顿饭，在农忙时每天吃两顿饭；整个生产队都可以被描述为沮丧和功能失调。领导的情况尤其糟糕：大队党支部书记与几名妇女有不正当的性关系，生产队队长还试图利用一名新“下放”的女学生，命令她住在他家里。这位干部的故事继续说：

我决定接管团队的政治领导权，开始像团队负责人一样做所有事情。我组织会议来计划全年的生产，第二天，我是第一个下地干活的人，之后我一直这样做。除了工作，我的生活和大家一样，被称为“同吃、同住、同 ...

work.” After a few days, the peasants began to work with me and they worked really hard. The whole depressing atmosphere was replaced with an energetic and colorful environment. In that year, the team’s output doubled without any increase in material inputs.³²

This story clearly suggests that “laziness” might be changed with a different political environment.

When Carl Riskin discussed the issue of work incentives in the Chinese collectives, he argued that the Maoist system (payment according to merit, collective material incentives, participatory management) had significantly motivated peasants’ dedication to their work.³³ This positive attitude toward work, or X-efficiency, explained the creativity and effort under the collective regime. However, it is also clear that if the system did not work, the negative attitude toward work could significantly decrease the effort. If the cadres were corrupt and did not work with the peasants, for instance, the latter would simply consider themselves to be low-paid employees and become easily demoralized. However, if the cadres were hardworking and honest, people would regard the collective as their own and keep up morale and work effort.³⁴ In fact, the peasants repeatedly emphasized the role of the cadres and political leadership in the interviews. A former team head explained the key to running a successful team: “First, do not be selfish; second, take the lead in all kinds of work.”³⁵

In essence, then, the work avoidance problem is the story of conflict between socialist economic base and nonsocialist superstructure. In the socialist collectives, the means of production were publicly owned and people worked for the whole community, not for themselves individually. Such socialist economic organization naturally requires a socialist political process that featured democracy and participation. If this condition is not fulfilled, it is likely that the peasants will build up resentment and demonstrate work avoidance.

In practice, neither stratification nor work avoidance necessarily led to inefficiency. Stratification, although detrimental for a socialist collective, is a basic element of class society. A highly exploitative

工作。”几天后，农民开始和我一起工作，他们工作非常努力。整个令人沮丧的气氛被一种充满活力和色彩的环境所取代。那一年，在没有任何材料投入增加的情况下，团队的产量翻了一番。³²

这个故事清楚地表明，“懒惰”可能会随着不同的政治环境而改变。

当卡尔·里斯金讨论中国集体中的工作激励问题时，他认为毛泽东体系（按功绩付酬、集体物质激励、参与式管理）极大地激励了农民的敬业精神。³³ 这种积极的工作态度，或称X效率，解释了集体制度下的创造力和努力。然而，如果这个制度不起作用，对工作的消极态度也会大大降低努力程度。例如，如果干部腐败，不与农民一起工作，那么农民就会认为自己是低薪雇员，很容易士气低落。然而，如果干部们努力工作、诚实正直，人们就会把集体视为自己的，保持士气和工作努力。³⁴ 事实上，农民在采访中反复强调干部和政治领导的作用。一位前队长解释了成功管理团队的关键：“第一，不要自私；第二，在各种工作中起带头作用。”³⁵

从本质上讲，那么，逃避工作的问题是社会主义经济基础与非社会主义上层建筑之间冲突的故事。在社会主义集体中，生产资料是公有的，人们为整个社区工作，而不是为他们自己个人工作。这种社会主义经济组织自然需要一个以民主和参与为特征的社会主义政治进程。如果这个条件没有得到满足，农民很可能会产生怨恨并表现出逃避工作。

在实践中，分层和社会逃避工作都不一定会导致效率低下。虽然分层对社会主义集体不利，但它是阶级社会的基本要素。一种高度剥削性的

capitalist firm can still be efficient if there is sufficient supervision. Similarly, a collective with clear stratification and work avoidance could still be productive, given enough supervision. On the other hand, a democratic and egalitarian collective may not be so efficient if the leaders are inexperienced and not good at organizing. Sometimes the peasants described their leaders as “good fellows” (*lao hao ren*), which meant they were socialist-minded but not good organizers.³⁶ In a nutshell, it was the lack of socialist political process, rather than the opposite, that contributed to the unsatisfactory performance of some collectives. Although it may be convenient to explain this as laziness in casual speech, the discussions of work avoidance are largely misleading.

The Persistence of Political Stratification

Many peasants identified political stratification within the collectives as a major problem.³⁷ But how did the nonsocialist superstructure persist? The political system in the collectives was formally democratic; as Sulamith Potter and Jack Potter commented, government at the team level was democratically chosen.³⁸ But history repeatedly warns us that appearances can be deceiving. That is, democracy should not be taken at face value.

There were several historical reasons why the rural collectives were not so democratic in practice. First, many peasants were illiterate and had little experience of self-management. Second, the prestige enjoyed by many rural cadres because of their contributions to the revolution and their years of hard work meant that they expected their orders to be readily obeyed rather than questioned. Third, although team leaders were chosen by members, the upper-level cadres in brigades and communes, who had much more power, were not elected by the peasants and had much less direct connection to the peasants.

However, none of this implies that the cadres had comparable power to the landlords before the revolution. As Huaiyin Li has pointed out, cadres in the collectives faced severe political constraints

如果监督充分，资本主义企业仍然可以有效率。同样，如果分层明确且避免工作，集体在充分监督下仍然可以富有成效。另一方面，如果领导者缺乏经验且不善于组织，民主和平等的集体可能效率不高。有时，农民将他们的领导人描述为“好人”（*lao hao ren*），这意味着他们有社会主义思想但不善于组织。³⁶简而言之，导致一些集体表现不佳的原因是缺乏社会主义政治进程，而不是相反。虽然在随意谈话中将其解释为懒惰可能很方便，但对逃避工作的讨论在很大程度上具有误导性。

政治分层的持续存在

许多农民认为集体内部的政治分层是一个主要问题。³⁷但是，非社会主义的上层建筑是如何持续存在的？集体中的政治制度在形式上是民主的；正如苏拉米斯·波特和杰克·波特评论的那样，团队层面的政府是民主选举产生的。³⁸但历史一再警告我们，表象可能具有欺骗性。也就是说，不应从表面上看待民主。

农村集体在实践中不够民主有几个历史原因。首先，许多农民不识字，缺乏自我管理的经验。其次，许多农村干部因其对革命的贡献和多年的辛勤工作而享有的声望意味着他们期望他们的命令能被 readily 服从，而不是受到质疑。第三，虽然团队领导人由成员选举产生，但权力更大的 бригады 和 коммуны 中的上层干部不是由农民选举产生的，与农民的直接联系也少得多。

然而，这并不意味着干部拥有与革命前地主相当的权力。正如李怀印指出的那样，集体中的干部面临着严重的政治约束。

compared to their counterparts in both the prerevolutionary and post-collective periods.³⁹ Moreover, many cadres in the collective era were very self-disciplined, particularly relative to the cadres nowadays. However, even the subtlest barrier to democracy may lead to stratification. As the leaders of the collectives, the cadres were in charge of organizing production and distribution, a process that continuously reproduced stratification. That stratification was most starkly apparent in work organization and in sexual relationships.

Although it was not easy for the cadres to take advantage of their position to reward themselves with money, they had the chance to use their power to escape from manual labor or punish peasants by assigning tough work to them. When the team cadres went to meetings or simply hung around the fields, they still claimed to be working; this caused tensions between peasants and cadres. For example, in Xiliu Village, a team head did not participate in the work but claimed he had done a lot. Instead of assigning a work-point number, the recorder ironically wrote down: "He flew to the west, then to the east, doing nothing."⁴⁰ Also, assignments with different levels of difficulty were sometimes awarded the same work points, so the cadres could assign tough work to those whom they did not like, a practice that was not uncommon, according to my interviewees. In some stories, people tried to bribe the cadres to get better job assignments and "more consideration" on other things, including but not limited to letters of recommendation for urban and military jobs.

Rewards for the cadres also took the form of sexual relationships. In the early spring of 1983, the sudden death of a female peasant in Xiliu Village became the talk of the day for people in Songzi County. Yang Chuanrong's body was found in a small pond. The police soon announced that Yang's death was an accident, not a murder. This statement was welcomed by village leaders, including Yang's husband, Zhou Xianyin, who was party secretary for the village. The announcement was met with fierce opposition from peasants, however. The police were forced to carry out another investigation, but they arrived at the same conclusion. The protest continued until the fourth investigation, when police officers finally concluded that it was Zhou himself

与革命前和集体化时期相比，³⁹ 此外，集体时代的许多干部都非常自律，特别是相对于现在的干部而言。然而，即使是最细微的民主障碍也可能导致分层。作为集体的领导者，干部负责组织生产和分配，这个过程不断地再生产分层。这种分层在工作组织和性关系中最为明显。

虽然干部们不容易利用他们的职位来奖励自己金钱，但他们有机会利用他们的权力来逃避体力劳动，或者通过分配繁重的工作来惩罚农民。当生产队干部去开会或只是在田间闲逛时，他们仍然声称自己在工作；这引起了农民和干部之间的紧张关系。例如，在西柳村，一位队长不参加劳动，却声称自己做了很多。记录员没有分配工分，而是讽刺地写道：“他向西飞，然后向东飞，什么也没做。”⁴⁰ 此外，难度不同的工作有时会被授予相同的工分，因此干部可以将繁重的工作分配给他们不喜欢的人，根据我的采访对象，这种做法并不少见。在一些故事中，人们试图贿赂干部，以获得更好的工作安排以及在其他事情上“更多关照”，包括但不限于城市和军队工作的推荐信。

对干部的奖励也采取了性关系的形式。1983年初春，西流村一位女农民的猝死成为松滋县人们街谈巷议的话题。杨传荣的尸体在一个小池塘里被发现。警方很快宣布杨的死亡是意外事故，不是谋杀。这一声明受到了包括杨的丈夫、村党支部书记周显银在内的村领导的欢迎。然而，这一宣布遭到了农民的强烈反对。警方被迫进行了另一次调查，但他们得出了同样的结论。抗议一直持续到第四次调查，警方最终得出结论，是周显银本人所为。

who had ordered another peasant to kill his wife. Zhou had long been planning the murder so that he could marry another village woman who had been his mistress for seven years.⁴¹ Zhou was sentenced to death soon afterward. He was not a mob boss: indeed, he had been considered a model cadre of rural collectives for years. But he was so powerful that he and his allies managed to manipulate the investigation results three times. It is clear the cadre-peasant relationship was not in harmony.

The manifestation of stratification via sexual relationships was clearly not limited to Songzi. William Hinton noted in his classic book, *Fanshen*, that in 1948 corrupt cadres abused their power in order to have improper affairs with village women.⁴² Similar stories emerged twenty years later when Hinton revisited Longbow Village.⁴³ The basis for these inappropriate relationships is clear. The male cadre were able to have mistresses because of their influence on the local economy and politics. They could use their power over job assignments and loans to indebted households to extract sexual favors from village women. Starting from the 1960s, urban students were “sent down” from their schools to villages to get some experience in rural manual work. In order to go back to town to continue studying, they needed recommendation letters from the rural cadres, which created additional opportunities for abuse by the cadres.

There were historical conditions underlying these problems that could not be easily changed. For instance, during the socialist education movement in the early 1960s, an outside supervision group found Fan, a brigade-level party secretary in a nearby county, to be a problem: Fan collected bribes from every team, escaped from manual labor as much as possible, and showed favoritism in distribution decisions. The supervision group believed that Fan should be replaced. But Fan warned them that the brigade could not function without him. The work group had an emergency meeting, evaluated the situation, and made a new decision: Fan would stay in his position until another suitable leader was found. Although Fan was demoted for a short while, he returned to his original position after one year. According to someone on the work team whom I interviewed, Fan

他曾命令另一位农民杀死他的妻子。周早就计划了这起谋杀，这样他就可以娶另一位与他有七年婚外情的村妇。⁴¹周不久后被判处死刑。他不是黑帮老大：事实上，多年来他一直被认为是农村集体经济的模范干部。但他权力太大，以至于他和他的同盟者设法操纵了三次调查结果。显然，干部与农民的关系并不和谐。

通过性关系表现出的分层现象显然不仅限于松滋。威廉·欣顿在他的经典著作《翻身》中提到，1948年，腐败干部滥用权力，与村妇发生不正当关系。⁴²二十年后，当欣顿重访长弓村时，也出现了类似的故事。⁴³这些不正当关系的基础很明显。男干部能够拥有情妇，是因为他们对当地经济和政治的影响。他们可以利用自己对工作分配和负债家庭贷款的权力，从村妇那里榨取性好处。从20世纪60年代开始，城市学生从学校“下放”到农村，以获得一些农村体力劳动经验。为了回到城镇继续学习，他们需要农村干部的推荐信，这为干部滥用权力创造了额外的机会。

这些问题的背后存在着一些无法轻易改变的历史条件。例如，在20世纪60年代初的社会主义教育运动中，一个外部监督小组发现，附近一个县的范（音译）是一位大队级党委书记，存在问题：范从每个队收取贿赂，尽可能逃避体力劳动，并在分配决策中表现出偏袒。监督小组认为应该撤换范。但范警告他们，没有他，大队就无法运转。工作组召开了一次紧急会议，评估了情况，并做出了新的决定：范将继续留任，直到找到另一位合适的领导人。虽然范被降职了一段时间，但一年后他恢复了原来的职位。根据我采访的一位工作队成员的说法，范

was one of the few educated people in that village; he was also a strong leader and a great speaker, so it was nearly impossible to find an alternative within the village.⁴⁴

Another story originated in a nearby county, but it helps to illustrate the general picture. One day in the early 1960s, a brigade head suddenly asked a male peasant to go to work on a construction project outside the village; the peasant duly packed and started his journey. Before he left, his wife asked him several times to stay at home, but she failed to persuade him. On his way, he kept thinking about his wife's strange behavior and finally decided to go back to check if she was alright. When he got back, he discovered that the door of his house was locked from the inside. He got into the house through a back window and found the brigade head and his wife on the bed. The angry peasants of that brigade arrested the brigade head and sent him to the commune level to be punished. However, the commune leaders just rebuked the brigade head and sent him back to his original position. The explanation from the commune leaders was that this person was the only one capable of managing production in the brigade, so dismissing him would cause serious problems in achieving production goals.⁴⁵

During the Cultural Revolution, massive political struggles became possible. Political stratification was challenged but not effectively changed.⁴⁶ Yang was a team head for twenty years from the 1950s to the 1970s, and during the Cultural Revolution his opponents criticized him for his bad temper toward the masses. He stepped down twice because of this opposition, but both times he was asked to return to office within three months. No one else had as much experience in organizing production; his opponents simply could not get the ball rolling after taking office. On another occasion, commune leaders were required to attend a meeting during which the masses could criticize the leaders freely. The meeting was two days long, and the leaders had to keep standing from dawn to evening. However, after all the harsh criticisms, the leader of the opponents came to the stage and announced proudly: now that the revolutionary meeting is over, let those in power (the old leaders) remain in charge of normal business!⁴⁷

他是村里为数不多的受过教育的人之一；他也是一位坚强的领导者和一位伟大的演说家，因此几乎不可能在村里找到替代者⁴⁴。

另一个故事发生在附近的县，但它有助于说明总体情况。20 世纪 60 年代初的一天，一个生产队队长突然要求一位男农民去村外的一个建筑项目工作；这位农民照办了，收拾好东西就开始了他的旅程。在他离开之前，他的妻子多次要求他留在家里，但她没有说服他。在路上，他一直在思考妻子奇怪的行为，最终决定回去看看她是否安好。当他回来时，他发现他家的门从里面锁上了。他从后窗进入房子，发现生产队队长和他的妻子在床上。那个生产队愤怒的农民逮捕了生产队队长，并将他送到公社一级接受惩罚。然而，公社领导只是斥责了生产队队长，并将他送回原来的岗位。公社领导的解释是，这个人是唯一有能力管理生产队生产的人，所以解雇他会在实现生产目标方面造成严重问题。⁴⁵

在文化大革命期间，大规模的政治斗争成为可能。政治分层受到了挑战，但没有得到有效改变。⁴⁶ 从 20 世纪 50 年代到 70 年代，杨担任了 20 年的队长，在文化大革命期间，他的对手批评他对待群众态度恶劣。他曾两次因反对而下台，但每次都在三个月内被要求重返岗位。没有其他人有如此丰富的组织生产经验；他的对手在接任后根本无法让工作进行顺利。另一次，公社领导被要求参加一个会议，在会上群众可以自由地批评领导。会议持续了两天，领导们不得不从早到晚一直站着。然而，在所有严厉的批评之后，反对派的领导人走上台，自豪地宣布：现在革命会议结束了，让当权者（老领导）继续负责正常的事务！⁴⁷

Dongping Han noted that the Cultural Revolution significantly empowered the peasants in his hometown.⁴⁸ But this might not have been the general case. There were indeed struggles against stratification, but the status quo was not significantly changed. Sustaining democracy would have required more fundamental changes than can be accomplished in a few years.

Pro-accumulation Policy

Many peasants felt that the quality of life under the collectives was poor.⁴⁹ This comment contains a grain of truth, especially in comparison to the material life of ordinary peasants nowadays. We are not talking about modern consumer goods but about a low level of basic subsistence, for example, meat and rice consumption per year. There are no detailed data on personal consumption in the Songzi countryside, but the national figures suggest an overall sluggish improvement: annual per capita rural grain consumption increased slightly from about 186 kilograms in 1955 to 193 kilograms in 1978, while the consumption of pork grew from 4.19 kilograms to 6.37 kilograms and edible oil dropped from 1.72 kilograms to 1.05 kilograms.⁵⁰

The poverty was mainly caused by two factors. The first was that the increase in production (especially of food) was largely offset by the increase in population. For example, in 1949, Songzi's total grain output was 134,160 tons, while total population was 490,827; by 1979, the total grain output had increased to 308,640 tons (a 130 percent rise), but the population had also increased, to 813,824.⁵¹ The grain availability per capita increased from 273.5 kilograms to 379 kilograms, an improvement of nearly 40 percent over thirty years. While impressive, this still left peasants poor in absolute terms, since the starting point in 1949 was on the edge of starvation.

Although population increase slowed down the improvement in per capita consumption, this increase needs to be put into perspective. Between 1928 and 1949, Songzi's population increased by only 0.4 percent, or approximately 2,000 additional people.⁵² Extreme poverty, never-ending wars, and natural disasters all contributed to the

韩东屏指出，文化大革命极大地赋予了他的家乡农民权力。⁴⁸但这可能不是普遍情况。的确存在反对阶层化的斗争，但现状并没有发生显著改变。要维持民主，需要比几年内能够完成的更根本的变革。

亲积累政策

许多农民觉得集体生活下的生活质量很差。⁴⁹这个评论包含了一些真实性，特别是与当今普通农民的物质生活相比。我们不是在谈论现代消费品，而是在谈论低水平的基本生存，例如每年的肉类和大米消费量。没有关于松滋农村个人消费的详细数据，但全国数据显示总体改善缓慢：农村人均粮食年消费量从1955年的约186公斤略微增加到1978年的193公斤，而猪肉消费量从4.19公斤增加到6.37公斤，食用油从1.72公斤下降到1.05公斤。⁵⁰

贫困主要是由两个因素造成的。首先是产量（特别是粮食产量）的增加很大程度上被人口的增加所抵消。例如，1949年，松滋的粮食总产量为134160吨，总人口为490827人；到1979年，粮食总产量增加到308640吨（增长130%），但人口也增加到813824人。⁵¹人均粮食供应量从273.5公斤增加到379公斤，三十年内提高了近40%。虽然令人印象深刻，但这仍然使农民在绝对意义上处于贫困状态，因为1949年的起点处于饥饿边缘。

尽管人口增长减缓了人均消费的改善，但这种增长需要放在一个正确的角度来看待。1928年至1949年间，松滋的人口仅增长了0.4%，约增加2000人。⁵²极端贫困、永无止境的战争和自然灾害都导致了这一现象。

slow population growth. After 1949, as the rural collectives began to cover health care and basic needs, and with the tragic exception of the great famine, population grew steadily.

The second major factor was the state policy that favored rapid industrialization. Two aspects of this pro-accumulation policy are directly connected to the slow improvement in peasant consumption levels: labor accumulations and personal debt.

The first aspect involved the Maoist labor accumulation schemes, which made a significant contribution to the growth of agricultural productivity and rural development in general.⁵³ They represented a low-cost and efficient means of accumulation and had long-lasting positive impacts on the people of Songzi, especially relative to the financial constraints experienced in other developing countries, such as India.⁵⁴ Songzi, like many other places in China, underwent a huge amount of self-financed infrastructure building during the collective era. The labor for these projects often came from the local rural collectives; according to my interviews, average labor time for a normal peasant on these outside projects was one month per year. The only compensation provided by the county government was food, which was procured from the rural collectives. The laborers could also get work points for the construction work, which counted toward their share of the collective output at the end of the year. But since the construction work often did not immediately increase the output of the collectives, this mechanism effectively required the rural collectives to subsidize the projects and did not always bring the expected improvements in quality of life.

The second aspect is the widespread phenomenon of indebtedness in the collectives. In fact, in interviews and other historical accounts, “debts to the collectives” was a recurring theme. Some families in rural collectives were never out of debt, no matter how hard they worked.⁵⁵ In news reports and pro-decollectivization novels, the story often went like this: there was an extremely poor team where every family was in debt, but after dividing their land, within one or two years they were free of debt! Although most of the team-level accounts from the collective era were discarded after decollectivization, some local

人口增长缓慢。1949年后，随着农村集体开始覆盖医疗保健和基本需求，并且除了大饥荒的悲剧外，人口稳步增长。

第二个主要因素是国家政策倾向于快速工业化。这项积累政策的两个方面与农民消费水平的缓慢提高直接相关：劳动力积累和个人债务。

第一个方面涉及毛泽东时代的劳动力积累计划，该计划为农业生产力的增长和农村的整体发展做出了重大贡献。⁵³ 它们代表了一种低成本且高效的积累手段，并且对松滋人民产生了持久的积极影响，特别是相对于印度等其他发展中国家所经历的财政限制而言。⁵⁴ 像中国许多其他地方一样，松滋在集体时代经历了大量的自筹资金的基础设施建设。这些项目的劳动力通常来自当地的农村集体；根据我的访谈，普通农民在这些外部项目上的平均劳动时间为每年一个月。县政府提供的唯一补偿是食物，这些食物是从农村集体采购的。劳动者还可以获得建筑工程的工作积分，这些积分计入他们在年底集体产出中的份额。但是，由于建筑工程通常不会立即增加集体的产出，因此该机制实际上要求农村集体补贴这些项目，并且并非总是带来预期的生活质量改善。

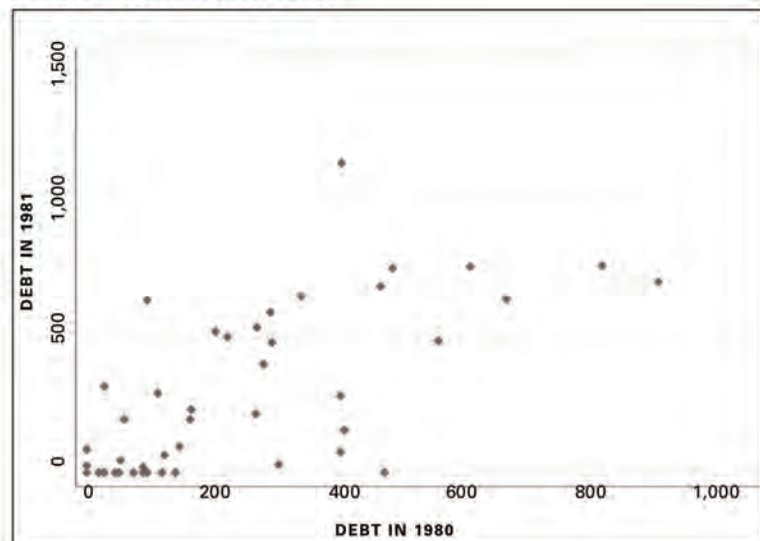
第二个方面是集体中普遍存在的负债现象。事实上，在访谈和其他历史记载中，“欠集体的债务”是一个反复出现的主题。农村集体中的一些家庭无论多么努力工作，都从未摆脱债务。⁵⁵ 在新闻报道和支持解散集体化的小说中，故事通常是这样的：有一个非常贫穷的生产队，每个家庭都负债累累，但在分地后的一两年内，他们就摆脱了债务！虽然集体时代的大部分队级账目在解散集体化后都被丢弃了，但一些地方

cadres still kept records at home. The records that we analyze here are from a team in the Yongjiu brigade in Babao Commune in 1981, just before decollectivization.

The team comprised sixty-three households, two-thirds of whom were in debt to the team in 1980. After one whole year's work, more than half of them were still in debt. According to interviews, this team's debt problem was certainly not the worst in the commune. The (accumulated) average debt per household at the end of 1981 was 720 yuan; the average allocation per household for the year 1981 was just 615 yuan. Thus, a whole year's work was not enough to pay off the average household debt.

A closer look at the household data reveals that the burden of debt was not shared equally. Those indebted in 1980 were likely to be in debt again the next year and those without debt were also likely to be free of debt in 1981. The persistence of debt can be seen in Figure 5.1 (below), which plots the final debt from 1981 against the final debt from 1980. Although the absolute number of indebted households

FIGURE 5.1: Household Debt

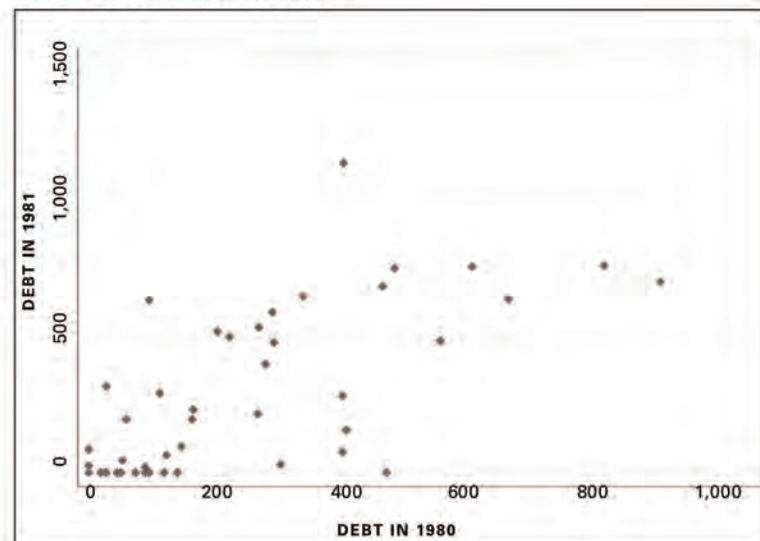


干部们仍然在家中保存记录。我们在此分析的记录来自 1981 年八宝公社永久大队的一个生产队，当时正值解散集体化前夕。

这个生产队由六十三户人家组成，其中三分之二在 1980 年欠生产队的债。经过一整年的工作，仍然有一半以上的人欠债。根据访谈，这个生产队的债务问题肯定不是公社里最严重的。1981 年底，平均每户（累计）债务为 720 元；1981 年平均每户分配额仅为 615 元。因此，一整年的工作不足以偿还平均家庭债务。

仔细观察家庭数据可以发现，债务负担并不平等。1980 年负债的人很可能在第二年再次负债，而没有债务的人也很可能在 1981 年没有债务。债务的持续性可以在图 5.1（下图）中看到，该图绘制了 1981 年的最终债务与 1980 年的最终债务。虽然负债家庭的绝对数量

FIGURE 5.1: Household Debt



decreased from forty-one to thirty-three in 1981, the effective debts per household (total debts divided by the number of indebted) actually increased from 265 yuan to 416 yuan (a 57 percent increase). Meanwhile, the effective allocation per household was 225 yuan; the gap between better-off families and poor families could thus be huge. This analysis reveals that a portion of the team was mired in debt. It also implies that the collectives were not as egalitarian as is often claimed. This confirms the suspicion that there may have been large differences between families within any one team.⁵⁶

Where did these debts come from? During the year, peasants labored to get work points. At the end of the year, the collective calculated the revenue from its products (agricultural and industrial), and after deducting production costs and all kinds of accumulation, the rest was distributed in proportion to the work points each laborer had accrued during the year. There were also pre-allocations to distribute food rations to households during the year. Peasants sometimes also needed cash, so they borrowed from the collectives. Once the peasants received their allocation from the collectives at the end of the year, they paid off their debts from food and cash loans. However, as indicated above, many peasants' annual expenditure exceeded their income. The result was debts to the collectives.

The debt problem resulted from two related structural factors. First, the terms of trade between agricultural products and industrial goods did not favor agriculture. Although the price of some industrial goods decreased considerably during the collective era, the procurement price of most agricultural goods was kept relatively low to facilitate accumulation. The price of agricultural goods was not fixed or decreasing, but overall increased only moderately during the collective era. Take rice as an example: between 1965 and 1978, the procurement price in Songzi increased just 0.9 percent annually.⁵⁷ Furthermore, the productivity increase in agriculture was always slower than in industry, which put agricultural goods at a disadvantage.

Second, within their very limited income, the rural collectives had to cover various expenditures, including medical care, capital

1981年, 负债家庭的比例从41%降至33%, 但每个负债家庭的实际债务(总债务除以负债家庭数量)却从265元增加到416元(增加了57%)。与此同时, 每个家庭的有效分配额为225元; 富裕家庭和贫困家庭之间的差距可能非常大。这一分析表明, 一部分生产队陷入了债务困境。这也暗示了集体经济并不像通常声称的那样具有平均主义。这证实了人们的怀疑, 即任何一个生产队内的家庭之间可能存在很大的差异。⁵⁶

这些债务从何而来? 在一年中, 农民劳动以获得工分。在年底, 集体计算其产品(农业和工业)的收入, 在扣除生产成本和各种积累后, 剩余部分按每个劳动者在一年中获得的工分比例进行分配。还有预先分配, 以便在一年中向家庭分配口粮。农民有时也需要现金, 所以他们会向集体借款。一旦农民在年底从集体那里得到分配, 他们就会用食物和现金贷款偿还债务。然而, 如上所述, 许多农民的年度支出超过了他们的收入。其结果是对集体的负债。

债务问题源于两个相关的结构性因素。首先, 农产品和工业品之间的贸易条件不利于农业。尽管在集体时代, 一些工业品的价格大幅下降, 但为了促进积累, 大多数农产品的采购价格保持在相对较低的水平。农产品的价格并不是固定的或下降的, 但在集体时代总体上只是适度上涨。以大米为例: 1965年至1978年间, 松滋的采购价格每年仅上涨0.9%。⁵⁷ 此外, 农业生产率的提高总是慢于工业, 这使农产品处于不利地位。

其次, 在他们非常有限的收入范围内, 农村集体必须支付各种支出, 包括医疗保健、资本

investment, and the basic needs of all the members. This further limited the available resources for consumption. Returning to the accounts of the Yongjiu brigade team, we see that in 1981 the total revenue of the team was 77,229.51 yuan. A portion of this revenue was used to cover production costs (fertilizer, seeds, machines, taxes, etc.); another portion was reserved for public welfare accumulation and a capital improvement fund. The costs totaled 31,410.61 yuan, leaving 39,915.37 yuan for distribution to members according to their work points. However, the total actually allocated was 42,689.97 yuan, because that was the total consumption needed by the peasants. This means a new debt of 2,774.6 was added to the team's accumulated debts from previous years.

The persistent indebtedness was not surprising in a poor country attempting to build its own modern industry, since it could only extract surplus from itself. Paul Baran already foresaw that at the early stage of a progressive economy, mass consumption should rise very slowly, if at all. Indeed, it was an advantage for the peasants to have collectives from which they could always borrow with no interest.⁵⁸ Moreover, in my interviews, none of the older peasants ever expressed discontent with the pro-accumulation policy, but tended to think of themselves as allied with industrial workers. That is, they believed China needed to build its industry, with the support of agriculture. Once industry got stronger, industry could support agriculture with its technology and capital, and both would be developed.

The other side of the story is the existence of income differentials within collectives, which is in immediate conflict with the official ideology. In fact, as Whyte observed, China's egalitarianism was more evident on an ideological level and less at the level of reducing income differentials.⁵⁹ However, this may not have been a serious problem. Income distribution under the collectives was definitely much more equal than in the Republican period.⁶⁰ Furthermore, household income was affected by the number of laborers and dependents, which means that high-income households might have a lot of people to feed. Thus, household income differentials did not necessarily translate into a high degree of inequality.

投资和所有成员的基本需求。进一步限制了可用于消费的资源。回到永旧大队生产队的账目,我们看到1981年该队的总收入为77229.51元。这部分收入用于支付生产成本(化肥、种子、机器、税收等);另一部分用于公共福利积累和资本改善基金。这些成本总计31410.61元,剩下39915.37元,根据成员的工分分配给成员。然而,实际分配的总额为42689.97元,因为这是农民需要的总消费。这意味着在团队历年积累的债务上又增加了2774.6元的新债务。

e 在一个试图建立自己现代工业的贫穷国家,持续的负债并不令人惊讶,因为它只能从自身榨取剩余价值。保罗·巴兰早就预见到,在进步经济的早期阶段,大众消费的增长应该非常缓慢,甚至根本没有增长。事实上,农民拥有可以随时借钱而无需支付利息的集体是一项优势。⁵⁸此外,在我的访谈中,没有一位老农民对亲积累政策表示不满,而是倾向于将自己视为与产业工人结盟。也就是说,他们认为中国需要建设工业,并得到农业的支持。一旦工业变得更强大,工业就可以用其技术和资本支持农业,两者都会得到发展。

e 故事的另一方面是集体内部存在收入差异,这与官方意识形态直接冲突。事实上,正如怀特所观察到的,中国的平均主义在意识形态层面上更为明显,而在减少收入差异的层面上则不太明显。⁵⁹然而,这可能不是一个严重的问题。集体下的收入分配肯定比民国时期更加平等。⁶⁰此外,家庭收入受到劳动力和受抚养人数量的影响,这意味着高收入家庭可能需要养活很多人。因此,家庭收入差异不一定会转化为高度的不平等。

Intracollective inequalities also stemmed from other sources. For example, differences in per capita income among collectives may also occur as a result of differences in quantity and quality of land per head, which is largely a legacy from the revolution and land reform.⁶¹ As production teams became the basic accounting units after the early 1960s, very limited inter-team redistribution occurred, which contributed to the differences among teams, brigades, and communes. Vermeer similarly observed that the size of the economic accounting unit also had a major influence on inequality.⁶²

DECOLLECTIVIZATION

Rumors circulated at the beginning of the 1980s about possible changes in the Communist Party's rural policies. It was later confirmed that household production was the new favored model of the central leaders. In fact, some villages had already adopted household farming as early as 1980 under orders from above.⁶³ In 1981, Du Runsheng, the architect of decollectivization at the national level, went to a national council meeting with all the ministers in 1981 to present ideas for reforming the collectives.⁶⁴ In his critique of the rural collectives, Du emphasized that the existing collectives were not really egalitarian. On the one hand, some privileged groups appropriated an unfair share of the surplus; on the other hand, 31 percent of the households were in debt. Du's talk seemed to be well received by the top leaders, and Bo Yibo, the vice premier, immediately commented, "This is also exploitation!" It should be noted that this meeting was clearly organized to announce the upcoming decollectivization and everyone present knew it. It is interesting that the politicians actually considered stratification rather than "egalitarianism" as the core problem. But their prescription was simply to dismantle the collectives.

In late 1982, the county government sent the decollectivization order to every commune, brigade, and team. It was a very strange moment, and many peasants were simply confused.⁶⁵ A number of peasants in my interviews said the same thing. They felt the Communist Party had chosen a capitalist road by dismantling the

集体内部的不平等也源于其他因素。例如，集体之间的人均收入差异也可能因人均土地的数量和质量差异而产生，这在很大程度上是革命和土地改革的遗留问题。⁶¹20 世纪 60 年代初生产队成为基本核算单位后，队与队之间几乎没有进行再分配，这导致了生产队、大队和公社之间的差异。维米尔也同样观察到，经济核算单位的规模对不平等也有重大影响。⁶²

非集体化

20 世纪 80 年代初，关于共产党农村政策可能发生变化的谣言四起。后来证实，家庭生产是中央领导人青睐的新模式。事实上，早在 1980 年，一些村庄就奉命开始实行家庭承包制。⁶³ 1981 年，国家非集体化的设计师杜润生参加了一个由所有部长参加的全国委员会会议，提出了改革集体的想法。⁶⁴ 在他对农村集体的批判中，杜强调说，现有的集体实际上并不平等。一方面，一些特权群体占据了不公平份额的剩余价值；另一方面，31% 的家庭负债累累。杜的讲话似乎受到了高层领导的欢迎，副总理薄一波立即评论说：“这也是剥削！”应该指出的是，这次会议显然是为了宣布即将到来的非集体化而组织的，在场的每个人都知道这一点。有趣的是，政治家们实际上将分层而不是“平均主义”视为核心问题。但他们的处方只是解散集体。

1982 年末，县政府向每个公社、大队和生产队下达了解散集体化的命令。那是一个非常奇怪的时刻，许多农民都感到困惑。⁶⁵ 我在采访中，许多农民都说了同样的话。他们觉得共产党通过解体走上了一条资本主义道路。

collectives and restoring a petty producer economy. There were practical as well as ideological concerns. In those communes where mechanization was already developed and quality of life was relatively high, there was strong opposition to decollectivization. Similar hostile attitudes could also be found among families with few male laborers.⁶⁶ A peasant explained why his team was hostile to the new policy: “We already had very clear labor division: some only driving vehicles, some only cultivating, and some running the manufacturing shops, and it worked pretty well. After decollectivization, everyone had to cultivate while lots of us just did not know anything about it.”⁶⁷ Another peasant shared his experiences: “By that time I was already working in another village specializing in fishery. I really loved the job, but after decollectivization my wife could not manage the plots on her own, so I had to return to my village to continue cultivating.”⁶⁸

There were certainly people who were in favor of the institutional change, including families with plenty of labor power to exploit or those in dysfunctional collectives.⁶⁹ For those who suffered from stratification, too, decollectivization seemed to be a good solution. There were even peasants who felt happy about decollectivization because they “don’t have to work so hard as under collectives”!⁷⁰ The illusion that decollectivization could cure the pains of stratification was so popular that it was reflected in all kinds of popular writing. In 1981, He Shiguang published an influential short story, “Xiang chang shang” [On the ground]. The gist was that, once you offended a cadre, you offended the whole elite class in the village, which would immediately create troubles for you in purchasing basic goods from the shop or in getting subsidized food (a scarce resource at that time) from the cadres. The whole village seemed to be owned and managed by a small group of people, and one had no choice but to obey their orders. So what could save the peasants? The main character explains: “I was extremely poor and ashamed, but now it is different. I am now cultivating a plot on my own, and I am now able to feed my family very well. I won’t need any subsidized food from you, and you won’t be able to order me around anymore.” In other words, decollectivization equals political empowerment.⁷¹

集体化解体，恢复小生产者经济。这既有实际的考虑，也有意识形态的考虑。在那些机械化已经发展起来，生活质量相对较高的公社中，人们强烈反对解散集体。在男性劳动力少的家庭中，也能发现类似的反感情绪。⁶⁶一位农民解释了他的团队为何对新政策持敌对态度：“我们已经有了非常明确的劳动分工：有些人只开车，有些人只耕种，有些人经营制造车间，而且运作得很好。解散集体化后，每个人都必须耕种，但我们很多人根本不懂。⁶⁷另一位农民分享了他的经历：“那时我已经在另一个村庄专门从事渔业。我真的很喜欢这份工作，但解散集体化后，我的妻子无法独自管理这些地块，所以我不得不回到我的村庄继续耕种。”⁶⁸

当然，也有人赞成这种制度变革，包括那些有大量劳动力可供剥削的家庭，或者那些功能失调的集体。⁶⁹对于那些遭受分层之苦的人来说，解散集体化似乎也是一个好的解决方案。甚至有些农民对解散集体化感到高兴，因为他们“不必像在集体中那样努力工作”！⁷⁰解散集体化可以治愈分层之痛的错觉非常流行，这反映在各种流行的写作中。1981年，何士光发表了一篇颇有影响力的短篇小说《乡场上》[在地上]。要点是，一旦你得罪了一个干部，你就得罪了村里的整个精英阶层，这会立即给你在商店购买基本商品或从干部那里获得补贴食品

（当时是一种稀缺资源）带来麻烦。整个村庄似乎被一小群人拥有和管理，你别无选择，只能服从他们的命令。那么什么可以拯救农民呢？主角解释说：“我以前非常贫穷和羞愧，但现在不同了。我现在自己耕种一块土地，现在能够很好地养活我的家人。我不需要你任何补贴的食物，你也不能再命令我了。”换句话说，解散集体化等于政治赋权。⁷¹

There was also another attitude among peasants: indifference. A large portion of them did not care about ideology. What they did every day in the collectives was to get work points, and what they did after decollectivization was to earn profits. For them, socialist collectives were not bad, although not perfect; the household model would be something uncertain and might evolve into capitalism, but why bother resisting? If the policy changed, they could live with it. The only important thing for them was working hard; institutional change would be something totally exogenous. A former cadre gave this estimation of the relative portions of the different attitudes in his brigade: more than 30 percent against decollectivization, less than 30 percent in favor of decollectivization, and the remaining 40 percent were fine with either one.⁷²

Maybe the “indifferent” people were the really wise ones, because no matter what the peasants thought, decollectivization was forced upon them by the upper-level cadres in Songzi in late 1982. Peasants and cadres described the campaign as a “wind” after which no collectives remained. Many local cadres had a very difficult time persuading themselves to agree with decollectivization; an old cadre recalled that one day he and other rural leaders were summoned to the county government to get some training on understanding the importance of decollectivization. After the training, everyone was required to swear that he or she understood the new policy and would implement it right away.⁷³

It is fair to say that the ultimate reason for decollectivization in Songzi was the change of national policy, which aroused complicated reactions from the peasants depending on the relative development level of their collectives. But there was no major unrest in the process, unlike the response to reform of the publicly owned enterprises a decade later. This suggests that decollectivization indeed appealed to the peasants to some extent. What was the appeal? Stratification was at the root of unsatisfactory performance and was the focus of peasants’ complaints during the collective era. Decollectivization seemed to be able to destroy stratification by destroying the collectives. That was probably one of the most important reasons for most peasants to

农民中也存在另一种态度：漠不关心。他们中的很大一部分人并不关心意识形态。他们在集体中每天所做的就是获得工分，而他们在非集体化之后所做的就是赚取利润。对他们来说，社会主义集体虽然不完美，但也还不错；家庭模式是不确定的，可能会演变成资本主义，但为什么要费心抵制呢？如果政策改变了，他们可以接受。对他们来说，唯一重要的事情就是努力工作；制度变革将是完全外生的。一位前干部对他的大队中不同态度的相对比例进行了这样的估计：超过 30% 的人反对非集体化，不到 30% 的人赞成非集体化，剩下的 40% 的人对两者都无所谓。⁷²

也许那些“漠不关心”的人才是真正明智的人，因为无论农民怎么想，1982 年末，松滋的上级干部都强迫他们进行非集体化。农民和干部将这场运动描述为一场“风”，之后就没有集体了。许多当地干部很难说服自己同意非集体化；一位老干部回忆说，有一天，他和其它乡村领导被召集到县政府，接受关于理解非集体化重要性的培训。培训结束后，每个人都被要求宣誓说，他或她理解新政策，并将立即实施。⁷³

可以公平地说，松滋去集体化的根本原因在于国家政策的变化，这引起了农民的复杂反应，具体取决于他们集体经济的相对发展水平。但在此过程中没有发生重大动荡，这与十年后国有企业改革的反应不同。这表明，去集体化在一定程度上确实吸引了农民。吸引力是什么？分层是不令人满意的表现的根源，也是集体化时代农民抱怨的焦点。去集体化似乎可以通过摧毁集体来摧毁分层。这可能是大多数农民

accept the new policy without serious opposition. Farmers' incomes rose because the government raised the prices they received for their agricultural produce, which probably also contributed to the peasants' faith in the new policies. Other factors like propaganda efforts also played a role, as we have seen in previous chapters.

The question then arises, was decollectivization a genuine solution to stratification? As we note earlier in the book, stratification is not dependent on a collective structure *per se*. In fact, if the socialist elements of the collectives still put some constraint on stratification, at least in terms of income distribution, there would be no such restrictions afterward. In Xiliu Village, where Zhou Xianyin killed his wife, the collective enterprises, orange farms, and tea farms once performed well under Zhou. One peasant commented: "Zhou never took a dime out of the public funds."⁷⁴ However, these collective businesses all went bankrupt after decollectivization, with only the *nouveaux riches* benefiting. The villagers all felt that it was not possible to carry on the collective projects because nobody would take care of them.⁷⁵ In the late 1990s, the party secretary rented out large areas of farmland to some outside firms at amazingly low prices. When the peasants forced him to step down, he immediately found a new job in one of those firms.⁷⁶

On a more general level, the investment and social support that the peasants derived from the collective businesses were severely eroded after decollectivization.⁷⁷ Although critical of the rural collectives, Friedman et al. admitted that the post-Mao era did not show any "signs of change for the better" and that under the collective regime "privileged people monopolized material perquisites behind closed doors," while in the post-collective era "wealth was flaunted."⁷⁸ The uprising in Wukan after more than a decade of grievances illustrates that decollectivization actually disempowered the peasantry and allowed even greater and more explicit stratification.⁷⁹

毫无异议地接受新政策。农民的收入增加了，因为政府提高了他们农产品的价格，这可能也有助于农民对新政策的信任。正如我们在前几章中看到的，宣传工作等其他因素也发挥了作用。

那么问题就来了，解散集体化真的是解决分层的办法吗？正如我们在本书前面指出的，分层并不依赖于集体结构本身。事实上，如果集体的社会主义因素仍然对分层施加某种限制，至少在收入分配方面，那么之后就不会有这样的限制。在周先银杀死妻子的西柳村，集体企业、橘园和茶园曾经在周的领导下经营得很好。一位农民评论说：“周从未从公共资金中拿走一分钱。”⁷⁴ 然而，这些集体企业在解散集体化后都破产了，只有新贵们从中受益。村民们都觉得集体项目无法继续进行，因为没有人会照顾它们。⁷⁵ 20 世纪 90 年代末，党委书记以惊人的低价将大片农田出租给一些外部公司。当农民们迫使他下台时，他立即在其中一家公司找到了一份新工作。⁷⁶

在更普遍的层面上，农民从集体企业获得的投资和社会支持在解散集体化后受到了严重侵蚀。⁷⁷ 尽管弗里德曼等人批评农村集体，但他们承认后毛泽东时代没有出现任何“好转的迹象”，并且在集体政权下，“特权阶级在幕后垄断了物质特权”，而在后集体时代，“财富被炫耀”。⁷⁸ 乌坎起义在经历了十多年的不满之后，说明解散集体化实际上剥夺了农民的权力，并允许更大和更明确的分层。⁷⁹

Epilogue

The dramatic political and economic change in the Chinese villages in the 1980s was a prelude to the many struggles that finally gave birth to contemporary Chinese society. The seemingly harmonious ending of collectives and the subsequent output spur have provided political and economic conditions for the later rise of capitalism in China.

Theoretically, the success story of decollectivization in China is part of the basis of neoliberal doctrine. The neoliberal doctrine holds privatization and market liberalization as the prescription for a prosperous human society. Mainstream ideology also considers decollectivization and the neoliberal reforms in general as spontaneous grassroots movements. This line is explicitly or implicitly embedded in most of the contemporary writing on China's recent history.

This book looks critically at the Chinese agrarian change from a Marxist point of view. Based on both quantitative and qualitative evidence, I show that the decollectivization campaign did not happen because of inefficient collectives and did not lead to more efficient agriculture. The campaign was more top-down and coercive than spontaneous and grassroots-based. After debunking the myth, I argue that it was vital for the post-Mao elites to dismantle the collectives

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20 世纪 80 年代的 T

he dramatic political and economic change in the Chinese vil-

村庄是当代中

国社会最终诞生的许多斗争的序幕。集体看似和谐的终结和随之而来的产量激增，为后来中国资本主义的崛起提供了政治和经济条件。

从理论上讲，中国去集体化成功的故事是新自由主义理论的基础之一。新自由主义理论认为，私有化和市场自由化是人类社会繁荣的处方。主流意识形态也认为去集体化和新自由主义改革总体上是自发的基层运动。这种观点或明确或含蓄地嵌入了大多数关于中国近代史的当代著作中。

本书从马克思主义的观点批判性地看待中国的农业变革。基于定量和定性的证据，我表明，去集体化运动的发生并非因为集体效率低下，也没有带来更高的农业效率。这场运动更多的是自上而下和强制性的，而不是自发的和基于基层的。在揭穿这个神话之后，我认为，对于后毛泽东时代的精英来说，拆除集体至关重要

to pursue a pro-capitalist path and that decollectivization served as the very first step in cracking the Maoist system. This is not saying the Maoist collectives were perfect socialist models. The case study at the end focuses on the contradictions within the collectives, which helps explain the puzzle that a potentially unpopular reform such as decollectivization did not meet much opposition from the collective members.

The last decade has clearly seen a revival of Marxism in both academic and activist circles in China. I taught economics in colleges in China for three years after graduate school. I often included in my syllabus the political economy of decollectivization. The students loved to hear a Marxist (and different) explanation of decollectivization and the broad social change in China. My feeling is that the official propaganda about decollectivization is less popular than before. I take that as a sign of a shift in the mind-set of Chinese youth toward China's socialist past and capitalist present. In the last decade, a new generation of radical scholars has emerged in China, including Lao Tian and She Shui Nong Fu, who have published many critical essays on agrarian change on major leftist websites. A popular activist-scholar-based website, People's Food Sovereignty (www.shiwuzq.com), has also published important critiques on the capitalist transformation of agriculture.

After all, the rural working people did not gain much besides praise on paper about their "initiative" in tearing down socialism. Actually, no working people in the world have gained much. We are at a particularly interesting time when nearly forty years of neoliberalism has created its own systemic crisis and made working people's lives even harder around the whole world. The question, of course, is, what is to be done?

It is now clear that the traditional peasant question will fade and the worker question will become dominant in China. The current Chinese regime encourages land consolidation and further privatization of the rural land. This trend is complicated by efforts to maintain a safety network for the migrant workers by preserving small household production. But overall, capitalism has already begun and will

为了追求亲资本主义的道路，解散集体化是打破毛泽东体制的第一步。这并不是说毛泽东时代的集体是完美的社会主义模式。文末的案例研究侧重于集体内部的矛盾，这有助于解释为什么像解散集体化这样可能不受欢迎的改革并没有遇到集体成员的太多反对。

在过去的十年里，马克思主义在中国学术界和活动界都明显复兴。研究生毕业后，我曾在中国高校教了三年经济学。我经常在教学大纲中加入解散集体化的政治经济学。学生们喜欢听到对解散集体化和中国广泛社会变革的马克思主义（和不同的）解释。我的感觉是，关于解散集体化的官方宣传不如以前那么受欢迎了。我认为这是中国青年对中国社会主义过去和资本主义现状的思想转变的迹象。在过去的十年里，中国涌现了一批新的激进学者，包括老田和社水农夫，他们在主要的左翼网站上发表了许多关于农业变革的批判性文章。一个受欢迎的以活动家 - 学者为基础的网站 —— 人民食物主权（www.shiwuzq.com）—— 也发表了关于农业资本主义转型的重要评论。

毕竟，农村劳动人民除了在纸上得到关于他们撕毁社会主义的“主动性”的赞扬外，并没有获得多少好处。事实上，世界上没有哪个劳动人民获得多少好处。我们正处在一个特别有趣的时刻，近 40 年的新自由主义已经造成了自身的系统性危机，使世界各地劳动人民的生活更加艰难。当然，问题是，该怎么办？

现在已经很清楚，传统的农民问题将会逐渐消失，而工人问题将在中国占据主导地位。当前的中国政权鼓励土地整合和农村土地的进一步私有化。为了通过保持小规模家庭生产来维持对农民工的安全保障，这一趋势变得更加复杂。但总的来说，资本主义已经开始并将继续发展。

continue to dominate the Chinese countryside. There is no visible feudal relation emerging there, and the traditional peasant question (redistributive land reform) is no longer a major concern. On the other hand, the conflict between workers (the old urban workers, the new migrant workers, and the rural workers) and the industrial and agrarian capitalists is becoming increasingly significant.

In the current context, a progressive economic program in China will have to include at least the following. First of all, (re)empower the peasants by organizing peasants into peasant associations and co-ops. The decollectivization has left millions of peasants greatly disempowered. This could help to reduce the exploitation of middlemen and big capital and stop the deterioration of the living conditions of the millions of rural residents.

Second, rebuild the peasant-worker alliance both in terms of economics and politics. One of the lessons from the last century is that peasants and workers did not have much solidarity in their resistance to neoliberalism. The ruling class took advantage of this and let the migrant peasant workers compete with the urban workers to enforce discipline and to lower wages. A rise in peasants' income and workers' wages at the same time will make sure that they are not again divided and conquered. In this way, any blessing for the peasants (for example, higher grain prices) will not turn into a curse for the workers (higher living costs). Currently workers and peasants are still struggling with different issues, but in due time there might emerge more political collaboration between the two.

Third, capital regulation and control are crucial. The neoliberal age has given capital the freedom to move across borders to achieve a greater profit, and it has given the working class the freedom to race to the bottom. If pro-peasant-worker policies are to be implemented, tight controls on capital flow will be a necessary condition so that the capitalists cannot easily run away from their responsibilities as they often do in the neoliberal age.

There are still many unsettled questions in this book on building and maintaining a better society. Alain Badiou says we are still the contemporaries of May 1968. He is absolutely correct in the sense that

继续主导着中国农村。那里没有出现明显的封建关系，传统的农民问题（重新分配土地改革）不再是主要问题。另一方面，工人（老城市工人、新农民工和农村工人）与工农业资本家之间的冲突正变得越来越重要。

在目前的背景下，中国进步的经济方案至少应包括以下内容。首先，通过将农民组织成农民协会和合作社来（重新）赋予农民权力。非集体化使数百万农民的权利大大丧失。这可能有助于减少中间商和大资本的剥削，并阻止数百万农村居民生活条件的恶化。

其次，从经济和政治两方面重建工农联盟。上个世纪的教育之一是，农民和工人在抵制新自由主义方面并没有太多的团结。统治阶级利用了这一点，让农民工与城市工人竞争，以加强纪律和降低工资。农民收入和工人 wages 同时提高，将确保他们不会再次被分裂和征服。这样，对农民的任何祝福（例如，更高的粮食价格）都不会变成工人的诅咒（更高的生活成本）。目前，工人和农民仍在为不同的问题而奋斗，但假以时日，两者之间可能会出现更多的政治合作。

第三，资本 regulation 和控制至关重要。新自由主义时代赋予了资本跨国流动的自由，以实现更大的利润，并赋予了工人阶级竞相触底的自由。如果要实施亲农民工政策，那么对资本流动的严格控制将是一个必要条件，这样资本家就不会像在新自由主义时代经常做的那样轻易逃避责任。

关于建设和维护一个更美好的社会，本书中仍有许多悬而未决的问题。阿兰·巴迪欧说，我们仍然是 1968 年 5 月的同代人。从这个意义上说，他是绝对正确的，即

the last generation has not fully solved the questions arising from the last wave of revolutionary experiments. Any future socialist project will have to revisit the history of socialism in the last century. The capitalist class has fruitlessly sought to return to the prerevolutionary phase, providing literally nothing valuable for building a better society. The working class of the world cannot afford to waste more time on capitalism. It is time to ask these questions again.

上一代人尚未完全解决上一波革命实验所产生的问题。任何未来的社会主义项目都必须重新审视上个世纪的社会主义历史。资本家阶级徒劳地试图回到革命前的阶段，在建设更美好的社会方面实际上没有任何有价值的东西。世界工人阶级再也承受不起在资本主义上浪费更多时间。现在是再次提出这些问题的时候了。

APPENDIX 1

附录 1

APPENDIX 2

APPENDIX 2

BIBLIOGRAPHY

参考文献

Appendix 1

DETAILS OF THE REPLICATION OF LIN'S PAPER IN CHAPTER 3

The core model in Lin's paper is shown in Equation 1. It is a typical Cobb-Douglas production function with total real-crop values as output and four input variables: land, labor, power, and chemical fertilizer. In addition, six ad hoc variables were included: the proportion of teams that had adopted HRS at the end of the year (HRS), the index of market price relative to manufactured input price (MP), the index of above-quota prices relative to industrial input prices (GP, from Table 3.3, col. 3), the percentage of sown area in nongrain crops (Ngca), the multiple-crop index (MCI), and a time trend (T).¹ Twenty-eight provincial dummies were included to account for unobserved soil, cultural, and political factors. Lin also did a two-way fixed-effect model and included time dummies to capture year-specific factors such as weather and price changes.² Both one-way and two-way fixed-effect models are replicated in Table 3.4, columns 1 and 2.

1. The appendix of Lin's paper gave a detailed explanation of the sources of these data.
2. National price ratio index variables are dropped to avoid colinearity.

附录 1

D 林论文复制的详细信息 第 3 章

林论文中的核心模型如公式 1 所示。这是一个典型的 Cobb-Douglas 生产函数，以实际农作物总价值作为产出，四个投入变量：土地、劳动力、电力和化肥。此外，还包括六个临时变量：当年年底采用 HRS 的团队比例 (HRS)，市场价格相对于制成品投入价格的指数 (MP)，配额以上价格相对于工业投入价格的指数 (GP，来自表 3.3，第 3 列)，非粮食作物播种面积的百分比 (Ngca)，多熟指数 (MCI) 和时间趋势 (T)。¹ 包含 28 个省级虚拟变量，以解释未观察到的土壤、文化和政治因素。林还做了一个双向固定效应模型，并包括时间虚拟变量来捕获年份特定因素，如天气和价格变化。² 单向和双向固定效应模型都在表 3.4 的第 1 列和第 2 列中复制。

1. 林的论文附录详细解释了这些数据的来源。2. 删除国家价格比率指数变量以避免共线性。

$$\begin{aligned} \ln(Y_{i,t}) = & \alpha_1 + \alpha_2 * \ln(\text{Land}_{i,t}) + \alpha_3 * \ln(\text{Labor}_{i,t}) + \alpha_4 * \ln(\text{Power}_{i,t}) \\ & + \alpha_5 * \ln(\text{Fert}_{i,t}) + \alpha_6 * \ln(\text{MP}_{i,t-1}) + \alpha_7 * \ln(\text{GP}_{i,t}) + \alpha_8 * \ln(\text{Ngca}_{i,t}) \\ & + \alpha_9 * \ln(\text{MCI}_{i,t}) + \alpha_{10} * \text{HRS}_{i,t} + \alpha_{11} * T_t + \sum_{j=0}^{27} a_j D_j + \varepsilon_{it} \end{aligned}$$

Where Y = crop output per team in constant 1980 prices

Land = cultivated land per team

Labor = weighted labor force per team

Power = total power used (machines and draft animals)

Fert = Fertilizer application per team

Here we estimate the effect of HRS by adjusting Lin's model based on the critiques laid out in the text. Before the empirical analysis, the adjustments need to be operationalized.

First, as this study argues, before any detailed data illustrating the actual HRS adoption rate before yearly production became available, it seems to be more appropriate to use a one-period lagged value of HRS. This way, all the production progress attributed to HRS in the model would be justified. Second, a two-way fixed-effect model seems to be the more reliable specification; therefore it will continue to be used by this study. This also implies that the problematic price index used by Lin will not become a problem here because it will be dropped and the price impacts will be captured by year dummies. Third, weather conditions (data is from Table 3.2) will be added into the model to see if the year dummies could fully capture its impacts. The basic model is shown in Equation 2 as a two-way fixed-effect model with almost the same variables as Lin used (see last section for variable explanation).

$$\begin{aligned} \ln(Y_{i,t}) = & \alpha_1 + \alpha_2 * \ln(\text{Land}_{i,t}) + \alpha_3 * \ln(\text{Labor}_{i,t}) + \alpha_4 \\ & \ln(\text{Power}_{i,t}) + \alpha_5 * \ln(\text{Fert}_{i,t}) + \alpha_6 * \ln(\text{Ngca}_{i,t}) + \alpha_7 * \ln(\text{MCI}_{i,t}) \\ & + \alpha_8 * \text{HRS}_{i,t} + \alpha_9 * T_t + \sum_{j=0}^{27} a_j D_j + \sum_{k=0}^{17} a_k T_k + \varepsilon_{it} \end{aligned}$$

$$\begin{aligned} \ln(Y_{i,t}) = & \alpha_1 + \alpha_2 * \ln(\text{Land}_{i,t}) + \alpha_3 * \ln(\text{Labor}_{i,t}) + \alpha_4 * \ln(\text{Power}_{i,t}) \\ & + \alpha_5 * \ln(\text{Fert}_{i,t}) + \alpha_6 * \ln(\text{MP}_{i,t-1}) + \alpha_7 * \ln(\text{GP}_{i,t}) + \alpha_8 * \ln(\text{Ngca}_{i,t}) \\ & + \alpha_9 * \ln(\text{MCI}_{i,t}) + \alpha_{10} * \text{HRS}_{i,t} + \alpha_{11} * T_t + \sum_{j=0}^{27} a_j D_j + \varepsilon_{it} \end{aligned}$$

其中 Y = 恒定 1980 年价格下的每个团队的作物产

量 Land = 每个团队的耕地 Labor = 每个团队的

加权劳动力 Power = 使用的总功率 (机器和畜力)

Fert = 每个团队的肥料施用量

在这里, 我们通过根据文本中提出的批评调整林的模型来估计 HRS 的影响。在进行实证分析之前, 需要对调整进行操作化。

首先, 正如本研究认为的那样, 在获得说明年度产量之前实际 HRS 采用率的任何详细数据之前, 使用 HRS 的滞后一期值似乎更合适。这样, 模型中归因于 HRS 的所有生产进展都将是合理的。其次, 双向固定效应模型似乎是更可靠的规范; 因此, 本研究将继续使用它。这也意味着林使用的有问题的价格指数不会成为问题, 因为它将被删除, 并且价格影响将被年度虚拟变量捕获。第三, 天气条件 (数据来自表 3.2) 将被添加到模型中, 以查看年度虚拟变量是否可以完全捕获其影响。基本模型如公式 2 所示, 是一个双向固定效应模型, 具有与林使用的几乎相同的变量 (有关变量解释, 请参见上一节)。

$$\begin{aligned} \ln(Y_{i,t}) = & \alpha_1 + \alpha_2 * \ln(\text{Land}_{i,t}) + \alpha_3 * \ln(\text{Labor}_{i,t}) + \alpha_4 \\ & \ln(\text{Power}_{i,t}) + \alpha_5 * \ln(\text{Fert}_{i,t}) + \alpha_6 * \ln(\text{Ngca}_{i,t}) + \alpha_7 * \ln(\text{MCI}_{i,t}) \\ & + \alpha_8 * \text{HRS}_{i,t} + \alpha_9 * T_t + \sum_{j=0}^{27} a_j D_j + \sum_{k=0}^{17} a_k T_k + \varepsilon_{it} \end{aligned}$$

The results are illustrated in columns 3 and 4 of Table 3.4; the first model does not take weather into consideration whereas the second does.

Are our results robust? In particular, we are interested in the effect of HRS if part of end-of-year HRS did have some impact on that year's productivity. In other words, if Lin showed the most favorable case of HRS, the above exercises just illustrate a not so favorable scenario. But in case the true scenario was between the two extremes, some sensitivity test is needed to better understand the role of HRS. Eleven alternative HRS measures are constructed as weighted averages of consecutive years' HRS values. The first HRS (hrs0) measure is the same as Lin (1992), which assigns zero weight for the previous year's HRS; the weight for the previous year's HRS increases 10 percent each time, and the last measure (hrs10) is just the same with one-year lagged HRS. The results are presented in Table A1 (see below), which singles out the coefficients and T values of HRS measure. As the weight for the previous year's HRS increases, which implies more decollectivization took place in the latter half of the year, the effect of HRS decreases steadily. From hrs5, which means process of decollectivization distributed equally between the first and second half of the year, HRS ceases to be significant statistically. Given our previous discussions on the pace of decollectivization in China, it is more plausible to assume that more than half of the production teams adopted HRS in the second half of a given year, which in turn suggests that it is more likely that HRS did not make a significant contribution to productivity changes. The sensitivity test adds more confidence to our conclusion.

TABLE A1: Sensitivity Test

	Coefficient	T Value
hrs 0*	0.15	3.00
hrs 1*	0.15	2.29
hrs 2*	0.15	2.23
hrs 3*	0.14	2.12
hrs 4*	0.13	2.03
hrs 5	0.12	1.89
hrs 6	0.11	1.75
hrs 7	0.09	1.64
hrs 8	0.08	1.47
hrs 9	0.07	1.37
hrs 10	0.06	1.22

*Significant at 5% level.

结果在表 3.4 的第 3 列和第 4 列中进行了说明；第一个模型没有考虑天气，而第二个模型考虑了天气。

我们的结果稳健吗？特别是，如果年终家庭联产承包责任制 (HRS) 的一部分确实对当年的生产力产生了一些影响，我们对家庭联产承包责任制的影响感兴趣。换句话说，如果林表现出家庭联产承包责任制最有利的情况，那么上述练习只是说明了一个不太有利的情况。但是，如果真实的情况介于这两个极端之间，则需要进行一些敏感性测试，以更好地了解家庭联产承包责任制的作用。构建了 11 种替代的家庭联产承包责任制衡量标准，作为连续几年家庭联产承包责任制值的加权平均值。第一个家庭联产承包责任制 (hrs0) 的衡量标准与林 (1992) 相同，该标准为前一年的家庭联产承包责任制分配零权重；前一年家庭联产承包责任制的权重每次增加 10%，最后一个衡量标准 (hrs10) 与滞后一年的家庭联产承包责任制相同。结果见表 A1 (见下文)，该表单独列出了家庭联产承包责任制衡量标准的系数和 T 值。随着前一年家庭联产承包责任制的权重增加，这意味着今年下半年发生了更多的非集体化，家庭联产承包责任制的影响稳步下降。从 hrs5 开始，这意味着非集体化过程在前半部分和后半部分之间平均分配

在这一年中，家庭联产承包责任制在统计上不再具有重要意义。鉴于我们之前对中国非集体化步伐的讨论，更合理的假设是，超过一半的生产队在特定年份的下半年采用了家庭联产承包责任制，这反过来表明，家庭联产承包责任制不太可能对生产力变化做出重大贡献。敏感性测试为我们的结论增加了更多的信心。

表 A1: 敏感性测试

	系数	T 值
hrs 0*	0.15	3.00
hrs 1*	0.15	2.29
hrs 2*	0.15	2.23
小时 3*	0.14	2.12
小时 4*	0.13	2.03
hrs 5	0.12	1.89
hrs 6	0.11	1.75
hrs 7	0.09	1.64
hrs 8	0.08	1.47
hrs 9	0.07	1.37
hrs 10	0.06	1.22

*Significant at 5% level.

Appendix 2

LIST OF PEOPLE INTERVIEWED

Person #1	Peasant in a former state farm
Person #2	Current party secretary of a village
Person #3	Peasant and longtime cadre
Person #4	Peasant and former team accountant
Person #5	Former peasant and retired worker from a coal mine
Person #6	Longtime rural cadre
Person #7	Current party secretary of a village
Person #8	Peasant and former team head
Person #9	Peasant and former accountant
Person #10	Former peasant and tailor in a commune
Person #11	Peasant and Person #9's spouse
Person #12	Peasant in a former state farm
Person #13	Peasant in a former state farm
Person #14	Peasant and longtime cadre
Person #15	Peasant-cadre
Person #16	Peasant and Person #14's spouse
Person #17	Peasant and Person #26's spouse
Person #18	Peasant

附录 2

受访者名单

Person #1	前国营农场的农民
第二人 现任	党委书记 of a 村庄
Person #3	Peasant and longtime cadre
人物 #4	农民和前生产队会计
Person #5	Former peasant and retired worker from a coal mine
Person #6	长期农村干部
Person #7	Current party secretary of a village
Person #8	Peasant and former team head
Person #9	Peasant and former accountant
Person #10	Former peasant and tailor in a commune
Person #11	Peasant and Person #9's spouse
Person #12	Peasant in a former state farm
Person #13	Peasant in a former state farm
Person #14	Peasant and longtime cadre
Person #15	Peasant-cadre
Person #16	Peasant and Person #14's spouse
Person #17	Peasant and Person #26's spouse
Person #18	Peasant

Person #19	Former team head
Person #20	Longtime peasant-cadre
Person #21	Peasant
Person #22	Famous national model of peasants in Mao's time; longtime cadre
Person #23	Former teacher in a brigade school
Person #24	Local cadre, born in a peasant family
Person #25	Longtime rural cadre
Person #26	Peasant
Person #27	Longtime peasant-cadre
Person #28	Longtime peasant-cadre
Person #29	Cadre in party municipal office of Songzi
Person #30	Longtime peasant and Person #27's spouse
Person #31	Current party vice secretary of a village
Person #32	Longtime rural cadre
Person #33	Longtime peasant-cadre
Person #34	Former blacksmith in a commune's factory

人物 #19 前任队长 人物 #20 长期担任的农民干部 人物 #21 农民 人物 #22 毛泽东时代著名的全国农民模范；长期担任干部 人物 #23 前大队学校教师 人物 #24 当地干部，出身农民家庭 人物 #25 长期担任农村干部 人物 #26 农民 人物 #27 长期担任的农民干部 人物 #28 长期担任的农民干部 人物 #29 松滋市委办公室干部 人物 #30 长期担任农民，也是人物 #27 的配偶 人物 #31 现任村党支部副书记 人物 #32 长期担任农村干部 人物 #33 长期担任的农民干部 人物 #34 前公社工厂的铁匠

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Notes

Chapter 1: Socialism and Capitalism in the Chinese Countryside

1. Zhun Xu, “The Development of Capitalist Agriculture in China,” *Review of Radical Political Economics* 49, no. 4 (2017): 591-598.
2. R. MacFarquhar, *Origins of the Cultural Revolution*, vol. 1 (New York: Oxford University Press, 1974); R. MacFarquhar, “The Succession to Mao and the End of Maoism, 1969-82,” in *The Politics of China: The Eras of Mao and Deng*, ed. R. MacFarquhar (Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press, 1997), 248-339; F. Teiwes, “The Establishment and Consolidation of the New Regime, 1949-1957,” in *The Politics of China*, 5-86.
3. See, for example, Justin Yifu Lin, “Rural Reforms and Agricultural Growth in China,” *American Economic Review* 82, no. 1(1992): 34-51.
4. D. L. Yang, *Calamity and Reform in China: State, Rural Society, and Institutional Change since the Great Leap Famine* (Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press, 1998).
5. For example, see D. Kelliher, *Peasant Power in China* (New Haven, CT: Yale University Press, 1992).
6. Based on Ministry of Agriculture. *Xin zhongguonongye 60nian tongjiziliao* [Agricultural statistics of China's 60 years] (Beijing: ZhongguoNongyeChubanshe, 2009).
7. Based on State Statistical Bureau, *Xinzhongguo 60 niantongjiziliaohuibian* [China Compendium of Statistics 1949-2008] (Beijing: ZhongguoNongyeChubanshe, 2010).
8. Ibid.
9. In recent research, I constructed a collective legacy index of infrastructure, education, and health care to evaluate the long-term impacts of collective agriculture on agricultural development. The empirical results suggest that the provinces with a higher collective legacy tend to have higher

注释

第一章：中国农村的社会主义和资本主义

1. Zhun Xu, “中国资本主义农业的发展”，*激进政治经济学评论* 49, no. 4 (2017): 591-598.
2. R. 麦克法夸尔，文化大革命的起源，第1卷（纽约：牛津大学出版社，1974）；R. 麦克法夸尔，“毛泽东的继任者和毛泽东主义的终结，1969-82”，载于中国政治：毛泽东和邓小平时代，R. 麦克法夸尔编（英国剑桥：剑桥大学出版社，1997），248-339；F. 特维斯，“新政权的建立和巩固，1949-1957”，载于中国政治，5-86。
3. 例如，参见林毅夫，“中国农村改革与农业增长”，*美国经济评论* 82, no. 1(1992): 34-51。
4. D. L. 杨，中国的灾难与改革：大跃进饥荒以来的国家、农村社会和制度变革（斯坦福，CA：斯坦福大学出版社，1998）。
5. 例如，参见 D. Kelliher，《中国农民的力量》（纽黑文，康涅狄格州：耶鲁大学出版社，1992年）。
6. 基于农业部。《新中国农业60年统计资料[中国农业60年统计资料]》（北京：中国农业出版社，2009）。
7. 基于国家统计局，《新中国60年统计资料汇编[中国统计年鉴1949-2008]》（北京：中国农业出版社，2010）。同上。
- 8.
9. 在最近的研究中，我构建了一个基础设施、教育和医疗保健的集体遗产指数，以评估集体农业对农业发展的长期影响。实证结果表明，集体遗产较高的省份往往具有较高的水平

agricultural productivity growth rates even after decollectivization. See Zhun Xu, “Decollectivization, Collective Legacy and Uneven Agricultural Development in China,” *World Development* 98 (2017): 290–99.

10. C. Bramall, *Sources of Chinese Economic Growth, 1978–1996* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2000), 330.

Chapter 2: Chinese Agrarian Change in World-Historical Context

1. H. Bernstein, “Changing Before Our Very Eyes: Agrarian Questions and the Politics of Land in Capitalism Today,” *Journal of Agrarian Change* 4 (2004): 190–225.
2. T. Brass, “Latin American Peasants: New Paradigms For Old?” *Journal of Peasant Studies* 29 (2002): 1–40.
3. R. J. Das, “The Spatiality of Class and State Power: The Case of India’s Land Reforms,” *Environment and Planning A* 31 (1999): 2103–2126.
4. A. Thorner, “Semi-Feudalism or Capitalism? Contemporary Debate on Classes and Modes of Production in India,” *Economic and Political Weekly* 17 (1982): 49–51.
5. C. Kay, “Latin America’s Agrarian Reform: Lights and Shadows,” *Land Reform, Land Settlement and Cooperatives Bulletin* (1998): 8–31.
6. Ibid.
7. E. Daley, “Land and Social Change in a Tanzanian Village 1: Kinyanambo, 1920s–1990,” *Journal of Agrarian Change* 5 (2005): 363–404.
8. For the case of the Soviet Union, see D. Kotz and F. Weir, *Russia’s Path from Gorbachev to Putin: The Demise of the Soviet System and the New Russia* (New York: Routledge, 2007).
9. Kay, “Latin America’s Agrarian Reform.”
10. H. Magdoff, “China: Contrasts with the USSR,” *Monthly Review* 27 (1975): 12–57.
11. M. R. El-Ghonemy, “The Political Economy of Market Based Land Reform” (Geneva: UNRISD, 1999).
12. H. Bernstein, “Land Reform: Taking a Long(er) View,” *Journal of Agrarian Change* 2 (2002): 433–463.
13. See Philip C. C. Huang, Gao Yuan, and Yusheng Peng, “Capitalization Without Proletarianization in China’s Agricultural Development,” *Modern China* 38, no. 2 (2012): 139173; Q. Forrest Zhang and John A. Donaldson, “From Peasants to Farmers: Peasant Differentiation, Labor Regimes, and Land-Rights Institutions in China’s Agrarian Transition,” *Politics & Society* 38 (2010): 458–489; Zhun Xu, “The Development of Capitalist Agriculture in China.”
14. M. R. El-Ghonemy, *The Crisis of Rural Poverty and Hunger: An Essay on the Complementarity Between Market- and Government-Led Land Reform for Its Resolution*, (New York: Routledge, 2007), 81; R. H. Tawney, *Land and Labor in China* (New York: M. E. Sharpe, 1966), 66.
15. Y. Bo, *Ruoganzhongdajueceyushijian de huigu* [Reflections on several significant events and decisions] (Beijing: RenminChubanshe, 1997), 198.

即使在非集体化之后，农业生产率增长率依然存在。参见 Zhun Xu, “非集体化、集体遗产与中国农业发展不平衡”，《世界发展》98（2017）：290-99。C. Bramall, 《1978-1996 年中国经济增长的来源》（纽约：牛津大学出版社，2000），330 页。

第 2 章：世界历史背景下的中国农业变革

1. H. Bernstein, “‘在我们眼前变化’：当今资本主义中的农业问题和土地政治”，《农业变革杂志》4 (2004): 190–225。
2. T. Brass, “Latin American Peasants: New Paradigms For Old?” *Journal of Peasant Studies* 29 (2002): 1–40.
3. R. J. Das, “The Spatiality of Class and State Power: The Case of India’s Land Reforms,” *Environment and Planning A* 31 (1999): 2103–2126.
4. A. 奥纳, “半封建主义还是资本主义？关于印度阶级和生产方式的当代辩论”，《经济和政治周刊》17 (1982): 49–51。
5. C. Kay, “拉丁美洲的土地改革：光明与阴影”，土地改革、土地安置与合作社公告 (1998): 8–31。同上。
6. E. Daley, “坦桑尼亚村庄的土地和社会变迁 1: Kinyanambo, 1920 年代–1990 年代”，农业变革杂志 5 (2005): 363–404。
8. 关于苏联的案例，参见 D. Kotz 和 F. Weir, 俄罗斯从戈尔巴乔夫到普京的道路：苏联体制的崩溃和新俄罗斯（纽约：Routledge, 2007）。
9. Kay, “拉丁美洲的土地改革”。
10. H. Magdoff, “China: Contrasts with the USSR,” *Monthly Review* 27 (1975): 12–57.
11. M. R. El-Ghonemy, “The Political Economy of Market Based Land Reform” (Geneva: UNRISD, 1999).
12. H. Bernstein, “Land Reform: Taking a Long(er) View,” *Journal of Agrarian Change* 2 (2002): 433–463.
13. 参见 Philip C. C. Huang、Gao Yuan 和 Yusheng Peng, “中国农业发展中的资本化而非无产阶级化”，现代中国 38, no. 2 (2012): 139173; Q. Forrest Zhang 和 John A. Donaldson, “从农民到农场主：中国农业转型中的农民分化、劳动制度和土地权利制度”，政治与社会 38 (2010): 458–489; Zhun Xu, “中国资本主义农业的发展”。
14. M. R. El-Ghonemy, 农村贫困和饥饿的危机：一篇关于市场主导和政府主导的土地改革之间互补性以解决该问题的文章，（纽约：Routledge, 2007），81；R. H. Tawney, 中国的土地与劳工（纽约：M. E. Sharpe, 1966），66。
15. Y. Bo, 《若干重大决策与事件的回顾 [对若干重大事件和决策的反思]》（北京：人民出版社，1997 年），第 198 页。

16. D. Huang, Zhan Yu, and Xiyu Wang, eds., *Jianguoyilainongyehezuohuashiliaohuibian* [Document collections on agricultural collectivization] (Beijing: Zhonggong Dangshi Chubanshe, 1992), 42–44.
17. See the detailed notes in Lujia Tao, *Mao zhuxijiao women dang shengweishuji* [Chairman Mao teaches us how to work as provincial party secretary] (Beijing: Zhongyang Wenxian Chubanshe, 1996), 14.
18. The term “populist” in China means the same thing in the Western context. On rural issues, it could refer to someone who favors small ownership and considers the peasantry an above-class homogenous social group. In recent years, the term has started to imply more. Since “populist” is often portrayed as defending something dying (fighting a losing battle), nowadays socialism is often categorized as populism in the mainstream media. In fact, in a recent published report on the CCP’s website, one of the questions measuring populism was “Do you think that Maoist society was more egalitarian than the contemporary one?” Unsurprisingly, 40 percent of respondents answered yes. See <http://theory.people.com.cn/n/2012/1206/c49152-19807772-1.html>.
19. Zihui Deng, *Deng Zihuiwenji* [Collected works of Deng Zihui] (Beijing: Renmin Chubanshe, 2006), 406–408.
20. Huang et al., “Report from the CCP South China Bureau,” in *Jianguoyilainongyehezuohuashiliaohuibian*, 231–233.
21. Runsheng Du, ed., *Dangdaizhongguo de nongyehezuo* [Collective agriculture in modern China] (Beijing: Dangdai Zhongguo Chubanshe, 2002), 297.
22. Mao’s report was delivered to provincial and county-level leaders on July 31, 1955.
23. One should not be confused by Liu’s comments about “socialism after mechanization” as a socialist vision. A good example of this kind of political rhetoric is the current CCP theory about socialism as something that comes after advanced forces of production; in reality, the only function of this rhetoric is to defend the ongoing capitalist development.
24. R. MacFarquhar, *Origins of the Cultural Revolution*, vol. 3 (New York: Columbia University Press, 1997), 266.
25. Yibo Bo, *Ruoganzhongdajueceyushijian de huigu* [Reflections on several significant events and decisions] (Beijing: Renmin Chubanshe, 1997), 1078.
26. Ibid., 1074–1075.
27. Xianzhi Pang and Chongji Jin, eds., *Mao Zedong zhuan: 1949–1976* [A biography of Mao Zedong] (Beijing: Zhongyang Wenxian Chubanshe, 2003), 1231.
28. This is an idiom from Sichuan Province, Deng’s hometown. It is sometimes paraphrased as “white or black cat” in the media. See Deng Xiaoping, “Zenyanghuifunongyeshengchan” [How to restore agricultural production], in *Deng Xiaoping wenxuan*.
29. This term stands for small private plot, free-market exchange, small profit-oriented firms, and grain quotas contracted to individual households.

16. D. Huang, Zhan Yu, 和 Xiyu Wang, eds., 建国以来农业合作化史料汇编 [关于农业集体化的文献汇编] (北京: 中共党史出版社, 1992 年), 42-44 页。
17. 参见陶鲁笏的详细注释, 毛主席教我们当省委书记 [毛主席教我们如何当省委书记] (北京: 中央文献出版社, 1996 年), 第 14 页。
18. The term “populist” in China means the same thing in the Western context. On rural issues, it could refer to someone who favors small ownership and considers the peasantry an above-class homogenous social group. In recent years, the term has started to imply more. Since “populist” is often portrayed as defending something dying (fighting a losing battle), nowadays socialism is often categorized as populism in the mainstream media. In fact, in a recent published report on the CCP’s website, one of the questions measuring populism was “Do you think that Maoist society was more egalitarian than the contemporary one?” Unsurprisingly, 40 percent of respondents answered yes. See <http://theory.people.com.cn/n/2012/1206/c49152-19807772-1.html>.
19. 邓子恢, 邓子恢文集 [邓子恢文集] (北京: 人民出版社, 2006 年), 406-408 页。
20. Huang 等人, “中共华南局报告”, 载建国以来农业合作化史料汇编, 231-233 页。
21. 杜润生主编, 《当代中国的农业合作制》(北京: 当代中国出版社, 2002 年), 第 297 页。
22. 毛泽东的报告于 1955 年 7 月 31 日向省、县级领导干部作了报告。
23. 人们不应被刘关于“机械化后的社会主义”的评论所迷惑, 将其视为一种社会主义愿景。这种政治辞藻的一个很好的例子是当前中共关于社会主义是先进生产力之后的东西的理论; 实际上, 这种辞藻的唯一作用是为正在进行的资本主义发展辩护。
24. R. 麦克法夸尔, 《文化大革命的起源》, 第 3 卷 (纽约: 哥伦比亚大学出版社, 1997 年), 第 266 页。
25. 薄一波, 《若干重大决策与事件的回顾》(北京: 人民出版社, 1997 年), 第 1078 页。
26. Ibid., 1074-1075.
27. 庞先知、金冲及主编, 《毛泽东传: 1949–》(北京: 中央文献出版社, 2003 年), 第 1231 页。
28. 是四川省的一句谚语, 是邓小平的家乡。有时媒体将其解释为“白猫黑猫”。参见邓小平, 《怎样恢复农业生产》[如何恢复农业生产], 在《邓小平文选》。
29. 是指小块自留地、自由市场交易、以盈利为导向的小企业以及承包到户的粮食配额。

30. Shexiang Ma, *Qianzou: 1965 Mao Zedong chongshangjiinggangshan* [Prelude: Mao's 1965 revisit to Jinggang Mountain] (Beijing: Dangdai Zhongguo Chubanshe, 2006), 151
31. See discussions in Athar Hussain, "Science and Technology in the Chinese Countryside," in *Science and Technology in Post-Mao China*, eds. Denis Fred Simon and Merle Goldman (Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1989); B. Stone, "Developments in Agricultural Technology," *China Quarterly* 116 (1988): 767–822; Zhun Xu, "Decollectivization, Collective Legacy, and Uneven Agricultural Development in China."
32. See Amartya Sen, "Remarks at the Inaugural Meeting of the GDN Conference on Understanding Reform," Global Development Conference, January 27 2004. There are a few studies on the social welfare programs during the collective era that illustrate how they provided basic needs with small budgets. See, for example, Dongping Han, *The Unknown Cultural Revolution: Life and Change in a Chinese Village* (New York: Monthly Review Press, 2008).
33. A. Chan, R. Madsen, and J. Unger, *Chen Village Under Mao and Deng* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1992), 7.
34. V. I. Lenin, *Collected Works*, vol. 25 (Moscow: Progress Publishers, 1964), 471.
35. This is from Mao's talk to Premier Zhou Enlai in 1974, translated from the CCP records, <http://cpc.people.com.cn/GB/64162/64164/4416102.html>, accessed on 2012/09/08.
36. See the discussions about the Soviet Union in David Kotz and Fred Weir, *Russia's Path from Gorbachev to Putin: The Demise of the Soviet System and the New Russia* (New York: Routledge, 2007).
37. See Shaoguang Wang, "Failure of Charisma: The Cultural Revolution in Wuhan" (PhD diss., Cornell University, 1990), 670–684. Why the Cultural Revolution failed is another question and beyond the scope of this work.
38. There have been lots of narratives around this coup. For example, see R. MacFarquar and M. Schoenhals, *Mao's Last Revolution* (Cambridge: Belknap Press, 2006), 443–449.
39. This term was invented to refer to anything that was anti-revolutionary. For example, the *People's Daily* changed its tone to attack the movie in 1979. See Fengsong Xie, "Yingpian 'Juelie' shishenmehuouse?," *People's Daily*, January 10, 1979.
40. It means "it is not our time anymore."
41. This became the most politically correct slogan in contemporary China. The new central leadership just confirmed this in the 18th National Congress of the CCP a few months ago. The "old road" could refer to the Cultural Revolution, but more generally it means both the Soviet model and the Maoist model.
42. Du came from the old populist camp and worked under Deng Zihui in the 1950s.

30. 余翔 马, 黔奏: 1965 毛泽东重上井冈山 [序幕: 毛泽东 1965 年重访井冈山] (北京: 当代中国出版社, 2006), 151
31. 参见 Athar Hussain 的讨论, "中国农村的科学技术", 载于 后毛泽东时代的中国科学技术, Denis Fred Simon 和 Merle Goldman 编辑 (Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1989); B. Stone, "农业技术发展", 中国季刊 116 (1988): 767–822; Zhun Xu, "中国的非集体化、集体遗产和不平衡的农业发展"。
32. 参见阿马蒂亚·森, "在理解改革全球发展网络会议开幕式上的讲话", 全球发展会议, 2004 年 1 月 27 日。有一些关于集体时代社会福利计划的研究表明, 它们如何以小预算提供基本需求。例如, 参见董平韩, 《不为人知的文化大革命: 中国乡村的生活与变迁》(纽约: 每月评论出版社, 2008 年)。
33. A. Chan, R. Madsen, 和 J. Unger, 毛泽东和邓小平时代的陈村 (伯克利: 加州大学出版社, 1992), 7。
34. V. I. 列宁, 《列宁全集》, 第 25 卷 (莫斯科: 进步出版社, 1964 年), 第 471 页。
35. 这是毛泽东 1974 年与周恩来总理谈话的内容, 翻译自中共记录, <http://cpc.people.com.cn/GB/64162/64164/4416102.html>, 访问时间: 2012/09/08。
36. 参见戴维·科茨和弗雷德·威尔, 《俄罗斯从戈尔巴乔夫到普京的道路: 苏联体系的消亡和新俄罗斯》(纽约: 劳特利奇出版社, 2007 年) 中关于苏联的讨论。
37. 参见王绍光, 《魅力的失败: 武汉的文化大革命》(康奈尔大学博士论文, 1990 年), 670-684 页。文化大革命失败的原因是另一个问题, 不在本文的研究范围之内。
38. 关于这场政变有很多说法。例如, 参见 R. 麦克法夸尔和 M. 舍恩哈尔斯, 《毛泽东最后的革命》(剑桥: 贝尔克纳普出版社, 2006 年), 443-449 页。
39. 这个术语被创造出来指代任何反革命的东西。例如, 《人民日报》在 1979 年改变了语气来抨击这部电影。参见谢逢松, "影片 '决裂' 是什么货色?", 《人民日报》, 1979 年 1 月 10 日。
40. 这意味着 "不再是我们的时代了"。
41. 是成为当代中国最政治正确的口号。新的中央领导集体在几个月前的中共十八大上刚刚证实了这一点。"老路" 可能指的是文化大革命, 但更普遍地指的是苏联模式和毛泽东模式。
42. 杜来自旧民粹主义阵营, 20 世纪 50 年代曾在邓子恢手下工作。

43. Du Runsheng, “Lianchanchengbaozhi he nongcunjingji de xinfazhan” [Household responsibility system and new development of the rural economy], *People's Daily*, March 7, 1983.
44. Du Runsheng, *Du Runsheng's recollections* (Beijing: Renmin Chubanshe, 2005), 11.
45. Du Runsheng, “Zengjiatouru, fayushichang, shenhuanongcungaige.” In *Sikaoyuxuanze*, ed. Du Runsheng (Beijing: Zhonggong Zhongyang-Dangxiao Chubanshe, 1990).
46. The urban-rural income ratio (defined as the urban per capita disposable income divided by the counterpart in rural areas) increased from 2.2 in 1984 to 3.1 in 2011. The share of fiscal expenditure on rural areas dropped from 13.68 percent in the 1970s to 11.80 percent in the 1980s; the medical and education system was dismantled together with the collectives. The numbers are calculated based on data from the Ministry of Agriculture (2009), and the State Statistical Bureau (2005).
47. Wen claims that the heavy population burden determines the necessity of small peasant economy. For more see Wen Tiejun, *Jiegouxian daihua* [Deconstruct modernization] (Guangzhou: Guangdong Renmin Chubanshe, 2004), 8–22.
48. The populists would rather maintain the collective legal framework because the collective ownership makes it more difficult to buy and sell lands. So on this particular issue, many socialists and populists stand together.
49. These policies include the abolition of all agricultural taxes in 2006 and the development of a new rural medical care system after 20.
50. Tom Brass, “Latin American Peasants.”
51. James Petras and Henry Veltmeyer, “Are Latin American Peasant Movements Still a Force for Change? Some New Paradigms Revisited,” *Journal of Peasant Studies* 28, no. 2 (2001): 831–18.
52. See the report by the State Statistical Bureau in China, http://www.stats.gov.cn/tjsj/zxfb/201704/t20170428_1489334.html.
53. J. B. Foster, R. W. McChesney, and R. J. Jonna, “The Global Reserve Army of Labor and the New Imperialism,” *Monthly Review* 63, no. 6 (2011), 1–3.

Chapter 3: Agricultural Productivity and Decollectivization

1. Officially the land was contracted to households for fifteen years, but the contract got extended again and again, and in de facto terms the land was privatized with a temporarily but highly regulated land market.
2. B. Stone, “Developments in Agricultural Technology,” *China Quarterly*, no. 116 (1988): 767–822.
3. Ibid.
4. Ibid.
5. Take rural water electricity stations, for example: the total capacity increased from 20,000 kilowatts in 1957 to 2.28 million kilowatts in 1978 (Ministry of Agriculture 2009, 7).

43. 杜润生, “联产承包制和农村经济的新发展” [家庭责任制和农村经济的新发展], 人民日报, 1983 年 3 月 7 日。
44. 杜润生, 杜润生自述 [杜润生回忆录] (北京: 人民出版社, 2005), 11 页。
45. 杜润生, “增加投入, 发育市场, 深化农村改革”。载于思考与选择, 杜润生编 (北京: 中共中央党校出版社, 1990)。
46. 城乡收入比 (定义为城镇人均可支配收入除以农村地区相应收入) 从 1984 年的 2.2 上升到 2011 年的 3.1。农村地区财政支出份额从 20 世纪 70 年代的 13.68% 下降到 20 世纪 80 年代的 11.80%; 医疗和教育体系与集体一起被拆除。这些数字是根据农业部 (2009 年) 和国家统计局 (2005 年) 的数据计算得出的。
47. 温铁军认为, 沉重的人口负担决定了小农经济的必要性。更多信息请参见温铁军, 《解构现代化》(广州: 广东人民出版社, 2004), 8–22 页。
48. 民粹主义者宁愿维持集体法律框架, 因为集体所有制使得土地的买卖更加困难。因此, 在这个特定问题上, 许多社会主义者和民粹主义者站在一起。
49. 这些政策包括 2006 年取消所有农业税以及 20 年后发展新的农村医疗保障体系。
50. 汤姆·布拉斯, 《拉丁美洲农民》。
51. 詹姆斯·佩特拉斯和亨利·维尔特迈耶, “拉丁美洲农民运动仍然是变革的力量吗? 一些新范式的回顾”, 《农民研究杂志》28, no. 2 (2001): 83–118。
52. 参见中国国家统计局的报告, http://www.stats.gov.cn/tjsj/zx/201704/t20170428_1489334.html。
53. J. B. Foster, R. W. McChesney and R. J. Jonna, “全球劳动力后备军与新帝国主义”, 每月评论 63, no. 6 (2011), 1–3。

第三章: 农业生产率和非集体化

1. 表面上, 土地承包给农户的期限为 15 年, 但合同一再延长, 实际上, 土地已经私有化, 只是存在一个临时的但受到高度监管的土地市场。
2. B. Stone, “农业技术发展”, 中国季刊, no. 116 (1988): 767–822。同上。同上。以农村水电站为例: 总容量从 1957 年的 2 万千瓦增加到 1978 年的 228 万千瓦 (农业部 2009, 7)。
- 3.
- 4.
- 5.

6. For the pros and cons of increased intensity, see Philip C. Huang, *The Peasant Family and Rural Development in the Yangzi Delta, 1350–1988* (Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press, 1990).
7. Based on later years' data from the Ministry of Agriculture (2009: 6, 17), the cropping index was 1.55 in 1990 and 1.58 in 1994; after 1994 the size of cultivated land was adjusted to increase, and therefore the index went down structurally: in 2008 it was 1.28.
8. Funing Zhong, *The Political Economy of the Chinese Grain Marketing System* (Canberra: Australian National University, 2004).
9. Ibid.
10. For example, see Table A1 in T. Sicular, "Agricultural Planning and Pricing in the Post-Mao Period," *China Quarterly*, no. 116 (1988): 671–705.
11. See, for example, Guanzhong James Wen, "Total Factor Productivity Change in China's Farming Sector: 1952–1989," *Economic Development and Cultural Change* 42, no. 1 (1993): 1–41; Shenggen Fan and Xiaobo Zhang, "Production and Productivity Growth in Chinese Agriculture: New National and Regional Measures," *Economic Development and Cultural Change* 50, no. 4 (2002): 819–838.
12. K. P. Kalirajan, M. B. Obwona, and S. Zhao, "A Decomposition of Total Factor Productivity Growth: The Case of Chinese Agricultural Growth Before and After Reforms," *American Journal of Agricultural Economics* 78, no. 2 (1996): 331–338.
13. Louis Putterman provides a detailed explanation and comparisons among this type of work. See chapter 7 in *Continuity and Change in China's Rural Development* (New York: Oxford University Press, 1993).
14. John McMillan, John Whalley, and Lijing Zhu, "The Impact of China's Economic Reforms on Agricultural Productivity Growth," *Journal of Political Economy* 97, no. 4 (1989): 781–807.
15. Interestingly, the reasons they provided for not considering technical progress was because "Chinese agriculture had already attained a technically advanced state before the period examined here."
16. Carol Carolus, *Sources of Chinese Agricultural Growth in the 1980s* (Boston: Boston University Press, 1992).
17. Carl Riskin, *China's Political Economy: The Quest for Development Since 1949* (New York: Oxford University Press, 1987).
18. Chris Bramall, *Sources of Chinese Economic Growth, 1978–1996* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2000).
19. Dongping Han, *The Unknown Cultural Revolution: Life and Change in a Chinese Village* (New York: Monthly Review Press, 2008).
20. Chris Bramall, "Origins of the Agricultural 'Miracle': Some Evidence from Sichuan," *China Quarterly*, no. 143 (1995): 731–755.
21. Louis Putterman, "Entering the Post-Collective Era in North China: Dahe Township," *Modern China* 15, no. 3 (1989): 275–320.
22. Huang, *The Peasant Family and Rural Development*, 222–251.

6. 关于提高强度的利弊，参见黄宗智，《长江三角洲的小农家庭与乡村发展，1350–1988》（斯坦福，加利福尼亚州：斯坦福大学出版社，1990）。
7. 根据农业部后来的数据（2009：6，17），1990 年的复种指数为 1.55，1994 年为 1.58；1994 年后，耕地面积调整增加，因此该指数在结构上有所下降：2008 年为 1.28。
8. 钟复宁，《中国粮食营销体系的政治经济学》（堪培拉：澳大利亚国立大学，2004）。同上。
9. 例如，参见 T. Sicular，“后毛泽东时代的农业规划和定价”中的表 A1，《中国季刊》，第 116 期（1988）：671–705。
11. 例如，参见 Guanzhong James Wen，“中国农业部门全要素生产率变化：1952–1989”，《经济发展与文化变迁》42, no. 1 (1993): 1–41; 沈根发和张晓波，“中国农业的生产和生产率增长：新的国家和区域措施”，《经济发展与文化变迁》50, no. 4 (2002): 819–838。
12. K. P. Kalirajan, M. B. Obwona, 和 S. Zhao，“全要素生产率增长的分解：中国农业改革前后的案例”，《美国农业经济学杂志》78, no. 2 (1996): 331–338。
13. Louis Putterman 提供了详细的解释和此类工作之间的比较。参见《中国农村发展的连续性与变革》（纽约：牛津大学出版社，1993 年）第 7 章。
14. John McMillan、John Whalley 和 Lijing Zhu，“中国经济改革对农业生产率增长的影响”，《政治经济学杂志》97, no. 4 (1989): 781–807。
15. 有趣的是，他们不考虑技术进步的原因是“中国农业在本文考察的时期之前就已经达到了技术先进的状态”。
16. Carol Carolus, *Sources of Chinese Agricultural Growth in the 1980s* (Boston: Boston University Press, 1992)。
17. Carl Riskin, 《中国的政治经济：1949 年以来的发展探索》（纽约：牛津大学出版社，1987）。
18. Chris Bramall, 中国经济增长的源泉，1978–1996（纽约：牛津大学出版社，2000）。
19. 韩东屏，未知的文化大革命：中国乡村的生活与变迁（纽约：每月评论出版社，2008）。
20. Chris Bramall，“农业‘奇迹’的起源：来自四川的一些证据”，中国季刊，第 143 期（1995）：731–755。
21. Louis Putterman，“华北后集体时代的进入：大河乡”，现代中国 15，第 3 期（1989）：275–320。
22. 黄宗智，小农家庭与乡村发展，222–251。

23. Justin Yifu Lin, “Rural Reforms and Agricultural Growth in China,” *American Economic Review* 82, no. 1 (1992): 34–51.
24. I downloaded Lin’s original dataset from Lin’s development forum, <http://jlin.ccer.edu.cn/>. This page is not available anymore, so if needed please contact me to get a copy of the dataset.
25. Bramall, *Sources of Chinese Economic Growth*, 329.
26. Calculated based on State Statistical Bureau (2005, section 38).
27. There are different measures of the size of cultivated land. It is normally believed that the official statistics in the 1970s and 1980s largely underestimated the land size; however, this does not change the fact that the cultivated land decreased at a higher rate after the rural reform. In fact, the recent data suggests that the land size kept increasing before 1980 and started declining after 1980 (Bi and Zheng, 2000).
28. The calculations are based on Ministry of Agriculture (2009, 5).
29. Bramall, *Sources of Chinese Economic Growth*, 247.
30. Stone, “Developments in Agricultural Technology.”

Chapter 4: The Political Economy of Decollectivization

1. Excerpts from Deng Xiaoping’s talks given in Wuchang, Shenzhen, Zhuhai, and Shanghai, January 18–February 21, 1992. Published in *Selected Works of Deng Xiaoping*, vol. 3 (Beijing: Renmin Chubanshe, 1993), 370–383.
2. For example, see the Communiqué of the Third Plenary of the 15th Central Committee of the CCP, October 14, 1998, <http://cpc.people.com.cn> (in Chinese).
3. This was suggested by many writings: for example, Justin Yifu Lin, “The Household Responsibility System in China’s Agricultural Reform: A Theoretical and Empirical Study,” *Economic Development and Cultural Change* 36, no. 3 (1988): S199–S224; Daniel Kelliher, *Peasant Power in China* (New Haven, CT: Yale University Press, 1992); K. X. Zhou, *How the Farmers Changed China: Power of the People* (Boulder, CO: Westview Press, 1996). A typical Chinese text is Liqun Ma and Zhijun Lin, *Jiaofeng* (Crossing Swords). Beijing: (Jin Ri Zhongguo Chu Ban She), 1998.
4. Chris Bramall, *Sources of Chinese Economic Growth, 1978–1996* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2000), 330.
5. *Bashi niandai chu di wo guo nongye shengchan ze ren zhi: Diaocha baogao xuanbian* [Selected reports on China’s agriculture responsibility system] (Beijing: Hongqi Chubanshe, 1984).
6. Shanghai Nongyezhi Committee, *Shanghai nongyezhi* [Shanghai agriculture records] (Shanghai: Shanghai Shehui Kexueyuan Chubanshe, 1996), 35–36.
7. Beijing Difangzhi Committee, *Beijingzhi: nongyejuan nongcun jingji zonghezhi* [Beijing rural economic records] (Beijing: Chubanshe, 2008), 545–559.
8. Yunnan Difangzhi Committee, *Yunnan Shengzhi nongyezhi* [Yunnan

23. 林毅夫, “中国农村改革和农业增长”, 《美国经济评论》82, 第1期(1992): 34–51。
24. 我从林毅夫的发展论坛 <http://jlin.ccer.edu.cn/> 下载了林毅夫的原始数据集。此页面已不再可用, 因此如果需要, 请与我联系以获取数据集副本。
25. Bramall, 《中国经济增长的源泉》, 329。
26. 根据国家统计局(2005年, 第38节)计算。
27. 关于耕地面积的衡量标准有多种。人们普遍认为, 20世纪70年代和80年代的官方统计数据在很大程度上低估了土地面积; 然而, 这并没有改变农村改革后耕地面积以更高速度减少的事实。事实上, 最近的数据表明, 1980年之前土地面积持续增加, 1980年之后开始减少(Bi and Zheng, 2000)。
28. 计算基于农业部(2009, 5)。
29. Bramall, 中国经济增长的来源, 247。
30. Stone, “农业技术发展”。

第四章：非集体化的政治经济学

1. 摘自邓小平1992年1月18日至2月21日在武昌、深圳、珠海和上海的讲话。发表于《邓小平文选》第3卷(北京: 人民出版社, 1993年), 370-383页。
2. 例如, 参见中共第十五届中央委员会第三次全体会议公报, 1998年10月14日, <http://cpc.people.com.cn> (中文)。
3. 这是由许多著作所建议的: 例如, Justin Yifu Lin, “The Household Responsibility System in China’s Agricultural Reform: A Theoretical and Empirical Study,” *Economic Development and Cultural Change* 36, no. 3 (1988): S199–S224; Daniel Kelliher, *Peasant Power in China* (New Haven, CT: Yale University Press, 1992); K. X. Zhou, *How the Farmers Changed China: Power of the People* (Boulder, CO: Westview Press, 1996)。一个典型的中文文本是 Liqun Ma 和 Zhijun Lin, *Jiaofeng* (Crossing Swords)。Beijing: (Jin Ri Zhongguo Chu Ban She), 1998。
4. 克里斯·布拉莫尔, 《中国经济增长的来源, 1978-1996》(纽约: 牛津大学出版社, 2000年), 330页。
5. 八十年代的我国农业生产责任制: 调查报告选编 [中国农业责任制精选报告] (北京: 红旗出版社, 1984年)。
6. 上海农业志委员会, 《上海农业志》[上海农业记录] (上海: 上海社会科学院出版社, 1996年), 35-36页。
7. 北京地方志委员会, 《北京志: 农业卷农村经济综合志 [北京农村经济记录]》(北京: 出版社, 2008年), 545-559页。
8. Yunnan Difangzhi Committee, *Yunnan Shengzhi nongyezhi* [Yunnan

- agricultural records] (Kunming: Yunnan Renmin Chubanshe, 1998), 138–139.
9. Zhejiang Nongyezhi Committee, *Zhejiangsheng nongyezhi* [Zhejiang agricultural records] (Beijing: Zhonghua Shuju, 2004), 192–198.
 10. Hunan Difangzhi Committee, *Hunanshengzhi nonglins huilizhi* [Hunan agriculture records] (Changsha: Hunan Chubanshe, 1991), 53–57.
 11. Du Runsheng, *Du Rusheng zishu*, 130–131.
 12. Ibid., 131.
 13. This is confirmed in Hu Yaobang's son's recollection, available at http://history.gmw.cn/2011-09/27/content_2704616_4.htm, accessed on March 2, 2016.
 14. David Zweig, "Opposition to Change in Rural China: The System of Responsibility and People's Communes," *Asian Survey* 23, no. 7 (1983): 879–900; Kathleen Hartford, "Socialist Agriculture Is Dead: Long Live Socialist Agriculture! Organizational Transformation in Rural China," in Elizabeth Perry and Christine Wong, eds., *The Political Economy of Reform in PostMao China: Causes, Content, and Consequences* (Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1985); William Hinton, *The Great Reversal* (New York: Monthly Review Press, 1990); Bramall, *Sources of Chinese Economic Growth*; Tongxue Tan, "Zhuanxing xiangcun de daode, quanli yu shehui jiegou (Morality, Power, and Social Structure in the Transition of Rural Society)" (PhD diss., Huazhong University of Science and Technology, 2007); Han, *The Unknown Cultural Revolution*.
 15. Kelliher, *Peasant Power in China*, 105.
 16. See Huang, *The Spiral Road*, 162–173.
 17. He, Xuefeng. "Renmin gongshe de sanda gongneng" [Three functions of the People's Commune]. http://www.snzg.cn/article/2007/1114/article_7916.html, accessed on Dec 29, 2011.
 18. Zhou, *How the Farmers Changed China*.
 19. Fujian Difangzhi Committee, *Fujianshengzhi gongchandangzhi* [Fujian Communist Party records] (Beijing: Zhongguo Shehui Kexue Chubanshe, 1999), 189–192; Hunan Difangzhi Committee, *Hunanshengzhi nonglins huilizhi*, 53–57.
 20. Reported in Hartford, "Socialist Agriculture Is Dead," 39.
 21. Anita Chan, Richard Madsen, and Jonathan Unger, *Chen Village Under Mao and Deng* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1992), 271.
 22. Thomas Bernstein, "Farmer Discontent and Regime Responses," in Merle Goldman and Roderick Macfarquhar, eds., *The Paradox of China's Post-Mao Reforms* (Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1999), 197–219.
 23. Lin, "Rural Reforms and Agricultural Growth in China"; Kelliher, *Peasant Power in China*.
 24. This phrase might have its origin from Heilongjiang Province; see Zhenqi Wang, "Huyaobang yanli piping 'dingmengang'" [Hu Yaobang harshly criticizes "blocks"], *Shi Ji Qiao* 12 (2011): 45–47. As David Kotz and Sigrid

农业记录] (昆明: 云南人民出版社, 1998), 138–139.

9. 浙江农业志委员会, 浙江省农业志 [浙江农业记录] (北京: 中华书局, 2004), 192–198.
10. 湖南地方志委员会, 湖南省志农林水利志 [湖南农业记录] (长沙: 湖南出版社, 1991), 53–57.
11. 杜润生, 杜润生自述, 130–131.
12. Ibid., 131.
13. 这一说法在胡耀邦之子的回忆录中得到了证实, 可在 http://history.gmw.cn/2011-09/27/content_2704616_4.htm 上找到, 访问时间为 2016 年 3 月 2 日。
14. David Zweig, "Opposition to Change in Rural China: The System of Responsibility and People's Communes," *Asian Survey* 23, no. 7 (1983): 879–900; Kathleen Hartford, "Socialist Agriculture Is Dead: Long Live Socialist Agriculture! Organizational Transformation in Rural China," in Elizabeth Perry and Christine Wong, eds., *The Political Economy of Reform in PostMao China: Causes, Content, and Consequences* (Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1985); William Hinton, *The Great Reversal* (New York: Monthly Review Press, 1990); Bramall, *Sources of Chinese Economic Growth*; Tongxue Tan, "Zhuanxing xiangcun de daode, quanli yu shehui jiegou (Morality, Power, and Social Structure in the Transition of Rural Society)" (PhD diss., Huazhong University of Science and Technology, 2007); Han, *The Unknown Cultural Revolution*.
15. Kelliher, 中国农民的力量, 105.
16. 见黄宗智, 《螺旋路》, 162–173 页。
17. 贺雪峰. "人民公社的三大功能" [人民公社的三大功能]. http://www.snzg.cn/article/2007/1114/article_7916.html, 访问时间: 2011 年 12 月 29 日。
18. 周, 《农民如何改变中国》。
19. 福建省地方志编纂委员会, 《福建省志·中国共产党志》 [福建共产党记录] (北京: 中国社会科学出版社, 1999 年), 189–192 页; 湖南省地方志编纂委员会, 《湖南省志·农林水利志》, 53–57 页。
20. 哈特福德报道, "社会主义农业已经死亡", 39.
21. Anita Chan, Richard Madsen 和 Jonathan Unger, 《陈村: 毛泽东和邓小平时代的乡村生活》(伯克利: 加利福尼亚大学出版社, 1992 年), 271.
22. Thomas Bernstein, "农民的不满和政权的回应", 载 Merle Goldman 和 Roderick Macfarquhar 编辑, 《中国后毛泽东改革的悖论》(马萨诸塞州剑桥: 哈佛大学出版社, 1999 年), 197–219.
23. Lin, "中国农村改革和农业增长"; Kelliher, 《中国的农民力量》。
24. 这句话可能源于黑龙江省; 参见王振奇, "胡耀邦严厉批评 '顶蒙纲'", [胡耀邦严厉批评 "集团"], 史记 12 (2011): 45–47. 正如 David Kotz 和 Sigrid

- Schmalzer suggested, this kind of phrase was also used in China during the eras of Mao and the Soviet Union.
25. Hartford, “Socialist Agriculture Is Dead.”
 26. Zweig, “Opposition to Change in Rural China.”
 27. Han, *The Unknown Cultural Revolution*, 156.
 28. Shi Bai, “Wo cong fuchuji yibu kuajin shengwei changwei” [Huge Promotion to provincial standing committee], *Yanhuang Chunqiu* no. 7 (2007): 6–11.
 29. Zweig, “Opposition to Change in Rural China.”
 30. Ibid: Bramall, “Origins of the Agricultural ‘Miracle.’”
 31. Roderick MacFarquhar, “The Succession to Mao and the End of Maoism, 1969–82,” in R. MacFarquhar, ed., *The Politics of China: The Eras of Mao and Deng* (Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press, 1997), 248–339.
 32. Huang, *The Spiral Road*, 162–173.
 33. Han, *The Unknown Cultural Revolution*, 158–159.
 34. Du Runsheng recounts this story. An old leftist cadre came to Wan Li (who was then governor of Anhui Province) in a meeting, saying that decollectivization is not egalitarian and not achieving socialism. Wan fought back with the question, “Socialism or people, which do you want?” The poor man immediately replied: “Socialism!” Wan said, “I want people.” See *Du Runsheng zishu* [Du Runsheng’s recollections] (Beijing: Renmin Chubanshe, 2005), 126.
 35. Zhou, *How the Farmers Changed China*, 67.
 36. MacFarquhar, “The Succession to Mao,” and confirmed by Zhao Ziyang himself; see Zhao Ziyang, *Gaige licheng* [The secret journal of Zhao Ziyang] (Hong Kong: Xinshiji Chubanshe, 2009), 138. Deng’s talk on rural policy was given in May 1980; it was later published in *Xiaoping wenxuan*, vol. 1 (Beijing: Renmin Chubanshe, 1962/1994), 316.
 37. Huang, *The Spiral Road*, 162–173.
 38. Jilin Difangzhi Committee, *Jilinshengzhi: Nongyezhi* [Jilin agricultural records] (Jinlin: Renmin Chubanshe, 1993), 478–483.
 39. Wang Yanhai, “Kuachu diyibu hao Jianxin” [Hard to take the first step] *Jianghuai Wenshi* no. 4 (2007): 117–129.
 40. Maurice Meisner, *Mao’s China and After: A History of the People’s Republic* (New York: Free Press, 1999), 463.
 41. The novel was written by Caiqin Zhou. It got the national award for excellent short novels in 1981, which was the most important literature award in the early 1980s.
 42. Deng Xiaoping, “Emancipate the Mind, Seek Truth from Facts and Unite as One in Looking to the Future,” in Deng, *Selected Works of Deng Xiaoping*. Originally December 1978.
 43. Ibid.
 44. See the *People’s Daily* editorial, “Jiakuai nongye fazhan de qlangda dongli” [The Force of Accelerating Agricultural Development], October 7, 1979, <http://cpc.people.com.cn>.

- 正如施马尔泽所说，这种短语在中国毛泽东时代和苏联时代也被使用过。
25. Hartford, “社会主义农业已死”。
 26. 茨威格, “中国农村对变革的反对”。
 27. Han, e 未知的文化大革命, 156。
 28. 石白, “我从副处级一步跨进省委常委” [大幅晋升为省委常委], 炎黄春秋第 7 期 (2007): 6-11。
 29. Zweig, “Opposition to Change in Rural China.”
 30. 同上: Bramall, “农业 ‘奇迹’ 的起源”。
 31. Roderick MacFarquhar, “毛的继任者和毛主义的终结, 1969-82”, 载 R. MacFarquhar 编, 中国的政治: 毛与邓的时代 (英国剑桥: 剑桥大学出版社, 1997), 248-339。
 32. Huang, 螺旋之路, 162-173。
 33. Han, e 未知的文化大革命, 158-159。
 34. 杜润生讲述了这个故事。一位老左派干部在一次会议上向万里 (时任安徽省省长) 说, 解散集体化是不平等的, 不能实现社会主义。万里反驳说: “你要社会主义还是要人民?” 这位可怜的人立刻回答: “社会主义!” 万里说: “我要人民。” 参见杜润生自述 [杜润生的回忆] (北京: 人民出版社, 2005 年), 126 页。
 35. Z侯《农民如何改变中国》, 67 页。
 36. 麦克法夸尔, “e 继承 to 毛” and 确认 by Zhao 紫阳本人; 参见赵紫阳, 《改革历程》、《赵紫阳的秘密日记》 (香港: 新世纪出版社, 2009 年), 138 页。邓小平关于农村政策的讲话发表于 1980 年 5 月; 后来发表在《邓小平文选》第 1 卷 (北京: 人民出版社, 1962/1994), 316 页。
 37. Huang, 《螺旋之路》, 162-173 页。
 38. 吉林地方志编纂委员会, 《吉林省志: 农业志》 (吉林: 人民出版社, 1993 年), 478-483 页。
 39. 王延海, “跨出第一步好艰辛” 《江淮文史》第 4 期 (2007 年): 117-129 页。
 40. 莫里斯·迈斯纳, 《毛泽东的中国及其后: 中华人民共和国史》 (纽约: 自由出版社, 1999 年), 463 页。
 41. 这部小说由蔡琴周撰写。它获得了 1981 年全国优秀短篇小说奖, 这是 1980 年代初最重要的文学奖。
 42. 邓小平, 《解放思想, 实事求是, 团结一致向前看》, 载于邓, 《邓小平文选》。最初发表于 1978 年 12 月。
 43. 同上。
 44. 参见《人民日报》社论《加快农业发展的强大动力》 [加速农业发展的力量], 1979 年 10 月 7 日, <http://cpc.people.com.cn>。

45. “Guanyu jianguo yilang dang de ruogan lishi wenti de jueyi” [Resolutions on some historical issues of CCP], from the CCP 11th Central Committee 6th Plenary, 1981, <http://cpc.people.com.cn>.
46. Suinian Liu and Wu Qungan, *Wenhua dageming shiqi de guominjingji* [The economy during the Cultural Revolution] (Harbin: Heilongjiang Renmin Chubanshe, 1986), 109; Du Runsheng, ed., *Dangdai zhongguo de nongye hezuozhi* [Collective agriculture in modern China] (Beijing: Dangdai Zhongguo Chubanshe, 2002), 722.
47. Hu Yaobang’s report to the CCP 12th National Congress may be viewed online at <http://cpc.people.com.cn/GB/64162/64168/64565/65448/4526430.html>.
48. Du Runsheng, “Nongcun gongzuo de lishi zhuanbian” [Historical transformation of rural management], *People’s Daily*, September 16, 1982.
49. Yu Jiafu, “Zhao Ziyang huijian mei jingjixuejia shuerci shi shuo, zhongguo nongye jixu fazhan xuyao houxiu zhengce” [Zhao Ziyang claims Chinese agriculture need more policy support in his meeting with T. Shultz], *People’s Daily*, May 17, 1988.
50. Du Runsheng, “Yikao kexue jishu zengqiang nongye jingji diwei” [Rely on technology, improve agricultural economy], *People’s Daily*, April 11, 1986.
51. From the *People’s Daily* (overseas edition), June 12, 1986; cited in note 1 of D. Y. Hsu and P.Y. Ching, “The Worker-Peasant Alliance as a Strategy for Rural Development in China,” *Monthly Review*, 42, no. 10 (March 1991): 27–43.
52. Hsu and Ching, “The Worker-Peasant Alliance.”
53. See “Jiangzemin zai guoqing sishi zhounian dahui shang de jianghua” [Jiang Zemin’s Speech for the 40th Anniversary of the People’s Republic of China], *People’s Daily*, September 30, 1989.
54. Wu Rong, “Wei zhongyang nongyanshi dagong” [Working for the Central Agriculture Research Bureau], *Zhongshan Fengyu*, no. 3 (2008): 20–22.
55. Communiqué of the Third Plenary of the 15th Central Committee of the CCP, October 14, 1998, <http://cpc.people.com.cn>.
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57. See <http://cpc.people.com.cn/GB/64162/64168/64569/65411/4429165.html> and <http://cpc.people.com.cn/GB/64093/64094/8194418.html> for the resolutions at the 16th and 17th Central Committee reports, respectively.
58. Meisner, *Mao’s China and After*, 430–432.
59. Ibid.
60. “Resolutions on Some Historical Issues of CCP” from CCP 11th Central Committee 6th Plenary, 1981.
61. Deng Xiaoping, “Emancipate the Mind, Seek Truth from Facts and Unite as One in Looking to the Future,” December 1978, republished in Deng, *Selected Works*, 1984.
62. Meisner, *Mao’s China and After*, 470.

45. “关于建国以来党的若干历史问题的决议” [中共中央十一届六中全会关于中共若干历史问题的决议], 1981 年, <http://cpc.people.com.cn>.
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47. 胡耀邦在中国共产党第十二次全国代表大会上的报告可在 <http://cpc.people.com.cn/GB/64162/64168/64565/65448/4526430.html> 上在线查看。
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50. 杜润生, “依靠科学技术增强农业经济地位” [依靠技术, 改善农业经济], 人民日报, 1986 年 4 月 11 日。
51. 摘自《人民日报》(海外版), 1986 年 6 月 12 日; 引用于 D. Y. Hsu 和 P.Y. Ching, “中国农村发展战略中的工农联盟”的注释 1, 《每月评论》, 42, no. 10 (1991 年 3 月): 27–43。
52. Hsu 和 Ching, “工农联盟”。
53. 参见“江泽民在国庆四十周年大会上的讲话” [江泽民在中华人民共和国成立 40 周年纪念大会上的讲话], 《人民日报》, 1989 年 9 月 30 日。
54. 吴荣, “为中央农业研究室打工” [为中央农业研究室工作], 中山风雨, no. 3 (2008): 20–22。
55. 中共十五届三中全会公报, 1998 年 10 月 14 日, <http://cpc.people.com.cn>。
56. 例如, 杜润生, 《联产承包制和农村合作经济的新发展》 [责任制和农村合作社的新发展], 人民日报, 1983 年 3 月 7 日。
57. 参见 <http://cpc.people.com.cn/GB/64162/64168/64569/65411/4429165.html> 和 <http://cpc.people.com.cn/GB/64093/64094/8194418.html>, 了解第十六届和第十七届中央委员会报告中的决议。
58. Meisner, *Mao’s China and After*, 430–432.
59. Ibid.
60. 《关于建国以来党的若干历史问题的决议》, 中共十一届六中全会, 1981 年。
61. 邓小平, “解放思想, 实事求是, 团结一致向前看”, 1978 年 12 月, 重刊于邓小平, 《邓小平文选》, 1984 年。
62. 莫里斯·迈斯纳, 《毛泽东的中国及其发展》, 第 470 页。

63. For grains, quota price increased by 20 percent and above-quota price increased by 50 percent; see Terry Sicular, "Agricultural Planning and Pricing in the Post-Mao Period," *China Quarterly* 116 (1988): 671–705.
64. Jiang Zilong, "Qiaochangzhang shangren ji" [Qiao became the new director], in 1979 *Nian quanguo youxiu duanpian xiaoshuo pingxuan huojian zuopin ji* [1979 Selection of the awarded short novels], ed. Renmin Wenxue (Shanghai: Shanghai Wenyi Chubanshe, 1979).
65. Jiang Zilong, "Zihao yu beiqing: yige laogongren de shushuo" [Pride and sorrow: A recollection of an old worker], *Tong zhou gong jin*, no. 8 (2010): 14–17.
66. MacFarquhar, "The Succession to Mao and the End of Maoism, 1969–82."
67. The earlier urban reform, sometimes described as *Yang Yue Jin* [Import Great Leap Forward], in which some very expensive machinery was imported to build new factories.
68. Meisner, *Mao's China and After*, 470.
69. Ibid., 471.
70. Jinglian Wu, "20 Nian lai gaige lilun de fazhan" [20 Years' development of the theory of reform], Z. Zhang, F. Huang and G. Li, *20 Nian jingji gaige huigu yu zhanwang* [20 Years of economic reform: retrospect and prospect] (Beijing: Zhongguo Jihua Chubanshe, 1998).
71. Meisner, *Mao's China and After*, 471; Wu, "Wei zhongyang nongyanshi dagong."
72. Du Runsheng, "Nongcun shengchan zerenzhi yu nongcun jingji tizhi gaige" [The rural responsibility system and rural economic reform], *Hongqi* no. 19 (1981): 383.
73. Sulamith Potter and Jack Potter, *China's Peasants: The Anthropology of a Revolution* (Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press, 1990), 158–179.
74. Calculated based on State Statistical Bureau (2005, section 3, 39).
75. Hinton, *The Great Reversal*.
76. See the critique of decollectivization in "Jie chuan baochan daohu zhen mianmu" [Revealing the true nature of decollectivization], *People's Daily*, November 2, 1959.
77. Most political bulletins and pamphlets on agriculture at that time termed all the decollectivization measures as some kind of "responsibility system" under socialism. For example, see Xiang Wu, "Yang guan dao yu du mu qiao: Shi tan baochan daohu de youlai libi xingzhi he qianjing" [Big lanes and small bridges: The nature of decollectivization], *People's Daily*, November 5, 1980.
78. Wu, "Twenty Years' Development of the Theory of Reform."
79. For example, see Wu Xiang, "Yang guan dao yu du mu qiao" [Shining road and single-log bridge], *People's Daily*, November 5, 1980; Du Runsheng, "Nongcun shengchan zerenzhi yu nongcun jingji tizhi gaige" [The rural responsibility system and rural economic reform], *Hongqi* no. 19 (1981): 383.
80. The CCP's resolution on economic structural reform, made at the Third

63. 对于粮食，定额价格提高了 20%，超额价格提高了 50%；参见 Terry Sicular，“后毛泽东时代的农业计划和定价”，*China Quarterly* 116 (1988): 671–705。
64. 蒋子龙，“乔厂长上任记”[乔成为新主任]，载 1979 年全国优秀短篇小说评选获奖作品集 [1979 获奖短篇小说选]，人民文学编辑（上海：上海文艺出版社，1979）。
65. 蒋子龙，“自豪与悲情：一个老工人的述说”[自豪与悲伤：一位老工人的回忆]，同舟共进，第 8 期（2010）：14–17。
66. MacFarquhar，“The Succession to Mao and the End of Maoism, 1969–82.”
67. 早期的城市改革，有时被描述为洋跃进 [进口大跃进]，其中进口了一些非常昂贵的机械来建造新工厂。
68. 梅斯纳，《毛泽东的中国与后》，470。
69. Ibid., 471.
70. 吴敬琏，“20 年来改革理论的发展”《改革理论发展 20 年》张、黄、李，《20 年经济改革回顾与展望》（北京：中国计划出版社，1998）。
71. 梅斯纳，《毛泽东的中国与后》，471；吴，“为中央农业史大纲”。
72. 杜润生，“农村生产责任制与农村经济体制改革”《农村责任制与农村经济改革》《红旗》第 19 期（1981 年）：383。
73. Sulamith Potter 和 Jack Potter，《中国农民：一场革命的人类学》（英国剑桥：剑桥大学出版社，1990 年），158–179 页。
74. 根据国家统计局 (2005, 第 3 节, 39) 计算。
75. 辛顿，大逆转。
76. 参见对“解散集体化真面目”中取消集体化的批判 [揭露解散集体化的真实面目]，人民日报，1959 年 11 月 2 日。
77. 当时大多数关于农业的政治公告和宣传册都将所有取消集体化的措施称为社会主义下的某种“责任制”。例如，参见项武，“阳关道与独木桥：试谈包产到户的由来利弊性质和前景”[大路和小桥：解散集体化的性质]，人民日报，1980 年 11 月 5 日。
78. 吴，“改革理论的二十年发展”。
79. 例如，参见吴象，“阳关道与独木桥”[光明大道与独木桥]，人民日报，1980 年 11 月 5 日；杜润生，“农村生产责任制与农村经济体制改革”[农村责任制与农村经济改革]，红旗第 19 期（1981）：383。
80. 第三届中国共产党的决议关于经济结构改革，在第三

Plenary of the 12th Central Committee on October 20, 1984, is available at <http://cpc.people.com.cn>.

81. Bernstein, “Farmer Discontent and Regime Responses.”
82. Ibid.
83. Clemens Stubbe-Østergaard, “Introduction,” in *Remaking Peasant China: Problems of Rural Development and Institutions at the Start of the 1990s*, J. Delman, C. Stubbe-Østergaard, and F. Christiansen, eds. (Denmark: Aarhus University Press, 1990).
84. Bernstein, “Farmer Discontent and Regime Responses.”
85. Mao repeated this many times. See Pang Xianzhi and Jin Chongji, eds., *Maozedong Zhuan* [A biography of Mao Zedong: 1949–1976] (Beijing: Zhongyang Wenxian Chubanshe, 2003), chap. 30.

Chapter 5: The Political Economy of Decollectivization

1. For an excellent explanation of the commune structure, see Potter and Potter, *China's Peasants*.
2. Interviews with Person #28 (February 5, 2011), Person #19 (January 20, 2011).
3. Li had interesting discussions on the peasants' strategies under the different systems; see Huaiyin Li, “Everyday Strategies for Team Farming in Collective-era China: Evidence from Qin Village,” *China Journal* 54 (2005): 79–98.
4. Interviews with Person #32, Person #25 (February 10, 2011).
5. Songzi Xianzhi Committee, *Songzi xianzhi* [Local records of Songzi, 1949–1985] (Songzi: Songzi Xianzhi Committee, 1986), 286–287.
6. Ibid., 290–292.
7. Ibid., 293–294.
8. It is worth mentioning that, due to lack of data for 1956, the record harvest of 1957 was used as the beginning of the collective era; this might lead to an underestimate of the overall improvement.
9. Songzi Water Bureau, *Songzi shuilizhi* [History of water utilization] (Beijing: Zhongguo Huanjing Kexue Chubanshe, 2008), 49–53; Songzi Xianzhi Committee, *Songzi xianzhi*, 59.
10. Songzi Xianzhi Committee, *Songzi xianzhi*, 551.
11. Ibid., 560.
12. Ibid., 553.
13. Ibid. Middle school and high school education saw similar expansion, although the most significant improvements happened later, during the Cultural Revolution.
14. Ibid., 561.
15. Ibid.
16. See similar observations in Dongping Han, *The Unknown Cultural Revolution: Life and Change in a Chinese Village* (New York: Monthly Review Press, 2008).
17. Songzi Xianzhi Committee, *Songzi xianzhi*, 653.

关于 1984 年 10 月 20 日举行的中共十二届三中全会，请访问 <http://cpc.people.com.cn>。

81. 伯恩斯坦，“农民不满和政权反应”。
82. 同上。
83. Clemens Stubbe-Østergaard，“导论”，载于重塑中国农民：1990 年代初农村发展和体制问题，J. Delman、C. Stubbe-Østergaard 和 F. Christiansen 编辑（丹麦：奥胡斯大学出版社，1990 年）。
84. 伯恩斯坦，“农民不满和政权反应”。
85. 毛多次重复这一点。参见 Pang Xianzhi 和 Jin Chongji，编辑，《毛泽东传》[《毛泽东传：1949–1976》]（北京：中央文献出版社，2003 年），第 30 章。

第五章：非集体化的政治经济学

1. For an excellent explanation of the commune structure, see Potter and Potter, *China's Peasants*.
2. 与第 28 号人士（2011 年 2 月 5 日）、第 19 号人士（2011 年 1 月 20 日）的访谈。
3. 李就农民在不同制度下的策略进行了有趣的讨论；参见 Li Huaiyin，“中国集体时代团队耕作的日常策略：来自秦村的证据”，中国学刊 54 (2005): 79–98。
4. 与第 32 号人士、第 25 号人士（2011 年 2 月 10 日）的访谈。
5. Songzi Xianzhi Committee, *Songzi xianzhi* [Local records of Songzi, 1949–1985]（松滋：松滋 县志 委员会，1986 286–287 同上，第 290–292 页。年），页。
6. 同上，第 293–294 页。
7. 同上，第 293–294 页。
8. 值得一提的是，由于缺乏 1956 年的数据，1957 年的创纪录丰收被用作集体时代的开始；这可能会导致对整体改善的低估。
9. 松滋水利局，松滋水利志 [水资源利用史]（北京：中国环境科学出版社，2008 年），49–53；松滋县志编纂委员会，松滋县志，59。
10. 松滋县志编纂委员会，松滋县志，551。
11. Ibid., 560.
12. Ibid., 553.
13. 同上。中学和高中教育也出现了类似的扩张，尽管最显著的改善发生在后来的文化大革命期间。
14. Ibid., 561.
15. 同上。
16. 参见韩东屏的类似观察，不为人知的文化大革命：中国乡村的生活与变迁（纽约：每月评论出版社，2008 年）。
17. 松滋县志编纂委员会，松滋县志，653。

18. Ibid.
19. Ibid., 62.
20. Xizhe Peng, “Demographic Consequences of the Great Leap Forward in China’s Provinces,” *Population and Development Review* 13, no. 4 (1987): 639–670; Carl Riskin, “Seven Questions About the Chinese Famine of 1959–1961,” *China Economic Review* 9, no. 2 (1998): 111–124.
21. For this talk, “Yong shishi shuohua” [Speak with facts], see Deng, *Deng Xiaoping wenxuan*, vol. 2, 155–156.
22. Louis Putterman, “Ration Subsidies and Incentives in the Pre-Reform Chinese Commune,” *Economica* 55, no. 218 (1988): 235–247; Du, *Du Rusheng Zishu*, 133; James Kaising Kung, “Egalitarianism, Subsistence Provision, and Work Incentives in China’s Agricultural Collectives,” *World Development* 22, no. 2 (1994): 175–187.
23. Lin, “The Household Responsibility System in China’s Agricultural Reform.”
24. Carl Riskin. “Maoism and Motivation: Work Incentives in China,” in *China’s Uninterrupted Revolution*, edited by Victor Nee and James Peck, (New York: Pantheon Books), 415–461.
25. This is the impression from all the interviews.
26. Interview with Person #8, Person #17 (January 12, 2011), Person #18 (January 27, 2011), Person #23 (February 2, 2011), Person #12 (18 January 18, 2011).
27. This was confirmed by all the people interviewed.
28. Huaiyin Li, “Everyday Strategies for Team Farming in Collective-era China: Evidence from Qin Village,” *China Journal* 54 (2015): 79–98.
29. Interview with Person #17 (January 13, 2011), Person #34 (January 11, 2011).
30. Commission of the Central Committee of the CPSU(B), *History of Communist Party of Soviet Union (Bolsheviks)*. (New York: International Publishers, 1939), 316.
31. Mao Zedong, *Maozedong du shehuizhuyi zhengzhijingjixue pizhu he tanhua* [Mao on Socialist Political Economy, 1998] *zhonghua renmin gongheguo guoshi xuehui*, 248.
32. Interview with Person #24 (February 5, 2011).
33. Carl Riskin, “Maoism and Motivation: Work Incentives in China.” In *China’s Uninterrupted Revolution*, edited by Victor Nee and James Peck, (New York: Pantheon Books, 1975), 415–461.
34. Interviews with Person #19 (January 20, 2011), Person #3 (January 14, 2011), Person #14, Person #8 (January 12, 2011).
35. Interview with Person #33 (January 24, 2011).
36. Person #23 (February 2, 2011).
37. Interviews with Person #9, Person #11 (January 10, 2011), Person #17 (January 11, 2011), Person #18 (January 27, 2011), Person #25 (February 10, 2011).
38. Potter and Potter, *China’s Peasants*, 102.

18. Ibid.
19. Ibid., 62.
20. 彭希哲, “中国各省大跃进的人口后果”, 《人口与发展评论》13, 第 4 期 (1987): 639–670; 卡尔·里斯金, “关于 1959-1961 年中国饥荒的七个问题”, 《中国经济评论》9, 第 2 期 (1998): 111–124.
21. 关于这次谈话, “用事实说话” [用事实说话], 见邓, 《邓小平文选》, 第 2 卷, 155–156 页。
22. 路易斯·普特曼, “改革前中国公社的定量补贴和激励”, 《经济学》55, 第 218 期 (1988): 235–247; 杜润生, 《杜润生自述》, 133 页; 詹姆斯·凯星·孔, “中国农业集体中的平均主义、生存供给和工作激励”, 《世界发展》22, 第 2 期 (1994): 175–187.
23. 林, “中国农业改革中的家庭联产承包责任制”。
24. Carl Riskin, “毛泽东主义与动机: 中国的工作激励”, 载于中国的持续革命, 维克多·尼和詹姆斯·佩克编辑, (纽约: 万神殿出版社), 415–461 页。
25. 这是所有采访给人的印象。
26. 对第 8 号、第 17 号 (2011 年 1 月 12 日)、第 18 号 (2011 年 1 月 27 日)、第 23 号 (2011 年 2 月 2 日)、第 12 号 (2011 年 1 月 18 日) 的采访。
27. 这一点得到了所有受访者的证实。
28. 怀印·李, “中国集体化时期团队耕作的日常策略: 来自秦村的证据”, 中国学刊 54 (2015): 79–98.
29. 对第 17 号 (2011 年 1 月 13 日)、第 34 号 (2011 年 1 月 11 日) 的采访。
30. 苏共中央委员会编, 苏联共产党 (布尔什维克) 历史. (纽约: 国际出版社, 1939), 316 页。
31. 毛泽东, 毛泽东读社会主义政治经济学批注和谈话 [毛泽东论社会主义政治经济学, 1998] 中华人民共和国国史学会, 248 页。
32. 对第 24 号人物的采访 (2011 年 2 月 5 日)。
33. 卡尔·里斯金, “毛主义与动机: 中国的工作激励”。载于中国不间断的革命, 由维克多·尼和詹姆斯·派克编辑, (纽约: 万神殿出版社, 1975 年), 415–461 页。
34. 对第 19 号人物 (2011 年 1 月 20 日)、第 3 号人物 (2011 年 1 月 14 日)、第 14 号人物、第 8 号人物 (2011 年 1 月 12 日) 的采访。
35. 对第 33 号人物的采访 (2011 年 1 月 24 日)。
36. 第 23 号人物 (2011 年 2 月 2 日)。
37. 对第 9 号人物、第 11 号人物 (2011 年 1 月 10 日)、第 17 号人物 (2011 年 1 月 11 日)、第 18 号人物 (2011 年 1 月 27 日)、第 25 号人物 (2011 年 2 月 10 日) 的采访。
38. 波特和波特, 《中国农民》, 102 页。

39. Huaiyin Li, *Village China Under Socialism and Reform: A Micro History, 1948–2008* (Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press, 2009), 135.
40. Interview with Person #17 (January 13, 2011)
41. Zhengwen Yang, “Di si ci Diaocha” [The fourth investigation], *Liao Wang Zhou Kan* no. 08 (1984): 26–27.
42. William Hinton, *Fanshen: A Documentary of Revolution in a Chinese Village* (London: Vintage Books, 1966), 222–231.
43. William Hinton, *Shenfan: The Continuing Revolution in a Chinese Village* (New York: Random House, 1983), 665–674.
44. Interview with Person #27 (February 22, 2011).
45. Interview with Person #6 (December 28, 2010).
46. Interviews with Person #33 (January 24, 2011), Person #24 (February 3, 2011).
47. Interview with Person #27 (February 22, 2011).
48. Han, *The Unknown Cultural Revolution*.
49. This answer was given by all the people interviewed.
50. U.S. Department of Agriculture, “Agricultural Statistics of the People’s Republic of China, 1949–90,” Robinson Rojas Archive, 1992, Table 216–8, <http://www.rrojasdatabank.info/90010.htm>; accessed February 20, 2014.
51. Songzi Xianzhi Committee, *Songzi xianzhi*, 60, 288.
52. Ibid., 60
53. Ashwani Saith, “From Collectives to Markets: Restructured Agriculture-Industry Linkages in Rural China; Some Micro-level Evidence,” *Journal of Peasant Studies* 22, no. 2 (1995): 201–260.
54. Ashwani Saith, “China and India: The Institutional Roots of Differential Performance,” *Development and Change* 39, no. 5 (2008): 723–757.
55. Interview with Person #4 (January 28, 2011).
56. Martin King Whyte, “Inequality and Stratification in China,” *China Quarterly* 64 (1975): 684–711.
57. Calculation based on data from Songzi Xianzhi Committee, *Songzi xianzhi*, 538.
58. Paul A. Baran, *The Political Economy of Growth* (New York: Monthly Review Press, 1962), xxxv.
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 68. Interview with Person #14 (January 12, 2011).
 69. Interview with Person #22 (January 17, 2011).
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 71. Even relatively recently, a local author—a longtime rural cadre himself—published a novel along these lines; see Tian Yonghua, *Chun feng man juan* [Spring winds come] (Wuhan: Changjiang Wenyi Chubanshe, 2008). The book had a somewhat unnuanced storyline: the procollective leader (who had the usual negative features of a villain) was in power; production was in a mess and the leader took advantage of a young girl when her lover went out. With the support of the masses, the girl's lover, who was anti-collective, defeated the evil leader and dismantled the collective.
 72. Interview with Person #14 (January 12, 2011).
 73. Interview with Person #3 (January 13, 2011).
 74. Interview with Person #17 (January 12, 2011).
 75. Interviews with Person #7, Person #15, Person #31 (January 13, 2011).
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 77. Saith, "From Collectives to Markets."
 78. E. Friedman, P. G. Pickowicz, and M. Selden, *Revolution, Resistance, and Reform in Village China* (New Haven, CT: Yale University Press, 2007), 276–279.
 79. For some background on the Wukan incident, see "Inside Wukan: The Chinese Village That Fought Back," by M. Moore, *The Telegraph*, December 13, 2011, <http://www.telegraph.co.uk/news/worldnews/asia/china/8954315/Inside-Wukan-the-Chinese-village-that-fought-back.html>.

- Person #25 (January 15, 2011).
67. Interview with Person #13 (January 18, 2011).
 68. 对第 14 号人物的采访（2011 年 1 月 12 日）。
 69. 对第 22 号人物的采访（2011 年 1 月 17 日）。
 70. 对第 17 号人物（2011 年 1 月 11 日）、第 9 号人物（2011 年 1 月 10 日）、第 20 号人物（2011 年 1 月 22 日）、第 33 号人物（2011 年 1 月 24 日）、第 18 号人物（2011 年 1 月 27 日）的采访。
 71. 即使在最近，一位当地作家——他本人也是一位长期的农村干部——也出版了一部类似的小说；参见田永华，《春风满卷》春风来（武汉：长江文艺出版社，2008）。这本书的情节有些缺乏细微之处：拥护集体化的领导人（具有反派的通常负面特征）掌权；生产一片混乱，领导人趁年轻姑娘的爱人外出时占了她的便宜。在群众的支持下，反对集体化的姑娘的爱人打败了邪恶的领导人，解散了集体。
 72. 对第 14 号人士的采访（2011 年 1 月 12 日）。
 73. 对第 3 号人士的采访（2011 年 1 月 13 日）。
 74. 对第 17 号人士的采访（2011 年 1 月 12 日）。
 75. Interviews with Person #7, Person #15, Person #31 (January 13, 2011).
 76. 对第 7 号、第 15 号、第 31 号人士的采访（2011 年 1 月 13 日）。
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 78. E. Friedman、P. G. Pickowicz 和 M. Selden, 《革命、抵抗与改革：中国乡村》（纽黑文，康涅狄格州：耶鲁大学出版社，2007 年），276-279 页。
 79. 关于乌坎事件的一些背景资料，请参见 M. Moore 撰写的《乌坎内幕：中国村庄的反击》，电讯报，2011 年 12 月 13 日，<http://www.telegraph.co.uk/news/worldnews/asia/china/8954315/Inside-Wukan-the-Chinese-village-that-fought-back.html>。

Index

- agrarian question, Du on, 33–34
agrarian reform, *See* land reform
agribusiness, 24
agricultural machinery, 42, 54
agriculture: during Cultural
 Revolution, 66; green revolution in, 24, 42; impact of HRS on productivity of, 52–55; productivity of, 39; in Songzi collectives, 83–84; technology for, 30
Allende, Salvador, 20
Alliance for Progress, 20
Anhui Province (China), 64, 73
Arbenz, Jacobo, 20

Babao Commune, 101
Badiou, Alain, 111–12
Baran, Paul, 103
Beijing (China), 59, 61
Bernstein, Thomas, 61–62

Bo Yibo, 104
Bramall, Chris, 48–49, 59
Brass, Tom, 35, 36
Breaking with Old Ideas (Juelie; film), 31–32
brigades, 81, 82

cadres: during decollectivization, 106; in political stratification, 93–97; state under control of, 31
capitalism: in agrarian question, 25, 28, 30, 34–35; in Chinese countryside, 110–11; in post-Mao urban reforms, 70–72
capitalist class: in current China, 37; land reform and, 20–22, 24
Carolus, Carol, 48, 49, 51
Chan, Anita, 61
chemical fertilizers, 41–42, 54–55
Chen Village (China), 30
Chile, 20

索引

- 土地问题, 杜论, 33-34 土地改革, 参见 土地改革 农业综合企业, 24 农业机械, 42, 54 农业: 文化大革命期间, 66; 绿色革命, 24, 42; 家庭联产承包责任制对生产力的影响, 52-55; 生产力, 39; 松滋集体, 83-84; 农业技术, 30
阿连德, 萨尔瓦多, 20 争取进步联盟, 20 安徽省(中国), 64, 73 阿本斯, 哈科沃, 20

八宝公社, 101 巴迪欧, 阿兰, 111-12 巴兰, 保罗, 103 北京(中国), 59, 61 伯恩斯坦, 托马斯, 61-62

薄一波, 104 布拉莫尔, 克里斯, 48-49, 59 布拉斯, 汤姆, 35, 36 与旧思想决裂 (Juelie;lm), 31-32 生产队, 81, 82

干部: 在解散集体化期间, 106; 在政治分层中, 93-97; 国家受控制, 31 资本主义: 在土地问题中, 25, 28, 30, 34-35; 在中国农村, 110-11; 在后毛泽东时代的城市改革中, 70-72 资本家阶级: 在当今中国, 37; 土地改革和, 20-22, 24 卡罗拉斯, 卡罗尔, 48, 49, 51 陈安妮塔, 61 化肥, 41-42, 54-55 陈村(中国), 30 智利, 20

- China: agrarian question in, 25-29; agrarian reform in, 20; great famine in, 90; revival of Marxism in, 110; state machine in, 30-31; two periods in history of, 11
- Chinese Communist Party (CCP): after death of Mao, 32; debates within, 13-14; on decollectivization, 16, 59, 66-68, 73-74, 104-5; decollectivization as decision of, 60-62; on end of class struggle, 69; factions within, 29-30; under Mao, 28; peasants and, 26, 27; reforms reversed by, 12; on rural development, 35; urban reform by, 71-72
- Chinese Revolution (1949), 38
- Ching, P.Y., 67
- class struggle, 69, 77
- collectivization and collectives, 24-28; agriculture in, 83-84; contradictions within, 89-90; dismantling of, 39; education in, 86-88; health in, 88-89; infrastructure of, 84-86; institutions and achievements of, 81-82; opponents of, 79-80; political stratification within, 95-99; pro-accumulation policies of, 99-104; stratification and efficiency in, 90-95; transition period leading to decollectivization, 40-46
- communes, 81, 82
- Communist Party (China), *See* Chinese Communist Party
- Communist Party (Soviet Union), 93
- cotton, 83, 84
- Cuba: agrarian reform in, 20; private agricultural markets in, 22
- Cultural Revolution: agriculture during, 66; condemnations of, 69; education during, 87; political struggles during, 98-99; state machine during, 31
- da bao gan*, 74
- debt crisis, 24
- debts, 100-102
- decollectivization, 7, 8; CCP favoring, 15-16; in China, 26, 28-29; conditions for, 68-75; after death of Mao, 32-34; migrations caused by, 36; myths of, 58-65; in neoliberal doctrine, 109; political consequences of, 75-77; political economy of, 57-58; production increase attributed to, 15; in Songzi County, 104-7; transition period leading to, 40-46; *See also* household responsibility system
- democracy: in control of state, 37-38; in rural collectives, 95-96
- Deng Xiaoping: agricultural policies of, 12; on decollectivization, 29, 57, 63, 68; on egalitarianism, 90; market reforms advocated by, 65-66; on modernization, 70; on peasants, 76; takes power, 69

- 中国：土地问题，25-29；土地改革，20；大饥荒，90；马克思主义复兴，110；国家机器，30-31；历史上的两个时期，11
- 中国共产党（CCP）：毛泽东逝世后，32；内部辩论，13-14；关于解散集体化，16, 59, 66-68, 73-74, 104-5；解散集体化作为决策，60-62；关于阶级斗争的结束，69；内部派系，29-30；毛泽东领导下，28；农民和，26, 27；改革被逆转，12；关于农村发展，35；城市改革，71-72
- 中国革命（1949），38
- 庆，P.Y.，67
- 阶级斗争，69, 77
- 集体化和集体，24-28；集体农业，83-84；内部矛盾，89-90；解体，39；集体教育，86-88；集体医疗，88-89；集体基础设施，84-86；集体制度和成就，81-82；集体反对者，79-80；集体内部的政治分层，95-99；亲积累政策，99-104；集体内的分层和效率，90-95；导致解散集体化的过渡时期，40-46
- 人民公社，81, 82
- 共产党（苏联），93
- 棉花，83, 84
- 古巴：土地改革，20；私人农业市场，22
- 文化大革命：文化大革命期间的农业，66；对文化大革命的谴责，69；文化大革命期间的教育，87；文化大革命期间的政治斗争，98-99；文化大革命期间的国家机器，31
- 大包干，74
- 年债务危机，24
- 笔债务，100-102
- 解除集体化，7, 8；中共支持，15-16；在中国，26、28-29；条件，68-75；毛去世后，32-34；由此引发的移民，36；神话，58-65；在新自由主义教义中，109；政治后果，75-77；政治经济学，57-58；归因于此的产量增加，15；在松滋县，104-7；通往此的过渡时期，40-46；参见家庭联产承包责任制
- 民主：控制国家，37-38；在农村集体中，95-96
- 邓小平：农业政策，12；关于解除集体化，29、57、63、68；关于平均主义，90；倡导市场改革，65-66；关于现代化，70；关于农民，76；掌权，69

- Deng Zihui, 27, 28
 Dongping Han, 99
 Du Runsheng: on agricultural technology, 67; as head of National Agricultural Committee, 33-34; on left opposition, 66; on reform of rural collectives, 104; on shifts in provincial leadership, 60
- education, 86-88
 egalitarianism, 90, 103
 Egypt, 20, 25
 elites, in China, 31
- famine (1959-1961), 14, 90
 fertilizers, 41-42, 54-55
 floods and droughts, 84
 food: demand within China for, 37; during great famine, 90; patterns in consumption of, 99
 Friedman, E., 107
 Friedman, Milton, 24
 Fujian Province (China), 61
- grain production, 14-15, 24, 29, 99
 great famine (1959-1961), 14, 90
 green revolution, 24, 42
 Guatemala, 20
- Han, Dongping, 48, 62, 63
 health, in Songzi County, 88-89
 Hebei Province (China), 60, 62
The Herdsman (Mu Ma Ren; film), 32
 He Shiguang, 105
 He Xuefeng, 61
- Hinton, William, 8, 72, 97
 household contract and performance-based compensation and responsibility system, 41
 household production system, 39-40
 household responsibility system (HRS), 41; assessments of, 46-55; changed to responsibility system, 67-68; transition period leading to, 40-46; *See also* decollectivization
 Hsu, D.Y., 67
 Hua Guofeng, 69
 Huaiyin Li, 95-96
 Huang, Shumin, 61, 63, 64
 Hunan Province (China), 60
 Hu Yaobang, 59, 60, 66
 hybrid crops, 54; rice, 42, 83
- income inequality, 103-4
 indebtedness in rural collectives, 100-102
 India, 21
 infrastructure, in Songzi County, 84-86, 100
 intellectuals, 69
- Jiangxi Province (China), 61
 Jiang Zemin, 67
 Jiang Zilong, 70-71
 Jilin Province (China), 64
 Jimo County (China), 62
- land reform (agrarian reform), 11-12, 19-24
 Lao Tian, 110

- 邓子恢, 27, 28 董平汉, 99
 杜润生: 关于农业技术, 67; 担任国家农业委员会主任, 33-34; 论 1e 反对派, 66; 关于农村集体改革, 104; 论省领导层的转变, 60
- 教育, 86-88 平均主义, 90, 103 埃及, 20, 25 精英, 在中国, 31
- 饥荒 (1959-1961), 14, 90
 化肥, 41-42, 54-55 水灾和旱灾, 84 食物: 中国国内对食物的需求, 37; 大饥荒期间, 90; 消费模式, 99 弗里德曼, E., 107 弗里德曼, 米尔顿, 24 福建省 (中国), 61
- 粮食产量, 14-15, 24, 29, 99 大饥荒 (1959-1961), 14, 90 绿色革命, 24, 42 危地马拉, 20
- 韩东平, 48, 62, 63 健康, 在松滋县, 88-89 河北省 (中国), 60, 62e 牧马人 (*Mu Ma Ren; lm*), 32 何世光, 105 何雪峰, 61
- 辛顿, 威廉, 8, 72, 97 家庭联产承包责任制和绩效工资制及责任制, 41 家庭生产体系, 39-40 家庭联产承包责任制 (HRS), 41; 评估, 46-55; 改为责任制, 67-68; 过渡期, 40-46; 参见 非集体化 徐德源, 67 华国锋, 69 李怀印, 95-96 黄淑民, 61, 63, 64 湖南省 (中国), 60 胡耀邦, 59, 60, 66 杂交作物, 54; 水稻, 42, 83
- 收入不平等, 103-4 农村集体负债, 100-102 印度, 21 松滋县基础设施, 84-86, 100 知识分子, 69
- 江西省 (中国), 61 江泽民, 67 蒋子龙, 70-71 吉林省 (中国), 64 即墨县 (中国), 62
- 土地改革 (农业改革), 11-12, 19-24 老田, 110

- Latin America: land reform in, 20–21, 24; peasant movements in, 35–36
- Lenin, V. I., 30
- lianchan*, 74
- lianchanzerenzhi* (performance-based compensation and responsibility system), 41
- Lin, Justin, 15, 46, 53; replications of work of, 49–52
- Liu Shaoqi, 26–29
- Longbow Village (China), 97
- MacFarquhar, Roderick, 63, 71
- Madsen, Richard, 61
- Mao Zedong, 8, 11, 12; on cadres and workers, 93; after Chinese Revolution, 38; on class struggle, 77; collectivization under, 27–29; condemnations of, 69; Cultural Revolution under, 31; death of, 32, 65; in debates within CCP, 14; on inequality, 30; on peasants, 26
- Marxism, 110
- McMillan, John, 47–48
- Meisner, Maurice, 69
- Mexico, 22
- migration, caused by decollectivization, 36
- modernization, 20, 69–70
- multiple cropping index (MCI), 44, 53
- neoliberal capitalist program, 14; in China, 32–36; decollectivization in, 109; resistance to, 111
- neoliberalism, 19
- peasants: in agrarian question, 25; as allies of land reform, 20–22; during Chinese collectivization, 26–28; collectives dissolved by, 58; during Cultural Revolution, 99; debts of, 100–102; during decollectivization, 105–7; during land reform, 24; in Latin America, 35–36; power lost by, 75–76, 111; in Songzi, collectives for, 81; work avoidance by, 90–91
- Peng, Zhaochang, 8
- People's Food Sovereignty (Chinese website), 110
- performance-based compensation and responsibility system (*lianchanzerenzhi*), 41
- Peru, 20–21
- Petras, James, 35–36
- political stratification, 95–99
- population, 72, 99–100
- populist program, 14; in agrarian question, 25, 28, 30, 34, 35; after Mao's death, 33
- Potter, Jack, 72, 95
- Potter, Sulamith, 72, 95
- poverty, 99
- privatization, 74, 109
- pro-accumulation policies, 99–104
- production teams, 81–82
- productivity, 93–95
- public health, 88–89
- Putterman, Louis, 49

- 拉丁美洲：土地改革，20–21，24；农民运动，35–36 列宁，V. I.，30 联产，74 联产责任制（基于绩效的补偿和责任制），41 林毅夫，15，46，53；对其工作的复制，49–52 刘少奇，26–29 长弓村（中国），97
- 麦克法夸尔，罗德里克，63，71 马德森，理查德，61 毛泽东，8，11，12；论干部和工人，93；中国革命后，38；论阶级斗争，77；在其领导下的集体化，27–29；对其的谴责，69；在其领导下的文化大革命，31；逝世，32，65；在中共内部的辩论，14；论不平等，30；论农民，26 马克思主义，110 麦克米伦，约翰，47–48 莫里斯·迈斯纳，69 墨西哥，22 迁移，由解体导致，36 现代化，20，69–70 多熟种植指数（MCI），44，53
- 新自由主义资本主义纲领，14；在中国，32–36；其中的解体，109；对它的抵抗，111
- neoliberalism, 19
- 农民：在农业问题中，25；作为土地改革的盟友，20–22；在中国集体化期间，26–28；集体被其解散，58；在文化大革命期间，99；债务，100–102；在解体期间，105–7；在土地改革期间，24；在拉丁美洲，35–36；权力丧失，75–76，111；在松滋，农民的集体，81；逃避工作，90–91 彭兆昌，8 人民食物主权（中国网站），110 基于绩效的补偿和责任制（联产责任制），41 秘鲁，20–21 佩特拉斯，詹姆斯，35–36 政治分层，95–99 人口，72，99–100 民粹主义纲领，14；在农业问题中，25，28，30，34，35；毛泽东逝世后，33 波特，杰克，72，95 波特，苏拉米斯，72，95 贫困，99 私有化，74，109 亲积累政策，99–104 生产队，81–82 生产力，93–95 公共卫生，88–89 普特曼，路易斯，49

- rapeseed (canola oil), 83–84
 responsibility system (*zerenzhi*), 41, 67–68, 73–74; *See also* household responsibility system
 rice: hybrid, 42; price of, 102; in Songzi County, 83
 Riskin, Carl, 48, 94
 rural collectives, *See* collectivization and collectives
 Russia, 22
 Saint-Simon, Henri de, 26
sanziyibao, 29
 schools, 87
 sexual relationships, 96–97
 Shaanxi Province (China), 62
 Shanghai (China), 59
Shan yue bu zhi xin li shi (novel), 64–65
 She Shui Nong Fu, 110
 socialism, 38; in agrarian question, 25, 28–30, 35; in organization of work, 94
 socialist countries, rising elites in, 22
 Songzi County (China), 80; agriculture in, 83–84; decollectivization in, 104–7; education in, 86–88; infrastructure in, 84–86; organization of collectives in, 81–83; political stratification in, 95–99; pro-accumulation policies in, 99–104; stratification and efficiency in, 90–95
 South Korea, 19, 22
 Soviet Union, 19, 21; collapse of, 22; collectivization in, 24, 28; privatization of agriculture in, 25
 state: Chinese, 30–31; democratic control of, 37–38
 stratification, 16–17; decollectivization and, 106–7; political, 95–99; work avoidance and, 90–95
 Taiwan, 19, 21, 22
 Tanzania, 22
 technology: agricultural production and, 30; during transition period, 41–44, 54–55
 Thatcher, Margaret, 22
 Tian Jiyun, 67
tong gou tong xiao (unified procurement and marketing policy), 44–45
 total-factor productivity (TFP), 46–47
 transition period, 40–46
 Unger, Jonathan, 61
 unified procurement and marketing policy (*tong gou tong xiao*), 44–45
 urban China, 70–72
 Veltmeyer, Henry, 35–36
 Wang Yanhai, 64
 water management, in Songzi County, 84–86
 weather, 42–44, 52, 53
 Weishui Reservoir, 86
 Wen Tiejun, 34, 36

- 油菜籽 (低芥酸菜籽油), 22; 集体化, 24, 28; 农业私有化, 25
 国家: 中国, 30–31; 民主控制, 37–38
 分层, 16–17; 去集体化和, 106–7; 政治, 95–99; 逃避工作和, 90–95
 参见 集体化和集体 俄罗斯, 22
 台湾, 19, 21, 22
 坦桑尼亚, 22
 技术: 农业生产和, 30; 转型时期, 41–44, 54–55
 撒切尔, 玛格丽特, 22
 田纪云, 67
 统购统销 (统一采购和营销政策), 44–45
 全要素生产率 (TFP), 46–47
 过渡时期, 40–46
 Unger, Jonathan, 61
 unified procurement and marketing policy (*tong gou tong xiao*), 44–45
 urban China, 70–72
 Veltmeyer, Henry, 35–36
 王延海, 64
 水利管理, 在松滋县, 84–86
 天气, 42–44, 52, 53
 渭水水库, 86
 温铁军, 34, 36
 圣西蒙, 亨利·德, 26
 三自一包, 29
 学校, 87
 性关系, 96–97
 陕西省 (中国), 62
 上海 (中国), 59
 山月不知心里事 (小说), 64–65
 余水农夫, 110
 社会主义, 38; 在土地问题中, 25, 28–30, 35; 在工作组织中, 94
 社会主义国家, 崛起中的精英, 22
 松滋县 (中国), 80; 农业, 83–84; 去集体化, 104–7; 教育, 86–88; 基础设施, 84–86; 集体组织, 81–83; 政治分层, 95–99; 促积累政策, 99–104; 分层和效率, 90–95
 韩国, 19, 22
 苏联, 19, 21; 崩溃,

- Whalley, John, 47–48
 Whyte, Martin King, 103
 women, 96–97
 work avoidance, 90–95
 working class, 36, 111
 work points, 82, 91, 96
 Wu Jinglian, 71
 Wukan (China), 107

 Xiliu Village (China), 96–97, 107

 Yang Chuanrong, 96–97

 Yunnan Province (China), 59

zerenzhi (responsibility system), 41
 Zhao Ziyang, 63, 67
 Zhejiang Province (China), 60
 Zhidan County (China), 62
 Zhou, Kate Xiao, 61, 63
 Zhou Xianyin, 96–97, 107
 Zhu, Lijing, 47–48
 Zhu Rongji, 34
 Zweig, David, 62

- Whalley, John, 47–48
 Whyte, Martin King, 103 女性, 96–97
 逃避工作, 90–95
 工人阶级, 36, 111
 工分, 82, 91, 96
 吴敬琏, 71
 乌坎 (中国), 107

 西柳村 (中国), 96–97, 107

 杨传荣, 96–97

 云南省 (中国), 59

zerenzhi (责任制), 41
 赵紫阳, 63、67
 浙江省 (中国), 60
 志丹县 (中国), 62
 周凯特·肖, 61、63
 周先荫, 96–97、107
 朱立静, 47–48
 朱镕基, 34
 戴维·茨威格, 62